Philosophy in Germany

after Hegel.

By

Dr. H. Høffding.

Translated from the Danish

Copenhagen.

Published by the Gyldendal Bookshop (F. Hegel).

I. Cohen's Printing Office.

1872.

"Auch wir können noch an *wirkende*, aber wir können
nicht mehr an *hexende* Ideen glauben."

H. Lotze: Geschichte der Aesthetik in Deutschland p. 415.

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CHAPTER ONE

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[1] 1. It might seem to be a task as thankless as it is difficult to give an account of post-Hegelian philosophy in Germany. For this period does not carry the interest that is called forth by great epoch-making advances and breakthroughs; it is essentially a time of epigones, following the magnificent philosophical production of the preceding half-century. And on the other hand, post-Hegelian philosophizing lies so near to us that a truly historical and objective account must be difficult, if not impossible.

These misgivings vanish, however, on the consideration that it is necessary for everyone who strives after a philosophical world-view to arrive at clarity as to which decisive problems are stirring in the thought of the age, and in which direction their treatment and solution are going. However deep and inward the enrichment that is won by constantly returning to the writings of the great masters, just so important and indispensable is it, on the other hand, to get one's bearings with regard to the thinkers of one's own time, even if they should not be counted in the class of the masters. And when it is this interest that spurs the inquiry, then the purely objective and historical point of
[2] view also falls away and gives place to a more properly philosophical and critical mode of consideration.

The point of departure is marked by the Hegelian philosophy, which by its universal character reached so deeply into the whole spiritual life of the time, and was at the same time itself the result of an idealistic direction that runs through the whole of modern philosophy. Yet Hegelianism is only our relative point of departure. It does not form, as has often been thought, a nodal point in the history of modern philosophy: that already lies in its being the most decided idealism. The nodal point must rather be sought in the philosopher in whom the idealistic and the realistic lines of development intersect and for a time become one on the basis of a principle lying deeper. This philosopher, the central thinker of modern times, is Immanuel Kant. This can be shown in brief with regard both to his course of development, his principle and his method.

After Kant had long been occupied partly with studies in natural science and partly with the study of the Leibnitz-Wolfian idealistic philosophy, it was, by his own declaration, David Hume, the representative of thoroughgoing empiricism, who woke him from his

"dogmatic slumber." And that he now saw his task as finding the point of unity of the two opposed directions is seen, among other things, from the fact that in his famous work, "Kritik der reinen Vernunft," after every main section he tries to show how his doctrine lets both Leibnitz and Locke come into their own. — What, then, is the philosophical principle by which Kant reaches this superior standpoint? This principle must be sought in the very way in which he conceives the essence of philosophical knowledge. He does not, like realism, take his standpoint in the external, in the objects, which were supposed to act on man from without and stamp knowledge into him, and just as little does he, idealistically, let the human spirit develop knowledge out of its own interior. Thought, to use Bacon's image, is neither the ant, which merely gathers and heaps up the material, *[3]* nor the spider, which spins its web out of itself, but the bee, which extracts the juice from the flowers and in its own peculiar way digests and transforms it. It is the inner reciprocal relation of thought to things in knowledge that Kant directs his eye upon; he seeks to determine the essence of the two factors and the laws of their interaction. The knowledge of these laws Kant calls transcendental knowledge. This lies at the ground of every other knowledge, whether this is of a metaphysical or an empirical nature. — From this principle follows a corresponding method. This is at once inductive and deductive. It proceeds from the fact of knowledge and the elements contained in it, and to that extent the inquiry becomes inductive and analytic; but since knowledge is not an external fact, but inherent in itself, its own principle, on which all its forms and all its content depend, the development becomes synthetic and deductive. This unity shows itself in the combination of the critical and the dialectical in Kant's investigations. Kant distinguishes critically, but he does so in order to let the oppositions come forward and come into their own, so as through this to reach once more the underlying unity. It is this that has been called the teasing element in Kant, that one is not allowed to rest content with the sharp distinctions, but is always pointed beyond them anew. The dialectic breaks forth precisely in the carrying through of the critique.

Yet Kant left tasks enough for his successors. He had indicated in principle the goal that was to be reached, but in reality he had not subdued the contending powers. In particular, by the distinction between the subjective forms of knowledge and the thing in and for itself, he had opened the way to a dualism that threatened the very great goal to which he had so energetically pointed, the inner unity of idealism and realism. One saw, moreover, soon enough that this distinction rested on a self-contradiction. For on *[4]* the presupposition that our forms of knowledge have a merely subjective significance, the assumption of a thing in and for itself is impossible: no determinations of thought

— and so not the concepts of being and cause either — can, consistently, be applied to it; it can neither *be* nor be the *cause* of the sensation of an external object. Without the concept of "Ding an sich" one could not, as Jakobi rightly remarked, get into Kant's system, and with it one could not remain there. It was thus a necessity lying in the nature of the case that the realistic element in Kant's doctrine should first be separated out. To overcome the dualism one had to hold to what is clear and certain in itself, thought itself and the ultimate source of its forms, the original unity of self-consciousness, what Kant called "the transcendental apperception of self-consciousness." Over against this rich and luminous world of forms stood "das Ding an sich" as an indeterminate, fog-like mass, whose connection with the former could not be shown. Fichte constructed the world out of subjectivity and set it as the latter's task constantly to overcome anew the existence thus arisen. The objective thus still remains with him as a negative principle, which in eternal unrest is posited in order to be sublated again. The limits of this subjective idealism Schelling oversteps. All science rests, he says, on the presupposition that the absolutely ideal is also in itself the absolutely real. The Absolute is pure identity, where no differences and oppositions any longer hold. This is absolute idealism: the ideal is all, because all is Idea. The Schellingian philosophy of nature would prove the identity of nature with the world of Ideas, and sets as its goal "the perfect presentation of the intellectual world in the laws and forms of the phenomenal world, and so, conversely, the
[5] comprehension of these laws and forms from out of the intellectual world." Schelling's knowledge of nature thus aims solely at the ideal significance of phenomena, whereas the task of explaining the real connection of things did not exist for him. He saw a new period about to begin, in which humanity was to be led from the earlier imperfect knowledge to the beholding of the Absolute, the one true reality. This prophetic beholding Hegel brought under the form of the concept, in that by his dialectical method he developed the content of reality in its unity with the essence of thought (of the Idea). Hereby even the tinge of subjectivism that still clung to Schelling's constructions vanished, and the idealistic consequences of Kant's doctrine were developed to their highest point.

While here, then, the realistic element in Kant's doctrine was gradually quite eliminated, other thinkers nonetheless took their point of departure precisely in this element. Already as a young student and Fichte's hearer in Jena, Herbart worked out a critique of Schelling's first writings, in which he disputes the legitimacy of transferring the form of thought, of knowing, the self-developing, active unity, to the content and object of knowing. For the content of knowing is absolute being, but this is incompatible with the concept of positing and producing itself; it is one with absolute rest and stillness,

whereas the I is an eternal vortex streaming forward and back; therefore the two must be held well apart from each other. In this critique Herbart's later doctrine is already contained. Knowing is to withdraw into itself, so that the content can freely present itself. The content stems from experience, and thought has only to examine whether the concepts of experience are free of contradictions. Now since this is far from being the case, the given must be so treated that through it one can penetrate to the true essence of the matter: "so viel Schein, so viel Hindeutung af Sein." Thought thus gets here only a formal significance; by its critique it is to separate out the absolute position, the true *[6]* being, that is unconsciously contained in sensuous sensation. — Schopenhauer agrees with Herbart insofar as in his critique of the Kantian philosophy he declares that Kant's error lay in the way in which he derived "das Ding an sich," not in his acknowledging it at all. Hereby he came into so decided an opposition to speculative idealism that it even degenerated into downright fanaticism, in that he thought he could only derive what he called speculative philosophy's misunderstanding of Kant from a disregard of truth for personal and egoistic ends. The thing in and for itself, however, does not remain with Schopenhauer as an indeterminate something; on the contrary, this foundation of all phenomena, of the whole of nature, is for him one with what we find in our own interior as will. But the will is different from and absolutely independent of knowledge, which is only a phenomenon of the brain, a fleeting illusion, whereas the will is the only original and real. "Das Ding an sich" has thus here become one and all, just as, conversely, in Hegel thought, the concept, was one and all. When Schopenhauer says that he has carried through what Kant had left unfinished, Hegel could from his standpoint say the same.

We see, then, that after Kant the ways part again, after they had for a short time united in one nodal point. But the idealistic direction, both on account of its own essence and of the character of the age, became the all-dominating one in the generation following Kant. The beginning of the century was idealistic and romantic; people reveled in the great ideas that had dawned upon consciousness during the struggle of modern times against the powers of the past. And speculative idealism commanded precisely the forms in which the interests thus awakened could find their expression and come to clarity about themselves. The great significance of Hegelianism for the history of culture rested precisely on its striving to lead all essential oppositions back to a comprehensive, *[7]* all-reconciling unity. Only after the dissolution of the Hegelian system do Herbart and Schopenhauer acquire a more far-reaching significance, so that, in particular around the first of these men, a firmly closed school forms itself (whose organ is the "Zeitschrift für

exakte Philosophie"). But this does not prevent their place in the history of philosophy from having to be assigned them in a series that develops out of Kant's doctrine in parallel with speculative idealism.

The philosophical phenomena with which we shall be occupied in this work stand in a particular relation to both of these series. The development within the period we shall treat (1830—1870) is conditioned from the first by its relation to Hegelian speculation; but during the latter's critique and dissolution the antipodes of speculation (Herbart and Schopenhauer) naturally make their influence felt, just as do the other elements that it had pushed back, and that precisely now develop with astonishing force (exact empirical science). And amid all this one constantly seeks back to Kant, as the one from whom the whole movement proceeded, in order to get one's bearings in him with regard to all the important main problems.

2. After this general historical consideration, by which we have determined the position of our period within the larger division of the history of philosophy to which it belongs, we must now characterize more closely our particular point of departure, the Hegelian philosophy, whose dominion over minds was at its height precisely at the death of its founder (1831).

Hegel from the very outset set his view in opposition to two directions prevailing at the beginning of the century. According to the one, man could come into relation with the infinite only through presentiment or immediate feeling. But in this way a fog is cast
[8] over the life and the manifoldness of thought and existence, and one contents oneself with "the indeterminate enjoyment of the indeterminate Deity." The other direction does indeed maintain the significance of thought, but conceives the Absolute as immediate identity, in which all oppositions have vanished, and which therefore can only be grasped in an intellectual intuition with artistic genius. But this too is unscientific. The Absolute cannot be presented or grasped immediately ("wie aus der Pistole geschossen"); as undifferentiated darkness it would contain no explanation of existence. Immediate feeling and intuition must be raised to real, speculative knowledge by a scientific method and by virtue of a scientific principle.

The very demand for a method implies that the immediate is not left in peace, but is subjected to a test, submitted to reflection. The negating force of reflection penetrates, distinguishing, into the immediate unity; the moments are set against one another; there arises strife and opposition instead of peace and repose. But precisely through this the true essence of the unity comes to light. Negation is not only the dissolving but also the uniting power. The individual moments set loose do not acquire immediate

independence; that would merely have posited an immediate multiplicity instead of an immediate unity. But the individual moments exclude and negate one another, and through this system of negations a higher form of the original unity is reached, won through the completion of reflection. The method is thus dialectical, i.e., it lets the content itself develop in all its fullness through contradiction, by the driving-forward force of negation.

In applying negation, thought adds nothing of its own. Negation is immanent, is contained in the essence itself. The true is not, as Spinoza would have it, the absolutely positive substance. Spinoza is right that every determination is a negation, but he overlooks that every negation is at the same time a determination, and that only through *[9]* contradiction is the concrete, real content reached. The substantial unity must, in order to be real, be articulated, and the articulation takes place by virtue of the immanent negation that lets the differences come forth out of the unity. Hereby substance is developed to freedom, to subjectivity.

From this it follows that in the dialectical method the movement of thought coincides with that of the content. The absolute subjectivity develops itself, comes to itself through the speculative development of concepts. In dialectical speculation, then, spirit has regained the lost repose in the infinite to which skepticism and criticism had put an end, and which the wings of the philosophy of feeling and intuition had not been strong enough to reach again. Thought now grasps with freedom and consciousness what the fathers gave themselves up to with immediate faith; this advance "the world-spirit has succeeded" in making now.

Concrete existence is as such logical existence. For it is determinateness, quality, that marks concrete existence; determinateness is the relation to, the likeness with, itself; but this identity is abstraction, hence thought. Conversely, the pure concept, which relates only to itself, is immediate identity, i.e., being. Being is the entirely abstract, immediate relation to itself, the abstract moment of the concept, which precisely by its absolutely abstract character is subject to negation and thereby opens the dialectical movement. By this movement is gained the further development of what already lay in itself (an sich) in the point of departure, the original unity of thinking and being. For Hegel, therefore, the content of logic is the true reality. "Only in its concept," it says in the introduction to the Logic, "does something have actuality; insofar as it is different from its concept, it ceases to be actual and is a non-being (ein Nichtiges); to this non-being *[10]* belong palpability and sensuous being-outside-itself." What we do not come upon, then, in the logical-dialectical deduction is only slag that does not belong to the rich ore of

reality. — Immediate being, by its absolutely abstract character, passes over into its opposite, and so we are led constantly from one moment to another. But the externality between these moments vanishes when it is seen that the determination of being by its other is properly its determination by itself, that the negation is essentially an inner one. Essence is being at once sublated and affirmed; it has its opposite in seeming, but itself posits the seeming in order through it to assert itself as essence, as the ground in existence, as the inner in the outer. Absolute actuality is the unity of these oppositions. And this actuality is the Absolute itself, which in its inner necessity, which becomes transparent to thought, opens itself in a kingdom of freedom and inwardness and thereby proves itself to be subjectivity, to be spirit. From this highest point of view it holds, then: only the spiritual is the actual. Science is the reality of spirit, the kingdom it builds itself in its own element.

Logic, according to this, ought properly to be the only science. What it could not develop could, as a "Nichtiges," not become an object of science at all. Yet Hegel's urge for knowledge is here stronger than his consistency; it could not content itself with the logical shadow-world. But what else can there be besides absolute actuality, and how can the transition to it be made from logic?

We stand here at the Achilles' heel of the Hegelian system, the transition from logic to the philosophy of nature. The difficulty shows itself in the double turn Hegel himself gives the matter. At the close of the Logic it is said that the Idea, which is absolutely
[11] sure of itself and rests in itself, freely releases itself and transposes itself into the form of externality, as "äusserliche Idee," in order then, through the ascending forms of nature and spirit, to raise itself again to the inwardness of the concept. But in the philosophy of nature the transition is described as a falling away of the Idea from itself. Nature is the sphere of pure externality and as such unfit to hold fast the concept, which is fulfilled in nature only quite abstractly. The concept is in nature, but is not nature itself, whereas in logic concept and reality were one. The metamorphoses through which the Idea fights its way step by step to freedom through this its state of estrangement therefore concern not nature but only the concept in itself, which is the true interior of natural things. The dialectical process of the concept and the real movement of nature have nothing to do with each other.

A similar relation we find in the philosophy of spirit: an opposition between the dialectical development of the concept of spirit and the real life of spirit. It is a main Hegelian proposition that what is rational is also actual, what is actual also rational. The Idea is not so powerless that it only ought to be, and is not actual. Hegel himself complains

that these propositions have been misunderstood and urges that their explanation be sought in his Logic. Now according to the fundamental thought of that work, as we have shown, the Idea itself, the fully developed concept, is the true, the only actuality, whereas the contingent, the mere phenomenon, has no claim to the name of actuality. It is clear, then, that "actuality" here means the ideal, the rational actuality; but it is then also clear that Hegel overlooks the essential problem that must present itself here, namely the question of the relation in which this ideal actuality stands to external, factual reality. The proposition of the unity of reason and actuality is therefore ambiguous, but precisely in its ambiguity characteristic of Hegel and his age. In particular it contains the *[12]* explanation of how he, who in his youth professed thoroughly radical views in religious as well as in political respects, could in his mature manhood, without denying his formal principle, appear as the champion of orthodox dogma and conservative politics, — and how, again, the so-called left side of his school, by consistently holding fast to this same principle, could arrive at entirely negative and revolutionary results both in the religious and in the social domain.

The Idea of the good is determined in the Logic as a merely subjective demand or ought, which constantly has reality outside itself and thereby always hinders its own absolute realization, for which reason it must find its fulfillment in the Idea of the true, by virtue of which the concept and reality are one, so that the Idea thus does not need subjective activity in order to attain reality. The individual subject as such then vanishes before the eternal reality of the absolute Idea. In consequence of this, the philosophy of right then teaches that ethical spirit has reality in and for itself and does not depend on individuals. The ethical is in itself the universal, which does indeed need the individual's consciousness of it and the subjective passion thereby awakened, but in such a way that the individual is only one of the vanishing moments that the Idea in its development posits and sublates again as single forms of its reality. Ethical striving, free personal life, historical development, thus acquire no true significance. The essence of the Idea in its absolute autarky is and remains the only reality. Subjective spirit is wholly absorbed in objective spirit, i.e., in the state and the communities embraced by it, which are the expression of the ethical Idea.

Yet above objective spirit there rises still a highest sphere, absolute spirit, which in itself comprehends all earlier stages. Here the highest reconciliation takes place through *[13]* art, religion and science, and we meet here, in the relation between the two last powers, a peculiar application of the proposition of the unity of the rational and the actual. The religious standpoint here stands for actuality. For speculative knowledge it is indeed

only a finite standpoint, since it moves in the immediate forms of representation and feeling, encumbered with the individual; but yet in the matter itself there is to be no opposition. What was formerly believed as mystery is now to be revealed to spirit in the universal and necessary form of thought. And under this change of form the content is preserved undistorted. For both philosophy and religion have the infinite as their content, only that in religion, which precisely in this points beyond itself, it appears under finite forms. These are the principles of the speculative reconciliation of science and church doctrine. —

With inner necessity the account of the fundamental thoughts of the Hegelian system became at the same time a critique, in that the contradiction between the goal that speculative idealism set itself and the result it really reached came to light, at the decisive points, in involuntary admissions. The contradiction concerns the very fundamental problem of the relation between reason and reality. But yet it must not be overlooked what great merits speculative idealism has earned with respect to this same problem. Kant had been led by his sharp critique to a separation of the two elements, so that thought with its forms stood on the one side, things with their real essence on the other; thought thereby became purely formal and subjective, the essence of things the remote, the formless and indeterminate. Speculative idealism, by immersing itself with enthusiasm and energy in the essence of thought, has demonstrated that this ideally
[14] includes the essence of objects within itself; seen from the ideal side, the opposition between the subjective and the objective is sublated. Thought bears within itself the whole wealth of existence as its possible content. The great error of speculative idealism was now this: to confuse possibility with actuality, logical actuality with real actuality. Therefore it thought it could reach the manifoldness of concrete existence by a purely logical path. When, therefore, at the dissolution of speculative philosophy, the problem of the relation between reason and reality presents itself anew, reason here means not merely the subjective form of thought, but the whole manifold and content-rich world of self-consciousness and the Idea, and reality not the formless "thing in and for itself," but existence revealed in its concrete and individual forms. Speculation had reduced the difference between these elements to a mere difference of form, which can be dialectically posited in order to be sublated again; real actuality became only the imperfect form of ideal actuality. In an age whose whole direction was idealistic, this magnificent attempt to carry through the ideal as the only true reality was bound to awaken enthusiasm and adherence; but when the interest of reality awakens, the result must prove to rest on an illusion.

3. The question of *the relation between reason and reality* can be taken from two different sides. Reason, in opposition to reality, means the universal, the law for the being and acting of individual beings, the purpose for, and the value of, their real development. Thus the question becomes that of *the relation between the universal and the individual*. But as the expression of the universal law and of purpose, reason stands, secondly, as the ideal over against the real as what exists in material reality. The second particular form of the general problem then becomes the question of *the relation between the spiritual and the material*.

Speculative idealism regarded, as we have seen, individuals as vanishing moments, *[15]* in the last instance insignificant, in the development of the universal Idea.

As soon as criticism awoke, it threw itself upon this point. First an end is made of all ambiguity by drawing, *pantheistically*, the last consequences of the concept of the Idea as the only reality. But soon the consciousness of the significance of the single and the individual presses forward again, and one seeks to claim for it a reality that goes further than being a merely dialectical point of passage. This endeavor in turn leads in a double direction. On the one hand one sees singularity only in finite individuality, and as this point of view is carried through, everything universal vanishes step by step and is in the end reduced to being a property or predicate of the individual. This standpoint is the *anthropological*, in its extreme the *egoistic*. On the other hand singularity is also seen as the concentration by which the universal grasps itself, and which is therefore a necessary condition for the reality of the universal. One then seeks to develop the speculative concept of the Absolute into a fuller and more concrete idea of God, in which the moment of personality comes into its own. This endeavor thus goes in a *theistic* direction.

By its volatilization of the individual, speculative idealism had violated the real as a whole. Efficient causes are set aside for the higher, often mystical "necessity of the Idea," and material stuff dissolved before the force of speculative construction as ice before the sun's rays. But the following age developed more and more in a realistic direction, and the reaction against idealism rose to such a degree that one saw in the Idea only a figment of the brain and in the material the only reality. Over against this *materialism*, however, there steps another direction, which just as much as it, but with more sobriety and scientific rigor, recognizes the necessity of the real foundation and the mechanical *[16]* forms of action, but which in all this only sees forms and means for the realization of higher, significant purposes and Ideas, a direction which we can therefore rightly call *the Idealism of Reality*.

The struggle over the first problem is waged especially in the two first decades after Hegel's death (the thirties and forties), the struggle over the second problem in the two following decades (the fifties and sixties). Yet it will be most natural not to follow the order of time, but to put together the kindred answers to both problems. We shall then get four main groups: 1) the critical consciousness; 2) modern materialism; 3) speculative theism; 4) the Idealism of Reality, of which the first two can be described as negative in opposition to the last two as positive. For the critical consciousness develops through the dissolution of speculative idealism and leads only indirectly and in the form of a demand to a real, new content; and materialism, which takes its principle outside thought and knowledge, must consistently come to stand in a skeptical and hostile relation to philosophy. The last two groups, on the other hand, make real attempts to develop a philosophical world-view.

Over against the magnificent productivity that German philosophy unfolded after Kant, with an inspired union of many-sidedness and profundity, had first broken the new paths for thinking, there may seem to be something insignificant and merely provisional, something dependent and unfinished, in the character of post-Hegelian philosophy. We meet here, as already remarked, no thinkers of the first rank, no epoch-making, world-historical discoveries in the world of thought. But one must consider the task that is set. Speculative idealism could quickly complete its magnificent systems once
[17] it had first found the fundamental thought by the path of intuition; the method was the abstractly dialectical one, and the movement took place in the pure ethereal region of thought, which was then confused with reality itself. Post-Hegelian philosophy is scarcely so agreed on anything as on its sharp critique of this abstract idealism. It wants to deal with reality as reality, but this is not grasped in one day by thought. Here one must go forward step by step. Neither the right of thought nor that of reality may be violated; the points must be found where both meet, the law of this agreement found, and what is thus won gradually gathered into a comprehensive total view. This work is seemingly less brilliant than that of speculation; but it demands no less effort and far more resignation. Speculative philosophy gave itself up confidently to the consistency of its fundamental thought, as the poet to the power of imagination; speculation is the lyric of philosophy. Where, on the other hand, it is a matter of grasping reality as reality and yet asserting the right of the truly ideal, there flight does not go so easily, and therefore not always so high either. Yet here too the eternal urge toward freedom and truth that is implanted in the human spirit has not left itself without witness, but has shown itself in clear and deep thoughts, borne by noble personalities.

CHAPTER TWO.

I. *The Controversy over Individual Immortality.* — If the Hegelian philosophy had really "reconciled the ideal with reality, our demands with what we possess, our wishes with what has been attained"[*)], then its fundamental thought of the unity of reason and *[18]* reality could not stand in pure generality — for then it would itself be one of the demands that were now to be satisfied. It had at least to be capable of giving a definite answer to the decisive questions which real life leads us to raise. The system therefore first had to pass the test of being confronted with the religious and social problems. But already with regard to the first point that was made a subject of debate, the question whether the Hegelian philosophy taught the immortality of the soul, the indeterminateness of the system with respect to the concrete and individual showed itself clearly. Hegel had with his whole intensity immersed himself in his fundamental thought in and for itself, without making the concrete problems the subject of separate investigations. Therefore this very first discussion could lead to a split within his school into tendencies, each of which believed it interpreted Hegel in the right way.

Even before Hegel's death his doctrine had been reproached with destroying the belief in immortality. And on the other side Ludwig Feuerbach, in his anonymous work "Gedanken über Tod und Unsterblichkeit" (1830), had, starting from the Hegelian system itself, pantheistically denied individual immortality. But the controversy proper broke out only when Fr. Richter published his work "Die Lehre von den letzten Dingen" (1833), in which with conscientious exactness and thoroughness he showed that the consequence of Hegel's doctrine was the abolition of the old doctrine of a beyond and another life. Two men who had already come forward with criticism of the Hegelian system, C. H. Weisse and I. H. Fichte (son of the famous I. G. Fichte), declared themselves in agreement with Richter insofar as they denied the possibility of maintaining individual immortality *[19]* on Hegel's presuppositions, whereas they held fast to the possibility of establishing it in another way. Against these interpretations of Hegel there then came forward the man who at this time had the greatest standing among the adherents of the school, Carl Friederich Göschel, to save the orthodoxy of the system on this point, with his treatise "Von den Beweisen für die Unsterblichkeit der menschlichen Seele im Lichte der

[*)] J. L. *Heiberg*: Om Philosophiens Betydning for den nuværende Tid. p. 48.

spekulativen Philosophie" (1835)[*)]. With Göschel's view we begin our account, in order then to pass on to the various dissenters.

Göschel's treatise has its model in the work with which Hegel was occupied just before his death, on the proofs of the existence of God. Hegel sought to show how the three main forms of these proofs point back to one pervading thought, which is one with the fundamental thought of speculative philosophy about the relation between the infinite and the finite, — if one only breaks through the external shell of the understanding by which they are covered in the popular presentation. Something similar Göschel now attempts with the proofs of the immortality of the soul. The so-called metaphysical proof, which corresponds to the cosmological proof of the existence of God, starts from the soul as an absolutely simple and immaterial being and concludes from this presupposition that it cannot undergo any dissolution. It concludes from external contingency to inner essential being. This proof points beyond itself. It is by virtue of the unity of consciousness that the individual is the absolutely simple being. As consciousness, man stands over against the rest of existence. Conscious mental life is the purpose at which
[20] life aims; consciousness is to develop in such a way that it takes up the whole of existence into its inwardness. As the bearer of an eternal purpose, conscious mental life must itself be eternal. Yet this teleological proof does not lead us beyond the opposition between subject and object, selfhood and otherness. Only when the subject has developed so far that it has not merely overcome corporeality and appropriated the objective content of existence, but has also at last found and made itself one with its own and the All's eternal ground and source in absolute subjectivity, only then is the individual consciousness developed into spirit, and the circle is closed, since the final grounding has been found for the contingent individuality with which the beginning was made. At this summit the soul returns to its origin with a richly developed personal and eternal content, and its immortality can therefore be derived from its own essence, so that here we get a proof we may call the ontological.

Göschel does not content himself with this speculative recasting of the vulgar proofs, but seeks to establish that Hegel's doctrine, by its whole character, must lead to maintaining the eternal reality of the individual[*)]. He then refers partly to the logical determination of the relation between the universal and the individual, partly to the relation between spirit and nature, and partly, finally, to the conception of the idea of God. — The Hegelian

[*)]Concerning the younger Fichte's, Weisse's and Göschel's writings in this matter, one may compare *Poul Møller's* interesting treatise "Om Muligheden af Beviser for Menneskets Udødelighed". Efterladte Skrifter, 5th volume.

[*)]Jahrbücher für wissenschaftliche Kritik. 1834.

logic posits an inner relation between the universal and the particular. The universal in and for itself is barren and abstract; to be the true universal it must develop itself into concretion, posit its inner differences as its moments and thus become totality, unity, singularity. Conversely, the particular is in and for itself atomistic and abstract; it is seen in its truth only when it is seen as that which includes in itself and expresses universal determinations: the true being of the particular is to be the universal. On these dialectical determinations Göschel now believes he can build a proof of the eternal *[21]* validity of personality. The individual, he says, proves itself to be the highest, the truth of the universal, because it has taken the universal up into itself; therefore the universal is no longer an alien or hostile power before which the individual must perish. — In nature it is certainly the case that the species, the universal, is maintained through the arising and passing away of individuals; but from the debt which the individual here must pay to the species by its death, man is freed, since as spirit he has gone beyond the opposition of species and individual, the universal and the particular. In the sphere of spirit the essence of the species is freely taken up and thereby overcome by personality. — Vulgar pantheism certainly had to let the individual perish, because it conceives the universal only as objective and impersonal; but speculative logic develops the idea of God as absolute subjectivity, in which the individual can only be rejuvenated, not perish. God is the highest consciousness, the eternal thought, which upholds and preserves the differences, the individual determinations, that it thinks. The human spirit is a divine thought, and God's thought cannot perish but must be eternal, as God's essence is. If individuals were not preserved, the memory of the absolute spirit would be of death and annihilation, and what then would become of its own life and immortal power? —

The younger *Fichte* ("Die Idee der Persönlichkeit und der individuellen Fortdauer") acknowledges it as Hegel's great merit to have shown how far the way of a priori dialectical deduction can lead; but this merit one would only obscure by carrying it over into a domain where it does not hold. The personal and individual cannot be known by way of dialectical construction; to reach it, experience must be reinstated in its rights over against abstract speculation. Göschel therefore errs when he finds the personality of God *[22]* contained in Hegel's doctrine. It is the Hegelian expression "overreaching subjectivity" that has given occasion to this misunderstanding, which falls away on closer examination of the way in which Hegel develops the concept of subjectivity. God is for Hegel not merely substance or dead identity, but the living process which eternally posits and sublates the oppositions, is constantly an infinite other, but through this constantly continues to be itself. It never exhausts itself in any single self-formation, but reaches out

beyond every particular form. And precisely because God, on Hegel's conception, is the absolute process in its eternal unrest, he lacks, according to I. H. Fichte, the kernel and center of absolute personality. Hegel's merit is to have shown conceptually the infinite life and movement of the Godhead; but the other main side he lets recede in return, namely the eternal rest, the still clarity of identity, the bond of the self-comprehending unity, by which the All-active becomes for itself the absolute One and Blessed. The concentration, "das unverrückbare Selbst", is lacking. Therefore God in Hegel's system must work his way up through the lower stages in order to reach the determination of absolute spirit. God becomes result, not principle.

If this is how matters stand with the divine personality, then it cannot go otherwise either with the human. If the Absolute is the eternal process whose moments have no abiding significance but are posited and sublated to infinity, then the consistent Hegelian doctrine with regard to the individual can only be that the individual is necessary as a dialectical moment, but that the single individual as such cannot be anything substantial and enduring. The problem of individual immortality cannot really arise at all on Hegel's
[23] presuppositions; it first presents itself, and can first find its answer, when one takes one's stand on experience, physiological, psychological, ethical-religious experience. How the younger Fichte thought this proof could be carried out we shall not dwell on here[*)], since it stands in close connection with the whole rest of his doctrine, which we shall later come to occupy ourselves with. It need only be emphasized that by his sharp characterization of Hegel's system he contributed much to clarifying the points of view, even if his own attempts to tread the way of "experience" still go rather far in the direction of the fantastic.

C. H. Weisse too denied that Hegel's philosophy could maintain the validity of personality. He acknowledged the great and epoch-making significance of the Hegelian logic, but ascribed to it only formal validity, since it does not reach the reality of nature and spirit themselves. Indeed, even as a formal science it is imperfect, since it abstracts from space and time, these fundamental forms of all reality. Thereby it has come about that nature came to stand as pure externality, since space and time could not be seen in their essential significance for the Idea. If this significance is acknowledged, then nature meets thought as the free, rich reality which cannot be exhausted by logical construction but must be made the object of a philosophical empiricism. As regards the philosophy of spirit, *Weisse*, whose first studies concerned chiefly classical antiquity, whereby there was awakened in him a lively and clear consciousness of the worth and significance of the

[*)] In Poul Møller (loc. cit.) one will find a more detailed account.

beautiful in personal life as well, maintains that Hegel wrongly set science as the highest stage. The idea of truth, which points to universal reason, must enter into an inward unity with the idea of beauty, which shows us the transfiguration of individual matter *[24]* by the infinite, in order then finally, through ethical-religious experience, to be merged in the Idea of the good. By this way alone is the highest expression for the idea of God as absolute personality reached. Therefore Weisse also maintains ("Die philosophische Geheimlehre über die Unsterblichkeit des menschlichen Individuums") that man can win the conviction of his immortality only by the personal, ethical-religious way. According to the Hegelian system the single individual has played out its role when the world-spirit has passed through it, and the world-spirit then hurries forward to new, richer and more perfect forms. But when the true, the beautiful and the good are taken up and worked into personal life, this gives it an eternal and infinite significance and takes it up, reborn, into the divine being. What has thus been transfigured cannot perish again. But on the other side it also follows of itself that only those individuals who are reborn in this way live eternally; to those who have not reached this stage of spirit there belongs no immortality. —

It thus turns out, as the result of Weisse's and the younger Fichte's investigations, that the Hegelian system, strictly speaking, does not reach at all the point where the concrete, individual problems arise. Both of them also point, though still in an indeterminate way, to the power which speculation had violated or at least overlooked, namely experience. Nevertheless these inquirers believed they could hold fast to the Hegelian method at least within logic and metaphysics; at the transition to the concrete spheres experience was then to step in as a supplement. The Hegelians rightly objected to this that it is an impossibility, since the dialectical method is precisely the self-movement of the content. Göschel maintained in his work "Der Monismus des Gedankens" that the claim that reality was more than logical more than rational and had something peculiar to *[25]* itself outside the logical form, led to dualism and materialism, insofar as the material is postulated from outside as a supplement to logic[*]. — Only later did criticism advance to taking hold of the dialectical method itself, namely when Trendelenburg in his "Logische Untersuchungen" (1840), which we shall come to later, carried through the polemic in such a way that he penetrated to the innermost marrow of the system. For the present it is, as already remarked, more practical and concrete starting points that criticism

[*]Cf. *Göschel's* statement in "Jahrbücher für wissenschaftliche Kritik" 1835. p. 714: "Es ist die feinste Potenz des Materialismus, wenn sie meinen, dass im Leben mehr enthalten sei, als das Denken mit seinen Momenten, und zur Fülle des Lebens noch etwas Anderes hinzutrete als das Denken; vielmehr ist das, was mehr, was voller, dichter zu sein scheint, ein Mangel etlicher Kategorien."

chooses for itself. —

Göschel agreed with his two opponents just discussed in maintaining individual immortality, but he claimed, what they denied, that it could be derived from Hegel's principles. Against both parties, then, stand Feuerbach and Richter, who deny immortality by virtue of these same Hegelian principles.

According to *Feuerbach* the modern age suffers from a pernicious hollowness and emptiness, because, especially in Protestantism, it has set personality on the throne and lets everything revolve around it. Hence the modern doctrine of immortality. The ancients immersed themselves with childlike inwardness and joy of life in the real world, and it did not occur to them to desire any continuance beyond it; insofar as they had the notion of another life, it was as a shadow-life. The old Christendom and the medieval Church likewise had really no belief in immortality in the modern sense; they believed
[26] in a judgment of the world, in heaven and hell, but the single personality was for them so wholly absorbed in the great purposes and exemplars that they had no special interest in its purely individual continuance. It is only modern, selfish reflection that cannot let go of its dear I but even transforms death into a shadow, a vanishing thing before individuality, in whose enjoyment one wallows. In modern religion the concern is no longer God but the individual; God is the periphery, the individual himself the center.

Death must be reinstated in its rights, acknowledged to be more than apparent death. For death has, in the first place, a great ethical significance. True action is the self-surrender of love in opposition to the egoism of natural man. The truly moral and religious man places his essence in what stands above him; his true I is the infinite object to which he surrenders his finite I. This free work of love exists in nature as the necessity of death; the question is put to man whether he will make this necessity into the highest freedom through the self-renunciation of love; only thus, only before death, can death be overcome.

In a metaphysical respect death is an expression of the reality of the infinite: in death the infinite being breaks through the finite limits within which individual existence held it. Death thus comes not from lack and want but from wealth and fullness. — In a psychological respect it holds that in self-consciousness a distinction must be made between consciousness itself and its object. What is conscious, the object, is the single individual; consciousness itself is absolutely universal, is in all men equal to itself. The various persons know themselves in consciousness, just as colors are seen in light. As little as light itself is one with a single color, so little is consciousness in itself one
[27] with the single person. Death, now, is the fact in which spirit, consciousness, proves

its freedom over against the single objects; as colors change because they are not one with light, so persons change because they are not consciousness itself but only its objects, or because they are only subjects, not subjectivity. Yet for all that they are not without significance. Consciousness, absolute subjectivity, is an eternal memory in which everything is preserved that has been a member of the great whole of consciousness. That man is immortal means that he is a being of worth and significance.

What Feuerbach had set forth in flaming words and with epigrammatic brevity, Fr. Richter developed at all possible length. His work is of greatest interest for the guileless directness with which he is conscious of pleading the cause of the good when he annihilates the doctrine of a beyond, in his eyes so pernicious. He reproaches Hegel and his disciples for not having drawn the full consequences of their doctrine. Through the Hegelian system with its thoroughgoing immanence a new world has, in Richter's opinion, arisen; but the existing order of things has nevertheless been left standing untouched. This lies perhaps in the one-sidedly theoretical character of Hegelianism; for Hegel, as for Aristotle, theory is the highest. But one should not only think absolutely, but also act absolutely, live speculatively. Religion is not a particular stage of consciousness, but, as the innermost absorption of spirit, includes all stages of consciousness, science too, within itself. In science the religious disposition reaches knowledge of itself and of reality and through this passes over into practical action. — From this religious standpoint Fr. Richter carries through the critique of the notions of a beyond. He conceives the infirmity of the modern age in the same way as Feuerbach. The condition of a real ethical striving is that one becomes conscious that this world is a real world, closed in itself, *[28]* and that one surrenders oneself to the universal purpose as an unconditional servant. In this consists the true eternal life. Criticism therefore does not touch the true content of the dogma of immortality; it only sees as present what the dogma pushes out into a future, otherworldly existence. The motive for assuming such an existence is either idle, unbounded wishes without justification or an equally unethical demand for reward for the good in another life. Good action has its reward and its purpose in itself. By death the single man is reminded that his individual life is not the world's final end, that the species outlives him, and thus he lives not for himself alone but for the species. In the certainty of his death man has the first occasion for distinguishing himself from the animal. — In an anthropological respect the belief in immortality is founded on the old dualistic conception of the relation between soul and body. The soul is regarded as dwelling in the body and leaving it at death, which is the separation of the two. But true anthropology sees man as a whole, as a harmonious unity from the cradle to the grave.

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The one question of individual immortality necessarily had to draw a multitude of others connected with it in its train; so deeply does it reach into the whole world-view. Thus we have seen how it led to discussing the conception of the idea of God, the essence of knowledge (speculation — experience) and the problem of immanence and transcendence. Even this first debate therefore laid the ground for a split within the Hegelian school, whose opposed parties Strauss later (Streitschriften. 3rd Heft. p. 95) designated as Right and Left, after the parties in the French assemblies. If one asks whether the conservative Right or the radical Left most nearly expresses the own opinion of the school's founder, then no other answer can be given than that Hegel himself, *[29]* personally, no doubt believed himself in agreement with the doctrine of the Church, but that the philosophical consequence of his system goes in the opposite direction. The full consequence works its way forward step by step and is seldom or never grasped in its whole extent by the first originator of the thought. Hegel would, as Ruge aptly remarks (Deutsche Jahrbücher. 1841. p. 142), hardly have regarded the neo-Hegelian development of his doctrine with more favorable eyes than Kant regarded Fichte's development of the fundamental thoughts in "Kritik der reinen Vernunft." — We now pass on to a still more burning problem of the philosophy of religion, through which that opposition between the two tendencies especially comes forward.

2. *David Friederich Strauss* (b. 1808). — Speculative philosophy had placed itself in a relation to positive religion similar to that which mysticism, guided by its practical-personal interest, takes up. Just as the mystic believes he acknowledges sacred history when he sees it as an inner history, taking place in his own soul during its struggling and laboring to give birth to God within itself and by the way of suffering to die away in him, so speculation believes it has explained historical Christianity when it has shown the inner relation between the infinite and the finite and the necessity of the latter's being merged in the former. Hegel too had received the seed of his philosophy of religion through the study of Master Eckardt. We have already seen its fundamental thought, but shall now consider its application with regard to the center of the Church's doctrine, Christology.

The finite world is, according to Hegel, an appearance in external reality of the inner differences and moments of the Absolute. The finite spirit is indeed in itself one with the Godhead, and originally it also rests securely in this unity, which immediately fills consciousness. But step by step the self-consciousness of the finite spirit grows, and with it also its isolation. The absolute content vanishes more and more from it and

becomes an alien thing. The period of dissolution of classical antiquity is the point in *[30]* time when the infinite content has completely vanished, so that empty self-consciousness remains behind with proud resignation before the collapsed world or with negative joy that everything is shown in its nothingness. This standpoint Hegel designates as the unhappy self-consciousness: the complete finitude of self-consciousness in the midst of its apparent infinity. Finitude weighs with all its weight, with all its pain and misery, on the spirits that have lost the eternal powers and do not know how they are to call them to life again. The only rescue is that the human spirit recognizes that the finitude under which it groans is not alien to the essence of the Godhead, but is one of its forms. God himself is not outside finitude, but has entered into it. Distress and pain are then only the expression of the infinity of spirit, of its incommensurability with finite existence, through which it must nevertheless pass in order to develop its own essence. The finite spirit now no longer sees itself as isolated; self-consciousness is again united with infinite substance. This is the Idea of the God-man, the idea of the unity of the divine and the human nature, which dawns upon consciousness.

This construction, in which the metaphysical and the historical fuse together, still needs an important psychological supplement in order to lead to the goal[*)]. Not only speculatively, for thinking consciousness, must the idea of the unity of the divine and the human reveal itself; it must also come forward for immediate, popular consciousness. *[31]* From this point of view that progress of the world-spirit shows itself in the phenomenon in this way, that it becomes the faith of the world that the Godhead has come into being as a self-consciousness, as a single man, that this divinity is seen, felt, heard by believing consciousness. What is in itself the property of the human spirit then comes forward as something external and beyond, which stands over against it. We thus come back here to the Hegelian doctrine already touched on earlier, that the content of religion and of philosophy is the same, only the form different. The unity of the divine and the human nature appears, considered speculatively, as Idea, considered religiously, as the historical Christ. This difference of form is not to impair the content, although Hegel holds fast that the form of the concept is the higher, to which one must advance from the historical form, or the form of representation.

In this speculative Christology a large part of Hegel's disciples saw a reconciliation of faith and knowledge, and theology celebrated "the new era" with enthusiasm.

[*)] The metaphysical construction is developed in particular in the philosophy of religion and points back to the logic, the historical especially in the phenomenology, the history of philosophy and the philosophy of history. — Already in Schelling, moreover, the basic features of these constructions occur. ("Vorlesungen über das akademische Studium". 8th and 9th lecture).

Then in the year 1835 appeared Strauss's "Leben Jesu, kritisch bearbeitet". The year 1835 was, as has rightly been said, in theology what 1848 was in politics. — Strauss here came to the result that the Gospel history is a mythical history which developed in the consciousness of the earliest congregation as the expression of the great thought that had dawned upon it of the unity of the divine and the human. By the concept of myth the unclear and ambiguous in the Hegelian Christology is removed; it furnishes the necessary middle term for explaining how the Idea can, for consciousness, assume the shape of a single individual. This shape is only a vanishing form, since the universal Idea cannot absolutely reveal itself in the individual phenomenon, but needs the whole species as its medium. All the predicates which the Church's doctrine ascribes to Christ
[32] must therefore be transferred to humanity as a whole; they also contradict one another if they are really to belong to a single individual. But humanity is God become man, son of a visible mother and an invisible father, of nature and spirit; it is the worker of miracles, insofar as spirit in the course of history ever more completely masters nature; it is the one who dies, rises again and ascends into heaven, insofar as from the sublation of its immediate, natural condition a higher spiritual life constantly proceeds.

When speculative Christology deduced the positive dogma, this deduction really only aimed at the psychological and historical necessity of the illusion in which the universal appears as an individual single thing. Hegel's orthodox disciples naturally conceived the matter differently. Göschel emphasized against Strauss that if one lets the Idea have reality only in the whole species, one sinks back to Kant's standpoint, where the Idea has only subjective validity: for if the Idea is nowhere completely realized, then it exists only in the subjective summing up of its moments scattered over the whole species, and the Hegelian fundamental thought of the unity of thinking and being is sublated. — Strauss answers to this (Streitschriften. 3rd Heft. p. 99 f.) that this objection could also be directed against the assumption of the realization of the Idea in a single individual: for since this realization cannot be absolute in any single moment of his life, it would exist only for the thinking and remembering summing up of all the moments of his life. It is Göschel himself who falls back to the Kantian standpoint, since he does not credit the Idea with the power to permeate multiplicity without losing its unity. Göschel demands the general concept realized outside the sum of the individuals that belong under it, like the scholastic who asked for fruit to eat, but fruit *in general*, neither apples, pears nor any particular fruit.

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Strauss was attacked not only with dialectical weapons. His book had stirred up commotion in the theological camp, and a confused crowd pressed forward to answer

or at least to revile the giver of offense. The well-known champion of orthodoxy, Hengstenberg, with his "Evangelische Kirchenzeitung", was not the last. Strauss has, according to Hengstenberg, "a heart like Leviathan, as hard as the nether millstone", and belongs to those who are enthusiastic for the spirit of the abyss, for the great beast to whom it was given to speak great things and blasphemies etc. To this Strauss, who moreover valued Hengstenberg's orthodox zealotry more than the groping and half-hearted procedure of the usual apologetics, replied with a dignified statement, inspired in all its calm, in which he maintains the right of free science and rejects all irrelevant objections drawn from morality (Streitschriften. 3rd Heft. p. 22 ff.).

We must especially emphasize that Strauss defends not only the freedom of philosophical thinking but also that of historical inquiry. In this too Strauss marks an advance in relation to Hegel. Hegel on the whole did not care for historical criticism, any more than Goethe did. Both feared that the great figures of antiquity would lose their luster when criticism took hold of them with its irreverent hands. Hegel saw in criticism a relapse into Kant's subjectivism and demanded that one should immerse oneself in the historical content without troubling about the critical difficulties. He mocks Schleiermacher's critical investigations of Plato's dialogues and Niebuhr's of the earliest Roman history. This is closely connected with Hegel's whole position toward reality. He shows it at once too much and too little respect. True reverence for reality consists in a serious testing of how far the representation of the real also corresponds to the real in itself. Just as little as the natural scientist accepts the immediate sense-image as real nature, just *[34]* as little can the historical inquirer stop at what immediate faith holds fast as historical truth. This principle, which springs from the very essence of scientific inquiry, Strauss was the first to apply to a domain that had previously been kept closed to it. How confused a conception people still had of the significance of criticism can be seen from the demand made by an ardent Hegelian who at that time belonged to the extreme Right but later went over to the extreme Left, Bruno Bauer. Criticism, in his opinion, is not to be merely skeptical and negative, but is through negation to re-erect its object in its whole extent and leave nothing behind that is not positively justified. Only then is it true, positive criticism. But — Strauss answers — the critic must surely at least presuppose the possibility that there is something in his object which cannot be justified, since otherwise he would have had no motive for taking up the critical standpoint. That possibility can be kept entirely away only if one starts from the assumption that the absolutely divine character of the object makes every corruption or addition impossible; but this is in itself a purely arbitrary assumption.

From another point of view, on the other hand, Strauss could rightly be reproached that his criticism was not positive. He stops the investigation at the content of the Gospel writings and believed he had reached the end when he had shown what thought must lie at the root of the mythical clothing in the individual narratives. The next step was to investigate the origin of the writings themselves, their connection with the whole age and with the spiritual movements that crossed one another in it. Only thereby, by being set into the whole historical context, does that content find its full explanation. Strauss's teacher, the famous founder of the Tübingen school, Ferd. Chr. Baur († 1861), struck
[35] out on this way. In this domain he stands beside F. A. Wolf and Niebuhr in the domain of classical philology. It is true that in the Tübingen school too, and surely not without reason, uncritical after-effects of Hegelianism have been found. But that proves only that a principle correct in itself can receive a one-sided application on account of the circumstances under which it first appeared; it proves nothing against the truth of the principle. —

Strauss designates his general standpoint as absolute immanence. His whole world-view comes forward especially in his work "Den christelige Troeslære i dens historiske Udvikling og i dens Kamp med den moderne Videnskab" (1840—41). Here it is above all the conception of the idea of God that matters. Hegel's doctrine of the subjectivity of the Absolute had been understood by his orthodox disciples in such a way that the old dogma of the personality and transcendence of God was directly grounded in it. On this point, as in the doctrine of immortality and in Christology, they therefore considered their master to be in full agreement with the doctrine of the Church. But Strauss shows that by his doctrine of absolute subjectivity Hegel only meant to insist that the Absolute cannot be conceived as dead, resting substance, but as the infinite life which is its own product and develops itself through an infinity of differences and oppositions. Spinoza did not comprehend the Absolute as eternal self-determination; he showed how everything flowed back into substance, but not how it flows out of it again, — only the venous system, not the arterial system, not the whole infinite circulation of life, by which substance through its other closes together with itself and so becomes person and spirit. This conception, according to Strauss, avoids two dangerous rocks. It does not set the Godhead, in an external way, finished over against the world, like vulgar theism; nor does it bind God's essence to the development of the world in such a way
[36] that he should need finite existence and the human spirit in order to be himself. Not by man, who after all is not by himself, but through and in man, whom it has itself posited, does the Absolute come to self-consciousness and personality. God's personality must

not be thought as a single personality, but as an all-personality; instead of personifying the Absolute one must comprehend it as that which to infinity personifies itself.

The single personifications of the Absolute are only transient moments. If they became fixed, that would be a sign of the impotence of absolute spirit. The substantial is not in the individuals, but beyond them in absolute spirit, to which they are related as changing accidents. This holds with regard to the whole of existence developing itself in time. Time is a finite form of representation, which needs external points of support for intuition in order to be able to maintain itself. Thereby the finite differences are fixed, which in themselves possess no reality. The unity in the difference of the moments of time is eternity; by thinking time one deprives it of beginning and end, its represented points of support, and it sinks together of itself into the indifference of eternity as its ground, from which it just as well proceeds to infinity. Eternity and time are related as substance and its accidents.

It follows from this that Strauss's pantheism cannot avoid falling back at last into the Spinozistic doctrine of substance. Individual life is a mere phenomenon, behind which thought seeks the true, which is the undifferentiated eternity of substance. It is only representation that can still ascribe real reality to finitude, and representation is, according to Strauss, an inadequate form of knowledge.

But a still more awkward circumstance shows itself. There always remains an opposition between substance and the individual consciousness in which it comes to *[37]* itself. Substance is even to lie *beyond* single beings — and yet Strauss's last word in his dogmatics is that the otherworldly *under* all shapes is the enemy which speculative criticism is to combat. The standpoint of immanence is thus not carried through. There is still a step to take — but it goes in quite another direction than toward Spinoza. Self-consciousness must sublate every transcendent relation in order to become wholly clear and transparent to itself; it must remove every alien power as a play of shadows. Along this way we are also led by the further development of the "critical consciousness" in Bruno Bauer and Feuerbach.

Strauss's sharp critical thought has thus loosened the unity between the moments that in Hegel's doctrine were in intimate connection. His whole critical tendency brought him into opposition to the dialectical method and to all-mediating speculation, an opposition that could only be sharpened by the way in which the orthodox Hegelians misused the doctrine of dialectical "contradiction" to abolish the difference between "Widersinn" and "Widerspruch" (Streitschriften. 3rd Heft. p. 23. 113).

The opposition between substance and individuals proved to stand in close connection

with the psychological opposition between thought and representation. Consideration of this opposition will throw a decisive light on the Straussian and thereby on the whole speculative philosophy of religion. — Strauss counts it as the merit of Christianity to have brought the unity of the divine and the human to the consciousness of the human race. This Idea is therefore what is abiding in Christianity. The old world was essentially dualistic; the peoples felt the Godhead as a distant and alien power, which only in the earliest time, in the mythical golden age, went about in friendly fashion among men.
[38] Against this dualism Christianity came forward with its doctrine that God had become man. Thus both worlds were united. But the union was accomplished only at a single point, as an exception, a miracle. The miraculous, hence dualistic, way of looking at things remained dominant. Christianity is thus the divine's becoming this-worldly on the presupposition of its otherworldliness, the beginning of the modern system of immanence, but still on the old soil of the transcendent. It now depends on whether one will regard it as the peculiarity of Christianity that the immanence of the divine is restricted to a single point, which is then separated by an absolute, insurmountable chasm from the rest of humanity, or whether the true essence of Christianity might not be preserved if one developed the seed of immanence it contains with the help of the results of human development. If one holds fast to the narrower, stricter and therefore essentially dualistic conception of Christianity, then one comes into an irreconcilable conflict with human development. If, on the other hand, one enters into a more conciliatory conception, then one can say that Christianity is constantly developing further from its original starting point. We should then have an analogy in the history of political freedom. The Greek states acknowledged freedom, but only as the property of a certain number of citizens, in opposition to slaves and metics. They thus wanted to know of freedom only at this point. But historical development has led to extending it to all, in accordance with the awakening consciousness of the share of all in the same human nature. (Zwei friedliche Blätter. 1839). — With this way of looking at things Strauss's treatment of the dogmas agrees. He grasps each single dogma at its origin and follows it through the whole course of historical development. Through this process the dogmas break their finite form and are purified to the purity of the concept. The form of representation, in
[39] which religion has clothed the infinite content, is not merely an outer shell, but causes a pervasive dualism in the whole view. Hegel is therefore wrong to regard this difference of form as inessential. From the imperfect one must advance to the perfect, from faith to knowledge.

In the philosophical world-view that replaces the positive doctrine of the Church,

consciousness finds the same satisfaction as the believer in his dogmas, and the difficulties and contradictions which these bring with them fall away there. But will this liberation then be able to fall to the lot of all, or will it always be restricted to a few individuals? This question Strauss leaves unanswered; he sees in the opposition between those who know and the non-philosophizing a chasm between two classes of human society which will perhaps never be filled. He only emphasizes that it is of no use to cover over this chasm, since it is there once and for all. "So let the believer let the knower, and the latter the former, calmly go his way; we let them keep their faith, so they must also let us keep our philosophy; and if the excessively pious should succeed in excluding us from their Church, we shall count it a gain; of false attempts at union there has been enough, only a sharpening of the oppositions can lead further." (Troeslære. Danish transl. I. p. 309).

Religion is thus only an imperfect form of philosophy. The religious really receives only a negative determination; it is that which is to be sublated, translated into another language, a child's babbling in relation to the rational speech of the grown man. This points back to a psychological presupposition from which Strauss starts, as does the whole speculative philosophy of religion, whose final consequence he draws, — the presupposition, namely, that religion has its origin in the drive for knowledge and is therefore essentially an intellectual phenomenon. If this presupposition is correct, then it will hardly be possible to raise any decisive objection against Strauss; then all religion *[40]* falls away with positive religion. But if this presupposition is correct, then it also becomes difficult to understand the chasm that is to go on existing between those who know and those who believe. How can Strauss doubt that this chasm will cease, when the two elements it separates are essentially akin, are moments in the same development? Can one suppose that an immeasurable barrier should have been set between two stages of knowledge, and must one not rather ask whether the refusal of religious consciousness to dissolve itself into speculative knowledge might not be grounded in the fact that it does not find its whole essence expressed in knowledge, but misses essential elements, elements that make up precisely what is religious in religion?

Thus on the one side the ease with which Strauss can show the dissolution of dogma into speculative concept, on the other side the resistance which, he admits, religious consciousness offers to making this transition, — this opposition awakens doubt whether the psychological presupposition from which he starts is correct. Strauss has not entered upon a real testing of it. He has inaugurated a new epoch with regard to the historical foundation of the philosophy of religion, but he has overlooked the psychological foundation, which is still more important, since the historical is not

intelligible without it. On this point too we are referred to Feuerbach, who broke through the barriers that still held Strauss captive.

3. *Bruno Bauer* (b. 1809) is a living testimony to the ambiguity in the Hegelian principle of the unity of reason and reality, a principle that can just as well be reactionary as revolutionary, just as well conservative as radical. Thus Bruno Bauer could, from the extreme Right, the most far-reaching orthodoxy, suddenly throw himself over into
[41] the opposite extreme. In his critique of Strauss's "Leben Jesu he reproached Strauss, as already mentioned, for not carrying through completely the comprehension of the objective; criticism stops at a certain point and does not prove itself to be "the invincible power of self-consciousness", which lets nothing remain standing as an impenetrable object, but negates everything objective in order to recognize itself in it. In Bauer's opinion the true, "positive" criticism justifies the object in its entirety by comprehending it. — But a few years later he attacked Strauss from quite another side.

Strauss — says Bruno Bauer — has in his criticism remained standing at an essentially theological standpoint. He believes his task accomplished when he has shown the mythical character of the Gospel narratives, and then thinks that these myths formed themselves in the earliest congregation under the influence of tradition. But here he points back to something mysterious. Every individual work must surely have proceeded from an individual thinking and acting and cannot grow out of a general consciousness which with mystical power inspires the single persons, without any one of them being able by himself to be called the originator of the narrative. No, criticism must be carried through in such a way that one gets a single, definite author to hold on to. The evangelists are to be compared with Homer and Hesiod, who, as Herodotus says, made the Greeks their gods.

Just as Strauss in his historical criticism lets the mystical power overwhelm real self-consciousness, so his whole view aims at maintaining the Absolute as objective substance. It is thereby that he essentially stands at a religious or theological standpoint. For the religious standpoint is that where self-consciousness still has its content separated from itself, whereby the content is made finite. At its summit religious consciousness is absolutely alien to itself. In nature religion the gods are still regarded as particular, single
[42] beings, and as such are akin to men; therefore the alienness is not carried through, but state, family life and art receive immediate religious significance. "The chains the human spirit bore in the service of these religions were wound about with flowers; splendidly and festively adorned like a sacrificial animal, man brought himself as a sacrifice to his religious powers; the chains themselves deceived him as to the harshness of his service."

But the flowers withered, the ancient world of nature collapsed, and "the vampire of spiritual abstraction" accomplished its work. Only the I, self-consciousness in its whole infinity, remained behind amid the ruins of the perished world, as the abyss into which everything had sunk. But the I could not yet see through itself; its infinity was still an alien being for it, an absolute, almighty Godhead which stood threatening over against it. This is the unveiled mystery of Christianity. Self-consciousness has in the Gospel narratives to do with itself, but that is to say, with the most frightful parody of itself, a Moloch that demands every natural and real relation as a sacrifice. But since it is nevertheless the image of self-consciousness, it is understood how it has been able to hold humanity captive so long, to impose such terrible burdens on it. The human race has been brought up in bondage under its own likeness, in order that it might the more thoroughly win freedom and establish itself in it[*)].

Pantheism, which sets an objective substance as the object of consciousness, has not yet reached this freedom, is still within bondage. The opposition must be carried to the end, where only atheism is the right name. Religious consciousness must be completely negated. It is altogether false when Strauss thinks that philosophy is to take the place of religion, and that it can do so because they both aim at the same absolute content. *[43]* Religious consciousness is indeed the seed of perfect self-consciousness, but this seed is, precisely because it is only a seed, a false and pernicious power. Those in whom reason is not developed have indeed the disposition to true humanity, but precisely because it is only a disposition, they are not human beings but inhuman beings. Therefore no settlement with religious consciousness can be thought of. Truths cease to be truth when they are translated into the form of religion. There is no truth in religion. Since religious self-consciousness is not free and does not see through its own essence, it still relates itself in an arbitrary and contingent way to its object; it is the obscure drive that posits the object of religion, a drive which on the one side is an anxiety before the dark, uncomprehended power that weighs on consciousness, on the other side is the passionate wish that wants to see its fantasies realized[*)].

When, then, criticism has been carried through to the point where the dark power is altogether annihilated, every resistance, every object removed, what then remains? Bruno Bauer answers: pure criticism. Nothing has truth except critical consciousness itself. Every object is posited only to be negated again; insofar as it is acknowledged, it ceases to be true. He who seeks satisfaction in anything, he who wants to be enthusiastic about anything, must go back to the demonic power of religion in order to let himself

[*)] Kritik der evangelischen Geschichte der Synoptiker. 3ter Band.
[*)] Bruno Bauer in "Deutsche Jahrbücher." 1843. p. 82—95.

be robbed of his freedom. The expression atheism no longer fits, since it still includes a regard to the object that is negated, and therefore does not designate absolutely free self-consciousness. State, family, art and science are dissolved in this titanic movement, in which his brother Edgar Bauer took upon himself in particular the critique of the state[**)].

[44] The movement is here carried with tearing speed to its extreme limit. It is a fanaticism of the concept that appears here, first with the demand for absolute comprehension, for seeing through the depths of existence so that not a single obscurity remains, — and when this fails, with an equally absolute devotion to the opposite striving, to let everything be annihilated by the self-consciousness in which it would not be resolved. The Hegelian panlogism is here carried through in such a way that it has returned to its starting point, the invisible point where thinking and being are one, because only thinking is. This invisible point is what Bauer designates as pure criticism; but whereas Hegel started from this point in order to conquer the whole world, Bruno Bauer has arrived at it by letting everything sink together into nothing. He ends in nothing because he begins with nothing.

4. *Arnold Ruge* (b. 1802). — Just as Hegel in the philosophy of religion had applied his principle of the unity of reason and reality in such a way that it meant the reconciliation of dogma with speculative thought, since, as Strauss expressed it, the dogmas came through the dialectical purgatory into the heaven of the Idea with skin and hair, so he applied the same proposition in the philosophy of right in such a way that the state of the Restoration period, this expression of broken promises, was thereby established as "rational". Here as little as there did Hegel apply any real critique of what lay before him. Since he was convinced that the Idea is not so impotent that it should only be a subjective ideal which has not won for itself any form of reality, but that in the state we must see the world the moral Idea has created for itself, his concern was only to show reason immediately in the historically developed forms of state.

Yet Hegel lived to see, the year before his death, a reality he did not find rational, namely the July Revolution, and his last days were embittered by a quarrel into which *[45]* he came on that occasion with one of his disciples, the philosopher of right Gans, who wanted to draw liberal consequences from his doctrine[*)]. But it was only some ten years later that the speculative view of history went through a crisis similar to the one which,

[**)] On him see "Nyt dansk Maanedsskrift". 1871—72. p. 223.

[*)] Gans began his "Vorlesungen über die Geschichte der letzten fünfzig Jahre" by reproaching German historiography with turning exclusively toward the past and setting aside the history of its own time as "Tagesgeschihte".

in the philosophy of religion, had broken out with Strauss and Bruno Bauer.

Arnold Ruge published, from the year 1838 on, a journal by the name of "Hallische Jahrbücher", which originally belonged to what was called the Hegelian Center. It appeared with reverence for the positive and, with Hegel, considered the difference between religion and philosophy a mere difference of form. But year by year it became more radical. First Strauss's, then Bruno Bauer's and Feuerbach's views in the philosophy of religion became the dominant ones in the Jahrbücher. Ruge separates himself from the Center and the Right of the Hegelian school by reproaching them for their position as inactive spectators of the world-historical process. "There is only one atheism, doubt of the spirit of history." Hereupon followed an ever sharper critique of the Prussian political conditions, which at last compelled Ruge to move to Dresden (1841), from where he now published the journal as "Deutsche Jahrbücher.

This opens with a preface in which he charges the Hegelians with having a finished system, a presupposed dogmatics, and finding the Idea without further ado in the political status quo. Against these three powers, philosophical, theological and political orthodoxy, he wants to open a war of liberation. And if it is asked under what banner this struggle is to be waged, Ruge answers: "There is only one sign in the heavens which lights and warms the spiritual world, and the name of this star is philosophy." But then philosophy *[46]* cannot be conceived in Hegel's way, who thought that its calling was only to comprehend the preceding reality. Hegel, says Ruge, thereby himself acknowledges after all that thought is a new and higher stage, since it judges reality. And since thought is thus the last, it is, which Hegel overlooked, also the new, an anticipation of the coming reality. In the logic Hegel teaches that the negation of the preceding leads over to a new stage; but in world history he will not admit this. And yet the movement in world history rests on human consciousness making inward to itself the content it has won, which is precisely what happens through philosophical critique. Thereby one advances to a new task, which sets an "ought" in place of an "is", and thus the right carrying through of Hegel's dialectic leads to recognizing also the truth of Kant's doctrine of the autonomy of the will and Fichte's doctrine of the self-determining I. The philosopher is an apostle of the future, who theoretically accomplishes the movement of spirit that is to be accomplished in practice in the life of the state. It is no reproach against theory that it is revolutionary: "nur umwälzende Gedanken sind Gedanken."

Critique thus seeks the concept of the preceding reality in order to derive from it the concept of the following reality. But Hegel has confused the metaphysical and the historical concept, and has thereby misjudged the significance of critique. It is

the metaphysical concept that drives critique forward, since it proves not to have its complete expression in the historical. Thus the Idea of the state is not realized in a single definite state. Hegel, on the other hand, immediately raised the historically existing to metaphysical dignity. In this immediate transition the opposition is overlooked, and with it critique. Only through critique, on the other side, does the way lead back again
[47] from the concept to reality. "The true connection of the concept and reality is not the apotheosis of existence into concept, but the incarnation of the concept into existence."

If it is asked how this incarnation of the concept takes place, then Ruge's determination of the essence of religion is to be brought out. The Hegelian philosophy and the German spirit as a whole have, he says, concealed the practical significance of theory. Theory becomes practical when it passes over into enthusiasm and resolve, i.e., when it becomes religion. For religion in itself is nothing other than the practical pathos for the ideal, for truth, faithfulness to the Idea and self-sacrificing exercise of it. Religion is praxis: it everywhere brings with it, on account of the resistance of finite existences to the Idea, its peculiar struggle and the sacrifice of earthly interests. This is the true religion, the religion of the this-worldly, in opposition to the dualistic religions, which, by making man alien to himself and to existence, only hinder him in the exercise of freedom instead of furthering it. Never has anything other than freedom been religion. But now its form and content become richer than before. The whole ideal world of humanity must go into the crucible of the heart, in order to come forth from it again as a glowing stream and form a new world.

Mere theory, on the other hand, which does not deepen itself in itself into religious pathos, does not get beyond the so-called liberalism which never attacks the very root of consciousness. It believes that it only matters to reform the political forms, while for the rest it lets everyone think as he will and be saved by his faith. This indifferentism shows the superficiality of liberalism. It does not see that what matters is a reform of consciousness, and therefore never gets further than mere wishes for freedom. With the reform of consciousness the reform of the world would be given. When this reform is
[48] carried out, liberalism becomes democratism; every alien power is resolved into free self-consciousness, and in the state every opposition vanishes, since the Church is resolved into the school in order through the education of the people to absorb all rabble, and since the military and judicial systems are directly administered by the self-organizing people. —

At this point in its development the journal was banned by the Saxon government (1843). Ruge later, as a member of the Frankfurt Parliament in 1848, gained the experience

that there was still far to go before the realization of the reform of consciousness. The demand Ruge had made makes him what he wanted the philosopher to be, a prophet of the future. For that demand for the reform of consciousness is in its generality the task of all history, and it is a grandiose idealism to assert it immediately without having positive starting points for its realization. Therefore Ruge is not a practical politician, but a noble disciple of Plato's Republic[*)].

In a philosophical respect what is interesting about Ruge is that he has maintained the practical significance of philosophy. He has maintained the necessity that the Idea should not merely become an object of speculation, but be appropriated by living personal consciousness. Thereby he has overstepped the limits of the Hegelian psychology and philosophy of religion, within which heart and imagination could not receive such a positive significance. Indeed, he abandons, by his determination of the relation of thought to historical reality, the very fundamental thought of Hegel of the unity of thinking and being. If critique is a necessary intermediate determination between the concept and reality, then that unity is not immediate and absolute. Through the historical critique and the critique in the philosophy of religion we thus catch sight of new metaphysical consequences.

5. *Ludwig Feuerbach* (b. 1804). — Each of the phenomena with which we have *[49]* so far been occupied appeared at once with a peculiar, firmly marked character. And insofar as in Bruno Bauer we were witness to a swing from one extreme to the other, this swing took place in an instant, with restless haste. It is otherwise with the thinker at whom we now stand, and who is the truly typical representative of the process of self-dissolution of speculative idealism, but in such a way that he at the same time points out the positive elements for a new development. Feuerbach runs through the whole scale from the extreme right to the extreme left, from absolute idealism to the boundary of materialism, in such a way that each single step is clearly and emphatically marked, whereby the transitions become gradual, indeed almost imperceptible to the superficial glance. He is filled with a fermenting unrest which has followed him from his earliest youth, when as an orthodox theologian he took delight in the speculative reconciliation of faith and knowledge, right up to the sensualist subjectivism in which he ends. Ever dissatisfied with what is given, with what has so far been attained, he ever seeks new forms and expressions. He himself relates how little desire he had, on the occasion of the publication of his collected works, to return to writings which for him marked a stage left behind — and every one of his writings did so as soon as he had put the last hand

[*)] Part of the section on Ruge has, with additions and abridgments, been printed in "Nyt dansk Maanedsskrift". 1871—1872.

[50] to it[*]. This unrest, this striving after ever renewed advance, gives him the character of a genuine thinker who passionately wants to fight his way forward to the sources of truth; but there is something Tantalean in this striving of his, in that he never succeeds in reaching a standpoint that satisfies him, and which he can then develop and carry through completely. He is right when he characterizes himself as a "dissatisfied spirit." — The restless, never satisfied yearning gives his language a peculiar beauty; in a series of turns of phrase, antitheses, images and comparisons he seeks to exhaust what he cannot hold fast in a sharply closed conceptual form. In this he finds the unity of his work as an author expressed. "You thought as a philosopher," he says to himself, "but you did not write as a philosopher; you always transformed the being of thought, when you uttered it, into a being of flesh and blood. You knew that philosophy as such, mere reason, pure thought, is nothing for man, that one can convince man of a truth only when one makes it, from a being of reason, into a being that is like man, a sensuous being… Everywhere you have joined the abstract to the concrete, the non-sensuous to the sensuous, the logical to the anthropological." (Werke I. p. VII.—IX.). The development consists, then, in this: that what at first was only a form, a clothing, at last becomes the essence itself. The linguistic expression thus enters into an ever more inward unity with the content: "Formerly you thought, and said it too, if not literally, then in fact: the true must be present, real, sensuous, intuitable, human; now you say, consistently, the reverse: only the real, the sensuous, the human is the true."

In Feuerbach's philosophical development we can distinguish three different stages, if we pass over what lies before his public appearance (his orthodox-theological standpoint).
[51] These three stages we characterize in general before we go on to occupy ourselves more closely with each single one of them.

The first stage is pantheistic. The movement here goes absolutely in the direction of the universal, the objective, the Idea. Everything personal and individual is sought to be sublated as imperfection. By being united with subjectivity the purity of the Idea is violated; it no longer comes to hold in and for itself. But of the objective reality of the Idea there is no doubt; the Idea is, on the contrary, that which alone truly is. As that which has validity in and for itself, it can be apprehended and grasped only by theoretical knowledge. Theory is the truth. Religion and theology miss the truth because they place

[*]"Jeder fertigen Schrift sagte ich für immer Adieu; jede hatte mir nur meine Fehler und Mängel zu Bewusstsein gebracht und daher nichts andres in mir zurückgelassen, als das dringende Verlangen, ihr Andenken durch eine neue Schrift auszulöschen. Und nun wurde mir auf einmal zugemuthet, meinen unzufriedenen, schriftwidrigen, unbiblischen Geist auf alle meine längst meinem Sinn entschwundenen Schriften zu richten. Welche Zumuthung! Wider den Strom des Lebens soll ich schwimmen? wider den Lauf der Natur statt vorwärts, rückwärts gehen?" (Werke. 1ster Band. p. V—VI).

themselves at the practical standpoint, where finite, personal motives hold, and not the matter in and for itself. Self-love, the drive for blessedness, is already here designated as the origin of religion, and a corrective is thereby applied against the speculative philosophy of religion, which regarded religion only as an imperfect form of theory. — To this first stage (1830—1838) belong the following writings: Gedanken über Tod und Unsterblichkeit; Geschichte der neuern Philosophie von Baco bis Spinoza; Darstellung und Kritik der Leibnitzischen Philosophie; Pierre Bayle.

The real moment of which Feuerbach had thus become aware in his investigations in the philosophy of religion gained increased significance for him through the zealous study of the natural sciences to which he now devoted himself. He thereby became aware of the necessity and authority of sensuous experience, and gained an inward conviction of the reality of sensuousness, which was bound to overturn the validity of the Idea as the one true being. From a being as objective substance the Idea was now referred to subjective being as a concept of the species. Man develops universal concepts by virtue of the consciousness of the species, whose essence they express. The Idea is no *[52]* longer a being of reason, but being for reason, reason itself. As such the universal, the Idea, still has validity over against finite empirical experience. Reason is seen as man's true I, which gives the laws under which drive and feeling are to bend. But just as the objective in general is only a reflection of the subjective, so theology is anthropology, and religious representations are productions of man's overflowing, insatiable yearning for the satisfaction of the life of feeling. — This stage is represented above all by Feuerbach's chief work "Wesen der Christenthums" (1841).

The third stage is introduced by the declaration (Philosophie der Zukunft. 1843) that whereas he had formerly still put the sensuous and natural in a subordinate place, as that which was to subordinate itself to reason, to the knowledge of the universal, he now declares: only the sensuous is the real. Not reason, but the body in its totality is the true I. The universal is only an illusion; the individual drive, in its sympathy as well as in its egoism, is the true motive. — In "Wesen des Glaubens im Sinne Luthers" and "Wesen der Religion" religion is explained as having sprung from the egoistic drive for blessedness, an explanation whose extreme carrying-through is given in the work "Theogonie". Finally, in his last work, "Gottheit, Freiheit, Unsterblichkeit" (1866), Feuerbach goes right to the boundary of materialism, in that he dwells with particular relish on the proposition: "der Mensch ist, was er isst." What holds him back is the conviction of the inner activity of the human being. Whereas he formerly regarded the psychological motives from which religion, in his opinion, sprang as pernicious, he now himself builds his ethics on them.

The standpoint which at his first stage he designated as the practical one he has now himself occupied, after having driven religion out of it.

[53] After this preliminary survey we can designate as the general law of movement which governs the whole the law of subjectivization, i.e. the law that every objective being which is posited as the object of spirit is, precisely thereby, spirit's own work, which therefore, when spirit becomes conscious of itself, is taken back again, in that the positing force reflects itself into itself and recognizes its object as having sprung from its own essence. This law we shall now find applied in the particular.

a. Feuerbach's first standpoint is purely metaphysical. We have already mentioned his "Gedanken über Tod und Unsterblichkeit", where everything personal is sublated in the universal, over against which it could only egoistically want to assert itself. This work can be designated as a rehabilitation of death: death is the expression of the nothingness of the individual, is the absolute victory of universal being. — The same speculative-objective standpoint is pervasive in his historical writings from this period. In his "Geschichte der neuern Philosophie" he praises Spinoza and shows, through the development of the ontological proof, that God's existence is not to be separated from his essence; as God's essence, so also his existence falls within reason, which is itself the highest being. It is the Hegelian logic that is still held fast.

The break with this panlogical view is introduced by intensive occupation with real actuality, and first in the domain of the philosophy of religion. Feuerbach immersed himself with zeal in individual religious phenomena, in religious psychology; hence the wealth of characteristic and individual traits which is found in his writings. It was this individual element that interested him, whereas the speculative philosophy of religion contented itself with a survey of the general, objective content of the dogmas, without
[54] regard to the psychological soil from which it had arisen. Feuerbach soon saw that it was more than a difference of form that separated religion and philosophy. He declared it to be the πρῶτον ψεῦδος of speculative philosophy to regard the drive for knowledge as the psychological source of religion. In his work on Leibnitz he refers religion quite generally to the practical domain, because it owes its origin and its power to practical motives, hope and fear. Philosophy is not, as Hegel thought, to seek to find out the rational concept of the content of religion; dogma is incomprehensible because it is irrational; the only task is to explain how it has arisen. In the treatise on Bayle we find the further development of this.

Theology, it is said here, has the miracle for its principle, in that it proceeds from an arbitrary, unconditioned will as the cause of existence. The question of the ground of

things therefore does not exist at all in the theological domain; it is disposed of once and for all with an answer which is no answer; the will is the asylum ignorantiæ by which all science is turned away. The miracle cancels all reason and experience. In the miracle one sees only the two extremes; one sees, e.g., wine where one saw water before; but the transition, the actual event itself, is invisible and can be experienced only with the eyes of faith. The real miracle therefore has no advantage over the invented one; for what is essential in both, the supernatural causality, is put in by the apprehending subject and springs solely from its personal need. Faith in the miracle is the essence of the miracle. — In contrast to this, philosophy, as the representative of the idea of science, proceeds from the matter in itself and seeks to find the right grounding from the nature of the matter. The principle of philosophy is reason, the mother of lawfulness and necessity.

When the question is the origin of Christianity, theology derives it from a supernatural act which, passing over all conditions, acts immediately at this particular point in history. *[55]* But that is to say, in other words, that theology does not recognize this question as a problem at all. Philosophy, on the other hand, first seeks to determine the nature of religion in general and the general laws under which it appears in the human spirit and in history. These laws we find in the representations springing from the nature of religion, on whose diversity the difference between the particular religions rests. The content of a religion can very well be irreligious, i.e. stand in conflict with the true essence of religion. The other factor philosophy must take into account is the time when Christianity arose. Under the unhappy conditions of the age, when everything that had borne classical antiquity was perishing, the mind could see through the nothingness of all finite circumstances and freely rise above them; amid the general moral corruption a pure, quiet, inward heart, precisely through its opposition to its surroundings, could not but be thrust back into itself, so as to find in the inner world what the outer denied. Only in such a time could the idea of morality be grasped in its purity — and that is the only positive thing in Christianity, when one keeps its final purpose in view.

What Feuerbach here calls the positive in religion is not, however, what makes it a "positive religion." In the difference between true and false religion the content is decisive. This content is the concept of God, the way in which God is thought and is an object for consciousness. But the concept of God is essentially the object of philosophy and morality, which religion makes the object of a cult. What makes religion religion, its difference from morality and philosophy, religion in itself, is therefore not yet good, holy and divine; it is so only when its content is a divine one. Holiness is the peculiar religious category. But holiness is not a primitive concept; the holy must first be recognized as

[56] rational and good before it can have validity. Only the true is holy, but the holy as such is not yet true. When the holy is separated from this, its justifying ground, and developed for itself, religion becomes positive, "a religion secularized into a church and bounded by its formulas of faith," "a concern distinct from reason and morality." The cause of the church becomes the cause of religion; when man only believes what the church teaches, and performs the holy acts which it enjoins, then he is saved. The Catholic Church is the only successful definition of a positive, ecclesiastical religion; it has most faithfully, most consistently realized its essence, but precisely it has also expressed most sharply the indifference of the religious or ecclesiastical interest toward the interests of morality. Positive religion regards God as a single being toward whom one has special duties, which fill the heart with fear and anguish and let the humane, essential and universal relations of duty recede into the background. Positive religion necessarily becomes the affair of passion. Anguish at the loss of salvation drives to faith. The craving of the drive for self-preservation and for blessedness overwhelms reason and subdues the capacity for pure and unbiased love of truth. Faith, it is true, renounces reason and what is higher in man, but not what is lower, the egoistic motives. The positively religious therefore stands in an external relation to the ethical. Virtue is made not the principle but a side issue: faith, it is said, makes one blessed, but faith cannot be without works — just as the Epicureans said: pleasure makes one happy, but pleasure is not without virtue.

As virtue is subordinated to faith, i.e. to the drive for salvation, so the good is subordinated to the divine will, represented as an arbitrary, personal will. The good has for philosophy its ground in itself, but for theology the good is good only because God
[57] wills it. If one objects to this that God wills only the good, and that his will is therefore no arbitrary will, then one has precisely thereby recognized that the Idea of the good is the eternal a priori which determines the will and first makes it good. Only by virtue of the Idea of the good can one think the good as a predicate. It therefore comes to the same thing whether one makes God, as the good, or the good in itself the principle of the ethical; God is here only a name, the essence is the concept of the good. Yet this name ought to be left out, so that the good shall not merely be seen as a perhaps accidental predicate of a presupposed subject, but can be seen in its absolute independence. Kant's categorical imperative was the manifesto in which ethics proclaimed its freedom and independence to the world. If Kant still reached only the bare necessity of duty, and did not get beyond the elementary doctrine of ethics, Fichte rose to ideas so exalted that positive religion has nothing to set beside them. Fichte's ideas are, it is true, severe, almost superhuman, but ethics is not pedagogy either; it does not accommodate itself to

human weaknesses and needs. The moral spirit has vanished where the Idea of the good is not thought free of all personality and loved and realized for its own sake. —

Feuerbach's chief endeavor here aims at asserting the validity of the Idea. Although he apprehends it not merely as an abstract metaphysical Idea but in a more concrete form, as the ethical Idea, which is the unity of ethics and metaphysics, of will and knowledge, he nevertheless rejects the intrusion of any subjective element. The method rests on the law of subjectivization stated earlier: he seeks to discover the original working of consciousness by which everything else is grounded. Here he then finds that it is the ethical Idea by virtue of which all will is good, whether it is thought as divine or as human will; consequently, he concludes, the ethical Idea is what is original, the good will what is derived. And as regards the Absolute, the motive then falls away for thinking of *[58]* a special subject distinct from the Idea. It is only man who, as a sensuous being, does not coincide with the Idea, but precisely for that reason the Idea appears to him as the ethical law. In this law is contained the true religion, while positive religion has its ground in the fact that the human drive for blessedness will not subordinate itself to the conditions of the Idea.

Through the weight Feuerbach has here laid on the real moment, in both an ethical and a religious respect, his judgment on speculative philosophy was bound to be modified. He still praises it as Hegel's greatness that he investigated the logical and metaphysical fundamental concepts in and for themselves, without presupposing a subject. But he nevertheless declares that the time of systematic speculation is past; what is needed is a critical-genetic philosophy. Immanent speculation is not able to develop real actuality; thought must work this over critically, so as then — genetically — to show its origin and through that its essence.

But that Feuerbach did not rest content with the view he had developed in "Pierre Bayle" — the reason for this must be sought in the indeterminacy with which the relation of the "Idea" to the empirical is conceived, particularly in the respect of the philosophy of religion. Either the Idea is what is original — and Feuerbach must presuppose that here — but how will he then explain the empirical distortions of its essence which he finds in the positive religions? Or else the empirical is what is first, but then a change must take place in the determination of the ideal, since this is no longer valid by itself but is conditioned by the empirical.

These questions furnish the motive for Feuerbach's subsequent works, in which he enters upon a new stage.

b. The transition to this is formed by some smaller treatises in which the fundamental

[59] thoughts already come forward that are dominant in Feuerbach's chief work, "Wesen des Christenthums." Of these treatises we single out in particular "Kritiken des modernen Afterchristenthums" and "Philosophie und Christenthum." None of man's essential faculties — so the line of thought runs here — can go beyond itself and grasp something that is wholly foreign to it. Thinking cannot grasp a thought that is not its own: precisely by grasping it, it would indeed prove that it was in reality its own thought. It is the same with feeling. If feeling were able to go beyond human thought, it would also have to go beyond the essence of man, and so be no human feeling. The philosophy of religion must therefore recognize and treat religion as psychology. The opposition between philosophy and positive religion rests on the opposition between thinking and the heart on the one side and imagination and the life of feeling on the other. The heart is the natural, healthy life of feeling that makes itself one with reason. The life of feeling, on the other hand, is the sick, supernatural heart, which disdains determination and limitation, and for which thinking is only a finite activity, whereas it takes refuge in imagination, which abandons itself to infinity without letting itself be governed by rational and natural laws. The life of feeling and imagination, in faith in an otherworldly, heavenly infinity, lift man out beyond all finite relations, but thereby also dissolve all the bonds of love and humanity.

In "Wesen des Christenthums" these thoughts are developed further in a deep inner unity and coherence. — Man is not driven, like the animal, blindly and immediately by the essence of the species; rather, in consciousness this becomes an object for man. Since the essence as such is infinite, consciousness must also be so. And yet consciousness is won only through the relation to an object, hence through a limitation. But this
[60] object has no significance in and for itself, apart from the force that posits it. Since the essence cannot go beyond itself, the object to which the subject stands in an essential and necessary relation can be nothing other than the subject's own essence, objectively expressed. The object is the subject's manifest I; its power over man is the power of his own essence. The power of the object of reason is reason's own power; the beloved object rules with love's own power. He who thinks the infinite thinks and confirms the infinity of thought; he who feels the infinite feels and confirms the infinity of feeling.

Feuerbach states more precisely the relation of these principles to earlier views in the philosophy of religion, in particular Schleiermacher's and Hegel's. Schleiermacher, this "last theologian of Christianity," had made feeling the religious organ. But if religion is a matter of feeling, then the content of religion becomes indifferent; it becomes *religious* content only by being the object of feeling, and the essence of feeling itself then properly becomes the divine. It was only theological prejudice when Schleiermacher thought he

could find a way from feeling to the objective doctrine of faith. — Hegel, on the other hand, determined religion as the stage of consciousness at which man's knowledge of God became one with God's knowledge of himself. But here again it holds: the organ is one with the object, the means is the essence itself. The knowledge of God is man's self-knowledge; man's knowledge of God is man's knowledge of himself. The mystical relation is a relation to oneself.

The result, then, is: God is man's manifest inner self, his expressed self, the public confession of his secrets of love. Yet this holds only for philosophical consciousness. Religious consciousness is still only man's *indirect* self-consciousness, i.e. in religion man becomes conscious of his own essence as of a foreign essence, first places his essence *[61]* outside himself before he finds it in himself. Historical progress in the history of religion consists in this foreignness being sublated, in self-consciousness recognizing itself more and more in its object. Every advance in a religious respect is therefore a deeper self-knowledge. Yet it is peculiar to every positive religion, even if, like Christianity, it makes man's own essence its content, that this content stands as something external, as something distinct from self-consciousness itself. This imperfection is first removed when one passes over from the sphere of religion into that of philosophy.

It is admitted, to be sure, that the divine attributes, on account of the imperfection of human knowledge, are borrowed from the human essence and transferred to the Godhead; but it is nevertheless held fast that the divine subject itself is not thereby humanized. But that is a distinction which religious consciousness does not make and cannot make. For it God is a real, living being, not that which is in itself without determination and lies behind the attributes. And besides — where is the boundary? If the attributes are anthropomorphisms, then the subject is an anthropomorphism too. If love, goodness and personality are anthropomorphisms, then existence itself is also an anthropomorphic determination. Rather, the case is the reverse; it is the attributes, the predicates, that have validity in themselves, and the subject is only the existing predicate. The real atheist is he for whom the divine predicates, love, wisdom, justice, are nothing, not he who merely abolishes the subject of these predicates. The subject shares the fate of the predicates, not the reverse.

It follows of itself that man, who transfers essential predicates from himself to the Godhead and thereby first properly produces it, cannot go on ascribing the same *[62]* predicates to himself, at least not in the same degree and significance. He must necessarily deny in himself what he posits in his God. Hence the remarkable fact that the more human a being the Godhead becomes, the greater becomes the difference between God

and man. Man plunders himself to enrich his God: the more God comes to resemble man, the less man comes to resemble God. Man denies his knowledge in order to see in God the omniscient one, his blessedness in order to see in God the absolutely blessed one, his good nature in order to see in God the absolutely holy one.

This, however, is still only the one side of the essence of religious consciousness, which one could call the religious arterial system or the religious force of repulsion. Man here thrusts his own essence away from himself and makes it an objective being. The other side is that the force of repulsion is sublated by the opposite force, attraction, that over against the arterial system there stands a venous system, in which the blood flows back to the heart. Religious consciousness does, it is true, raise God infinitely high above itself, but it nevertheless sees itself as the essential object of the divine activity. In the object the essence lies expressed; as that which has man for the object and end of its working, the Godhead is thus after all a human being. The truth of religion consists in its setting man in relation to his own essence; its untruth and limit consist in this essence being apprehended as a foreign, indeed opposed, being — herein lies the source of religious fanaticism, "the metaphysical principle of the bloody human sacrifices."

If religion springs from the essence of man and yet sets up an opposition between God and man, then the germ of this opposition, with which religion begins, must be
[63] demonstrable in man's own essence. This germ lies in the psychological opposition between understanding and heart. The understanding is untouched by the sufferings of the heart, has no drives and passions, no needs, and therefore also no defects and weaknesses, as the heart has. While the heart turns toward the special, the individual, the understanding is the representative of the universal, the pure, passionless light of intelligence. God as the metaphysically and morally perfect being is therefore the objectified essence of the understanding. But over against this man feels himself as the finite and sinful one. The feelings of the heart do not come into their own. Therefore the heart represents to itself, on the foundation of that abstract being of the understanding, which is only the mathematical point of religion, God as infinite love. Thereby man is reconciled with God. The deepest view of divine love even lets God himself become man. The incarnation is the sensuous revelation of God's human nature; God felt the human need.

But this self-doubling is not a harmless illusion. This shows itself in the fact that, although the Godhead is seen as love, love is nevertheless not its essential determination, not valid in and for itself, but is attached to a presupposed divine subject, which as it were lurks in the background of love and is still something by itself apart from love —

"a demonic being whose personality, separable from love and really separated from it, delights in the blood of heretics and unbelievers, the phantom of religious fanaticism." Whence, then, come these pernicious elements, this untruth in the essence of religion?

The relation to God as to another being is partly a natural, involuntary and unconscious relation, partly a conscious and reflected one. The first has its root in the very origin of religion and rests on its essential standpoint, the practical. Man's relation to God is one with the relation to his own salvation: God is himself salvation realized and the unlimited power to realize man's salvation. God as the object of religion — and only *[64]* as such is he God — is the object of the life of feeling, not of reason, an object for practice, not for untroubled theory, for the heart's distress, not for freedom of thought. Reason, the universal, acts on practical man only through the representation of a personal being. In religion the light of spirit is refracted in the medium of imagination and the life of feeling, whereby one and the same being is made intuitable as doubled. About what lies behind this practical consciousness religion does not concern itself. Immediate religious consciousness rests with childlike security in this unity of the divine and human essence. But the more reflection awakens, the more effort is spent on sublating the unity, because one surmises that it might in its consequences lead to sublating the religious object as such. The difference which at the immediate standpoint is only the refraction of one and the same light is now fixed into a dogmatic opposition. This endeavor runs through the so-called proofs of the existence of God. They seek to establish that religion is right when it posits man's essence as something foreign and objective. God's existence is then apprehended here as a special determination that is ascribed to the religious object, and by which this is placed outside consciousness. God is not merely to be in faith, in feeling, in the inwardness of the life of feeling, but to have a being distinct from them and independent of them. But a real being, distinct from thought and independent of it, can only be a sensuous being. Only by ascribing such a being to God can one maintain his existence "outside us." Theology seeks to avoid this by declaring that this "outside" is not to be taken in its literal sense. But in what sense, then? A spiritual being is only a being in thought, not at all outside us. Reflection therefore leads necessarily to atheism, in the sense that God's existence is negated as an external, empirical being independent *[65]* of thought. But the truly divine is, as we have already seen, not this bare and mere existence, but is contained in "the divine attributes." If theology will not take this step, there is nothing else for it to do than to go back to the immediate religious stage of consciousness, which does not distinguish between inner and outer. By the power of imagination, which is the intellectual faculty corresponding to the life of feeling, an

external existence is posited which is nevertheless not external, a sensuous being which is nevertheless not sensuous. This hovering between the sensuous and the non-sensuous is precisely the essence of the power of imagination. Only imagination preserves from atheism.

The anguish and passion with which man, as reflection awakens, holds fast the objective existence of the religious object stand in close connection with the fact that it is not only what is true, universal and justified in man's essence that is made into God, but also what is individual, arbitrary and finite. This two-sided essence of religion Feuerbach finds expressed above all in Christianity's doctrine of the relation between faith and love. Love makes man one with God and determines God as a human God. Faith separates man from God, in that it posits him as distinct from and raised above the humane determinations of essence. This brings it about that love is limited, cannot move freely; God is love, it is true, but love is not God. Love has God within itself, but faith has him outside itself, and in Christianity love is made dependent on faith. In that God is separated from man, one man is separated from another, for God is only man's mystical concept of the species; his separation from man is thus the dissolution of the common bond. Faith is in its essence exclusive: this definite thing you shall believe if you would not lose your salvation. The believer has God for him, the unbeliever has him
[66] against him; faith is goodness, unbelief wickedness and obstinacy. The commandment that one shall love one's enemies does not hold toward God's enemies. Therefore there lies in faith an evil principle: "The flames of hell are only the sparks of the annihilating glance, glowing with wrath, which faith casts on the unbelievers." In the essence of love, on the other hand, lies universality. True love is sufficient to itself and demands no special title or authority. It recognizes virtue in sin itself, truth in error itself. In love the essence of the species is realized in a subjective way, through disposition. It is therefore in itself one with reason, which is the objective reality of the species. In opposition to reason and to the heart, which is akin to it in essence, stands the life of feeling, the self-feeling of individuality as such. Christianity is the contradiction between heart and life of feeling, because it is the contradiction between love and faith: faith comes from the life of feeling, love from the heart. The figure of Christ is the image under which the unity of the species pressed itself upon the consciousness of the people. The essence of the species, which manifests itself in the energy of love, overcomes every particularity, every limit. Where, therefore, the consciousness of the species as species arises, there Christ vanishes, without his true essence perishing.

In this relation between faith and love Feuerbach sees the clearest expression of the

necessity of going beyond the religious. If it is established that theology is anthropology, that God's essence is man's own essence, then it is necessary to let it come to the turning point at which this clear self-consciousness replaces the earlier religious consciousness, foreign to itself. And that not merely for theoretical reasons. For the self-doubling in religious consciousness is not a harmless illusion. In the first place the life of feeling, the real psychological factor and source of religion, is the mind at odds with nature and therefore yearning beyond nature, which can see its wishes satisfied only in a miraculous *[67]* way. In opposition to this it must be maintained that nature belongs to the essence of man and has true, real validity and significance in itself. Next, the ethical must be released from its limits, no longer be derived from faith. The right, the true and the good always have the ground of their holiness in themselves. Ethical relations are in and for themselves religious relations. Life is altogether of a divine nature and needs no special consecration. —

What in this chief work of Feuerbach's particularly attracts attention is the way in which religion is apprehended. In that it is traced back to the life of feeling, the source of unlimited wishes, and is determined as the purely practical standpoint, where fear and hope are the leading motives, the opposition to Hegel's intellectualist apprehension of religion stands out clearly. Feuerbach has himself declared that his doctrine is wrongly regarded as a further development of the Hegelian; it arose precisely out of opposition to it. What for Hegel was the secondary and merely formal, the heart and feeling, into which the objective content of religion descends in order to become man's property, that is for Feuerbach precisely the essential and primitive. He stands closer, on the other hand, to Schleiermacher, who made feeling the religious organ; and while Hegel polemicized against Schleiermacher because the latter took so subjective a point of departure, it is, as already stated, Feuerbach's objection to Schleiermacher that he is not subjective enough, did not carry through his subjective point of departure absolutely.

The advance in relation to the treatise on Bayle consists precisely in the more determinate application of the subjective point of view to positive religion. This is seen, e.g., in the treatment of the concept of miracle. Whereas in "Pierre Bayle" he establishes the nothingness of the miracle by demonstrating its incongruity with the divine essence, *[68]* in "Wesen des Christenthums" he regards it as the supranaturalist satisfaction of a human wish, and applies to it a subjective-ethical, no longer an objective-metaphysical, critique.

The individual life of feeling from which positive religion springs is morbid and unjustified, because it seeks to raise itself above the universal law of essence of reason. The individual is thus still definitely subordinated to the universal. While the life of

feeling sacrifices the species to the individual, reason sacrifices the individual to the species. But the universal is no longer apprehended, as in "Pierre Bayle," under the form of the objective Idea. The Idea is now seen as man's own essence, as the law of the species in man, albeit above man. The universal keeps its reality, only this is transferred from objective being to subjective. Feuerbach declares expressly that in the critique of religion it is necessary to rest on the universal: "only the species is able at once to abolish and to replace religion."

But his restless spirit drove him ever further. By virtue of the method of subjectivization he necessarily had to raise the question whether the *subjective* being of the universal too might not be an illusion, which like theology dissolves into pure anthropology. Thereby the way would then be paved for overcoming the opposition that runs through his earlier writings, the opposition between the universal and the individual. This is the task whose solution Feuerbach seeks at the third stage of his work as an author.

c. Feuerbach himself characterized the stages of his development thus: "God was my first thought, reason my second, man my third and last thought". (Sämmtl. Werke. II p. 410). This last stage, however, he has not yet quite reached in "Wesen des Christenthums",
[69] although he there means to carry through the proposition that theology is anthropology. For he there still upholds reason, the consciousness of the universal essence of the species, as that which is indeed in man, but yet *above* man. There is still a moment of transcendence left in immanence. Feuerbach is to that extent still an idealist, since in determining the essence of man he proceeds from the consciousness of the universal and derives the ethical principle from it.

Yet there is already to be found, in an essay in "Deutsche Jahrbücher" for 1841 (included in the 2nd volume of his works): "Ueber den Anfang der Philosophie, a proclamation of realism. The beginning of philosophical and empirical knowledge is here declared to be one and the same act. Philosophy is not merely to appropriate the results of empirical inquiry; it cannot arrive at reality except by beginning with reality. It must see in empirical activity a philosophical activity, in seeing a thinking, in the organs of sense the organs of philosophy. Psychology is not a special science, but the first general science, which deduces the particular principles from the various relations of the I. To the I, then, belongs the body as well, which as the passivity of the I has not merely a natural-historical or empirical, but also a speculative and metaphysical significance.

What is here intimated is developed further in the work "Grundsätze der Philosophie der Zukunft" (1843) in the following way. The task of modern times was to develop theology into anthropology. This task Protestantism solved from its practical standpoint,

in that it considered only what God was as man and for man; in a rational, theoretical way the task has been solved in modern speculative philosophy, whose consummation is the Hegelian philosophy. The essence of God was here developed in such a way that it became one with the very essence of reason, since the divine determinations of essence ("attributes") proved to be identical with those of reason, and in particular the determinations of essence of speculative reason. Infinity, necessity, immutability, *[70]* eternity belong to the eternal truths and laws of reason, and consequently to reason itself. In reason the thinking and the thought are one. Whereas, therefore, ordinary consciousness distinguishes between God as thinking and as thought by man, these two sides now coincide as identical. The divine thinking is only a represented thinking, which has its reality in the a priori knowledge of speculative philosophy; and if one also thought of God as the one who knew everything sensuous, then this divine knowledge has found its realization in the empirical sciences of modern times.

But in transforming God into reason, modern philosophy let reason itself take on divine attributes. Pantheism is a theological atheism, a negation of theology, but within theology's own domain. This shows itself above all in the abstraction of speculation, which is the theoretical after-effect of medieval asceticism. Hegel has therefore only proved the divinity of the understanding in its opposition to sensuousness, the world, man himself. If the beyond of theology has become a here-and-now, then in return the real world itself has become a beyond.

The new philosophy, the philosophy of the future, must therefore stand in sharp opposition to speculation and first and foremost correct the concept of being. Being is no general concept that can be separated from existing things themselves. Being is one with that which is. When Hegel in the Phenomenology shows that, since every thing is a "this here", the particular is immediately the universal, he has proved nothing but the contradiction between the word, which is universal, and the thing, which is always particular. Beyond this contradiction thought, which must always rely on the word, cannot get. But the question of being is not merely theoretical; it is a practical *[71]* question, "eine Frage auf Tod und Leben". By its opposition to the universal word, being becomes unutterable. Life, the secret of being, begins only where words stop. If, therefore, unutterability is the same as irrationality, then all existence is irrationality, precisely because it is this determinate existence; — but it is not so: existence has in and for itself meaning and reason, although it is unutterable.

The new philosophy thus takes the concrete particular in earnest, which speculative philosophy believed it let come into its own when it took up particularity as a moment

in the concept. Not as a moment of the concept, but as a true and real being, and that is to say: as a sensuous being, is the real to be the object of knowledge. Truth, reality and sensuousness are one. Only through the senses is an object *given.* Being can be apprehended only by being, by existence, by sensing, intuition, feeling, love: "das Sein ist also ein Geheimniss der Anschauung, der Empfindung, der Liebe." Love is passion, and only passion is the mark of existence. Abstract, passionless thinking sublates the difference between being and not-being. Whereas earlier philosophy said: what cannot be thought, is not, the new philosophy says: what cannot be loved, is not. Only what can be loved and worshipped and can thus be an object of religion, only that can also be the object of philosophy.

Everything can be perceived in a sensuous way, if not immediately, then mediately, if not with the crude and vulgar senses, then with the cultivated ones, if not with the eyes of the chemist and the anatomist, then with those of the philosopher. Nor is the sensuous that which lies ready to hand, the thoughtless, which is understood of itself. It is only through a long and difficult cultivation that man is educated to the intuition
[72] of the sensuous; immediately, the beings of imagination, of representation and of the abstract understanding lie far nearer to him. Intuition and thinking must determine each other mutually. Intuition by itself has no principles, and thinking in and for itself does not get beyond logical unity with itself. The movement of thought must be interrupted by sensuous intuition and can therefore not, as Hegel would have it, close itself into "a circle of circles". The symbol of the new philosophy is not a circle, but an ellipse. Yet it is no alien power that determines the movement of thought, for the laws of reality are thought's own laws; thought does not form a state within the state.

The new philosophy makes man its principle of knowledge, not reason. Man is the reality and subject of reason; it is man who thinks, not reason itself. Whereas earlier philosophy said: "only the rational is the true and real", the new philosophy says instead: "only the human is the true and real." But by the human one must not think merely of the understanding. It is not merely by thinking that man distinguishes himself from the animal, but by his whole essence, of which thought is only a single consequence. Since the human, including nature as the basis of man, now becomes the sole object of philosophy, anthropology becomes the universal science.

But the individual man does not have the whole essence of man in himself. Only in the community and unity of one man with another man does the essence of man reveal itself. Only the unity of I and Thou is God. It is this truth that is expressed in the dogma of the Trinity, the truth that no being in and for itself is true and perfect, but that

truth and perfection are only the unity and connection of essential beings. The last and highest principle of philosophy is therefore the unity of man with man. From this unity *[73]* spring all essential relations and the principles of all the various sciences.

Whereas earlier philosophy had a double truth, a theoretical and a practical, in that it set itself up as truth in and for itself in opposition to religion, truth for man, the new philosophy overcomes this opposition: it has not only the same object as religion, but also the essence of religion in itself, is itself the true religion. —

"The new philosophy" is, according to Feuerbach, to be different in essence, toto genere different from the earlier one, and the decisive opposition is to rest on its recognizing sensuousness consciously, which speculation had done only indirectly by seeing the real enclosed as a moment in the highest principle. The dissolution of absolute idealism had of necessity to lead to a point where attention was drawn to the positive elements that had been misjudged and overlooked by speculation. Feuerbach represents precisely the stage in the development where the negative momentum brings the critic face to face with the positive and real. But precisely his negative and critical line of thought, which is itself to a high degree influenced by the theological and speculative opponents it has fought, makes it difficult for him to develop the new elements in a positive way. He has rather beheld the new with enthusiastic, almost tumultuous feeling than clearly and stringently stated fruitful principles for its treatment, rather set up a great demand than contributed to its solution. Add to this that his restless, "dissatisfied spirit could not avoid self-contradictions, since it could not bring itself to clarify logically what it grasped with mystical impetus through the imagination. "His philosophizing remained divination. His " sensuousness" is a new form of absolute thinking, which wholly disregards practical *[74]* experience"[*)].

The principle of knowledge is to be man himself in the whole extent of his essence. Whereas earlier philosophy sought the ultimate grounding of knowledge in the metaphysical Idea of knowledge, which displays its essence through man's psychologically conditioned knowledge, Feuerbach makes psychological-human knowledge one with metaphysical knowledge. The species in its multiplicity is now to possess what was formerly concentrated in the Idea of knowledge. But what reality can Feuerbach ascribe to the species as such? If it cannot gather its multiplicity into a unity, knowledge becomes only an aggregate, whose fragments exist for the representation of each individual, without the whole being able even, as Kant would have it, to become a guiding rule and purpose. In reality there remains only the knowledge of each individual man.

[*)] *Alb. Lange*: Geschichte des Materialismus. p. 284. 306.

And according to Feuerbach the individual man knows only what he has apprehended through sensing. The new philosophy, he says, is with respect to its basis nothing other than sensation raised to consciousness, the heart that has been brought to understanding. The standpoint thus becomes complete sensualism. Feuerbach says that he will lead thinking back to unity with experience; but it becomes in reality a complete dependence on experience. When he says that everything can be apprehended, at least mediately, by sensing, if not by the crude, then by the developed sense, he thereby intimates an intermediate determination which should have prevented the sensualistic consequences; for what distinguishes the cultivated sense from the immediate one is precisely the spiritual work, the energy of thought, whose results deposit themselves immediately in sensuous intuition itself.

[75] The sensuous is to be the sole object of knowledge. But the sensuous is this particular and individual thing, which is unutterable because the word, as the universal, cannot grasp it in its individual determinateness; — and yet it is to possess reason and validity despite this unutterability. — This seems bound to make the "new philosophy" altogether impossible. For it was precisely to raise sensation to consciousness, to bring the heart to understanding, and thus to convert the particular into the universal. When Feuerbach maintains that the individual is rational, although this reason cannot be uttered or comprehended, he posits the paradox. His determinations here form a complete parallel to S. Kierkegaard's determinations of "the single individual" and "the God-man". Just as Kierkegaard, on account of the impossibility of comprehending, declares faith to be a passion, so for Feuerbach too passion is the mark of existence: only that is which is an object of passion. The truth can be grasped only with man's whole essence, not with thought alone. In an aphorism from the same time as the work we are here concerned with, we read: "Science, it is said, does not solve the riddle of life. — Granted; but what follows from that? That you should run over to faith? That would be going from the featherbed into the straw. No, but that you should go over to life, to praxis. The doubts that theory cannot solve, praxis solves for you". (Werke II p. 411). The new philosophy thus itself acknowledges that it cannot give satisfaction in theoretical respects.

In practical respects the new philosophy has made the advance of overcoming the opposition between the scientific and the religious standpoint; it is itself religion, since it aims only at what is the object of passionate sensation and love. Yet a difficulty arises here similar to the one in theoretical respects. Not the individual man, but only the union
[76] of I and Thou is to express the essence of man. What is unclear is whether man seeks this union because the universal essence of the species leads him beyond his individuality, or

because his individuality, passionate and egoistic, finds its satisfaction in the Thou. "My principle," says Feuerbach in an aphorism, "is ego and alter ego, egoism and communism; for the two are inseparable." For love must presuppose the egoism of others as justified. But all this implies is that the individual and the universal *are to* be united, not how they can be one. In "Wesen des Christenthums" the universal was still sole ruler and egoism the root of all evil; now it has taken egoism up as coordinate with itself, without the tension ceasing. In practical as well as in theoretical respects there always remains a sting of contradiction that drives the restless thinker further forward.

Feuerbach soon modified his conception of religion in accordance with "Grundsätze der Philosophie der Zukunft", and in such a way that through this the very principles stated in that essay were developed further and more sharply. "Das Wesen des Glaubens im Sinne Luthers" (1844) is, according to his own declaration in the preface to his collected works, the first work in which the abstract being of reason no longer haunts his head, but in which the sensuous, real essence of nature and of humanity has come into its own, and in which, therefore, what he recognizes as essential in religion is at the same time what is essential for him himself. What is peculiar about this work is that it places the religious at once lower and higher than "Wesen des Christenthums". There he still saw the universal as an essential factor in religion, although it was overwhelmed and distorted by the individual need of the heart. But the essay on Luther determines God as man's satisfied drive for happiness, as the being that realizes human wishes, whose highest potency is the wish for blessedness. It is set down as Luther's peculiarity that he *[77]* did not, with the old doctrine of the Church, lay the main weight on the objective content of dogma, but throughout stressed the subjective moment: "Alles was wir im Glauben erzählen, ist für uns geschehen und kommet uns heim," says Luther. And Feuerbach adds: "Luther erst hat das Geheimniss des christlichen Glaubens ausgeplaudert". Faith in Luther's sense consists in faith in God as a being that essentially stands in relation to man. Luther does indeed make man nothing before God; his doctrine is a hymn to God, a lampoon on man. But God could not be everything for man if man himself were not nothing. Luther is inhuman toward man only because his God is absolutely human. The God whom Luther removes absolutely from man is a God who himself wills the highest that man can will for himself. Faith is therefore in the last instance love of oneself. But even so faith is not condemned, as in "Wesen des Christenthums", as absolute egoism. It is indeed still maintained that only the species can be the standard of the good, if there is to be an absolute, not a relative and egoistic, standard; but on the other hand it is stated that when love is built on faith, which in Feuerbach's view means the same as that love

of others is built on love of oneself, this can have the right meaning that I cannot do good to others if I myself have nothing good, that I must therefore possess in order to be able to impart.

From this one sees, among other things, that it has been wrong to think that it was opposition to the doctrine of religion that later led Feuerbach to embrace egoism as the sole moral principle. He sees self-love more and more as the only active force in religion, and it is the awakening sympathy with this pathological element in human nature that
[78] alters his ethical view. One can trace in Feuerbach's development, running in parallel, a bringing forward of the pathological factor as the source of religion and of egoism as the principle of morality, since, as he himself puts it, what is essential in religion more and more becomes what is essential for him himself.

The earlier writings in the philosophy of religion concerned themselves exclusively with Christianity, the highest form of religion, where the object of faith was a being raised absolutely above nature. The question now arises how the religious consciousness has been able to develop to such a height, how it has acquired the force and the means to posit a supernatural being outside itself. This question Feuerbach answers in the essay "das Wesen der Religion" (1845). He here traces the essence of religion back to the Schleiermacherian determination, the feeling of dependence. That on which man is and feels himself dependent is originally nothing other than nature, which is therefore the proper object of religion. Man feels that he does not owe his existence to himself, and so honors as God what he feels himself dependent on. As high a value as he sets on his existence, so high a value he sets on God. And it is nature that is man's source of life; every good gift comes not from above, but from below, from the depths of nature. The higher presupposes the lower, not the reverse, and the higher a being is, the more it presupposes. The most composite, most dependent being is the highest. The individualized being is a more divine being than the one without individuality; but it is bound to its conditions, ceases with them, just as it begins with them. The foundation of man, eternal nature, persists amid an infinite arising and passing away; it alone cannot be derived from anything higher. God regarded as an objectively real being is himself
[79] nothing other than the essence of nature, which by the aid of abstraction is separated from real, sensuous nature, and by the aid of imagination transformed into a human or humanlike being. God therefore presupposes nature, as the abstract presupposes the concrete. To want to derive nature from God is to want to derive the real essence of nature from its abstract essence, existing only in thought. The reason why such a deduction is constantly demanded and attempted is that thought involuntarily makes

the abstract and universal, which stands nearer to it and is for it the higher, into the presupposition of the concrete and real, although in reality the relation is the reverse.

However high religious faith may raise itself above nature, nature nevertheless remains its proper object. On account of his unfulfilled wishes man feels himself dependent, and the necessary power of nature, which everywhere meets him, now accommodating, now as a barrier, is then apprehended as the free, arbitrary power that grants or denies the object of the wish. Man puts his own life of feeling and of will into nature. This is the first stage, nature religion proper. When man begins to separate his own essence from nature, to see his true life not as an immediate life of nature, but as a human life of society, when he thus raises himself above nature in his understanding and his will, then he also transfers the higher intellectual and moral attributes to the Godhead and thereby separates it more and more from nature. This separation is carried through where, as in Christianity, religious faith springs from the wish for an unlimited blessedness, a wish that wholly leaps over the natural barriers within which the wishes of the heathens moved. The Greeks did not make the divine, i.e. the possible being, the model and standard for the real, but the real being the standard for the possible. But the God of the Christians is transcendent, like their wish. The religion of spirit makes the opposite *[80]* movement to nature religion. The latter makes real beings into represented beings, into beings for the imagination, since it is faith in nature as a human being; the religion of spirit makes represented beings, the objects of thought and imagination, into real beings, since it is faith in the human being as the being of nature.

Here Feuerbach's sympathy with the real foundation of the positive religions comes clearly to light. He now no longer makes the ethical and universal the basis in judging them, but makes nature the standard and demands that the limits set in it be respected. He is thereby led over into a naturalism which in its further development could lead back to his older pantheistic view, if he did not, by the way in which he declares spirit to be something merely derived, an abstraction that has only subjective significance, rather approach a complete materialism. What is interesting in his last writings is now the conflict between this materialistic tendency (a natural consequence of the weight he laid more and more on the real) and the energy with which he holds fast to his anthropological standpoint and thereby to his original ideal point of departure. From these writings[*)] we shall now bring out the main features, partly of his general philosophical, partly in particular of his ethical view and his view in the philosophy of religion, as it takes shape at the close of his activity.

[*)] Die Unsterblichkeitsfrage vom Standpunkte der Anthropologie (1846), Vorlesungen über das Wesen der Religion (1848), Theogonie (1857), Gottheit, Freiheit und Unsterblichkeit (1866).

It is first the conception of the relation between the universal and the individual that
[81] draws attention. The existing being is always only the individual; the kind is only a predicate. But thinking reverses the relation, makes the subject a predicate, the predicate a subject. Thought presents the universal that occurs in all particulars as a thing by itself, and posits as a continuum what is in reality something discrete, life's infinite "many times as an identical "once". The first step to wisdom is to recognize this essential and insuperable opposition between thinking and reality.

Since Feuerbach had earlier put self-consciousness in close connection with the universal essence of the species, which through it became an object for the individual, the conception of consciousness naturally now had to be modified by the altered conception of the universal. The secret of individuality, he says, is the unity of I and not-I, and this unity is also the ground of religion. Without the not-I man would have no religion, since he would then himself be God; without the I, or as an I that did not distinguish itself from the not-I, he would be only a plant or an animal. The deeper man goes into himself, the more he sees the difference between nature and man vanish, the more he recognizes that he is only a conscious unconscious, a not-I that is I. Therefore man is the very deepest and most profound being. But man cannot endure or comprehend his own depth, and therefore splits his essence into an I without a not-I, which he calls God, and a not-I without an I, which he calls nature.

When the universal is only as a predicate of the individual, the conscious only as a predicate of the unconscious, it might seem as if Feuerbach had already overstepped the limit of materialism. And yet he protests against "the extravagant and transcendent materialism" that goes beyond the essence of man in order to explain it from purely external causes (something Feuerbach undeniably approaches himself in his proposition:
[82] "der Mensch ist, was er isst"). He wants to hold fast to "an Archimedean point between materialism and spiritualism", an "immanent materialism" that keeps within the anthropological, and he maintains an immediate unity of soul and body which lets nothing lie between them and leaves no room for any separation or opposition between material and immaterial. This unity he finds concentrated in the brain as punctum saliens, where the body is spirit, spirit body. This indissoluble immediacy is the unassailable property of life, indeed is the very essence of life in opposition to thinking and knowing. In vain does idealism seek, from its theoretical standpoint, to solve the problem of the reality of objective being, while it rejects sensation as something merely subjective. Sensation is indeed subjective, but its ground is objective, and the identity of subject and object reveals itself to us in the feeling of well-being. To that extent religion is right when it

derives the reality of the world not from the understanding, but from the will.

With these determinations Feuerbach has further developed what we designated above as his paradox: the unutterability and incomprehensibility of being. Being is conceived abstractly and individualistically, essence becomes an invisible point that cannot be specified in theory, and the opposition between thought and life leaves only a practical, a religious, solution open. Therefore Feuerbach ends by saying: "Meine Philosophie ist keine Philosophie."

But it is only indirectly that he can be regarded as the progenitor of modern materialism. In his energetic holding fast to the anthropological point of view against transcendent materialism there lies hidden an idealistic principle which he never gives up. On this rests also the decisive opposition between Feuerbach and his contemporary, Auguste Comte in France, with whom he otherwise has much in common, notably in his view of the stages of development of the human spirit. Parallel with Comte's three *[83]* stages: theology — metaphysics — positive knowledge run Feuerbach's three: religion — speculation (pantheism) — anthropology. But Comte's "positive knowledge is precisely what Feuerbach calls transcendent, since it takes its point of departure outside man and explains man's essence purely from external causes[*)].

In "Theogonie" Feuerbach occupies himself anew with the investigation of the origin of religion and carries through, in a multiplicity of turns and examples, taken "from the sources of classical, Hebrew and Christian antiquity", the doctrine already set forth earlier, that man's relation to God is his relation to himself, not in the sense in which this was conceived in "Wesen des Christenthums", as man's relation to his universal essence, to the Idea of the species, but as a relation to his own self-love. Religion is no longer indirect self-consciousness, but indirect self-love. The wish is the theogonic principle: it is the expression of a lack, a barrier, a suffering, but a vehement, a revolutionary expression, a willing that this lack and barrier shall not be. In and with the wish there therefore arises the notion of a God, i.e. a being that is raised above this barrier and can raise man above it. If one would say that not the wish for happiness, but the wish to become good is the ground of religion, then Feuerbach answers that religion with good right grounds virtue precisely on blessedness. Man cannot be good if he is not happy. Purely theoretically one can make happiness dependent on virtue, but in life things go otherwise, where it is feeling, needy, desiring beings that appear. He, therefore, who would make men better must first make them happier. Religion is itself the oldest form *[84]* of culture and has in itself the same purpose as culture, but wants to attain it without

[*)] Cf. on Comte "Nyt dansk Maanedsskrift". 2nd vol. p. 200—208.

using the means.

Here it becomes evident that Feuerbach is in principle at one with religion, as he conceives it. Just as religion does, in his opinion, so he himself now builds the ethical wholly on egoism[*)], and in his vehement polemic against every ethics that does not proceed from it, he can then, from his standpoint, rely on religion as factual testimony for his doctrine, just as he did above on the question of the reality of objective being. How wonderfully has the position not shifted in the course of Feuerbach's development! He began by attacking religion from the standpoint of philosophy; then he fought philosophy because it was only the abstract counter-image of religion; and at last he relies on religion in his polemic against philosophy.

In his "Pierre Bayle" Feuerbach had spoken with enthusiasm of Kant's and Fichte's ethics. Now he rejects it with contempt. Duty cannot be made ground and cause; it is a consequence, an effect, a drive that asserts its right against the lust for domination of another drive. The bad conscience is the angry shadow of a drive that another and
[85] stronger drive has violently put to death or threatened with it. The essential drive, which underlies all other drives, is the drive for happiness, with which the will is one. To will means not to want to suffer. Right and morality are not thereby abolished; they are only set on their natural feet. In his very egoism man has the criterion of what is right or wrong. The thief himself wants his own property to be respected, the murderer his life to be sacred. The contradiction between the criminal's will with regard to himself and his conduct toward others is the inner ground of conscience, of the consciousness of right and wrong. I cannot demand that my property, my egoism, be recognized if I do not recognize that of others. And in any case the egoism of others will surely keep my egoism within the proper limits; even if it is a matter of indifference to me whether I am good or bad, it is not a matter of indifference to the others. The good is what corresponds to the egoism of all men, the evil what satisfies the egoism of some individuals at the expense of others.

In this last proposition, however, a principle is intimated that leads us once again beyond the morality of egoism. "All men" is, namely, only an atomistic expression for what Feuerbach earlier called "the species". With this his utterances in a practical-social direction also agree, which can by no means be grounded on the principle of mere egoism.

[*)] Feuerbach's course of development expresses itself in the following propositions, each superseding the one before: a) "Wesen des Christenthums": the corruption of Christianity shows itself in its building love on faith. b) An aphorism (contemporary with "Phil. d. Zuk."): love of others must recognize their egoism as justified. "Wesen des Glaubens": it can have a correct meaning to derive love from faith (love of others from love of oneself). c) "Theogonie": no virtue without happiness; therefore religion is right, and egoism is the principle of morality.

Occasionally, for example, he pleads the cause of the proletarians. He shows that it is false when it is said that they have nothing and therefore seek to obtain everything; they have, on the contrary, a very great deal, namely human self-respect, the drive to cultivation, and the desire to work. What they demand is that the value of labor shall be recognized, that the worker shall not be regarded as a mere means, but as an independent end that has validity in and for itself. But Feuerbach's practice comes even more into conflict with his theory when, against one-sided political views which hold that everything depends on political and social reforms and improvements in man's *[86]* material conditions, or, as Feuerbach puts it, that the evil sits not in the head or heart of humanity, but in its stomach, when against such views he maintains that there are, after all, many diseases of the stomach that have their ground in the head, and declares that he for his part has made it his particular task to fathom and to cure the diseases of the head and heart of humanity. Likewise he declares that he who is still a slave of prejudices has no right to free himself from material and political oppression. That was also the reason why he abstained from direct participation in the Revolution of 1848; for it sprang from faith in ideas and institutions from which the consciousness of the human race must be freed before there can be any question of practical and political liberation. Feuerbach here demonstrates what is moreover the motive of his whole activity with all its changing standpoints, an interest in truth and spiritual freedom which can by no means be derived from egoism.

Thus even at this last point, to which we can follow Feuerbach, we find ourselves placed between two-sided impressions. This remarkable figure does not let itself be caught in any determinate form; he is always in contradiction with himself and therefore always engaged in developing, never finished. He wrestles with the problems, but never says the last word and really ends by declaring their solution impossible. Having originally set out from absolute idealism, he has caught sight of the significance of realism and now cannot find the necessary intermediate determinations, but gives himself over to it with immediate enthusiasm and without wholly giving up the presuppositions of his former standpoint. When he says, e.g., that the particular is unutterable, it is Hegel's own proposition from the Phenomenology that he adopts, only that he declares it to be the positive expression of true being, which Hegel saw precisely as something negative, *[87]* as an expression of not-being. Therefore Feuerbach has only got as far as becoming the prophet and mystic of realism.

Feuerbach's chief merit lies in the domain of the philosophy of religion and of psychology. Here his expositions are of epoch-making significance for the explanation

of the origin of religions in the human spirit. But there is nevertheless this defect in Feuerbach's psychological investigations, that they do not lead beyond the concrete and empirical; his strength is what he calls dramatic psychology, i.e. psychology in close connection with the objects in which the human soul reveals itself in its totality. A deeper grounding of these concrete movements, which Feuerbach for the rest depicts with such great mastery, he cuts himself off from giving by the very fact that he makes psychology or anthropology itself the fundamental science. The anthropological standpoint does indeed prevent him from stopping at a pure sensualism or materialism, but only by making his doctrine wholly subjectivistic in the last instance. To this he has come through the method of subjectivization: reason is the subject of God, and man is the subject of reason. But what significance these subjective forms have in themselves and in existence as a whole is not investigated.

This empirical and subjectivistic individualism of Feuerbach's prevents him from gaining a really historical view. The historical rests on the interaction between the universal, the objective purposes and ideas, and the concrete, individual beings who seek to appropriate them and to realize them in themselves and outside themselves. But one of these factors is lacking in Feuerbach. He is content with the psychological How and does not concern himself with the metaphysical and historical What. In this he forms a
[88] complete opposition to Hegel, who in history takes account only of the universal ideas, while the acting individual and the whole psychological consideration are indifferent and worthless to him. Yet Hegel's view stands nearer to history to this extent, that it is able to appropriate history's content in its inner richness and diversity, whereas Feuerbach is bound to one and the same circle of concepts, since the psychological factors are essentially the same at every point of history. Thus for him all positive religions become at bottom one and the same being, whose inner differences become insignificant, because, in view of the pathological element in the essence of religion, he overlooks the other important elements in it, which point beyond the purely individual drive of the subject and show that through these forms of spirit too something higher works its way forward. Thus he lets neither the rational element nor the element of resignation in religion come into its own. And this has a harmful influence not only on his conception of the historical religions, but also on his conception of the very essence of man as this displays itself through them.

Feuerbach has himself demonstrated the truth of his individualistic principle by stamping his view and his writings with the peculiar mark of his own individuality. To agree with him one would therefore really have to resemble him in psychological

respects as well, and it is not surprising if objective criticism must raise many objections against him. But still we part from him with the conviction that we have been occupied with one of the few really original thinkers after Hegel. —

6. *Max Stirner.* — Feuerbach had driven the opposition to speculative philosophy so far that he at last declared the true philosophy to be no philosophy at all. And yet there is more speculation in him than he himself will admit. What speculative thought seeks at *[89]* all times, the unity in the oppositions of existence, that is also Feuerbach's task, although he sometimes in paradoxical fashion cuts off the possibility of its solution. And even when he does this, he expressly holds fast to the terms of the opposition, if in one-sided form; it is only the expression of their unity and connection that he despairs of finding.

If formal consistency could be the standard in judging philosophical views, Feuerbach contains contradictions enough. And these contradictions appear all the more glaring the more he takes occasion, from the real and supposed contradictions he discovers in earlier views, for passionate, often scornful attacks, and the more he himself believes he has opened the entrance to a wholly new knowledge, "toto genere" different from the earlier one. To that extent it is a just nemesis when the weapon he himself so passionately turned against others is also turned against himself, when he, who believed himself the most radical revolutionary, now, like the parties succeeding one another in the French Revolution, is himself outstripped by still more extreme views, by which he is placed outright alongside the old world-view he believed he had overthrown. But even so the real philosophical movement stops with Feuerbach. The formal consistency, which at last appears even merely in the form of experiment, cannot deserve the name of philosophical thinking, although it has its philosophical interest to see how absolute idealism at last ends in pure formalism.

The work "Der Einzige und sein Eigenthum" (1845) by the pseudonymous Max Stirner (Dr. Schmidt, known as an author on social economy, who died in Berlin at the beginning of the sixties) was for the 19th century what Helvetius's book "de l'esprit" was for the 18th: the most ruthless and unreserved proclamation of egoism as the only real and *[90]* justified motive for action. But whereas Helvetius relies on materialism, Stirner is an idealist to the extent that he carries the Feuerbachian method of subjectivization beyond the point where Feuerbach himself stopped[*)].

The child is a realist, the youth an idealist and the man an egoist. It goes the same way with the history of humanity as a whole. The ancients saw the truth in the world

[*)] Stirner does indeed direct his polemic chiefly against "Wesen des Christenthums", but his objections also strike those writings of Feuerbach that belong to his third stage, and some of which had already appeared when Stirner's book came out.

and let their own I bow to the conditions of the world, which, however, their striving aimed to subdue and dissolve. The consummation of this dissolution is Christianity, where the world is a nothing, spirit the only truth. In modern times the movement aims at dissolving the truth of spirit. As the world was for the ancients, so spirit is for the moderns "eine Wahrheit, hinter deren Unwahrheit sie zu kommen suchen und endlich wirklick kommen." This dissolution has approached its consummation in the latest philosophy, where God is recognized as man's own essence. But also only approached its consummation. For even Feuerbach and Bruno Bauer still stand at bottom on the theological standpoint. For what is the use of Feuerbach's saying that the beyond is only our own essence, when he then makes our own essence into God and sets it in such opposition to us that it becomes a new beyond, a new heaven within us? We are not that which is in us, any more than we are that which is outside us. Feuerbach splits us into an essential and an inessential I and thereby pushes us back into dualism. God remains God,
[91] even if one drives him out of heaven and shuts him up in the human breast. Feuerbach therefore really represents the last convulsive effort to hold fast to Christianity; he is what he himself said Schleiermacher was, the last theologian of Christianity.

The last step, the complete sublation of transcendence, has not yet been taken so long as a universal is still recognized over which the individual does not dispose as his property. Everything holy is something alien. If you believe in the truth, you are of course the servant of the truth, do not belong to yourself. The universal purposes lay claim to me for their own sake, are thus egoists; but is my egoism not just as justified? Let us then reverse the relation and make the universal our servant! Political liberalism works for freedom and right, social liberalism (communism) for society; but freedom, right and society are only chimeras. I do everything for my own sake. Only I myself determine what shall belong to me. Help yourself! War of all against all is the watchword. Those who talk of love are possessed, have a screw loose. For love makes me dependent, I am possessed as much as I possess; the object of love cannot be absolutely one with me.

When every authority both within and without, in heaven and on earth, has been felled, and "the Unique One, by transforming everything into "his property", has himself become the only reality, it is understandable that he can hurl out a proposition such as this: "Ich begehe getrost die Sünde wider den heiligen Geist!" The movement is consummated; "the Unique One" has seen through the untruth of spirit.

Therefore a critique hardly seems possible here either; for when the truth is his property, he cannot be bound by any universal principle. With good reason Stirner's
[92] book has been called the most radical ever written. It is radical also in the sense that it

seems to want to tear up truth by the roots, so that truth shall not be used as a weapon against it.

Yet Max Stirner humorously gives himself a practical denial by putting the following dedication at the front of the book: "Meinem Liebchen, Marie Dähnhardt." It shows that even if the egoistic standpoint can formally be carried through in theory, it is nevertheless impossible in practice.

A theoretical exposure Stirner next gives himself by constantly presenting egoism as a new morality, a new truth, which is to replace the old. That looks strange at the very moment when all truth is to have been rooted out! But that is also why even Stirner could still manage to be counted among the Right.

7. "*Das Verstandesthum und das Individuum*". (1846). The author of this anonymous work was, according to some, a clergyman from Köthen by the name of Karl Schmidt, who wished to show to what results the "critical consciousness" must finally come once it has given itself over to the demonic power of formal consistency. After showing, by extracts from the writings of the various critics, with what rushing speed Strauss, Feuerbach, the brothers Bauer and Max Stirner replace and overthrow one another in turn, the critical movement is taken up at the last-named author, who himself sets up an ideal at the moment when he believes he has overthrown all ideals. A world of egoists is now to be the perfect world. But then Stirner is no longer "der Einzige"; he is one of many, not the absolute individual. Everything that ends in — ist is not individual.

Against Max Stirner's "Einzige" is then set the individual, the absolute individual, which is free of every remnant of the rule of the understanding. But the individual finds itself existing in a double world, a physical and a psychical, a world of nature and a world of spirit. The first question is then how the individual stands toward these worlds.

In reality only the particular exists. Nature as a whole is a figment of thought, which *[93]* arises from natural scientists seeing every particular in connection and bringing it under universal laws; thereby they become dogmatists. "The Individual", on the other hand, does not think the particulars, the atoms; thereby it would make them universal; — it intuits them, stares at them, and by this staring at the particular lets the world, the whole and the connection pass away.

Spirit is the faded, the anemic individual, the dull gray in gray instead of the motley multiplicity of reality. In "the realm of spirit" only the universal powers count, not the individual. "The Individual", on the other hand, sees all the institutions and forms of the human world only as the crystallized representations of men, their fixed ideas; therefore they have no validity for it. Yet it goes along with these forms, that is to say, plays with

them, enjoys them, as long as it pleases. The dissolution of spirit means the dissolution of all earnestness of life, all passions, all enthusiasm, all pathos.

But what, then, is the individual itself? It cannot be uttered, since language can express only the universal. The individual can be designated only by gesture, by pointing. The individual is incommensurable, has no other measure than itself. The individual is nothing and is everything; it is a Proteus that constantly changes shape. It constantly breaks with its past and yet makes no progress. In such and countless other turns one could characterize "the Individual", and yet one would not come nearer to the matter. The characterization must constantly be revoked and corrected — and at last "the Individual" nonetheless mockingly breaks off the whole endeavor with the words: "Ich bin ich selbst allein!" —

German speculation, which began with the I as a monad, out of which the infinite
[94] content of existence developed, thus ends in the I as the absolute atom, which makes every determination, every content impossible. But the final consequences here are, to be sure, of such a nature that they could be reached only by way of thought-experiment.

CHAPTER THREE.

The reasons for the emergence of materialism in our time, and for the great following it has found, are of various kinds, partly negative, partly positive. The magnificent philosophical enthusiasm that had carried the movement beyond its true limits was bound to bring with it partly a slackening, partly a reaction, which turned skeptically and polemically against every properly philosophical attempt. Philosophy here only shares the fate of the other spiritual powers, which in the middle of the century seem to lie dormant after the vigorous life of its beginning. The age threw itself with all its energy into the currents of outward life and for the time being turned its back on the theoretical and aesthetic ideals with which the preceding generation had been inspired. In its recklessness it even seems to turn its back on the ethical ideals as well. In any case it does not, like its predecessor, satisfy the religious need by the way of inner, free thinking and experience; here too it wants to be "practical," and from this it is understood that the most outward literalism shares dominion in the consciousness of the multitude with materialism.

But philosophy itself, too, had through the self-dissolution of absolute idealism come to such an extreme that materialism could seem the only possibility that still stood
[95] open. Step by step the universal, the Idea, had lost ground, and the real particular had stepped into the foreground. At last this stood as an indissoluble atom, while thought

was dissolved into a nothing. What was there then to do but to take one's point of departure in the real atoms and in their composition to find a substitute for the lost Idea?

The materialists often appeal to Feuerbach. He had sought to show that man in religion and speculation only carries the forms of his own essence over into the objective, forms it after himself. Therefore, the materialists conclude, it cannot be thought, reason, that rules in existence. Thought arises in man only as the product of material causes. Feuerbach held fast to human thought as the only possible standpoint that could not in turn be derived from without; but materialism, which he therefore describes as transcendent and extravagant, breaks this magic circle and presupposes matter as the factual substrate from which thought is derived. The materialists appeal to Strauss as well, in that from his pantheism they eliminate the ideal factor, so that only the material substance remains, which bears everything and underlies everything.

Yet the materialists will not put up with being derived from the earlier philosophical movement. Their doctrine is to be the necessary result of the magnificent upswing and progress of exact empirical science in our century. Trusting in this, they make short work of the whole of earlier philosophy. So much must be granted, that the dominion of empirical science and of practical interests is perhaps the most important cause of the emergence of materialism, just as most of its spokesmen are natural scientists, even if they have acquired a quasi-philosophical education. But it is another matter whether materialism really is the true consequence of exact empirical science, or whether the connection between the two is not merely apparent and accidental. This the following *[96]* account must decide. In any case it is only the great results of the intervening scientific development, not distinctive and new thoughts, that produce any contrast between the materialism of the 18th and that of the 19th century. "If materialism in our time did not gain a peculiar interest through the excessive false enthusiasm for a truly great circle of scientific education, whose results and analogies it misuses in the most frivolous manner, we would not need to occupy ourselves with it here"[*)].

Nevertheless it is of great theoretical and practical interest to get one's bearings with regard to modern materialism. When on all sides people agree on the recognition that philosophy must appropriate the real foundation, as exact empirical science demonstrates it, that it must once more descend from the heaven of the Idea to the real world, then modern materialism only pronounces the one-sided consequence of this, in that it lets philosophy be absorbed into the supposed consequences of the special sciences. Materialism is the irrational, unphilosophical restoration of reality; it represents the

[*)] H. *Lotze*: Medicinische Psychologie. p. 30.

extreme left in the efforts toward a philosophy of the future. — Materialism has at the same time a popular, democratic tendency, in contrast to the spiritual aristocracy of earlier science. This striving after the popular goes so far that Büchner in the preface to his book "Kraft und Stoff" as good as declares that philosophical expositions that cannot be understood by every educated person are not worth the printer's ink; philosophy is to
[97] be "geistiges Gemeingut"[**)]. Carl Vogt travels about as a missionary of materialism and gives popular lectures, even appearing in the churches for lack of other premises. And this democratic direction of materialism stands in connection with its whole practical tendency. It regards itself as the possessor of the solution of the social and political problems, in that it means to take hold of the matter from below and thereby accomplish what the highest ethical and religious ideas have not been able to do. To the philosophical interest the interest of cultural history is here closely joined. —

With regard to materialism in our century it is worth noticing that the two most important clashes in the materialist controversy took place between parties who all stood on the ground of the special sciences but disagreed about how the final consequences were to be drawn. This shows at once how matters stand with materialism's claim to be the true consequence of the special sciences. — The famous chemist Justus Liebig had in his "Chemiske Breve" declared that natural science, far from cutting off the way to the knowledge of the highest ideas, was on the contrary itself a link in the chain that leads to them. Jakob Moleschott, whose well-known proposition "Ohne Phosphor kein Gedanke!" Liebig had particularly attacked, answered him in his book "Der Kreislauf des Lebens" (1852), where he recklessly held fast to the materialist doctrines. The same year in which this book appeared, another controversy had already broken out, between Rudolph Wagner in Göttingen and Carl Vogt in Geneva. Yet this reached its high point only some years later, when Wagner at a meeting of natural scientists in Göttingen set forth as the content of his confession of faith an ethereal soul-substance that did not
[98] die with the body, a faith in which he saw the biblical doctrine of the soul expressed, but which he thought he could hold fast only by absolutely separating his faith from his knowledge. He therefore declares himself an adherent of a collier's faith as soon as one goes beyond the domain of exact science: "In Sachen des Glaubens liebe ich den schlichten, einfachen Köhlerglauben am meisten." Against this Vogt came forward with his crushing polemic "Köhlerglaube und Wissenschaft" (1855). Vogt is a spirit who in his own domain has not a little in common with Feuerbach. Here is the same impetus,

[**)] Büchner, to be sure, cannot himself have fulfilled this demand, since immediately afterwards he
[97] reproaches his opponents with not having understood, for lack of scientific insight, the inner core of his view. To be consistent he should have accused them of lack of education.

the same reckless cynicism in thought and expression. But as far as thinking proper is concerned, the difference is considerable indeed; beside Feuerbach's fine, penetrating analyses, Vogt's expositions look rather bearish. What is most appealing in him is his hearty humor, which did not leave him even after he, as "Reichsregent" in 1848, suffered shipwreck of his ideal dreams. Before that time, he said later, he had indeed doubted the perfection of man, but had nonetheless regarded him as the most perfect animal; but in Frankfurt he had lost this faith too.

What made Moleschott's and Vogt's position relatively easy was that their opponents were not clear about the form in which the cause of the ideal is to be defended. Liebig speaks in a vague and confused way of knowledge and revelation, so that one does not see whether it is the free knowledge of the ideal or the positive doctrine of the Church that he wants to assert. Naturally Moleschott at once avails himself of this to present him as the apologist of a medieval dogmatics. Still more unclear is Rudolph Wagner. His "collier's faith" proves on closer inspection to be a whole scholastic system, composed of biblical doctrine, from which he in particular asserts the doctrine of the descent of all men from Adam and Eve as necessary to salvation, and of the fantastic assumption of *[99]* an immortal soul-substance that moves the fibers of the brain as the musician moves those of the pianoforte, and propagates itself by division from parents to children. It is no wonder that not only a materialist like Carl Vogt, but also natural scientists like Virchow and philosophers like Lotze, Zeller and Weisse had to protest against such a doctrine. But this unclarity has been to the detriment of what the controversy yielded.

Besides Moleschott and Vogt we must further single out two principal materialist writers, Louis Büchner and Heinrich Czolbe. What gives them particular interest is that in materialism — strange as it sounds — they really seek the satisfaction of a spiritual need. They are led by a philosophical and ethical interest. In particular, Czolbe stands in contrast to the other materialists in that he comes to materialism by way of deduction, a contrast that is well suited to orient us with regard to the true peculiarity of modern materialism; for which reason we will divide our account into two parts, empirical and speculative materialism.

I. *Empirical Materialism.* — None of the materialists takes his stand so resolutely on the standpoint of the bare special science, and from it pronounces absolute judgments on the great problems of existence, as *Carl Vogt.* He himself describes his standpoint as a physiological and natural-historical one. Physiology has solved its task when it shows which is the organ of thought, how it comes into function, and on which conditions this function depends. The natural history of the human race has nothing to do with the

essence of man as this can be determined conceptually, but examines the millions of human beings who are spread over the earth, and investigates their peculiarities, and that back to a time "when man has left us hardly more traces of his existence than any other
[100] wild animal that inhabited the same region." If one then asks about the determination of man's relation to the animals, only the anatomical and physiological characteristics come into consideration; all other considerations are indifferent[*)].

On such a standpoint the special science must necessarily place itself if it is to be able to carry through its exact method. This always presupposes a certain abstraction; the phenomenon must be isolated, drawn out of its living, many-sided reality, in order to be checked from a single definite side. Here, at the beginning of the special science, we therefore also come up at once against its limit. If it is only the anatomical characteristics that come into consideration, then it is also precisely only as an anatomical being that man has been considered, and one cannot without further ado make this consideration the absolute one. But against such a limitation Carl Vogt now protests most decidedly; he wants immediately to make physiology the absolute science.

Geoffroy St. Hilaire and Quatrefages held that one must, in the natural-historical consideration of man, also take account of the intellectual, the moral and the religious, which make up precisely what is distinctively human, and, relying on this, they set up a separate human kingdom in contrast to the animal and plant kingdoms. Vogt is not content to reject this from a purely natural-historical point of view. He undertakes to show that in the spiritual elements that the French researchers emphasize there lies nothing peculiar to man. When one ascribes religiousness to man, this is supposed to mean only that man forms certain notions of the phenomena whose ground he cannot
[101] grasp, while the animal, owing to its lesser spiritual endowment, does not feel prompted at all to think about the ground of such phenomena. Yet in this way Vogt would easily come to set a greater opposition between man and animal than agrees with his view; he therefore explains the actual origin of the religious from fear of the unknown, which is regarded as something supernatural, and this fear, which in man becomes fear of God and produces religion, the animal too is supposed to possess. Thus the dog and others of our "intelligent domestic animals" feel fear of ghosts just as well as the Breton or the Basque. Nor is the moral supposed to be anything peculiar to man, since the disposition to it already shows itself in the animals, especially those that live in societies; moreover the concepts of good and evil are relative, depending on differing culture, on the needs of society and on the mutual relations of individuals. The psychology of materialism

[*)] See, besides "Köhlerglaube und Wissenschafft" (1855), the lectures "über den Menschen, seine Stellung in der Schöpfung und in der Geschichte der Erde" (1863).

thus reduces itself to what man has in common with the animal.

Into Vogt's physiological and anatomical investigations we cannot go deeply here. It is sufficient to bring out the way in which he seeks to state his results precisely. The brain, it is said, is the organ of all the various so-called functions of the soul; these functions are bound to certain parts and places in the brain and can be exercised only by this organ. Even if, though reluctantly, he must grant Virchow that it is impossible to explain the fact of consciousness in terms of natural science, he nonetheless thinks that one will be able to succeed in pointing out with determinateness the ganglion cells by whose stimulation this or that special sensation is aroused. That consciousness cannot come about without ganglion cells can be proved; *how* it arises in them cannot be said; but it stands firm that function and organ depend on each other and are indissolubly bound up with each other. The function must therefore also be dependent on the material state of the organ and suffer under its changes.

[102] It is clear that here only a relation of dependence, of conditioning, has been demonstrated. Because two moments condition each other, the one need not be produced by the other. There may well be a qualitative difference present (which naturally must not be confused with absolute heterogeneity). The relation between the homogeneous and the heterogeneous in the two moments one will find by bringing out not only the points where the conditioning is absolute, but also those where it proves to be relative, each moment acting in its own peculiar way. The qualitative difference that remains then points toward a third, more comprehensive element from which both those moments spring. Here, then, when we apply this to the example before us, the insufficiency of the psychological consideration becomes evident just as much as that of the physiological. Only a metaphysical investigation can fix the relation between spirit and matter. The materialists can interpret the results of physiology in their favor only by presupposing as given that spirit is merely the product of matter. It is their tragic fate that they, who shun metaphysics like the plague, only manage to start from the purely crass and crude metaphysics. The metaphysical simply cannot be excluded.

The polemic of Vogt and those of his opinion is in the highest degree influenced by the very opponents they combat. Their hereditary enemy is dualism, which posits an external separation, an alien relation between soul and body, and this enemy they discover in every conception that will not with them derive spirit from matter. Thus Rudolph Wagner has produced much confusion by his doctrine of the soul-substance and of the special organ of faith. He is an opponent after the materialists' own heart, for he takes things just as externally and immediately as they do themselves. Against

such views they are in the right; but in the intoxication of victory they let themselves be
[103] carried further and think that by the proof of the conditioning of spirit by the material they have shown the latter to be the complete cause of the former. —

While Vogt goes straight from zoology to the decision of the main problems, we find in *Moleschott* attempts to give a deeper grounding through a kind of theory of knowledge and metaphysics. In him one notices the influence of Spinoza, Hegel and Feuerbach from his earlier studies. Philosophy is, in his conception, the spiritual expression of the sum of observations that sensuous perception has gained at a given time. To philosophize is to think. Thinking consists in the working up of sensuous observation. Philosophy and experience are mutually to merge into each other, so that intuition is thought and the understanding intuits with consciousness. One seems to hear a Schellingian here. But it soon becomes apparent that the unity of the ideal and the real element in knowledge is one-sided: the right of thought derives, as Moleschott puts it, only from the grace of the senses. Thinking arises from observation, and observation is perception of the impressions of moving matter on our nerves and through them on the brain. The thinking human being is therefore the sum of his senses, consciousness a property of matter. What is known is only the properties of things, but the sum of these properties revealed to the senses makes up the essence of things, just as the sum of the senses made up thought. The tree in and for itself is not different from the tree as it is perceived; for the tree is only insofar as it is perceived. Without a relation to the eye, into which it sends rays of light, the tree does not exist. All being is a being through properties, and every property consists in a relation.

These propositions contain several problems, which Moleschott, however, passes over without more ado. In particular he does not notice how he himself has pressed in a
[104] sting of skepticism that must make all materialism impossible. If the external is only by being mirrored in the internal, what assurance can one then have of the reality of external actuality, let alone that one should be able to posit the movements of the external as the cause of the internal? Moleschott answers that, in consequence of Feuerbach's doctrine, the concept of force, and with it every concept of activity, must be understood only as an anthropomorphism without objective significance. But then the same must hold of the concept of matter, the concept on which Moleschott builds his whole doctrine.

The doctrine of the circulation of matter is, namely, according to Moleschott, the new world-view of which the Encyclopedists in the 18th century were only the enthusiastic forerunners; it is the hinge on which the philosophy of the present turns. Modern chemistry has weighed the tooth of time. It has discovered that matter is immortal, never

perishes, but is only converted into other and yet other forms. Between the organic and the inorganic world, between plants and animals, matter circulates in unending motion. E.g.: "The miner who in the Wetterau or in Estremadura digs for phosphate of lime seeks more than gold; he digs for wheat, for human beings. The miner raises the treasure of the spirit that the farmer puts into circulation, giving the wheel of time its first push. The miner, who in the sweat of his brow and at the risk of his life wins his livelihood by struggle, does not know whether perhaps the matter for the finest head is not slipping through his hands. He perhaps sets centuries in motion by his hidden labor." Therefore, says Moleschott, one does not name the circulation of matter without a certain awe. For just as trade is the soul of intercourse, so the eternal circulation of matter is the soul of the world. On the relation to this circulation the peculiarity of the different beings depends. Matter underlies everything, goes through everything. What then is the general concept of matter? It is found by abstracting from all the properties by which one matter differs from another. There then remain three common and decisive *[105]* properties: weight, the filling of space, and force or the capacity for motion. Force is thus only a property of matter. This holds, as we have already seen, also of the highest force, consciousness. Matter governs everything, man too: do spices not promote digestion, do onion and vanilla not arouse sensuous drives, do wine, coffee and tea not rule the "mood of the brain"?

In this determination of the concept Moleschott has not carried the abstraction through. For it is clear that of the three properties in which, according to his doctrine, the essence of matter is to express itself, two, weight and the filling of space, fall under the third, the general determination of force. Modern physics also leads to conceiving matter as concentrated force. But this points us in a quite different direction from materialism.

From his doctrine of the eternal circulation of matter Moleschott now derives peculiar practical consequences. Just as man as a whole is determined from first to last by the influence of matter, so too the will is only the necessary expression of a state in the brain called forth by external influences. The concepts of good and evil and the concept of right arise from the needs of society. The right to punish is grounded in the need for self-preservation. From this unconditional determinism Moleschott derives a mood of mildness and reconciliation toward the criminal, in accordance with Mme. de Staël's words: tout comprendre, ce serait tout pardonner, words that in his opinion ought to stand at the head of the gospel of modern times, just as the commandment of love of one's neighbor is the core of Christian morality. Yet Moleschott himself forgets this "golden word" in the face of the Hessian Chamber of Deputies, which to his indignation

[106] rejected a motion for the abolition of the death penalty. Another materialist writer, H. Czolbe, has seen this inconsistency and declares that Moleschott's "soft heart" has here run away with him. Yet this does not bring Moleschott out of the optimistic joy in existence that he derives from his materialist determinism: "With matter life circulates through all parts of the world, with life thought, with thought the will that is good by natural necessity. In spite of all its evils the earth is and remains a paradise after all."

Although individual beings merely emerge in the unending circulation of matter only to sink back into it again, man's activity nonetheless acquires a special significance in that, guided by chemical, physical and physiological knowledge, it can economize on matter by leading it along paths and through combinations where it can exert the highest effect by the shortest route. By the right mixture of carbonic acid, ammonia etc. we work toward the highest development of humanity. The natural scientist is the Prometheus of our time, chemistry the central science. The solution of the great social questions of our time lies in the hand of the natural scientist; for poverty is immediately only a lack of matter, and since the doctrine of the circulation of matter assures us that there is enough matter in nature, science must some day get so far that it teaches a distribution of matter by which poverty becomes impossible.

What interests us in this ethics, built on "ein stoffliches Glaubensbekenntniss," is to see how materialism here, as on so many other points, goes beyond itself in seeking to draw its final consequences. Moleschott involuntarily comes to set "a holy task, a purpose that is to be realized by means of the laws according to which the movements of matter are governed." But here it is then thought and law that are the governing factor, and the absolute relation of dependence on matter is broken. Moleschott will
[107] no doubt reply to this that the activity of thought is only a side track, onto which the movement of matter as it were turns, in order to return again with greater intensity. But already in this lies a self-surrender of materialism. For the concept of matter, under materialist presuppositions, makes impossible a circulation in any other sense than the mere external succession of various mutually alternating forms. As soon as a purpose is to be developed through this circulation, a concentrated unity has been posited which is different from matter as such, and to which matter stands in a serving relation. —

The most popular of the materialist writers is Louis Büchner, whose book "Kraft und Stoff. Empirisch-naturphilosophische Studien" has been translated into English, French and Spanish and has gone through some ten German and French editions. Nevertheless this book is very superficial, but it interests by Büchner's lively, though often rather naive, enthusiasm for the cause.

We find here first a striving after a sharp conception of the nature of experience. Büchner teaches that scientific research at last comes up against a natural limit, which lies in man's very faculty of knowledge. We can form no notion of, nor have any knowledge of, the Absolute, i.e. of what goes beyond the sensuous world. All our knowledge and representing is only relative and rests on a mutual comparison of things. Therefore it does not attain to an explanation of the inner relation between spirit and matter either. Büchner declares repeatedly that what he wants to demonstrate is only the necessary and indissoluble relation between spirit and matter, force and matter, not the how of this relation. But although the relation between spirit and matter cannot, in his opinion, be developed positively from the standpoint of natural science, it can nonetheless be determined negatively, that is, empirical inquiry cuts off the possibility of a transcendent, dualistic relation, in that it shows matter to be the necessary condition of spirit.

[108]

These propositions correctly characterize the standpoint of empirical science. By holding fast to them Büchner would not have become a materialist either. But unfortunately he contradicts them in the same breath in which he puts them forward. Already in the preface he finds in the shipwreck of speculative philosophy of nature the clearest proof that the world is not the realization of a thought, but a complex of things and facts. In a similarly dogmatic manner he calls the relation between spirit and nature (which he himself has declared inexplicable) a causal relation, and understands by this that it is matter that is the cause, spirit that is the effect. But the unclarity comes out most strongly in the relation between force and matter in general. He starts from the Moleschottian proposition: without matter no force, without force no matter, and like Moleschott he understands this proposition more precisely to mean that force is a property of matter. The untenability of this assertion we have seen above. When Büchner became aware of the physicists', in particular Helmholtz's, investigations into the conservation of force, he inserted into the 5th edition of his book a chapter on "the immortality of force," in which the circulation of force is placed as a necessary correlate beside the circulation of matter, so that "both together from eternity and to eternity form the sum of phenomena that we call the world." He does not consider that he has hereby passed over into a complete dualism between two parallel circulations, but calmly returns to his presupposition: "In matter dwell all natural and spiritual forces; matter is the primal ground of all being." And yet he holds fast that all force is immaterial: "We have defined force as a property of matter and have seen that the two are inseparable; yet the two lie *according to the concept* far apart from each other, indeed in a certain sense negate each other. At least we do not know how one would define spirit and force otherwise than as something immaterial,

[109] which in itself excludes matter and is opposed to it." — But how can something that in itself excludes matter be a property of it?

Just as the immaterial force is nonetheless to be a property of matter, so the immaterial soul is to be a product of matter. Büchner refers here in particular to successive development. Ideas arise through man's perceiving what is common to things in the external world, forming from it an ideal shape, and finally attributing to this the predicate of the true, the beautiful or the good. But this constantly presupposes the main thing: the very infinitizing, idealizing faculty of forming such a shape. By presupposing it one presupposes precisely what was to be explained. Because art borrows its single features from nature, the ideal does not therefore rest merely on a combination of these single features. Because, e.g., the Japanese consider black teeth a beauty, while it seems to them abominable to have white teeth "like a dog," the aesthetic ideal is not therefore something purely accidental and external.

In Büchner the different directions are thus refracted. He belongs to materialism by principle, but involuntarily the true conception stirs in him, and he thus comes into contradiction with himself. If this refraction and self-contradiction is now thought through to the end, while materialism is nonetheless held fast, then one comes to a point where one no longer starts from experience, but from the inner conviction of the truth of materialism, by which conviction the pronouncements of experience must then be governed.

2. *Ethical-Speculative Materialism.* — This name seems to contain a self-contradiction. Materialism seems to be so closely bound to empirical inquiry that the latter cannot be overstepped without materialism too being given up. Yet the very section on empirical materialism must already have taught us to see the incorrectness of this generally
[110] widespread opinion. It turned out that the materialists could appeal only wrongly to the authority of empirical science. On the one hand empirical science does not engage in dogmatic views, and on the other hand, when all is said and done, exact empirical science seems to lead in an idealistic rather than a materialistic direction. This will appear especially from its treatment of the concept of matter and from its doctrine of sense perception, and will show itself in the 5th chapter of this book from various sides. It is therefore a testimony to a rare freedom from prejudice when the last of materialism's champions whom we shall bring forward here, *Heinrich Czolbe* (a physician, like Büchner), declares it a proof of ignorance to assert that modern natural science leads to materialism. It is his conviction that when one, like Vogt and Moleschott, accepts modern physiology's doctrine of sensing, one has no other way out than to throw oneself into the arms of

some speculative system or other. Since materialism has so far combated theology and speculative philosophy, the most important task therefore now remains, namely to combat modern natural science[*)].

Modern physics and physiology teach that the sense organs are affected from without in a purely mechanical way, but that these physical effects are converted in the organism itself, in a manner differing according to the peculiarity of the individual sense organs, into subjective sensation. As long as one adheres to this doctrine, one has, according to Czolbe, not got the better of the supersensible. The transition from the physical effects of impact and pressure to phenomena of light and of sound stands as something inexplicable and leads to the assumption of a peculiar subjective principle in the sentient being. The *[111]* specific energy of the sensory nerves is a completely mystical entity. By virtue of the principle of materialism there cannot be such a gulf between the physical agent and the psychical sensation. The sensory nerves can only be passive substrates, and the sense organs have only the significance of reinforcing the motion before it reaches the nerves; and it must be essentially the same motion that propagates itself from without right through without any qualitative change. But on what, then, does the difference between the different senses rest? This question, which in Czolbe's opinion one usually cuts short instead of answering, he answers by setting up the concept of intensive quantity, i.e. a quantity that is measured not by number and volume (extensively) but by speed and strength. The difference between the different senses now rests on this, that not only do the different motions (sound, light etc.) propagate themselves with different speeds, but also the nerves of the different senses (auditory and optic nerves etc.) have different elasticity, so that the motions from without are propagated in different ways. Just as intensive quantity takes the place of specific quality, so specific elasticity takes the place of specific energy. And just as the different speed of the motion is to explain the different senses, so its different strength calls forth the different feelings and drives: too great a strength calls forth pain, too little need and drive, a middle strength the feeling of pleasure.

All inner experiences (sensations, feelings etc.), which are in this way explained purely mechanically, are comprised under one common property, consciousness. This consists in the direction of all inner experiences that runs back into itself, by which they form an indissoluble unity. Consciousness then presupposes an organ that can give the motions propagated to it such a direction running back into itself. Such an organ is the brain, and the subject of consciousness (that which is conscious) is therefore the motions *[112]*

[*)] "Die Entstehung des Selbstbewusstseins". Berlin 1856. — "Die Elemente der Psychologie vom Standpunkte des Materialismus" in the 26th volume of "Zeitschrift für Philosophie und philosophische Kritik."

that are communicated to the brain by the senses. The unity of self-consciousness is expressed by these motions circling beside one another; it is not necessary to assume a centripetal direction of the motions in the brain.

One need not be very familiar with physiology and psychology to see how boldly Czolbe comes forward against all views hitherto accepted. Czolbe is in this respect very open-hearted. He states outright that his doctrine conflicts with ordinary physiology and is reactionary, since it defends a view that natural scientists regard as antiquated. But he declares at the same time that when, from the standpoint of materialism, which excludes everything supersensible, one is to give an explanation of sense-sensation and consciousness, one must come to results like those now presented. The deepest point of difference between materialist and spiritualist philosophy lies, in his opinion, in the different settlement of the question whether the external agentia propagate themselves mechanically through the nerves to the brain or whether they only touch the sense organ and in it undergo a transformation. If he had attributed decisive significance to empirical science, he would have had to suspend the whole problem of materialism and spiritualism in order first to come to a conviction about the direction in which experience, exactly conceived, points. But he starts from the principle of materialism and deduces from it how the factual connection must be. Therefore his philosophy of nature is as speculative as Schelling's and Hegel's. The principle is carried through by a series of hypotheses, of which the one brings the other with it. And the most remarkable thing is that Czolbe, precisely by carrying through his principle in this way, is led beyond it. Sensing is explained by intensive quantity, consciousness as rotating motions; but
[113] then one must also conclude conversely: where there is intensive quantity and rotating motion, there is also sensing and consciousness. The whole of nature thus becomes ensouled. This, says Czolbe, is only a real conception of pantheism. When one conceives spirit as nature, one must also conceive nature as spirit. Although he thus sees an inner necessity in the reversal of materialism into idealism, he is nonetheless himself surprised by the consequences of his principle: "Scheint es mir doch selbst, dass ich durch die Konsekvenzen, zu denen das Princip mich zwang, in eine märchenhafte Gedankenwelt gerathen bin". The point is that the illusion on which materialism rests here comes to light. Czolbe explains sensation and consciousness no more than the physiology he rejects. What is decisive in sensation and consciousness is the inner apprehension and representation of the external real. But in Czolbe's doctrine we constantly see one external real acting on another; even consciousness is to be only a certain motion of external parts in an external space. Here, then, no transition is made from the external

to the internal. Czolbe has himself barred his way to it by positing an absolute external. There is no absolute external except in the materialist's thought — and precisely because it is in his thought, it is after all not absolutely external; without knowing it, he thinks thought along with it when he thinks the external. Thus in Czolbe the circular motion is at bottom nothing other than a symbol of the inner unity of spirit. It is his need for intuitive concepts that brings him to let this symbol crystallize into a fixed finite form, which he then regards as the thing itself.

For the principle of materialism, which he determines negatively as the exclusion of everything supersensible from thinking, he determines positively as springing from "das geistige Bedürfniss nach Anschaulichkeit des Denkens." Already from this it can be seen that his point of departure is a subjective one. But an intuitive explanation *[114]* is for Czolbe one with a mechanical explanation; he uses outright "physikalisch" and "anschaulich" as synonyms. Yet it turns out, in the very concept of matter, that the explanations of physics do not always fulfill the demands of intuitiveness, at least in Czolbe's sense. He therefore demands extended, bounded, impenetrable atoms, and rejects the centers of force of physics as "a supersensible concept contradicting the principle of materialism." He further wants to explain the mutual attraction of bodies by means of "intuitive fundamental conditions," without employing mysticism — in the following way: bodies are separated, but are nonetheless all enclosed by space, and attraction is the necessary intuitive intermediate determination between connection and separation. This explanation, whose merit Czolbe places especially in the fact that it excludes force, that supersensible concept ("die moderne Phrase: 'kein Stoff ohne Kraft', ist eine Unmöchlichkeit, ein Absurdum"), is a counterpart to the speculative philosophy of nature's construction of matter. Speculation constructs matter out of force, Czolbe force (attraction) out of matter. Here the speculative character of his materialism comes out clearly.

The principle of intuitiveness stands in Czolbe in connection with a whole ethical world-view, in which, as he himself is clearly aware, the ultimate motive of his materialism lies. He repeatedly reminds us that the principle of intuitiveness is akin to the whole spiritual direction of Greek antiquity, and by his own statement it was the naturalism of the poet Hölderlin, ensouled by enthusiasm for Greek antiquity, that awakened in him the first seeds of his world-view. What is harmful in the present state of culture consists, in his opinion, especially in the remnants of the supranaturalist world-view. Transcendence, in particular the doctrine of the personal God, he regards as a remnant of the egoism of paganism, and he therefore regards materialism as the completion of Chris- *[115]*

tianity. The Greek contentment with earthly life conflicts with egoism and presupposes much self-mastery and resignation; it deserves the name of piety far more than what is generally so called. Czolbe finds his ethical and cultural-historical fundamental view expressed in Strauss's well-known words (in the essay on Julian the Apostate): "The free, harmonious humanity of the Greeks and the self-reliant manliness of the Romans is that toward which we are now again in the process of working our way out of the long Christian Middle Ages, enriched with the spiritual and moral yield of that age." Dissatisfaction with the world of phenomena is a moral weakness. But it is not only "der Blödsinn der Transscendenz" that Czolbe wants to combat; it is also the one-sided preponderance of the abstracting understanding, not only in philosophy but also in the exact sciences. He wants to bring about harmony between intuition, feeling and understanding, and thereby in the whole personality.

To such a degree is the ethical conception of the principle of materialism the one that underlies it in Czolbe that he in the last instance grounds it by an appeal to feeling. The immense gulf between materialist and spiritualist philosophy is produced by the different bent of heart, conditioned by different experiences of life, in aesthetic as well as in ethical respects. In reality a credo ut intelligam always takes place; feeling governs knowledge; a purely objective knowledge does not exist. Therefore Czolbe harbors much sympathy for the classic theological combatant of materialism, Fabri; like him he sees in the results of knowledge the expression of the direction of the will. It is a genuinely theological proposition when Czolbe states that it is "folly in the superlative" to want to philosophize about materialism without an inward conviction of its truth!

[116] Czolbe is a Stoic. For the Stoics too the ethical-psychological motive was the main thing; they seek a doctrine that can satisfy their practical tendency, and thereby come, in a way similar to Czolbe, to a materialist view. The self-contradiction of both rests on this, that they postulate the necessity of materialism out of an ideal principle. But in this they have revealed the secret of materialism. Even Vogt and Moleschott at bottom start from something ideal: the truth and right of knowledge and the purpose of historical development. Materialism not only turns, when consistently carried through, into its own opposite, but even presupposes this as its motive. We have dwelt at greater length on Czolbe precisely because he shows this so clearly. Not only is he the noblest and most consistent among the champions of materialism, but he also has the clearest consciousness that its significance in the present is predominantly one of cultural history[*)].

[*)] Czolbe on the whole comes forward with a modesty and resignation rare among the materialists. He does not begin, as they do, by condemning all earlier doctrines and institutions; here too he is more consistent than they, in that he recognizes what is historically given as necessary, while they wanted to

Modern materialism represents the most extreme reaction against absolute idealism. It is a radical expression of the realistic direction of the age, a memento of theoretical and practical problems that demand the most serious reflection. And if it should be the case, as a pessimistic view might lead one to think, that we are heading toward a new Middle Ages, ruled not, like the first, by spiritualism, but by materialism, then we can in any *[117]* case console ourselves that this has already declared its own untruth both in its principle and in its consequences.

CHAPTER FOUR.

Faced with a grand development of thought such as absolute idealism, whose one-sidedness has become evident, different standpoints can be taken. One can reject it altogether and, without entering into any negotiation whatsoever with it, seek new points of departure for oneself. So materialism, which with barbarous ignorance looks down on the spiritual movement of the preceding age. One can also work one's way out of it by dissolving the unity to which it had led back the elements of existence, and then, by way of formal consequences, carrying each of these elements out into its abstract extreme. So the critical consciousness. But in opposition to these schools the endeavor is then natural to correct the overcome standpoint as far as possible by new elements which do not dissolve it, but bring it nearer to truth and reality. This endeavor saves historical continuity. One-sided criticism cuts the thread and prevents the real appropriation of the results of the development. For this to be possible, a sympathetic dwelling on what came before is necessarily presupposed.

It might well seem as if such an endeavor were impossible with a system of thought like absolute idealism. Precisely by its absolute character this system seems unfit to enter as an element into a more comprehensive connection. It would mediate everything, *[118]* but seems not itself capable of being mediated. All or nothing, so it seems, must be the word here, as indeed the critical consciousness, too, in the course of its development, at breakneck speed converted Hegelianism's All into an absolute Nothing.

But it was precisely, as already remarked earlier, the error of speculation that it posited as absolute what is only relative. Speculation was right that the essence of thought is not purely subjective and formal, cut off from all inner connection with reality; thought is an element of reality just as much as external reality, which in its pure objectivity is also only an element. By developing its own essence and content according

be reformers. In inward conviction of the truth of his cause he is also assured that it will prevail when natural development leads to it. Therefore he is tolerant, which is likewise no materialist virtue, although consistently it would have to be one.

to their inner, necessary laws, thought therefore to that extent develops the essence of reality. But precisely this *to that extent* speculation overlooked. It did not consider that that development has only ideal validity, but does not exhaust the whole essence of reality. Thereby speculation became panlogism; the content of reality was seen fully expressed in the content of thought. By an optical illusion ideal and real reality were confused. The ground of this illusion the inquirers we now pass on to seek in the fact that speculation, in the course of its grand development, forgot its original point of departure, the Kantian critique of reason. Kant had precisely carried through and held fast the distinction between thinking and being, the subjective and the objective, and that so absolutely that, as we have seen in the first chapter, the whole force of speculation was needed to overcome it. But this distinction rested on the irrefutable truth that human knowledge must turn critically against itself and not immediately regard its own forms as real being. Only then is there also room for an influence of experience, in principle, on the whole world-view. These two sides, the abandonment of "the monism of thought"
[119] in the sense of an immediate unity of thinking and being, and the assertion of the real element, are closely connected and point back to Kant[*)].

The question then arises what validity and significance speculative knowledge can now have. This question is answered differently by the inquirers whom we shall bring forward as representatives of this school. Their first development fell under the dominion of speculative philosophy, and they then each seek in their own way to hold fast what was justified in it. This endeavor appears above all as a more concrete development of the idea of God, which is why we have designated this school as speculative theism. Although on several points an influence of positive-dogmatic notions shows itself in these thinkers, one would nevertheless do them an injustice in thinking that underlying their endeavor lay the tendency to assert the dogma of a personal God at any price[**)].

[*)] Cf., with regard to the significance now again ascribed to Kant: C. H. *Weisse's* academic address: "In welchem Sinne die deutsche Philosophie jetzt wieder an Kant sich zu orientiren hat." Leipzig 1847. I. H. *Fichte*: "Bericht über meine philosophische Selbstbildung" (Vermischte Schriften 1ster Bd. 1869). — In Berlin *Schelling* recommended the study of Kant's Kritik der reinen Vernunft as the foundation for understanding his lectures.

[**)] In Weisse's work "Das philosophische Problem der Gegenwart. Sendschreiben an I. H. Fichte" we read: "Ich weiss wohl, dass Sie sich dieses Ansdrucks [der göttlichen Persönlichkeit, der Persönlichkeit Gottes], den die Gegner freilich jetzt als das Schibolet Ihrer Philosophie, so wie nicht minder der meinigen zu betrachten lieben, in Ihren früheren Schriften nur anbequemungsweise, und nicht ohne den Vorbehalt, dass er auf Gott nur eine uneigentliche Anwendung leide, bedient habe. Auch ich meinerseits habe, obwohl aus andern Gründen und in anderer Weise als Sie, mich stets dagegen verwahrt, dass man mir das Bekenntniss des Begriffs der göttlichen Persönlichkeit ohne Weiteres und mit der Voraussetzung unterlege, als sei mir
[120] dieser Begriff ein für sich selbst klarer, und bedürfe es über die Bedingungen seiner Gültigkeit nicht erst einer nähern wissenschaftlichen Verständigung . . . als sei es mir im Allen nur um die Persönlichkeit Gottes quand même zu thun." (p. 10).

Their endeavor has its natural ground in their opposition to speculative panlogism and *[120]*
pantheism[*)].

By the way of dialectical speculation one can, in their view, reach only the general horizon under which the whole of reality appears, the highest, most abstract laws of all existence. To attain a knowledge of reality in the proper sense one must take a step beyond that circle of universal laws and determinations. This step consists at once in an appropriation of concrete experience and in the further development of the idea of God from universal reason to the consciously willing and acting being which alone furnishes the grounding of real reality. At this point speculation passes over into philosophical empiricism and philosophy of religion. There is thus in the line of thought of this school a double movement, an ascending and a descending one: first one seeks upward to the highest principle, and when this is won and posited as real, one seeks to explain the given existence from it.

It follows of itself that the point where the one of these movements passes over into the other must also become the most difficult point in these views. The movement of the concept is to lead to its own cessation, activity to pass over into receptivity. This turning point becomes a standstill, and the movement forms not an ellipse but an angle. This comes, as we have already had occasion to remark above (p. 24 f.), from the fact that one still in many ways stands on the speculative standpoint one seeks to get beyond. Not without reason has a dualism been found in thus supplementing speculative thinking *[121]*
with elements that cannot organically be developed from it. On such a stumbling block, as a rule, the attempts to reconcile the old with the new do run aground. Yet the significance of this school does not therefore become slight, and above all, as will appear, in respect of the philosophy of religion.

I. Schelling's *Later* Doctrine. — It is one of the heroes of the brilliant period of speculation that we first come to deal with. Schelling (b. 1775, d. 1854), who at the beginning of the century came forward with the work of genius of his youth, in which the fundamental thought of absolute idealism was sketched in bold and large strokes, appeared toward the middle of the century with a doctrine that was at once to hold fast absolute idealism and to lead beyond its domain into an entirely new world, hitherto only dimly sensed. He is an example of uncommon vitality. Early mature (Magister in his 17th, philosophical author in his 19th year), he also laid early the foundation of the system that has secured him a place in the history of philosophy. But despite this early completion in essentials, his thought did not rest; it worked at an ever further-reaching

[*)] Only in the case of the younger Fichte could there, as we shall see, be reason to speak of an outright tendency.

development of the original principles. The later doctrine arose through such an organic development, in which the guiding motives can be shown at every point. And yet the result of the later doctrine comes to form a complete opposition to the earlier doctrine. What earlier was the Only and the Absolute is later reduced to something provisional and relative. We shall now see in brief how Schelling came to the view we have to deal with here.

At every time — says Schelling in one of his earliest writings — two main directions in philosophical striving stand opposed to each other. The one takes its point of departure in what is and in the real and seeks to explain from it thought and the ideal; the other
[122] conversely proceeds from the ideal and subjective and seeks to reach the real. Neither of these directions can reach an absolute completion, since the opposition always remains standing on account of the one-sided point of departure. In the Absolute, on the other hand, both opposites must be one, and true philosophy must therefore take up the absolute standpoint, the standpoint of reason, which is related impartially, indifferently, to those opposites. Insofar as these nevertheless come forth in the finite, their relation becomes yet only quantitative difference, a preponderance of the ideal over the real (spirit) or of the real over the ideal (nature). But this quantitative difference is only in the phenomenon; reason, the Absolute, the Godhead is in itself absolute indifference. Only insofar as this absolute standpoint is abandoned and a relation of reflection is posited does the finite world have reality[*)].

But the question cannot be pushed back why it is necessary at all to enter into this relation of reflection instead of holding fast the absolute standpoint. In the work "Philosophie und Religion" (1804) Schelling seeks to answer it, and thereby brings forward the point where the germ of his later view lies. He denies that there is a continuous transition from the Absolute to the finite. The origin of the world of sense is thinkable only through a break, a falling-away from the Absolute, for there is in God no positive ground for the coming-into-being of real things. In I-hood lies the principle of the falling-away and thereby of finitude. The falling-away, which is eternal like the Absolute itself, consists namely in a being in itself instead of a being in the Absolute. Thereby absolute indifference is cancelled and the opposites come into force.

There is thus an irrational element in the finite, in that being does not follow from the concept, the particular not from the universal, but something independent of the
[123] concept must be added. This irrational is something lower than the Absolute. On the other hand it is impossible to assume a higher potency above the Absolute; by that the

[*)] "Briefe über Dogmatismus und Kriticismus" (1796). "Darstellung meines Systems" (1801).

latter would indeed precisely be reduced to something relative. The Absolute as such is God[*]. —

For a further development a double possibility now presented itself. If absolute identity is held fast, the finite can only become something negative, an outer, untrue form for the inner, positive unity of the Absolute. The carrying through of this line of thought would, as Weisse has rightly remarked, have led to the Hegelian view. But the other possibility is this, that that irrational element, which is the principle of the finite development of freedom, is more strongly accentuated, regarded from a more positive point of view. Then it will become necessary, as it were, to let absolute identity fade and to find (what Schelling in the treatise just cited expressly denied the possibility of) a fuller and more active expression for the highest principle; for absolute identity does not permit, as we have seen, any positive development of freedom in the finite. This latter way Schelling struck out on already in a treatise of 1809: "Philosophische Untersuchungen über das Wesen der menschlichen Freiheit und die damit zusammenhängenden Gegenstände."

The system of identity, it says here, has overcome the opposition between thought and its object, between reason and reality. But there now appears a higher form of the same problem, in that the question is asked about the relation between freedom and necessity. The investigation of this finds a point of connection in the earlier investigations through the important separation which the doctrine of identity made between the being *[124]* as existing and the being as ground of existence. This separation came forth in the philosophy of nature, Schelling conceiving nature as a scale of quantitative differences or potencies, of which the one always forms the basis for the following. In this distinction between ground and existence he sees the decisive difference between his own doctrine and Spinoza's. The ground is not God regarded absolutely, i.e. as existing; it is that in God which is not God, nature in God, his prius (though not in time or essence). All things are in God, not in his proper, actual essence, but in the eternal ground of his essence. And the opposition between ground and existence is not dualism, for it presupposes a primal unity, the primal ground or, in Jakob Böhme's expression, the unground, which lies prior to all oppositions. The primal ground is the absolute indifference which we already know from the earlier doctrine, the Absolute as absolute (das schlechthin betrachtete Absolute). But this indifference is thus only the absolute point of departure, the universal presupposition for the concrete development, which consists in the opposites being posited and again overcome to identity through love, in personal existence.

[*]Already in a letter to Hegel of 4 February 1795 Schelling says: "Für uns sind die orthodoxen Begriffe von Gott nicht mehr. Wir reichen weiter noch als zum persönlichen Wesen."

Earlier Schelling knew no decisive opposition between indifference and identity (absence of difference and unity). In the authentic exposition of 1801 reason is expressly determined first (§ 1) as indifference and then posited as one with identity (§ 9). In a somewhat later work, which was first printed after his death (Werke 1ste Abth. 5ter Bd), he distinguishes more precisely, so that the Absolute is called God, but reason God's reflex, which is related to God as indifference to identity. But here too he expressly holds fast the pantheistic standpoint and treats all problems from it. The same is the case
[125] in the work "Philosophie und Religion". When Schelling, therefore, in the treatise on freedom would have his whole earlier doctrine regarded as comprising only what he there calls the primal ground and the ground (nature), this rests on an illusion; his earlier standpoint was absolute and closed in itself, but he now sought beyond it, sought an existence, a reality, which he did not find within its bounds.

While his earlier view has an antique character, partly through the weight laid on nature, partly in that art and the state are seen as the highest spheres of spirit, he now throws himself into a medieval theosophy, in which nevertheless, despite much that is purely scholastic, one recognizes the ingenious inventor of the doctrine of identity in many extraordinarily profound investigations. But his assurance and feeling of victory have left him. He has aptly been compared, at his earlier standpoint, with the great Napoleon, who with the assurance of genius compelled everything to bow before superior power. And this image has been carried further by comparing Schelling in his later doctrine with Napoleon's attempt at constitutional government in the 100 Days. Here is the same wavering and indeterminacy in the whole bearing, signs that stage and actor no longer suit each other. "Instead of the arrogance with which the teacher of identity played with the crowned heads of science, there has come an uncertain, indeed anxious, deference to the judging public"[*)]. Schelling made many attempts to publish his new doctrine, but always drew back again. Even printed works he had destroyed, having second thoughts at the last moment before publication. But at the same time he published pronouncements full of arrogance and self-confidence and of great bitterness against
[126] Hegel's doctrine, which had outflown his and now, by its rich and grand systematic structure, its ingenious execution and its great promises, ruled over minds for several decades. Only some thirty-odd years after the publication of the treatise on freedom did he come forward in Berlin before a wider circle with his new doctrine, and in authentic printed writings it appeared only after his death.

In one of his few public pronouncements in that interval he determines in general

[*)] *Erdmann*: Ueber Schelling, namentlich seine negative Philosophie. Halle 1857. p. 9.

outline the opposition between his earlier and later doctrine[*)]. Here appears for the first time the famous separation of negative and positive philosophy. Philosophy must begin with what must necessarily be thought, what cannot not be thought. That without which no knowledge is possible (the a priori) is the negative in knowledge; that by which real knowledge is brought about is the positive. The absolute prius, even for the Godhead, is contained in the science of reason, which fathoms that which is itself, the highest that is (subject-object). Yet this must not be misunderstood, as it is by Hegel ("ein später Gekommener"), as if this science of reason were to be purely abstract, a merely logical process. This misunderstanding has only furnished one more proof that it is impossible to reach reality starting from the purely rational. Not being, as Hegel would have it, but that which is, is the beginning of philosophy; and when philosophy, as negative philosophy, has developed this according to all the possibilities of its essence, a development that leads us beyond the opposition between rationalism and empiricism, then the question arises about that which is no longer negative condition but which is positive cause. But here a new principle is then needed, a new beginning: "I do not want that which merely is; I want that which is, which is or *exists*". In this sense a great and, *[127]* in the main, final change lies ahead for philosophy, which on the one hand will furnish the positive explanation of reality, while on the other hand reason is acknowledged to be in possession of the absolute prius, even for the Godhead.

While the polemic against Hegel in this pronouncement aroused offense among the Hegelians, the further hints won approval with many who had already beforehand entered into opposition to the Hegelian system. Yet these hints were still rather indeterminate; one could not yet see what character the opposition between negative and positive philosophy would take. Never, therefore, as has rightly been said, has Schelling been praised from so many different sides; everyone interpreted his pronouncement according to his own opinion.

In the year 1841 he was called upon to lecture in Berlin — in order to counteract the negative criticism which had developed out of Hegelianism. This system, which in its time could pass for the philosophy of the established order, was now in radical opposition, and Schelling's "positive philosophy" was to be placed in the breach. From a theological chair in Berlin his appearance was hailed as a turn of Providence. The first lecture, which he published, is remarkable not only for the self-confidence and authority with which he expresses himself[*)], but also for a clearer determination of the relation between negative

[*)]Preface to the German translation of a work by Cousin 1834 (Werke 1ster Abth. 10te Bd).

[*)]An opponent said of this lecture that in Germany it was read like a speech from the throne: "and the likeness was great enough; the speaker expressed himself with much dignity about himself, made great

and positive philosophy. He declares that he has not come to tear down, but to build
[128] up. "Nothing shall be lost through me of what has been acquired for genuine science since Kant; how should I, moreover, give up the philosophy which I myself founded, the invention of my youth? Not to set another philosophy in its place, but to add to it a new science which has hitherto been considered impossible, in order thereby to secure it again on its true foundation, to give back to it the firm footing which it had lost by going beyond its natural bounds, in that something was made into the whole which could only be a fragment of a larger whole, — that is the task and the purpose." Philosophy (i.e. the Hegelian) assures us that it is religious in its results, but this is disputed from the side of life. This disproportion between science and life, which has called forth so strong a reaction, must be removed; philosophy must be brought out of its difficult position. And this Schelling knows himself capable of, since he is in possession "not of a philosophy that explains nothing, but of one that furnishes information that has been longingly desired and urgently demanded, — a philosophy that extends the common consciousness beyond its present bounds"[*)].

The opposition between negative and positive philosophy thus rests on the fact that the latter is in its essence religious philosophy. And if this is compared with the utterances in the preface to Cousin, then the relation becomes this, that positive philosophy, through the religious, finds the way to a conception and explanation of real existence. In the posthumous writings (Werke, 2te Abth.) we now find its further execution.

A distinction must be made between what is and that which is what is, the existing subject. The first is the real, the second the reality of the real. Abstracted from reality the
[129] real is only possible, is the possible content of reality. The real is a What (qvid), reality, existence a That (qvod). To the infinite possibility of being corresponds the infinite possibility of knowledge, and if one proceeds from reason as the principle in which both possibilities are one, their opposition being sublated, then it becomes the task of the science of reason, the first science, to go through the infinite potencies of the real, to exhaust their whole fullness. In that this first science paves the way for the knowledge of the true, positive reality by separating out what has only the possibility of existence, it is critical, and corresponds to Kant's Kritik der reinen Vernunft; it thereby becomes at the same time negative, insofar as it is defensive against what merely is (that which is not what is); and in that it occupies itself only with what must necessarily be thought, it follows the law of pure logical necessity and is rational and a priori philosophy. But

promises and avoided everything that could embarrass him." *Noack*: Schelling und die Philosophie der Romantik. 2ter Bd. p. 466.

[*)] Erste Vorlesung in Berlin. Werke 2te Abth. 4ter Bd. p. 360 ff.

this rational must not be understood as opposed to the empirical. For in order that the possibilities of what is may be exhausted, it is necessary also to think them as being and real, whereby they become an object of experience. Thought goes into experience and follows it from potency to potency. The limit of experience is here, as Kant taught, also the limit of thought, because the essence of both is one. Since one now did not hold fast that what really exists (that which is what is) has nothing whatever to do with this whole development, which draws itself through the realms of thought, nature and history in order to exhaust the infinite content of the possibilities, — since one (Hegel) confused subject and predicate, existence and potency, one came to the doctrine that God must go through the spheres of nature and history in order to come to consciousness of himself, a pantheism which in its consequences must necessarily lead to atheism. The doctrine of identity was also pantheism, and this is to that extent also necessary for negative *[130]* philosophy, which constantly moves within the Absolute, the domain of the universal Idea, and cannot go out beyond it. But this pantheism has only logical significance; for negative philosophy does not yet raise the question about what exists, but keeps within the pure concept.

What possibilities are now contained in this pure concept? What is is, first (as primum cogitabile), pure capacity, potentia, the subject that is in itself; but while this that may be (— A) constantly goes out beyond itself, has its being outside itself, the second moment, corresponding to it, is what is as that which purely is (+ A), which is actus purus, pure object. As the unity of these moments, as the highest Idea (summum cogitabile), what is is finally subject-object (± A), unity of potentia and actus, the sum of all possibilities. All three moments together are the Absolute, but, mind you, always only as possibility, as Idea. Here thought then comes up against its last limit, in raising the question what it is that is the Idea, is the highest thinkable. But this question cannot yet be answered; it cannot even come forward in a decisive sense at this stage.

By seeking out the potencies in the Absolute and following them in their possible functions we do not get outside the Idea. That which may be will, when it is put into function, spread itself in quantitative infinity like the Greek ἄπειρον, without measure and bound. Now in that the second moment, that which purely is, as actus and determinate limit (πέρας), reacts against this and brings negation into the infinite becoming, it produces fixed qualities and individual forms (τὸ περαῖνον, which is at the same time τὸ εἰδοποιοῦν). If finally the third, higher moment comes forth, then we have the Aristotelian οὗ ἕνεκα, the unity of form and matter. The relative unity of the three *[131]* moments (about the absolute unity one can only ask at the end of the negative science)

is the soul, as world-soul and individual soul. Through the soul everything that is stands in connection with the Idea and that which is the Idea. With these four principles the whole world of Ideas is given. In that the one moment points to the other, there lies in this a presentiment that there is a higher being than mere possibility, being bound to the Idea. But although every transition from potency to act is a willing, and we thus have in the relation between the moments in the Absolute a primal will, as all being is only through a willing, a self-assertion (object = resistance), — yet this willing is still only, as was already expressed in the treatise on freedom, a hunger and thirst for existence, not existence itself.

If we are to reach the point where this infinite craving is satisfied, we must leave the Absolute, the standpoint of what merely is. The way away from this we find by calling forth the last possibility that still remains: the possibility of a being outside the Idea. This possibility cannot be sought in the Idea itself. It is I. G. Fichte's immortal merit to have shown how the real world first arises by the I's stepping out from immediate unity with the Absolute into the relation of reflection, positing itself as self-consciousness and thereby in opposition to an objective reality (cf. above p. 122). The possibility of this lies in the fact that the soul, which according to the foregoing is the relative unity of the potencies, is this only insofar as it does not tear itself loose from the Absolute. If it does not preserve the relation of unity to this, but attempts to make the relative unity into an absolute one — and this happens by its giving up God (that which is what is) and thinking, in its indwelling in the Idea, that it has and is everything — then there thereby arises a world outside God, whose step-by-step development the science of
[132] reason must follow as the last series of possibilities that lie within its domain. Hereby first arises matter in the physical sense, as vis inertiæ, and time and space as forms of the being-outside-themselves of things (eccentricity, displacement from the center). The world now comes to stand as alien over against conscious spirit, which, by an act that lies beyond the limit of consciousness, and which it therefore cannot grasp at this stage, is set in this opposition. The only way to get beyond this by its own powers is to penetrate and overcome the world by its knowledge and its action.

The ancients already expressed this in a profound way. The figure of Prometheus, one of the primal thoughts that work their way forth of themselves", denotes the human spirit as that which by its very spark of divinity turns away from the Godhead and by its own ingenuity seeks to found a new world without God. And as Prometheus is chained to the rock, where his liver is constantly devoured by the eagle, and can only be freed from his torment when a god comes forward to release him, so the human spirit now

wanders the long way in search of the real God, whom it has lost, but who is the final cause, the personal bearer of the Ideas on the possession of which it has founded its autonomy.

The I has not only to struggle with the material world which surrounds it; it also finds itself enclosed by ideal bounds, as a member of a spiritual whole, where the particular is subordinated to the totality, the preceding to the following. This total order cannot have any arbitrary or accidental origin; it is a law which springs from the essence of what is, the source of all right and duty. It is Kant's imperishable merit to have brought forward this law and shown its independence and self-sufficiency. Only insofar could his doctrine of the autonomy of the law of reason be misunderstood, as one might here, by reason, think of the subjective, human reason. For the law, as said, has its ground in what is *[133]* itself. But as law of reason it may not be traced back immediately to God; that would be to deny the reality of rational ethics and thereby of rational philosophy. — As the factual foundation for the realization of the rational law the state (juridical legislation) steps forward over against the individual, yet not as a restriction of his freedom, but on the contrary to make it possible. The state is in its essence merely serving, a means for a free social life, in which the personal virtues can be exercised. With the help of this firm foundation the individual is to win the inner independence which is at the same time the best protection against political oppression. The development of the state does indeed consist in ever more of the universal law of reason passing over into the reality of the state; but the goal of history cannot be sought in a perfect state. Such a one belongs only in the world of the ideal, of possibilities[*)].

The universal, impersonal power of law and the state is a discipline to which man is subjected and from whose pressure he seeks to free himself. Man is caught in the contradiction that he has willed himself in opposition to the Absolute, but that this willing nevertheless leads precisely to dependence on impersonal powers. There then comes a turning point where the I bends back again from outward-turned striving into itself, to the contemplative life. It now resigns, gives up reaching the goal by the way of action and seeks by immersion in the Idea to press forward to the God it longs for. The first stage here is mystical piety, where the soul strives to give up itself, its own will (se désapproprier sa volonté. Fénelon) in order to sink wholly into God, with disinterested *[134]* love. To this is joined, secondly, art, in which the human spirit, in completely selfless producing, makes itself like the Godhead. Finally spirit seeks, thirdly, its purest form, the

[*)] Earlier (e.g. in "Vorlesungen über die Methode des akademischen Studiums 1803") Schelling extolled Plato's state and placed the ancient life of the state above the modern, because it did not, like the latter, have private life outside itself.

one most freed from the potential, in rational science itself. It now beholds God as the highest thought, the pure νόησις τῆς νοήσεως, the absolute subject-object. But it is still only a purely negative determination under which God is here conceived. God is indeed seen in his pure self-being, but only as the last to which one comes, not as the living cause from which one can proceed. For Aristotle God is thus expressly the end, the final purpose, which itself moves nothing, does not go beyond itself, but is ἄπρακτος τὰς ἔξω πράξεις. Therefore it is a misuse here to speak of absolute spirit. We are still at the merely ideal God, bound to the Idea, who is indeed summum cogitabile, but nevertheless belongs within the domain of negative philosophy.

How then can we overstep the bounds of this domain? Not by thinking. For this follows only the law of pure logical necessity and can therefore not go beyond the Idea, but seeks only to exhaust all its possibilities. It must be in the will that the demand arises to posit God no longer as mere Idea, but above all thought and reason. The absolute reconciliation is not reached in the rational sphere. The development within this led us at its height to the contemplative life (mysticism, art and science); but from this man is constantly driven back to practical life: there must be action. Now the whole vanity of the present condition dawns on him, and he seeks beyond the Idea to the living and acting God, who is no longer lost in what is (the Idea), but is the lord of being. God is
[135] thrust out of the Idea, sought and grasped as personality. It is not reason, the universal, but the individual himself who longs for salvation and finds it in the real God.

Negative philosophy, in running through the scale of possibilities, became at the same time an encyclopedia of the sciences. Every single stage within this development corresponds to one of the particular sciences. These thus lie on the way from negative to positive philosophy. Negative philosophy is the universal science, which has no particular object, precisely because it comprises the whole potency of knowledge. But in that it has now completed the development and exhausted the possibilities, and in that the transition to positive philosophy is made by God's being freed from the Idea and seen as that which is what is, philosophy acquires a different character. It now acquires its own determinate object, becomes a science, not merely the science. For as the absolutely Idea-free, God is not a universal, but a particular, a This (ἕν τι, τόδε τι ὄν), not being something, but being absolutely. There exists no universal at all. Only the particular *is*; the universal is only insofar as the absolute single being is the universal, has it for its predicate. It is wrong to say that the Idea is the true, the only reality. The Idea is only insofar as the Ideal is. The Ideal is the cause of being (αἰτία τοῦ εἶναι) for the Idea. If the absolutely immanent concept (the absolute Idea) is the end point of negative

philosophy, then the absolutely transcendent concept (the existing absolute single being) is the starting point of positive philosophy. Negative philosophy was a priori science, in that it followed the potencies of what is in order to exhaust their essence; its outline was the realm of eternal possibilities, of eternal truths. It was only a thinking, not a properly knowing science, and kept constantly a hypothetical character: "if what is is, then it must be so constituted." A priori, i.e. prior to being. The realm of potencies has now been traversed, and thought is brought to a halt at the absolute act, which it cannot *[136]* comprehend, precisely because everything universal, all possibility, is excluded. Thought can only come to it, must relate itself purely as beholding.

There is no immanent transition from negative to positive philosophy. The realm of the immanent has been traversed. The absolutely existing, the Idea-free God, is, as independent of every Idea, also independent of the highest Idea of negative philosophy. Therefore positive philosophy comes to stand only in an accidental connection with the negative. He who feels no urge to pass over to the positive will rest content in the negative, and conversely one will be able to pass over immediately to the positive without first having run through the negative[*)]. Negative philosophy comes, through immanence, when it understands itself, to the transcendent being. Positive philosophy begins with the merely existing, pure transcendence, and now seeks to make it immanent, to show the qvid that is borne by this qvod. In other words, while negative philosophy developed the essence of the Godhead up to the point where the question arose about the existence of this divine, positive philosophy begins with the absolutely existing and shows that it is God. Positive philosophy thus begins with a being that lies above and prior to all thought (das unvordenkliche Sein), and sees this being as the bearer of the whole realm of the potencies. By the development of the potencies on this basis God is known as the lord of being. The name speculation belongs especially to positive philosophy. We are here no longer in the domain of necessary thinking, but what is now at stake is a free, i.e. speculative, thinking. To speculate means to look around for possibilities by which a certain aim can be attained in science. These possibilities (major premises in a *[137]* hypothetical syllogism) are shown to be real a posteriori. For the method takes up real experience at every point: "If the necessarily existing is God, then a, b, c are real; now according to experience a, b, c really exist; consequently the necessarily existing is really God." — The first question now becomes that of the possibility of the real world.

The first potency, that which may be, has a constant tendency to spread itself, as it were to overflow. And since the development of the potencies is not to be merely a

[*)] Werke, 2te Abth. 1ster Bd. p. 564.

purely necessary one, like that by which the second potency, that which purely is (the Son), leads the first back to the unity (of the Spirit) in God himself, — since God wants not merely to be God for himself, but also to communicate his essence, just as genius constantly needs to produce, — there arises the possibility that he sets the potencies whose unity he is in tension, in an opposition that is to be overcome through a successive process. Hereby the unity is turned around, and the universe (unum versum) arises. But as yet only in God. The possibility of a world extra deum (not merely præter deum) lies in what negative philosophy already taught in its way, that consciousness (man), in which the outflowing potencies return again to God and which is thus the bond between the world and God, can loosen this bond again, because it wants to be lord of the potencies, as God is. What man forgets is that while God is by the necessity of his essence lord of the potencies and of being, man is so only in a relative sense, on the presupposition of his immediate unity with God. The moment that tempts man again to set the potencies in tension is again that first potency, the infinitely bearing and producing principle, which in the imagination presents to him the possibility of a world. Herein works at the same
[138] time the power which Greek mythology depicts as Nemesis, the world-law that wills that everything shall be clear and without ambiguity, that no accidental relation may persist, that untried happiness is inadmissible. In Christianity this principle is depicted as Satan, who sins ἀπ᾽ἀρχῆς, i.e. is the soliciting principle that stirs in man's will so that this may be tried. Conceived according to its philosophical Idea, Satan is therefore the proper primum movens in history, without which the life of the world would stagnate. Against this power the second potency (Logos, the Son) comes forward, not to negate it absolutely, but to subject it to itself, to make it into matter and basis, and thus lead it back again into an inner relation to God. It is this process which the philosophy of mythology and revelation pursues, whereby it (the most important part of positive philosophy) becomes the highest philosophy of history.

The presupposition from which both mythology and revelation proceed, and without which they are altogether inexplicable phenomena, is that there has been an original real relation between man and God. A psychology drawn from the states of consciousness now usual is as little sufficient here as the mechanical laws that hold under the present state of the universe can be transferred to the original becoming, the first living coming-into-being. Herein lies the reason why all earlier attempts to explain mythology and revelation have failed.

When man, by an act lying beyond all history and all consciousness, set the potencies

in tension, the original, real relation to God was abolished[*)], and the infinite power now works as a force that threatens to burst consciousness asunder if it is not pushed back *[139]* within fixed bounds. The limiting power, victorious step by step, which in the human spirit takes up the struggle with that demonic force, and which thereby itself works its way forth to reality, is, as already stated, the second divine potency (the Son). This theogonic process is for the time being purely mythological. It aims at materializing the first, chaotic potency, reducing it to a servant, to matter and foundation. Polytheism is the first result of this process. For since true unity has been put out of force, the first potency wanting to rule alone, while the other potencies constantly strive to take their place again, the different stages form themselves, in this strife, for consciousness into different figures of gods, nodal points on the way consciousness must travel in order to find again what it has forfeited.

The first stage is the worship of the stars. Here the properly mythological has not yet begun, insofar as the acting potency still stands at the transition between being center and periphery, just as in the planets, too, the original tendency to be center is still present, and, by being constantly pushed back, becomes the ground of the constant motion. The next stage is that where the potency is reduced to matter, to periphery, which is mythologically signified by female deities appearing beside the male (Urania beside Uranus: Herod. I, 131; the Persian, Babylonian and Arabian religion). As the philosophy of mythology on the whole is a philosophy of nature, only in a higher sphere (both present, each in its way, a theogony), so this point in the mythological development *[140]* corresponds in particular to what must be thought as the proper beginning of nature, where that which at first was itself something that is, is reduced to ground and matter (mater—materia). Soon the higher potency, too, appears (Dionysus: Herod. III, 8) in its first annunciations, still obscure and not understood. But the god himself is older than his name, his presence in consciousness is older than his complete realization in it. Now consciousness is filled with the struggle between the two powers, the material and the ideal god (Phoenician, Phrygian, Egyptian, Indian mythology). With the material god consciousness fears to lose God altogether; only through pain and death do liberation and the victory of the ideal god come about. Hence the oppositions in mythological consciousness: grief and lamentation because the god is dead, joy because he is born again. Greek mythology finally forms at once the conclusion and the recapitulation of the

[*)]Another consequence of this catastrophe has been considered in particular in negative philosophy, namely the coming-into-being of an external, material world. On the other hand negative philosophy could not, according to its essence, go into how "the lord of being" stands toward that catastrophe, and *[139]* what, according to it, the relation between him and man becomes, or rather, it could only conceive this from the negative side.

mythological process. In the history of the Greek world of gods we have, in the succession of Uranus, Kronos and Zeus, a reflection of the struggle between the ideal and material principle, until at last the clear Olympian harmony governs everything. But Greek mythology has, besides this exoteric side, also an esoteric one, in the mysteries, whose content is the emerging consciousness of mythology's own essence. Demeter signifies the higher, ideal consciousness turned toward God. She grieves at Persephone's death, because with her (consciousness as that which is subjected to the material, mythological principle) she believes she has lost everything. The mysterious reconciliation then comes about in that, instead of the god who perished, she receives the abiding one, who can never perish. But herein lies a moment of the future: the mystical Dionysus (Ἴακχος) is the ever-coming one (Eleusis — Advent). Here then is the end of mythology, where it has not only explained itself but also pointed beyond itself.

[141] The transition from mythology to revelation does not take place by a new substantial content being taken up. The difference rests on the acting principle. Both mythology and revelation presuppose, as already remarked earlier, a real relation to God lying beyond all conscious thinking and poetic invention. But this relation can either be merely natural and unfree, subject to necessity, where then, on account of blindness and entanglement, superstition soon arises. So in the natural, wild-growing religions. Or else it is not merely a natural potency that acts, but man is freed from blind, unfree religion by its being a personality that comes forth as acting. Therefore the person and history of Christ are the true content of Christianity, whereas the Christian dogmas are only products of a wretched philosophy[*)]. In paganism the process took place purely within consciousness. A subjective reconciliation was here sufficient, insofar as only the consequences of the separation from God were to be overcome. Otherwise when it is a matter of abolishing the cause itself, of completely breaking the divine displeasure (the first potency); this could only happen through a real historical act. In place of the ecstatic history in mythology there now enters, in the incarnation, real, external history.

But the true understanding of this historical fact has not hitherto been reached, because it was not put in connection with the whole past of the history of religion. It was not seen that Christ was implicitly also what acted in natural religion. Through the theogonic process of mythology the second potency has subjected the first to itself and stands as victor in the human spirit. The question now is how it, the Son of Man,

[*)] Earlier (Methode des akad. Studiums 1803) Schelling had precisely praised the Church Fathers because with the help of philosophy they had known how to develop so profound a system as the doctrine of the Church out of the meager content of the biblical books, which stands far behind that of the Indian religious books.

as it may rightly be called, since human consciousness has brought about its becoming *[142]*
under this form, will use the power and authority it has acquired (μόρφη θεοῦ): whether it will keep this for itself (ἁρπαγμὸν ἡγεῖσθαι Phil. II, 6) or use it to lead the world back to God (παραδιδόναι τὴν βασιλείαν τῷ θεῷ καὶ πατρί. 1 Cor. XV, 24). (Cf. the story of the temptation). The becoming-man, where the second potency, instead of godlikeness, takes on the form of a servant in order to suffer death, is the answer to this. In the incarnation and the historical events that attach to it, the inner, transcendent, divine history has broken through the bounds of external history, and this now acquires significance only insofar as it can prove its connection with that. Now the third potency, too, the Holy Spirit, comes to break through, in that the first potency no longer chaotically and satanically withdraws from the higher animating unity.

The law of the history of the Church's development is contained in the relation between the three chief apostles: Peter stands parallel to Moses, is the lawgiver, the representative of the stable; Paul is an Elijah, the representative of freedom and movement; John finally is for Christianity what John the Baptist was for Judaism, the apostle of the future. The Petrine church is therefore Catholicism with its fixed, law-bound unity; the Pauline is Protestantism with its radical principle of freedom; free unity has its type in John, who unites Peter's simplicity with Paul's dialectical sharpness. For the goal that is to be reached is that church which is for the first time truly universal (if church is still the right word here), which is built up in the spirit alone and consists only in the complete understanding of Christianity and its real fusion with general science and knowledge. Free religion is indeed initiated but not realized by Christianity. Consciousness must, in order to reach free religion, free itself from Christianity just as much as from natural *[143]*
religion; both are in themselves only sources of unfree knowledge. But this free religion is reached through the very understanding of Christianity, namely when one sees that this is at the same time the highest science, which leads to the final historical connection of everything. Philosophical religion or the religion of the spirit is thus one with the philosophy of religion, and is distinguished from the so-called religion of reason in that it has mythology and revelation as its presuppositions and is their real completion. —

Schelling's later doctrine has a decidedly historical character. Everything here is development toward a highest goal. To be sure, in the doctrine of identity, too, existence was not a dead being; everything was life, namely the infinite self-knowledge of the Absolute, its eternal joining of itself as object with itself as subject. But it was a movement that was one with absolute rest; since the point of view was taken only in the Absolute, every inhibiting moment vanished; there were no bounds, no strife. Gradually, however,

Schelling became aware of an irrational element which burst this immanent unity and opened the view to a world of separation and unrest. And the more he fixed his attention on this element, which for him became one with the essence of will, the more the Absolute stepped into shadow, and it was now regarded as that which lay prior to the concrete development, the undifferentiated unity of the opposites which could only at the end of the development be reconciled to real identity.

But the decisive opposition between the older and the later doctrine rests, however, on the movement now taking place about two centers. Negative philosophy leads to a point where transcendence is put into force, and positive philosophy then begins with the transcendent principle in order to lead back again to the immanent. The necessity of the double center is sought in the opposition between the universal and the particular.
[144] Negative philosophy moves within the universal and therefore does not reach reality, for only the particular exists. The opposition here becomes so strong that only the will yearning for personal redemption is supposed to be able to make the transition. Everything real, thought is supposed to be able to know, but not that the real is (quid, not quod). The determination of existence has, by being separated ("thrust out") from the universal, certainly become irrational; but with what right does Schelling ascribe reality to so enormous an abstraction as the distinction between existence and the existing? Apart from the existing being, existence is only a figment of the imagination. The absolutely particular in this sense can only be beheld, not thought, and insofar as Schelling here speaks of a free thinking, this becomes only a fantastic speculation.

Weary of the grand movement in the world of thought, the thinker, driven by an obscure urge, seeks beyond it. Absolute idealism now becomes only an introduction to the highest mysteries. Thus the Neoplatonists began precisely where Plato and Aristotle ended. The highest principle, the final cause of everything, is reached, according to Plotinus, only when the soul is awakened by a light that is above reason to seek beyond reason and to turn toward something higher. What Neoplatonism is in relation to classical Greek philosophy, Neo-Schellingianism is in relation to speculative idealism.

In other thinkers, too, whose development has led them to a break with speculative idealism, we find a similar relation. Ludwig Feuerbach rejected speculation as an apotheosis of reason, of the universal in opposition to the particular and sensuous, and corrects, just as Schelling does, the concept of being thus: "Being is one with that which is." The question of being is for him no longer a logical question, but is a matter of life and death, is a secret of intuition and of love. When he says that existence has meaning and reason
[145] in it, although it cannot be uttered, this is quite reminiscent of Plotinus's words about the

relation to the highest: ἔχειν οὐ κωλυόμεθα κἂν μὴ λέγωμεν. In writings that are roughly contemporary with Schelling's lectures in Berlin and with Feuerbach's "Philosophie der Zukunft", Søren Kierkegaard distinguishes in a corresponding way between knowledge and reality ("Philosophiske Smuler", "Uvidenskabelig Efterskrift"): what reality is cannot be appropriated in knowledge: all knowledge about reality is possibility; existence is always the particular. Here too the concept of being is corrected in opposition to the volatilization of speculative idealism. In Kierkegaard the determination of existence acquires the meaning of ethically conditioned reality; the particular that is is the existing individual, who stands under the ethical-religious law. In Feuerbach existence is given to sense perception; the existing particular is the sensuous object. In Schelling, finally, reality is the object of speculative beholding, which alone can be grasped when one seeks beyond the usual limit of consciousness; the existing particular is here, as in Plotinus, the figment of the imagination that appears to thought when it, weary of working through the categories, sinks into an ecstatic intuition called forth by the unsatisfied "hunger for existence"[*)].

But that this opposition cannot be held fast is seen in Schelling from the fact that positive philosophy is not content with the mere "that" (qvod), but builds a whole transcendent development on the basis of "das unvordenkliche Sein". The opposition thus holds only in the starting point itself. And even here we are led beyond it; for *[146]* thought must after all know its own point of departure, must touch the terminus a qvo of its own movement; in the point of departure itself, too, thought and being thus go together, and being does not become "unvordenklich".

This might now also seem to be Schelling's meaning, to the extent that he indeed places the task of positive philosophy in making the transcendent immanent. This takes place through the mythological process, which is a process of consciousness, even though consciousness here is in the hands of an obscure, fatalistic power, is outside itself (ecstatic). But at the end of this process Schelling again establishes the transcendent, even in miraculous form: the ecstatic history, so that reconciliation can be carried through, comes forth in the incarnation as real history. But the possibility and necessity of this are not shown. Since the religious relation is from the first determined as a relation of consciousness, why then can reconciliation not be carried through by a process of consciousness? Especially since already the mythological process, according to Schelling,

[*)] Yet another parallel suggests itself: between Schelling and Schopenhauer. Thus *Edv. v. Hartmann* has recently emphasized that Schelling's later doctrine, as a unity of negative and positive philosophy, has the merit of comprising Hegel's principle (the Idea) and Schopenhauer's (the will) as equally justified and equally indispensable sides of the one principle. Philosophie des Unbewussten. 3te Aufl. p. 766.

must show the possibility of this, in that it has indeed step by step pushed back the obscure, dispersing and tempting principle. One could then imagine the development carried further by the transition a potentia ad actum which is now Schelling's favorite determination, imagine "the second potency" completing its becoming and thereby also making possible the reality of the third potency (the Spirit), so that unity and reconciliation are reached without a new transcendence. But then one would certainly have to give up deducing the ecclesiastical doctrine of the Trinity and of the incarnation. It is in order to satisfy in this respect that Schelling has here abolished the rational relation between potentia and actus.

The whole absolute opposition between "what" and "that" shows, in the case of Schelling, as in that of Feuerbach and Kierkegaard, that the presuppositions of spec-
[147] ulative idealism are still held fast. Otherwise Schelling could not think that thought, by developing its own possibilities, at the same time developed the essence of things (qvid), that experience and thinking thus coincided. Negative philosophy in itself stands entirely on the standpoint of speculation, and in particular the philosophy of nature is retained entirely from the earlier doctrine. Just as uncritically as Schelling in that doctrine related himself to real experience, he relates himself in positive philosophy to mythology and revelation. His doctrine rests here on a very uncertain historical foundation[*)]. Characteristic in this respect is the remark that, since his philosophy of revelation rests on an extension of philosophy and of philosophical consciousness which was possible only by going back to principles, but historical criticism does not know this extension of consciousness, he can take no account whatever of this criticism[**)]. In other words, he treats criticism in the same way as theology does. The mythological development itself he sees as an inner, metaphysical one, which is not conditioned or touched by physical or psychological influences.

Nevertheless Schelling has the great merit of having asserted the necessity of a positive and sympathetic understanding of the historical religions. His philosophy of religion thereby forms an opposition to the speculative-idealist one. Feuerbach, too, forms such an opposition; but he stressed so one-sidedly the lower, pathological element
[148] in religion that it became impossible to explain how it could also contain a real kernel of truth. Schelling holds fast the truth of reason as foundation (prius) and can thereby also

[*)] One will easily convince oneself of this by a glance at p. 139 f. above. It should be emphasized in particular that Schelling conceives the succession of Uranus, Kronos and Zeus as a struggle between mythological notions that displace one another, whereas the notion of the struggle of the gods has sprung only from attempts to explain the conflicting powers in nature or to picture to oneself the origin and history of the gods (the Olympian gods).

[**)] Werke. 2te Abth. 4ter Bd. p. 231.

assert the truth of the religious relation.

What is justified in Schelling's concept of a positive philosophy is on the whole this, that the existing stands independently over against comprehending thought and must be acknowledged by it, not dissolved and volatilized. But this positive cannot be reached by any other way than that of exact empirical science and of historical criticism. And when experience acquires independent significance, the existence of things (quod) will also prove to be a necessary presupposition for thought's being able to comprehend their essence (qvid). Schelling's emphasis on the concept of existence is more a prophetic annunciation than a real beginning. He has beheld in imagination what is the task for laborious work in reality.

Schelling's positive philosophy is not orthodox. It excludes not only theology, but faith too, as positive faith, cannot possibly acquire real significance, since positive philosophy is indeed precisely to lead beyond mythology and revelation to the free, philosophical religion which is one with the philosophy of religion. "The philosophy of revelation is more radical than is generally believed. From the theological side one thought at once to be able to use Schelling's new system as a counterweight to the negative criticism, and he was, as we have seen, not free from coquetting with orthodoxy. But the old thinker has not denied his past to the degree that was assumed from the most opposite sides, that of negative criticism as well as that of orthodoxy. Theology has therefore here, as so often in relation to philosophical systems, confined itself to accepting individual premises or slogans, while it cautiously holds back from the consequences. These consequences themselves are, moreover, expressed only in brief hints; but already by these a principle is established which furnishes the best corrective against the great *[149]* thinker's own uncritical doctrines.

2. *The Younger Fichte.* — This name, too, recalls one of the greatest figures in the history of modern philosophy. The recollection lies all the nearer, since the son himself declares that he found the first impulses to his own inquiry in his father's thinking and personality. His inquiry thereby received a stamp which it never lost, even through the various phases it passed through. — Johann Gottlieb Fichte (1762—1814) seized and developed, as was mentioned earlier (p. 4), with restless energy a central point in the Kantian philosophy, and thereby carried it beyond its original limitation and unclarity. He was thereby led to a subjective idealism, in which he also found a foundation for his practical striving. Heroic labor for the sake of labor itself, and with ascetic contempt for every resting in what is given and attained, was Fichte's ethical principle. But later he sought, beyond this subjective and practical idealism, this eternal and never quieted

becoming and acting, to grasp an eternal being; beyond the strict necessity of duty, to find the religious, the blessed life, where the Absolute no longer stands as a distant, unattainable end, but is immanent in man. From his purely subjective starting point he believed he had arrived at this summit, in that he no longer regarded consciousness as absolute, but as the phenomenal revelation of the Absolute.

It was from this later form of the father's doctrine that the son, Immanuel Hermann Fichte (b. 1797), took his starting point. In studying his father's posthumous writings he found the theoretical expression of what in his childhood had met him practically in the
[150] personal way of thinking and life of both his parents[*)]. For the mother had entered in the most inward way into the whole spirit of her husband, and because of his early death it was she through whom this spirit had to act upon the son. "To her influence," he says[*)], "I owe everything of higher awakening, of unshakable assurance, that has remained with me all my life long, even if not philosophically interpreted, still less philosophically comprehended. But the drive, the inextinguishable need, was thereby implanted in me to see that ethical-religious element justified and brought to understanding for me also by way of the concept." This statement contributes to the explanation of the strong as well as the weak sides of the younger Fichte. By virtue of the motive he has here given for his philosophical inquiry (it was this that led him over from philological studies to philosophy), he calls himself a philosopher of personality; the conviction of the reality of personality and of personal life is what runs through the whole of his long scientific activity. But this personal interest, which is present from the very first and demands its satisfaction, also hinders in many ways the free, unbiased view, the pure, consistent development. However much merit the younger Fichte has earned by his opposition to one-sided pantheism and idealism, and later to materialism, the effect of it is nevertheless weakened, on the other hand, by the tendentious, by the immediate appearance of the conscious aim, and in the results themselves, too, much that is unclear and downright fantastic thereby emerges.

As the need to clarify his ethical-religious conviction was the positive motive for I.
[151] H. Fichte's philosophizing, so he has further declared that the opposition in which this conviction was bound to come to the reigning system, the Hegelian, has been a "constant goad driving him forward. The absolute idealism, as Schelling and Hegel had developed it, was bound to repel him in a twofold respect. First by its pantheistic result, according to which everything single and individual was something untrue and something vanishing;

[150] [*)]Cf. "J. G. Fichtes Leben und literarischer Briefwechsel" 2te Aufl. 1862. Von I. H. Fichte, — a book which Feuerbach (in "Pierre Bayle") rightly held in high esteem.

[*)]Bericht über meine philosophische Selbstbildung. Verm. Schr. 1869. 1ster Bd. p. 32.

— the reality of personality was, after all, a fundamental truth for him from the first. But secondly also by the postulate of an absolute knowledge. For Fichte it was a necessary demand that the validity of knowledge must first be established before thought could raise itself to the Absolute. The subjective standpoint, which Schelling and Hegel believed they had overcome, still had its justification for him. — "I must confess," he says (op. cit. p. 53), "that the involuntary protest against it [against the results of Hegel's system], but also the wish to do justice by the speculative way to the new demands that thereby arose, have since that time become the spur that really urged on my philosophizing."

The study of the history of philosophy led him[*)] to distinguish between a twofold series of views which stood in decisive opposition to each other. The one is that which, like Schelling and Hegel, at once takes an objective starting point and from there develops a doctrine of being as objective substance. This direction rests, in its speculative as well as in its mystical forms, on the unity of thinking and being, and leads in its final consequence to pantheism. The other direction is the subjective-reflective, which is chiefly represented by Kant; its one-sidedness consists in its being unable to raise itself above the limits *[152]* of subjective consciousness, being unable to reach an objective knowledge. The true union and mediation between the two directions he finds in the philosophical system's beginning with the theory of knowledge and only through it raising itself to the objective standpoint. In his chief metaphysical work, "Grundzüge zum Systeme der Philosophie," the first part is therefore the theory of knowledge: "das Erkennen als Selbsterkennen" (1833); the second part is ontology (1836), "the science of the forms of reality and, since only the Absolute is the real, of the Absolute's forms of reality"; the third part, "die spekulative Theologie oder allgemeine Religionslehre" (1846), forms the conclusion, in that from the concept of the world, as ontology developed it in developing the forms of reality, a way is sought back to the idea of God, the final explanation and grounding of the given fact of the world.

Consciousness must, so the theory of knowledge begins, begin with itself, with its immediately given essence. Only step by step can it develop and educate itself to truth. Consciousness is itself the beginning, because it is what is immediately certain, and the theory of knowledge is the history of the development of consciousness to thinking and under thinking. From its first standpoint, where it is still lost in intuition, in immediate unity with the objective, consciousness works its way forward to representation, thought and knowledge. When it now, at its highest stage, reflects on its own essence and, with penetrating reflection and dissolving skepticism, has annihilated every immediate

[*)] "Beiträge zur Charakteristik der neuern Philosophie" (1829. 2te Aufl. 1841). "Ueber Gegensatz, Wendepunkt und Ziel heutiger Philosophie" (1832).

content, there remains only its own essence itself as the sole certainty. The whole of objectivity has vanished into subjectivity. Knowledge has therefore shrunk from the broad manifoldness of external reality into a narrow circle, into the formal knowledge of
[153] itself. This is a necessary point of transition to the free knowledge of the truth. That it can be only a point of transition, — that consciousness cannot hold itself at this point, lies in the fact that by making everything nothing it would also sublate itself, since it would then become consciousness of nothing. Consciousness can have reality only insofar as it has an absolute content as its basis, indissoluble by reflection. This content is *absolute*, because it is not, like the finite objective, posited by consciousness, but is itself its root and foundation; it is an absolute being, because it is not consciousness itself, but is in consciousness. The Absolute is the eternal fundamental condition of all consciousness. Consciousness is thus only something relative, the image and revelation of an unconditioned being, which must be as surely as there is consciousness at all. From this it follows also that speculative thought does not stand in opposition to intuition; as consciousness in its ultimate ground is a sensing of the Absolute, so thought, when it is to grasp all the Absolute's forms of revelation, must constantly take elements of intuition into itself. The highest form of knowledge is therefore speculative-intuiting knowledge, and all speculation in the last instance is theosophy.

The determination of the essence and concept of the Absolute the theory of knowledge must leave to ontology. The theory of knowledge can only establish that the concept of the Absolute has reality; ontology has the task of developing the eternal forms in which everything concretely real appears. But the thinking by which this development is carried through is no longer, as in Hegel, abstract and void of content; on the contrary, it has through the theory of knowledge gained certainty of the Absolute, and now seeks only to develop more fully what lies in its essence. From the more abstract and one-sided forms it seeks, by way of the immanent dialectic, ever more concrete determinations.
[154] At its summit, when it has exhausted the categories, the system of the eternal forms of the world, ontology becomes a doctrine of Ideas or speculative theology, in that it ends in something real that is no longer afflicted with the sting of contradiction, but contains the eternal archetype of reality, to which all those forms of the world stand in a serving relation. In the doctrine of Ideas the negative dialectic gives way to the positive; for it is now real relations that are at issue. The movement within the world of Ideas is an archetype of the real world-process. When, therefore, the doctrine of Ideas leads to the result that the Idea of spirit, of personality, is the highest reality, this is a truth which the real development of the world also in fact establishes, which, however, it is

no longer the business of metaphysics but of real philosophy (the philosophy of nature and the philosophy of history) to establish. Hegelian philosophy was bound to lead to pantheism precisely because it did not make this separation between formal and real philosophy. In Hegel the dialectical development of the categories is the Absolute's own self-development; therefore the Absolute is first complete, first absolute spirit, at the end of the development. But it must be strictly maintained that the ontological development of concepts separates what in God is eternally one, what he is in unchangeable equality with himself, exalted above all becoming and development. Different from this is the way in which God's essence manifests itself within the actual development of the world, by which that eternal being in its absolute unity is untouched. ("Gegensatz von Ewigkeit und zeiterfüllender Genesis"). As we can know the laws of space apart from what fills space, so we can also, through the development of the a priori forms, know the essence of God. But this does not lead, as pantheism thinks, to an adequate and absolute comprehension of the divine, still less to our thinking's being identical with the divine self-knowledge. For this knowledge of forms does not yet reach God in himself, the fullness of the divine essence and its infinite freedom. While our ontological thinking is purely a priori and *[155]* dialectical, the divine thought that reveals itself in the reality of the world is absolutely positive and concrete. The opposition between the theocentric and the anthropocentric standpoint must be maintained; the first is absolutely inaccessible to us. —

What is characteristic of this attempt to get beyond absolute idealism is that, by giving the objective knowledge of Ideas a subjective grounding through reflection on the essence of consciousness, one modifies its essence and results and turns it from absolute into relative. The question then is whether the knowledge of Ideas does not lose its speculative and objective significance by being supported on a reflective theory of knowledge. Against this point criticism also turned, not only from the camp of the Hegelians, who saw in Fichte's attempt a return to Kant's subjective standpoint, but also from a man who otherwise in his whole direction seemed to stand close to Fichte and was generally placed together with him. C. H. *Weisse* showed in his polemic against Fichte, "Das philosophische Problem der Gegenwart" (1842), that the starting point Fichte had taken in his father's subjective idealism made it impossible for him to appreciate, still less to take up into his view, what Schelling and Hegel had taught about the essence of the Idea. The Idea of the Absolute, as these thinkers conceived and developed it, is the assurance, established in an intellectual intuition or a dialectical development of concepts, that it is not the bare subject that is what truly is and is real, but that this requires the subject's passing over into the objective and its return to itself again, in

short the absolute subject's infinite potentiation by being mediated with its objectivity. But this Idea is so far from being gained through a reflective theory of knowledge that the latter must, on the contrary, always presuppose it. The theory of knowledge cannot
[156] establish the reality of the Idea, since it, as Fichte too admits, itself rests on it. One in any case comes to move in a circle: the reality of knowledge is to prove the reality of the Absolute, on which it itself depends. Out of this circle one gets only by distinguishing between the preparatory school the individual must pass through in order to come to the truth, and the truth itself, and then, in developing the latter, by proceeding from what is in itself the original.

Yet it was not this consideration that later moved Fichte to seek another grounding of the Absolute and another transition from the theory of knowledge to the other parts of the system. He maintained, on the contrary, the necessity of the theory of knowledge's going before metaphysics (the doctrine of Ideas, the doctrine of the Absolute). But whereas the transition had earlier been immanent, in that the essence of consciousness itself led back to the Absolute as its ground, he later rejected this pure immanence as pantheistic. God was by it only seen as the indwelling subject-object, in which the finite knowing subject was dialectically sublated through the infinite act of knowledge. On the other hand, the pantheistic principle is abolished when one regards the result of the theory of knowledge as a new problem, in whose solution we leave the negative, immanent development. This problem then becomes: what is the ground of the identity of subject and object on which all knowledge depends?

In his "speculative theology," in which he in this way corrects his earlier doctrine, he states that the latter could only lead to conceiving God as the spiritual unity of the finite world. It is chiefly studies in natural science and anthropology that have led him to the conviction of the reality of the individual, that it is not a merely finite thing that is sublated in the Absolute's infinite process. With this there follows, then, a new method too. If this had earlier been dialectical-ontological, in that it sought by way of immanent
[157] speculation to develop the idea of God, there is now laid down as foundation a line of thought corresponding to the old cosmological proof, in which one infers from existence as a given fact back to God as its ground and cause.

The unity of subject and object which knowledge presupposes now becomes only a single fact, which, to be seen in its right light, must be ordered into the whole fact of the world. For this shows us as what really is not, as Hegel thought, a series of vanishing moments, but an infinity of real positions, of primal qualities, which constitute what is original and abiding in all change, the substantial in the finite. Pantheism knows only

two terms, the Absolute and the finite that becomes (the phenomenal); but if the real development of the world in its manifoldness is not to be reduced to a mere semblance, a third term, a middle term, becomes necessary, the concept of the substantial finite, the real primal position. Pantheism is thereby refuted, as it were, from below, starting from the immediate fact of the world. But while the explanation of the given thus leads to the assumption of an infinite, real manifoldness — an assumption that contains what is justified in Herbart's doctrine and in his opposition to speculative idealism — it nevertheless soon appears that this manifoldness only subsists, and only can subsist, in and by means of an infinite unity that pervades them all. Each position is not something for itself, but stands in inner interrelation with all the others. In the same way, therefore, as the fact of knowledge leads to the assumption of a unity that embraces and conditions both the subject and things, it now appears that everything existing, in its manifoldness and individual peculiarity, must be borne and grounded by an unconditioned unity which contains the final ground of the whole connection of the world as well as of every relative unity and whole within it. The unity of the world can only be a product of the creative *[158]* primal unity.

The next question then becomes how such an absolute unity of the infinite is possible. By assuming the absolute unity one really only moves the difficulty one step back, from the conditioned to the unconditioned. On this question too Fichte stresses that its answer must be sought on the basis of and in analogy with what is originally given. He sets up, on the whole, as his guiding principle, that only from the reality of the world can the idea of God be known. — The actual connection between single beings proves, on closer view, to presuppose an ideal connection in which the concept of the one is conditioned by the concept of the other and requires it as its necessary presupposition: for the one to be, the other must also be. However separate single beings may be in their external reality, ideally regarded they are nonetheless present in and for one another. This ideal connection is a teleological connection. The relation between aim and means is, after all, precisely this, that the former presupposes the latter as a necessary condition, while conversely the latter first finds in the former its complete explanation and grounding. This ideal, teleological connection in turn presupposes a surveying and comprehending thought which at the same time, in its real essence, actually posits and encloses the existing manifold. The Absolute has been thought of as a world-soul that acts and forms in the world with omnipresent but unconscious reason. The ideal comprehending is here a beholding imagination, and the creative activity consists in this imaginative activity's rising to express, individually producing intuiting. So in Schelling's philosophy of nature,

where everything existing is a particular form of the Absolute's self-intuiting. A higher stage is reached when one sees, like Hegel, that the Absolute cannot be lost in objective
[159] intuiting, but must be free as universal reason, absolute spirit. Yet it is still always only the concept of a world-spirit that is thereby reached, and the conclusion becomes only relative, poses a new problem. For the concept of the world-spirit is only a concentrated expression of the problem of the world, of the fact that in the universe the highest unity of reason and reality is realized; but the question remains unanswered how this is possible, what the final ground of this fact is. Herein lies the necessity of going beyond Hegelian philosophy[*)].

To this is added yet another difficulty. Absolute idealism cannot develop the concept of spirit in such a way that it comes to stand free over against the unconscious. Unconscious life, nature in the narrower sense, therefore remains unexplained. On the other hand, the knowledge that all immediate differences of time and space, all immediate existing whatever, is taken up into the teleological connection, leads to the conviction that this whole connection must be possessed by the Absolute as the archetype of the world in eternal clarity. Inner purposiveness thus leads of necessity beyond itself. The archetype of the world, the eternal thought-cosmos, the all-consciousness, leads back in turn to a unity of self-consciousness as its ground. And so we stand at the last link of the long teleological proof, which in its course has step by step supported itself on the fact of the world. Only a divine power of will can contain the cause of the world, since the world is not one with the pure concept. And such a power God possesses as the self-conscious unity that eternally posits and unites the real primal positions.

[160] Both in the concept of the highest principle and in the concept of the finite, correctives have thus been shown against the pantheistic results of abstract speculation. And both correctives stand in inner connection. The Absolute's concentrated unity as self-consciousness would not be possible if a true reality were not contained in it, and on the other hand the finite would be only an untrue semblance if its real ground were not contained in the divine essence. The primal positions, which here enter as the necessary intermediate determination between the infinite and the finite, are therefore eternal, "uncreated through God's eternal willing of himself." — The question now is how the primal positions are more precisely related, on the one side to God, from whose essence they spring, on the other side to the finite world, whose substance they constitute.

As regards the first part of this question, there lies in it a difficulty which Weisse already, in his polemic mentioned above, has pointed out with great acuteness. For since

[*)] Cf. above p. 21 f. Fichte's characterization of Hegelian philosophy in an earlier work.

the primal positions are, by an inference from effect to cause (via causalitatis), led back from actual existence, whose individual foundation they constitute, to the essence of God, this movement really comes to the same thing that Fichte himself reproaches Schelling and Hegel with, namely seeking an explanation of the given by moving the difficulty one step further back. But the difficulty is thereby sharpened rather than eased. "How," asks Weisse rightly, "can it be reconciled with the concept of God as spirit, as free, absolute spirit, to think any particular finite determination whatever, or, what surely comes to the same, an infinity of such determinations, posited in him in an eternal and unchangeable way?" Fichte's answer to this question is unclear and wavering. While in some places it seems as if he conceives the primal positions as eternal in their absolute, monadic singleness ("primally created" thus = uncreated) — a notion that would lead to a fabulous *[161]* doctrine of pre-existence — in other places it is said that "the primal positions exist in the eternal nature in an archetypal, but not in an expressly individual way," that they cannot in the last instance remain in their atomistic singleness, but must go back into the unity of the divine essence as its eternal fundamental forces. Yet he declares the question insoluble "in what express way God unites with himself these beings that are substantial for us, whether he posits them as perennial or takes them back as fluid moments into his unity." Certainly this problem can be pressed in such a way that it becomes not merely insoluble but also meaningless. Yet it cannot be denied that Fichte, in taking up from Herbart the concept of the primal positions, through which, by his own declaration (Ontologie p. 194), it first became possible for him to take the decisive step beyond Hegel, — has thereby brought something heterogeneous into his view, which can only with difficulty be reconciled with its other elements, stemming from speculative idealism. Therefore Erdmann has also characterized his doctrine as eclecticism. Eclecticism is what every standpoint becomes that is unable to let the new and foreign elements it takes up undergo an inner transformation in being appropriated.

The system of the primal positions constitutes for Fichte the inner nature in God. By means of this concept he believes he gets beyond not only the pantheistic but also the vulgar theistic view. The justification of pantheism lies in the truth that without the world, without the universe, God would not be God; with God's reality a universe is posited in which everything is enclosed and nothing can arise or perish. But on the other side it holds: the *immediate* reality is not the divine; God would be God even without this given world. — Ordinary theism teaches, in opposition to pantheism, a miraculous creation out of nothing, an actual production of something that before was not but now *[162]* comes into being as the product of omnipotence. Against this view Fichte holds to his

father's well-known words, that it is the fundamental error of all false metaphysics, and that no one has said an intelligible word about it. In comparison with such a view pantheism would necessarily have the advantage; it stands one step nearer the truth, since it does not violate the idea of God by attributing to God an absolute arbitrariness. The true theism is the one that has taken pantheism up into itself insofar as pantheism is justified, namely insofar as it asserts the connection of essence between God and the world. It can, in opposition to the vulgar, dualistic view, be called concrete theism or, with an expression borrowed from Krause, panentheism[*)].

This leads us to the second part of the question raised above, the relation between the ideal world in God and finite existence, or in other words to the real problem of creation. That Fichte denies a creation in the vulgar sense, which here is also the ecclesiastical-dogmatic one, we have already seen. The problem of creation must take the following form for him: why do the primal positions not remain in their eternal, unchanging rest, but enter into the limitation of finite existence and ever-changing becoming? — The divine will is not absolutely producing; it is only permitting. This concept of the permitting will becomes, in the doctrine of creation, the intermediate determination
[163] between the pantheistic and the dualistic conception, just as the concept of the primal positions was in the conception of the general relation between God and the world. — Instead of the inner, archetypal way in which the primal positions are in the eternal ideal world, they are now released into isolated, mutually exclusive existence, placed under the form of space, time and corporeality. The problem of creation is not a special problem; it is no more incomprehensible than the problem of the arising of any single natural phenomenon whatever. But the permitting will is only one side of the matter. For the primal positions themselves strive for independence; there is in each of them a Promethean germ, in whose awakening creation precisely consists, a germ which makes every finite being something peculiar, and which drives the single being to produce itself, while it is produced by the divine will. The omnipotence of this will is thus no longer transcendent; but it is not on that account less unconditioned. —

This clear and rational development of the relation between God and the world comes nevertheless, apart from the difficulty touched on earlier in the concept of the primal positions, to suffer from an unclarity which stems from the way in which God's personality is conceived. Fichte asserts with good reason that the concept of an absolute

[*)]Cf. "Vermischte Schriften" I. p. 275: "By theism we understand the quite general thought that the absolute principle of the world can in no case be thought as blind, unconscious power, as universal substance or abstract, impersonal reason, but only as a being existing in and for itself, for whose fundamental property human thinking has at its disposal no other analogy or other expression than absolute self-consciousness."

self-consciousness contains no contradiction that would not also lie in the concept of a mere unity of substance or of an impersonal world-spirit. The problem remains the same, namely that of the relation between infinity and unity, but it is solved most completely and clearly by the concept of absolute self-consciousness. It is no inadmissible anthropomorphism to transfer the determination of self-consciousness, of personality, to God; on the contrary, only God is a pure I, a perfect unity with himself, while in the finite spirit the I is only the work of reflection and abstraction, and the unity therefore formal and empty. What needs explanation is therefore rather how the concept of the I *[164]* or of self-consciousness also finds its finite representatives. — But Fichte finds in the principle of personality, as he applies it to God, "a specific more" than mere necessity; the concept of the divine will is not exhausted, in his conception, by its being seen as the highest unity of freedom and necessity — that would, as he puts it, give only an acting, not a deed. The divine deed is, on the contrary, to exclude positively the necessary, the "nature-like." God could therefore have refrained from creating the world, and he can at any moment return to his inner, self-contained self-satisfaction, without the world; if the world nevertheless subsists, it can only be by his will. Fichte here not only puts his rational doctrine of creation in danger, but also comes into opposition to the whole standpoint of more recent speculative philosophy, which he nevertheless does not want to deny, but on the contrary to carry further. If everything is in the last instance to depend on a choice for whose outcome thought can find no necessary cause, what is it then but a return to the old creatio ex nihilo? An unconditioned and ungrounded choice was precisely the nothing out of which God, according to the doctrine of the church, created the world. And Fichte thereby arrives at the notion of a God finished once and for all, whose nature is only seen as the product of will, a God without nature. He polemicizes against Schelling's attempt to demonstrate an unconscious life of nature within the Godhead itself. Nature is thus for Fichte essentially something derived, not something original[*)]. The great result that speculative idealism had reached with regard *[165]* to the idea of God, although still in one-sided form, was on the contrary that the divine essence could not be an abstract subject, a pure spirit without nature, but that, as the final ground of everything, it must also be akin in essence to everything. The younger Fichte forfeits this result through his spiritualism, which has no eye for the significance of the life of nature with regard to the determination of the idea of God. —

We follow Fichte further to his indications concerning the philosophy of history

[*)] "Der Geist der Natur, weil er sich nur in unbewusster Weisheit des Wirkens zu zeigen vermag, ist eben darum der nicht-absolute, nicht der Geist Gottes." "Beiträge zur Charakteristik der neuern Philosophie". 2. Aufl. p. 765.

and the philosophy of religion. As single beings pass over from the eternal primal position into finite existence, temporal development, what is really central in these single existences becomes the spiritual primal disposition, in whose peculiar form individuality consists. This is what Fichte calls genius. Through this ideal element the single existence stands in inner connection with the divine essence. The ground of evil lies not in finitude itself, nor in an incomprehensible arbitrariness in man, but in the possibility that the finite being does not reach the end set for it. Since, therefore, neither finitude nor sin entails an absolute opposition to God, or leads outside God, God's action in existence cannot take place in an external, miraculous way either. Through the ideal primal disposition (genius) in the finite the Godhead works, strengthening, furthering, potentiating, toward the end of the world's development. By this divine action the isolated and dualistic in finite existence is sublated step by step. All truly historical deeds are brought forth by the divine awakening of man's genius, by the enthusiasm that seizes human freedom, so that, in performing its own work, it becomes conscious that its content lies beyond itself,
[166] must have been infused into it. At the highest stage it is the religious-ethical Idea that inspires, and the individual thereby becomes mediator between the Godhead and the rest of humanity, religious genius, prophet. The highest end to be reached through this development, borne throughout by divine forces, is the most inward and complete unity of self-satisfaction and devotion. All salvation consists in the conscious perfection of one's own essence in and through love.

Divine action is divine precisely because it does not come forth in external, crude palpability, but wholly clothes itself in the freedom of single beings and the laws of finite existence. The true miracle consists in the way in which, through this inner development, new Ideas can suddenly come forth and geniuses be awakened to bear them. The constant miracle is the divine spirit's entry into the finite, whereby the finite becomes co-creator and participant in the process of the world's development. On the other hand, no philosophical thinking will stoop to assume miracles proper, interruptions or abolitions of the order of nature; for these are only the purposeless and spiritless, the sensuous parody of those spiritual miracles. God's action is universal, not bound within the limit of certain events in time.

Yet here in Fichte, just as in the development of the idea of God and of the problem of creation, there occurs a break with the rational. Just as he there demanded "a specific more" besides the unity of freedom and necessity, so here too he is not satisfied with the determination of the philosophy of history, somewhat indefinite indeed but nevertheless rational in its principle, but demands, under the evident influence of positive religion,

that the development of the world must reach its summit in a God-man, since the unity of the divine and the human spirit is supposed originally to be thinkable only in one subject. "It cannot be a multiplicity of I's in which God originally becomes man, but as *[167]* in the whole of creation nothing wavers in indefinite outlines, but everything is pointed to the decided peculiarity of the individual, so the highest work of creation, too, must be wholly concluded and perfected in a single fact. Divine humanity, whereby the spirit of God is in a universal way to make itself one with the human race, is a wholly unclear thought, as abstract and half-hearted as the pantheistic concept of God, to which it wholly corresponds, both resting on taking the abstract, the merely universal, for the highest. The God-man alone solves the confused riddle of history, in that his existence and its historical consequences give us the effective guarantee that in him the divine spirit is in the midst of us and will as surely accomplish the moral redemption of the human race as it has first sent the God-man." — Yet this is to be only a general postulate, arising with necessity; from it there are to follow no further consequences regarding the way in which it is historically realized, although Fichte does not fail to remark in passing that there arises from it "an inner proof of a peculiar kind" for the credibility of the historical accounts that treat of the God-man.

It is easy to see that all this conflicts with the premises from which it is derived. But this is a conflict that necessarily arises from the unclear way in which Fichte conceives the relation between immanence and transcendence. It is, according to a frequently recurring turn of phrase, immanence itself that leads to transcendence; but that implies, too, that transcendence is on the other hand conditioned by and enclosed by immanence. It is in particular a most superficial line of proof that underlies the postulate of the God-man. Strauss's conception of the Idea is pantheistic, to be sure; but his statement is nevertheless correct, that the Idea never wholly exhausts itself in a single existence. On the other hand, the way in which the Straussian conception is to be corrected lies *[168]* in Fichte's own doctrine of the significance of individuality. The Idea of the unity of God and man is not enough in itself, but is to be personally appropriated and to live in the single individuals. Each one is, as the mystics taught, to become a Christ. It is this emphasis on the Idea's indwelling in personalities that leads beyond the pantheistic, not the fantastic demand for a single and absolute realization of the Idea.

Other statements suggest, moreover, that it was not Fichte's intention by that postulate to pay homage to the positive dogma. He names it as a great benefit of his upbringing that he had been brought up entirely religiously, but that the doctrines of faith proper, with their "mysteries" and incomprehensibilities, remained remote from him. "This spar-

ing of what is wholly superfluous preserved me from the dangerous conflict of having to break with the authority of faith on entering a more mature culture. The eternal, the universally human in faith never left me. The external, historical setting I could confidently leave to sifting criticism (Verm.Schr. I. p. 327). Philosophy must, he asserts against Schelling and Weisse, wholly free itself from the theological circle of representations. Christian theism is to develop into universal, humanistic theism. "For we would have it considered that not only the fundamentally changed and enlarged cosmological world-view, but still more the incomparably freer survey of the essence and common origin of the great world-historical religions, as also, finally, the deeper knowledge of the divine in every genuine development of culture, — that all this also speculatively makes necessary a more enlarged and at the same time more deeply developed concept of God" (p. 119). —

The writings of I. H. Fichte with which we have so far occupied ourselves, namely "Grundzüge zum Systeme der Philosophie" in their three parts: theory of knowledge,
[169] ontology and speculative theology, date from the thirties and forties. It was then, as we have often stressed, the pantheistic problem that was on the agenda. Despite all his unclarities Fichte contributed much to the critique of one-sided pantheism. With regard to the problem that pressed forward in the fifties and sixties, materialism, the question of the relation between the spiritual and the material, he also has merits. — If in the first controversy it was dialectical and metaphysical investigations that mattered above all, now psychology became the philosophical science that attracted the highest interest. Already in his first writings Fichte appealed to experience as the supplement of speculation, and it was the study of experience that convinced him of the reality of the individual. He even states that he grounds his doctrine solely on experience and on the necessary inferences built upon it. But it has in part already appeared in the foregoing, and will appear more clearly on closer consideration of Fichte's anthropological and psychological writings, that he is only with difficulty able to place himself in an objective and unbiased relation to the given. Just as, by his attempt to overcome the Schelling-Hegelian speculation, he became the object of a justified criticism from Weisse, who otherwise agreed with him in many ways, so too the way in which he later sought to work up the results of empirical science in anthropological and psychological respects met with a sharp objection from *Hermann Lotze* (Streitschriften. 1stes Heft. 1857), who likewise, as regards the whole general direction, declared his agreement with him. On both points the explanation of this peculiar relation seems to lie in the fact that Fichte, by his own declaration mentioned above, is a philosopher of personality and always

seeks immediately to satisfy the religious interest. He has not resignation enough to bow to the objective powers of speculation and experience in order through them to *[170]* reach the true knowledge, which would then also have to include the true satisfaction of the religious interest; instead this interest intervenes unconsciously in the course of the investigations and hinders their objective, scientific execution.

This is seen, among other things, in his polemic against atomic theory. Modern physics has led to the necessity of assuming that matter in the last instance consists of discrete parts or atoms. For the exact explanation of what changes in phenomena requires something unchangeable, something constant. "The point is," says W. Weber[*)], "to separate out in the causes of motion such a constant part that the remainder is indeed changeable, but that its changes can be thought of as dependent solely on measurable relations of space and time. By this way one arrives at a concept of mass with which the notion of spatial extension is not at all necessarily connected. Consistently, then, the size of atoms in the atomistic view is by no means measured by spatial extension, but by their mass, i.e. by the relation, constant for each atom, in which force stands to the increase of velocity." Atomic theory in this form is a hypothesis at which science must necessarily arrive. But it is clear that no dogmatic view is thereby taught; atomic theory is no conclusion, only what is last for physics, thus relatively last. But the demand must be made of him who would take the results of modern physics into his world-view that he does not evade, but really thinks through, this necessary presupposition. As little here as earlier in face of the speculative conception of the Absolute is it enough to make partial alterations and reinterpretations.

Nevertheless Fichte in his Anthropologie (1856) regards atomic theory more as a *[171]* fiction than as a necessary scientific hypothesis. He therefore seeks to combat it with all the weapons at his disposal, without considering that he lacks precisely the weapon on which alone everything here would depend, namely the exact method. And yet he means to attack atomic theory "at its real center, on the very ground of natural science"! He here becomes the idealist counterpart of Czolbe, who, by virtue of the principle of materialism, polemicized against modern physiology. But while Czolbe turns against the clear, positive teaching of science, Fichte confuses the opinion of a few individual materialist atomists with the atomic theory of physics. Hence it comes that he regards the latter as a doctrine that can be refuted with speculative weapons, and he wholly overlooks the skeptical character that every such hypothesis of a special science possesses in metaphysical respects. It is therefore, as will appear, more a lack of sharp

[*)] In a letter to Fechner, quoted in the latter's "Atomenlehre" 2te Aufl. p. 88.

apprehension of the principle and method of empirical science than real disagreement with its results that underlies his polemic against atomic theory.

What compelled physicists to take refuge in atomic theory was, in his opinion, the false presupposition of empty space from which they started. If they now did not want to lose the firm ground of the real, empty space had to be thought of as filled by something else that was just as original, and this ultimately real and space-filling thing was then thought of as the indivisible atoms, which thus contained the limit of divisibility that the visible things composed of atoms did not possess. But the presupposition of empty space he believed he had refuted in his Ontologie, where he had shown that space and time do not subsist independently and apart from things, but are only forms of the real, insofar as the real partly subsists and endures in itself, partly asserts itself against
[172] another by positing and filling its sphere of being and action. All quantity presupposes quality altogether as what fills and determines, just as conversely every quality entails its peculiar quantitative expression. Space and time are only the forms, in themselves dependent, of everything real; only in abstraction can they acquire independence — such an abstraction as, in Fichte's opinion, underlies the physicists' atomic theory. If one sublates this abstraction again and instead infers back from the purely quantitative forms to the qualitative that underlies them, then mechanical atomic theory is thereby overthrown too. Instead of the qualityless, mechanically indissoluble points of space or atoms there then enter qualitative atoms, which posit and fill their space and, by their mutual kinship and the interaction thereby conditioned, produce the phenomenon of relatively impenetrable bodies.

Besides mechanical atomic theory Fichte combats the speculative-dynamic conception of matter as well. This conception, which was founded by Kant[*)] and later was developed further by Schelling and Hegel, forms the counterpart to atomic theory. While the latter from first to last seeks to punctualize and centralize, and only from the discrete elements rises to the total and coherent, the dynamic conception regards matter as a continuum whose final ground it seeks. The fundamental peculiarities of matter, impenetrability and the differing filling of space, are led back to two different forces, the force of attraction and the force of repulsion, from whose mutual relation phenomenal matter results. Fichte objects to this construction that every force presupposes a real
[173] subject whose property it is, or by whose relation to another subject it can first manifest itself as force. But this real subject of force the speculative construction leaves out of

[*)] In his "Metaphysische Anfangsgründe der Naturwissenschaft" (1786). On the other hand, Kant in an older treatise, "Metaphysicæ cum geometria junctæ usus in philosophia naturali" (1756), stood on the atomistic standpoint. Cf. *Lotze* in "Gött. gel. Anz." 1855. p. 1095—1099.

consideration. It overlooks that an individualizing moment is lacking, by which the forces first become real forces. Such a moment physics offers in its atoms, if we only deprive them of their abstractly quantitative character. In his qualitative atomism Fichte thus believes he has found an expression of unity for what is justified both in mechanical atomic theory and in speculative dynamics. But by his misconceived polemic against the former he has deprived himself of the real foundation that metaphysical construction needs; and since he first transforms and reinterprets the reality that is to be reconciled with the demands of the ideal, the reconciliation itself can only be ideal too. The real foundation becomes a phenomenon without real significance. —

The investigations in the philosophy of nature form the preparation for the anthropological ones. The general relation between soul and body is already determined by qualitative atomism. As every real thing produces its space and its time in filling them, so the soul, the real thing disposed to consciousness, brings forth its body. Thereby, in Fichte's opinion, an end is made of both dualism and materialism. Bodily being in space and time is no longer seen as something foreign to the spirit, but proceeds with necessity from its essence, and so it cannot have any absolute power over the soul, whose own product it is. But how is this producing possible? The difficulty of seeing it rests, according to Fichte, solely on our having grown used to conceiving the soul only as a clearly conscious, reflecting and deliberating being. So, in investigating the essence of man, one was bound to stop at a duality: conscious thought and material corporeality. But closer consideration soon shows an intermediate determination. The body is not *[174]* mere matter. Matter is animated, formed and transformed by the organic forces. We thus get a trinity: spirit, organic force and bodily matter. Matter presents no difficulty; its laws are seen through by organic chemistry. The organic force, on the other hand, seems to be something obscure and enigmatic. It is this force that, by its transformation of the elementary substances, brings forth the external, phenomenal corporeality, whose real holding and uniting bond it is. While the external corporeality, which is generally called "body," is never the same, but changes incessantly in its single parts, the system of organic forces forms, on the contrary, a fixed, inner corporeality, a pneumatic organism, whose reflex or "effect" the external body is, which "is thrown into the changing world of matter, much as the magnetic force prepares for itself out of iron filings an apparently solid body, which nevertheless splits apart on all sides when the binding power is withdrawn from it."

But in what relation does this force now stand to the soul itself? It is this question above all whose answer presupposes that one has laid aside the prejudice, nourished

by centuries of scholastic culture, that the soul is supposed to be a purely intellectual and conscious principle. The organic force bears in all its effects the stamp of perfect rationality and inner purposiveness. What it produces is no less than if a most perfect intelligence had chosen it with free deliberation and carried it out with artistic virtuosity. And yet all organic processes are unconscious, hence unconsciously rational; they bear the stamp of spirit without being spirit. The intensive sureness in the acting of this principle and the superior reason it manifests make it an individual providence for the body, which acts not only in the body's first production, when the "primal
[175] position" is embodied, but also manifests itself during continued life in all processes of nutrition, reproduction and self-healing. An analogy to such acting we have in the artist's involuntarily forming sense and in the art-drive of animals. In the latter especially there is manifested a most energetic, dreamlike activity of imagination. And since the life-process now shows us an acting similar to the instinctive working of animals, it is natural to assume the same cause for it. Imagination is precisely such an intermediate determination between consciousness and unconsciousness as we sought. "The life-process can be explained in all its characteristic phenomena only as the soul's most intensive activity of imagination. It stands deepest beneath the threshold of consciousness (deeper than the instincts proper, which already lead beyond the unconscious, but still in demonstrable continuity with them), but precisely for that reason it acts most richly and most beautifully, since it lies furthest from the sensuous-reflecting state, which is the one most foreign to the soul's original inwardness." Imagination is thus the plastic force by which the soul forms its body out of the elements of the material world, a doctrine for which, among others, Stahl (c. 1700) already prepared the way, and which, in Fichte's opinion, only prejudices have pushed back. "Imagination is not at all merely a spiritual faculty, i.e. an activity belonging only to the soul's conscious sphere; it forms quite properly an intermediate determination, is a faculty as much unconsciously realizing as ideal in itself, and reaches therefore, in just the same way, down into the domain of the life-processes, of unconsciously purposive formation and maintenance of the body, as it serves the highest Ideas as an ensouling form."

The soul as "der Herr seiner Verleiblichung" cannot be subject to the perishability of the bodily. The external body, with everything that belongs to it, stands rather in
[176] an inessential relation to the spirit than being something to be regarded as a necessary condition of its realization and its consciousness. This sensuous body in its actual constitution is for the spirit a limit that acts as a hindrance to all its functions of consciousness. There are therefore also states (clairvoyance, magical actio in distans, etc.) in which the

soul ideally frees itself from the limits of this corporeality, in that it beholds and acts independently of the bodily organs. Since in these ecstatic states the horizon of ordinary consciousness is embraced by a freer and more comprehensive consciousness, which conversely does not exist at all for the ordinary, sensuously conscious state, we must have in the ecstatic state "das Vollbewusstsein des Geistes," "das vollgeistige Dasein," while the ordinary state is only a bound and halved existence. The ideal and temporary liberation from corporeality becomes a real one when at death the external body is again dissolved into its elements. In this change the soul does not pass into a purely incorporeal existence; death consists, on the contrary, only in the complete liberation and release of the inner, pneumatic organism. Through its inner primal body, the system of organic forces, the soul can thus still put itself in connection with a surrounding world. Only a matter is here presupposed that can serve as medium for this acting; but such a matter modern physics, after all, offers in the ether, which, though inaccessible to sensuous apprehension, is nevertheless what really acts in natural processes such as light, heat, etc.

These are the main features of Fichte's doctrine of the relation between soul and body. He lays strong emphasis on supporting himself everywhere on facts of experience; but these are, to be sure, partly taken in a very wide sense, partly interpreted in a very free way. Only in a very unscientific sense can one thus call phenomena such as clairvoyance etc. facts of experience; for that they are still too little investigated and critically tested. *[177]* In any case these phenomena belonging to "the night side of life" must rather be regarded as organic-psychical cases of illness than be granted a direct psychological significance. Precisely for the higher mental life one cannot ascribe to them any value, still less that one should, with Fichte, be able to find in them the soul's "vollgeistige Dasein." Only lack of strength to master the true and real facts of experience can lead a thinker to lay such weight on these phenomena.

As regards Fichte's anthropology as a whole, Lotze has strikingly shown in his polemic that he has not achieved what he wanted (and declared in rather lofty tones that he had achieved), namely to show, against materialism and dualism, the true unity of soul and body. "*This* body," says Lotze (p. 131), "on whose connection with the living soul natural feeling alone sets store, this warm blood, this elastic flesh, the sure firmness of the bones and the tension of the sinews, all this remains, by your own theory, wholly foreign to the soul. An inner, invisible body you declare to be the true one; 'the other, the external appearance of it, which is formed out of an incessant exchange of matter, one may well go on calling body; — it is not in truth one, not subsisting, but the mere

effect and reflex of that inner corporeality'… No, it is this that has always alone been called body; only in the unity of this body with the soul can natural feeling take an interest, for this alone it knows… To call this body the image and effect of another is empty words, so long as you have not shown by what force the one is at all able to produce an effect in the other, or according to what laws it can produce its image in the masses that are wholly foreign and external to it. That is the great chasm from
[178] which you always shrink back; whatever the forming principle of the organism may be, it can act only so much, and in the ways, that the general law of nature permits. This process of mechanical realization, the seeking out of the starting points from which the single concurring forces act, the investigation of the special conditions, maintained in the course of nature by an unbroken tradition and transforming themselves in fixed rhythm, from which the unfolding, growth and propagation of creatures proceed, — all this is necessary tasks for science, and I cannot convince myself that they are solved by the notion of an ingenious, organizing fragrance"[*)]. — It is more in an unclear tendency than by a really scientific achievement that Fichte gets beyond the speculative philosophy of nature and psychology. Reality is converted for him into an ideal "fragrance," whose unity with the spiritual it is then not difficult for him to show. —

In his last more considerable work (Psychologie. 1ster Theil. 1864) Fichte declares it to be one of the chief tasks of his psychology to lay the ground for the transformation of the science of religion on a psychological foundation. What this foundation is, is seen by bringing out more closely the way in which Fichte conceives the relation between consciousness and the life of the spirit as a whole. — Consciousness is as such not productive. It produces nothing new, but only accompanies with its light certain real states and representations in the soul. Its light glides like a fleeting torch over the soul's various states, alternately illuminating them and leaving them in darkness. But the highest in
[179] the spirit is, as we have already seen, the real content lying behind consciousness, which only in certain extraordinary mental states comes forth before the spirit, as the spirit is raised to a higher, more comprehensive consciousness. This mystical-ecstatic character the truly religious phenomena now possess. This Schelling has established for all time in his Philosophy of Mythology. Only he is not right in placing the power that in those states irresistibly acts on and in consciousness outside the essence of man, by regarding the various religions as effects of and testimonies to a theogonic process. Yet Fichte, like Schelling, distinguishes between mere ecstasy and revelation proper. In the former the spirit of man is raised, indeed, beyond its usual limitation, but remains nonetheless

[*)] Lotze's critique of I. H. Fichte's anthropology recalls in several respects Leibnitz's critique of Stahl's doctrine. Opera ed. Dutens. vol. II. pars 2. p. 131 ff.

within its own world. Such is ordinary somnambulism, presentiments, etc. But once the spirit has entered into this state of spiritual beholding, it becomes involuntarily receptive also to the reflection of another world of spirit in its consciousness; by this "ecstasy in the second potency" the spirit enters into the region of revelation and is raised above the human stage of consciousness. This is the case where there arises in the religions a content such that mythological activity of imagination is no longer a sufficient explanation. Such a content is God's pure spiritual unity, exalted above the world. Here the cause can be sought only in an objective influence on the human spirit by the spirit that in revelation bears witness to itself. The concepts of revelation and the supernatural do not necessarily belong together. On the contrary, God works his highest and mightiest works in continuous connection with natural phenomena, by heightening the general order of the world.

Since Fichte now sees in this "supra-conscious" content the true essence of spirit, consciousness becomes of merely formal significance. Originally he started from another conception, inasmuch as he sought through the theory of knowledge a grounding of *[180]* the Absolute. Later he took this back, as we have seen, and saw knowledge as a fact whose ground and cause one was to seek. In his Psychologie, finally, he goes yet another step further. One is not to infer from consciousness to the Absolute. Consciousness is not something independent and subsisting for itself, but only a finite being's apprehension and illumination of itself. As many centers of consciousness, therefore, so many references to real, individual spiritual beings. Only by this line of thought is philosophy supposed to be introduced in such a way that pantheism and idealism are excluded. Consciousness is nothing but the most intensive effect of drive, where the being affected leads to an inner illumination of the drive for the spirit itself. The soul is "ein instinktbehaftetes Triebwesen." The germ of consciousness lies in the urge the drive has to seek its object. This seeking and tracking is heightened and clarified when the drive finds what satisfies it; thereby it reflects itself in itself and produces consciousness of the relation between itself and its object. Drive is thus the intermediate determination between the objective, the merely organic, and the subjective, conscious sensation.

The result would thus be that consciousness is only a predicate of a presupposed subject, not something in itself real and substantial. That would be the complete opposite of speculative idealism, for which precisely thought and self-consciousness were the expression of man's true essence. On the theological side this result has been accepted with joy, since it abolishes the rational and necessary character of knowledge and makes it possible to build up the transcendent doctrines of ecclesiastical dogmatics on a new

foundation. Yet this is surely somewhat hasty, even if one sees the matter from Fichte's point of view. However much he regards it as an effect of "centuries of scholastic
[181] culture" to set conscious life above unconscious life, it is by no means his intention thereby to justify what has no really rational and psychological grounding. Even the "supra-conscious" is, in his opinion, only a higher rational. And on closer inspection one will find that he cannot consistently maintain drive as the original mental element. Imagination is, after all, according to his doctrine, the original, producing and organizing principle of the soul, and on it drive too must depend, — so that after all the ideal or intellectual element becomes the original: drive presupposes the purpose that is posited in the unconsciously forming imagination. —

3. *Christian Hermann Weisse* (b. 1801, d. 1866) started out from Hegel's philosophy, from which he moved away only gradually, inasmuch as, in his own words, like a Sibyl he kept demanding more concessions from Hegel in return for less and less recognition. Already at an earlier point (above p. 23f.) we have had occasion to mention the main points on which he departed from Hegel. It was at the summit of the world-view, in the doctrine of absolute spirit, that the disagreement first dawned on him. Hegel states the relation between the highest Ideas, which make up the content and essence of absolute spirit, in this way: the Absolute first appears as the Idea of beauty, in art, in the form of intuition; from there one advances to the more inward form in representation and feeling, in religion, until absolute inwardness and the highest unity are reached in the Idea of science, of truth, which for Hegel is the logical Idea, the realm of the pure categories. To Weisse this was a complete formalism. The unity of form and content was taken by Hegel in the sense that the content was absorbed into the pure, abstract essence of form; for him there could be no question of a highest purpose, of a true and living activity
[182] in the Absolute. The whole of existence serves here only to develop, in a dialectical, law-governed way, the Absolute in its infinite interplay of forms, and the perfection of the real depends on the degree to which it can bring the Absolute's logical forms to revelation. Against this Weisse sets up the demand that in the Absolute, in the ultimate ground and the highest purpose, it must be possible to point out a real value, a good valid in itself and living, which is to be developed and realized in existence on the basis of those forms. Only so will feeling and intuition, too, find rest in the Absolute, whereas they are repelled, indeed annihilated, by pure abstraction.

The main proposition of the Hegelian system was, as has often been emphasized, the unity of reason and reality, but in such a way that only that was regarded as reality which was absolutely one with reason, and reason here means the sum total of the pure

logical categories. To this proposition Weisse gives another meaning, interpreting it thus: "the rational is absolute determination of form, the unconditioned foundation and conditio sine qva non of the real." The logical Idea, then, does not exhaust the content of reality; this content is a positive more, free reality in space and time, which Hegel regards as something purely negative, a falling away from the Idea. The Idea of truth in its pure universal form can then no longer form the conclusion of the doctrine of absolute spirit; it is, on the contrary, only the beginning, the foundation on which a content of higher value can unfold itself. This unfolding takes place as that universal is specified and individualized in an infinite manifold of forms by a producing or generative activity, which goes on in what Weisse calls the divine nature or the divine heart. This process it is the task of aesthetics, as the science of the Idea of beauty, to present, and Weisse attempted such a presentation in his first major work "System der Aesthetik" *[183]* (1830)[*)]. Aesthetics forms the transition to the highest Idea in the realm of spirit, the Idea of the good, the content of ethics and of the philosophy of religion. The Idea of the good presupposes the beautiful, because the good consists in the will to communicate something real. The Idea of the good becomes empty of content if it does not have as its presupposition a living fullness of reality such as the Idea of the beautiful reveals to us in the nature of the Godhead.

Hegel's fundamental error is that he hypostatized the universal logical categories into something positively and really existing, made the logical Idea into God. It is an error he shares with the whole of philosophical dogmatism, which in the necessary determinations of thought immediately sees what really is. But what is great in Hegel is that he was the first to conceive and carry out the idea of a complete development and presentation of the universal and necessary determinations that underlie all being. Absorbed in this work, he took the very sum total of these determinations, the logical Idea, for the only reality. If one wants to understand Hegel rightly, one must integrate this error. His logic must be regarded as a presentation of the necessary forms of existence of reality, not of positive reality itself. That this conception is correct, Weisse finds proof in the fact that it teaches us to see Hegel's fundamental error in the very thing that constitutes his greatness, so that nothing accidental and unexplained is left over.

But this fundamental error regarding the relation between reason and reality brings other defects with it in particulars. Reality unfolding in space and time Hegel regarded as a falling away from the Idea, because space and time were for him the forms of mere externality, without essential significance for the Absolute. A changed conception of *[184]*

[*)] On the specific content of this work see *Lotze*: "Geschichte der Aesthetik in Deutshland."

reality had to bring with it a changed conception of the forms of reality as well. Weisse reproaches Hegel for not developing space, time, and the determinations connected with them in the logic, since after all all reality is in space and time, and these are therefore, just as much as the pure concepts, absolute and necessary forms of existence. Hegel has thereby cut himself off from the possibility of an inner transition from the logic to the philosophy of nature and brought a veritable dualism into his view.

By this critique of Hegel Weisse had arrived, by his own path, at a result similar to the one Schelling voiced some years later in his preface to Cousin (see above p. 126 f.). With this pronouncement of Schelling's he could therefore on the whole agree. But there still remained a thoroughgoing difference between the two thinkers, which failed to come out more definitely only because Schelling's later doctrine became known as a whole only much later. Weisse adopted Schelling's separation between negative and positive philosophy. The logical Idea, the sum total of the pure, universal concepts of reason, then became for him "the negative Absolute". But in the more precise determination of the relation between the negative and the positive the disagreement comes to light. In Schelling, as we have seen, positive philosophy coincided with the philosophy of religion, and the positive starting point from which it proceeds could be grasped only by one who, unsatisfied by life in the Idea, postulated the "Idea-free" God by a religiously determined act of will. Schelling did not, to be sure, deny the principle of necessity, as some of his followers did (notably the philosopher of right Stahl, through whom Schelling's new doctrine first became known in North Germany), who by "positive philosophy" understood a tracing back of all law and all truth in existence to an unlimited divine will;
[185] but in the last instance negative philosophy could still acquire only an accidental and vanishing significance if one could go immediately, through an act of will, to positive philosophy. What Weisse approves in Schelling's later doctrine is, in the first place, the conception of the opposition between necessity and freedom as a real opposition, which cannot be sublated by a formal dialectic, as in Hegel, who in his logical Idea sees the unity of these opposites. It is, further, the conception of necessity as the negative foundation or prius of real existence, in Weisse's expression: as the pure possibility of existence. Only the free is the real, the existent, the positive. But philosophy cannot grasp this positive in a positive way — by this proposition Weisse distinguishes himself from Schelling. Negative philosophy, which for Weisse coincides with metaphysics, but for Schelling was one with the whole of non-religious knowledge, therefore has essential significance here for the positive. The logical Idea contains the root of the positive, and only through the indwelling of the metaphysical, of the logical determinations, does

the positive become something free. Freedom thus springs from necessity and has its ground in it. Freedom, or the fact that the content can also not be, does not therefore consist in an external relation to the form of pure necessity or in an independence of the form; rather, the content becomes free precisely and only through the form, which in its completion is the form of freedom[*)].

In his opposition to Hegel Weisse further had a comrade-in-arms in I. H. Fichte, with whose view his own was therefore for a time regarded as essentially one. Yet they are not only at odds in their conception of Hegel; in the rest of their views, too, such great differences appear that they prompted Weisse to compose the polemical work mentioned earlier: "Das philosophische Problem der Gegenwart." Fichte saw in the Absolute of *[186]* the Hegelian logic the concept of the world-spirit, and believed he could accept this as relatively justified; his critique then amounted to this, that experience, particularly the fact of inner purposiveness, compelled one to go a step further, since the concept of the world-spirit did not contain the sufficient explanation. Weisse, on the other hand, saw in Hegel's logical Idea the pure, necessary determinations of thought, which hold for all reality but in themselves make up only a realm of possibility. The categories were for Fichte only determinations of a presupposed real, of which he sought to attain certainty either through the theory of knowledge or through experience. In this Weisse saw the one-sidedness opposite to Hegel's. "With you," he writes to Fichte (p. 188), "the same categories appear as products of a dependent reflection, as abstract shadows of a reality beyond, which we see in Hegel, no less against their nature, hypostatized into the sum total of what truly is". The right conception, in his opinion, is the one which in the universal determinations of the possibility of existence does not yet, to be sure, see real actuality itself, but seeks to develop them to a point where with inner necessity they pass over into it. Fichte came, as we have seen, to hover between pantheism and vulgar theism, because he would have nothing to do with any a priori or ontological grounding of the idea of God; in consequence, as with Schelling, the determination of freedom in God had to enter by an uncomprehended positing.

In this endeavor of his toward a correct estimate of the nature of metaphysical knowledge Weisse is conscious of having a predecessor in Kant[*)]. Kant contested the *[187]* dogmatism which believed it had in the pure concepts of reason a knowledge of things in themselves, notably a knowledge of the infinite and unconditioned, the eternal and

[*)] Grundzüge der Metaphysik (1835). Das philosophische Problem der Gegenwart (1842).

[*)] See, besides the academic address cited on p. 119, Weisse's essays in the 25th and 26th volumes of Fichte's journal: "Ueber die transscendentale Bedeutung der Urtheilsformen und Schlussfiguren" and *[187]* "Ueber den letzten Grund der Gewissheit im Denken", as well as "Philosophische Dogmatik" 1ster Band (1855).

necessary in things, and thus confused the necessary basic forms of knowledge with the real essence of actual things. Kant, by contrast, saw the original property of the understanding as something merely formal, which a priori points us to experience, by which alone it can reach a real content. To reach the concept of an object the understanding must always add something of its own to the material given by sensation; from the combination of these two elements the concept of the object arises. What is added here is, in contrast to the singularity of experience, the universal; in contrast to the matter given in experience, the formal; and in contrast to the reality of the matter of experience, the merely possible. But the validity of these elements of the understanding Kant conceived only as a subjective-psychological necessity for the human mind; he did not see that the possibility of thought contained in the prius of the understanding is at the same time a possibility of existence. From this defect his view must be freed in order to correspond to the truth. Such a liberation has taken place through the later philosophical development (I. G. Fichte, Schelling, Hegel), which led to a knowledge of the universal essence of the Idea. Yet the very energy with which the liberation from the subjective limits was carried through led back once more, for a while, to dogmatism, in that one now saw in the metaphysical Idea, whose objective significance one had demonstrated, the highest real itself. The philosophical movement begun with Kant must thus, when the right consciousness of the nature and task of the pure science of
[188] reason once again breaks through, return once more to its starting point, but enriched and strengthened by the insight gained.

In every act of thought, in all judging and inferring, that pure possibility of thought and existence is present. It enters as copula between representations, which thereby arrange themselves as subject and predicate of the judgment; it is the force which in the syllogism joins the terms inwardly through the middle term. It has its more precise content in the concepts which for the understanding underlie the objects of knowledge and the knowing consciousness itself, as also consciousness and the objects in their mutual relation. All reality thus rests on these presuppositions. The natural or immediate understanding does not, to be sure, discover this; but when doubt arises, consciousness seeks its way back to the universal foundation, the absolute necessity, which at the same time contains the absolute possibilities. We have, then, here the concept of truth in its most abstract form, purely logical truth, which constantly presupposes itself, and of which the words of Thomas Aquinas hold: “Qui negat veritatem esse, concedit veritatem esse; si enim veritas non est, verum est, veritatem non esse.” In this abstract form the concept of truth has its expression in the so-called principle of contradiction, the first

negative form of the possibility of existence: everything is possible that does not contain a contradiction. This proposition leads us to see that pure reason already, without yet positing or presupposing anything real, ties the possibility of existence to certain fundamental conditions. These conditions, which are the primal forms of all existence, make up the content of pure necessity of thought, the pure Absolute of reason, which philosophical speculation has at all times regarded as its first and proper object, without yet having succeeded in determining it in its full purity. The Absolute thus becomes the ultimate ground of the certainty of thought, because in it the primal possibility of the objective is one with the highest necessity of thinking. *[189]*

Even for the immediate understanding, however, this primal possibility emerges in a more concrete form. Even if the immediate understanding does not, like speculation, become conscious of the necessity of the categories of reason, it nevertheless ascribes to mathematical determinations greater evidence and more perfect certainty than to mere experience. And yet it cannot ascribe to mathematical concepts an independent being. It then seeks to conceive them as tied to and dependent on what is given in experience; but neither can this succeed, for how can something that owes its existence to the given surpass it in certainty and necessity? — That is why, as Plato and Kant have already insisted, the surest way to lead the immediate understanding to speculative knowledge is to start from the inquiry into the ground of mathematical necessity. In number, space, and time speculative reason sees fundamental presuppositions of all existence, whereby existence falls under mathematical laws. Metaphysics is to develop the concept of what is, and as soon as it has freed itself from the one-sidedness of idealist dogmatism, it must see that the concept of being stands in an original and necessary connection with the concepts of number, space, and time. The answer to the question: what is being? then leads us, through the categories by which the necessary basic forms of the filling of space and time are designated, to a fundamental concept in which all possibility of a content that can fill these forms, hence all possibility of a being and becoming, is comprised in one primal possibility. This fundamental concept, the absolute Idea, is one with the concept of the Godhead, but here, where we still stand on the metaphysical standpoint, that means the concept of the possible Godhead. There is only one truth necessary for thought, namely that originally only God is possible, and that in his possibility the *[190]* possibility of all things is contained.

Metaphysics follows the dialectical method. While Weisse soon came to the conclusion that the dialectical method in Hegel's sense, as the self-movement of the concept or of the content, could find no application in the domain of real philosophy, where

thought step by step enters into interaction with experience, he nevertheless believed he could still keep this method in the metaphysical domain. Thus he writes in the preface to his Metaphysics: "The formal truth and material untruth of the Hegelian philosophy, the sterling excellence of its method and the disconsolate emptiness of its results forced themselves on my mind with equal evidence." Rightly, as we have seen (p. 24), both followers and opponents of Hegel urged that it was a self-contradiction to restrict the dialectical method, which is the self-movement of the content, to merely formal validity. Weisse has therefore specified his conception of the method more precisely. By the dialectical method he understands the very concept of philosophical knowledge, but not specifically the form it took on in Hegel's panlogism. Dialectic has a different character in the metaphysical and in the real-philosophical domain. In the former it shows itself in the power with which every category as it were presses forward to hold as a determination of the whole of existence, as the sum total of all-possibility. Such is dialectic in the history of philosophy. The struggle and the development in that history rest precisely on this, that the categories successively put forward as determinations of the whole are constantly displaced by others, more comprehensive and more thoroughgoing. This is also the course of development within metaphysical science. The standard is the totality of reality, which proves the inner contradiction in the inadequate categories. In the
[191] real-philosophical domain the relation is the reverse. Here every real given in experience is regarded as though it included the totality of the categories, but for that very reason it points with necessity beyond itself to other and higher expressions of this totality. In this domain the dialectical method becomes one with the genetic method. For what connects categorial thought with empirical phenomena is the law that holds for the coming into being and development of these phenomena. By the law, which here, as in the pure speculation of reason, expresses the possibility of existence and the necessity of thought, the movement on both sides is governed: the genetic movement of existence, which is posited by the law as possible, and the movement of thought, which is posited by the law as necessary.

In the same way as the single real-philosophical concept relates to the existing real, the totality of metaphysical concepts relates to concrete reality. The course of metaphysics coincides, according to Weisse, with what constitutes the truth in the old so-called ontological proof of God's existence. This proof in fact leads no further than to the concept of the possibility of the Godhead, of God as the one who cannot be thought of as not being. Yet the metaphysical consideration leads at its terminal point to a sharper determination of the essence of the Godhead. Since the absolute Idea, the sum total of

primal possibility, is a unity in the infinity of the differences and oppositions sublated in it, the necessary form for this existence becomes the form of thought. The determinations of the Idea exist only in and for thought. Now inasmuch as this thought in an eternal circuit thinks itself in all those determinations, what eternally is is a self-conscious primal subject, primal personality. We thus arrive at the result that if the eternal possibility does not remain closed within itself but passes over into reality, this primal reality must be primal personality. One could imagine a standpoint of abstraction where all real being is disregarded, and where therefore God too can be thought of as not really *[192]* being. There is not, as Hegel thinks, an immediate, dialectical transition from concept to existence. Hegel took the ontological proof to be what demonstrated this transition, and therefore regarded this proof as the only genuinely scientific one. Against him one may rightly turn that abstraction. As soon as one posits something as existing, on the other hand, one must also posit God's existence. Otherwise one would entangle oneself in the contradiction of at once positing something real and cancelling the sum total of the conditions without which nothing can become real. — This is the at once dialectical and factual transition from metaphysics to real philosophy, or from the ontological proof to the cosmological. The two are most inwardly united, and make up the two halves of the same whole.

And yet this opposition between the negative and the positive Absolute seems to set an abyss of possibility before God's real existence, so that he works his way forward to reality only by an act of coming-to-be or self-creation. According to Weisse[*)] there is an irreconcilable opposition between the Absolute of philosophical speculation and the demand of religious experience for personality, so long as one makes the demand that God's personality is to be posited *immediately* as the Absolute, or the Absolute *immediately* as personality, instead of the Absolute of pure thought containing only the infinite possibility of a living, personal existence. I.H. Fichte (Verm. Schriften I. p. 100) remarks on this that such a separation is unthinkable if it is to hold objectively, in God's own essence, and not be a merely theoretical distinction of human thinking. Lotze (Geschichte der Aesthetik p. 202, cf. already Metaphysik p. 322 f.) derives the *[193]* doctrine of the negative Absolute from the fact that, when our thinking disregards the content of the world and immerses itself solely in the realm of logical truth, the illusion arises that this logical truth is something original and independent in relation to living reality. And we have already pointed out above (p. 120 f.) that this point was bound to become the most difficult one for the whole tendency to which Weisse belongs. That

[*)] See his article "Gott" in Ersch and Gruber's Encyclopedia Sect. I. vol. 75. p. 424.

Weisse does not want to split the concept of God into two parts is seen from his express declaration (Phil. Dogm. I. p. 439) that the separation between possibility and reality in God is only conceptual, both being moments or ideal constituents of the one and indivisible concept of God. And this separation is necessary in order to see that God becomes free only through the Idea, through the negative Absolute, becomes the absolute being, the lord of necessity. Herein lies the real (not merely logical) unity of freedom and necessity. Without such an inner opposition in God's essence the concept of the living God cannot, in Weisse's opinion, be upheld, and he puts this opposition forward precisely in opposition to the abstract concept of God of dogmatic philosophy, God as actus purus.

The same separation appears in another form when Weisse, following Schelling, distinguishes between what God is (quid Deus sit) and that God is (quod Deus est), between God's essence and existence, in such a way that the ontological inquiry is to give us the Qvid, the general content of the concept of God, and the cosmological inquiry adds to it the Qvod, the determination of existence. That this opposition is untenable we have already seen in Schelling. But Weisse in fact uses it only to express the two-sided starting point that is necessary. Only on the standpoint of absolute abstraction would this opposition, according to Weisse, have validity. Real philosophy (the philosophy of
[194] nature and of spirit) has, moreover, not merely the significance of helping knowledge to the one determination: existence; on the contrary, with the knowledge of existing reality there follows an ever richer and more concrete development of the content of the idea of God; to the first, purely rational Qvid is added a second, qualitative Qvid, a Qvale, which grounds the aesthetic and ethical predicates of the Godhead. Metaphysics in and for itself cannot give us the right, full knowledge of the idea of God; we reach such knowledge only when, on the basis of metaphysical knowledge, we immerse ourselves in the content of reality. Pantheism has its indisputable scientific justification in the speculative knowledge of a metaphysical necessity that pervades and conditions the shapes of the real world, a necessity which, however, it is unable to separate from the real existence of things, since it does not reach the Idea in which this necessity, in itself only formal or negative, finds its completion. To get beyond pantheism it is therefore necessary to lead metaphysical necessity back to its right significance within the concept of God and to show that it is only a presupposition for a fuller content. With respect both to abstract theism and to one-sided pantheism, that separation thus has its great significance.

The transition from the ontological to the cosmological inquiry, from metaphysics to

real philosophy, was, as we have seen, at once a priori and a posteriori, an inner transition in the concept at one with an experience of what really exists. The new element which thereby enters cannot at once find its justification. An opposition is posited between experience and concept which can be sublated only gradually. This takes place, as already indicated, through the real-philosophical sciences. Here, where we are first to inquire what qualitative contributions these sciences can make to the knowledge of the idea of God, the task is dialectically to develop the content of the world, as it appears in *[195]* experience, to the point where the concept of the world passes over into the concept of God. — Nature does not merely stand under mechanical laws; these laws fit into a higher teleological connection in which all its parts stand in infinite interaction with one another and form a graded series from apparently dead mass up to the highest rational and spiritual beings. Experience leads to this result, and it already lies in the essence of the pure Idea of reason. Since this Idea is itself infinite unity, the existence whose universal conditions it contains must also have connection and unity as its basic forms. The Idea of reason therefore extends as a guiding thought from the ontological inquiry into the cosmological, and points out the places where the teleological connection as it were comes to a point in universal concepts, which as predicate-determinations attach themselves, filling out and completing it, to the metaphysical concept of the primal subject. The cosmological inquiry then passes over, at its summit, into the ethicological, for it is in the spiritual domain that the ultimate purpose and thus also the highest divine predicate-concept must be sought. Inasmuch as thought, now guided by the scientific consciousness of the Idea, seeks to bring its consideration of reality into harmony with the content of this consciousness, the very end it here seeks to reach appears as what is at the same time the end of the whole development of the world. The highest principle then presents itself as the knowledge of the Idea of reason in its unity with reality, or in other words as the Idea of truth. But this Idea has not merely theoretical significance; it also becomes the highest law, the moral principle. The principle of morality consists in the finite subject's making the purpose of its action what is the purpose of the objective world-order. Raised above the empirical will of the finite spirit, the concrete Idea of truth nevertheless also shows it the objective purposes it is to make its own. But alongside the *[196]* theoretical and practical striving for truth there runs another series of activities, which no less have their purpose in themselves. Here the Idea of reason and its reality in nature and history come forward as the source of a world of forms, which spirit, fertilized by contact with the realized Idea, brings forth from within and enjoys in its beholding and bringing forth. All that belongs here is comprised under the Idea of beauty.

To these two Ideas, that of truth and that of beauty, the real-philosophical inquiry thus leads. But they stand in an inner opposition to each other. According to the Idea of truth the highest purpose of the world is unity and absolute ideality; the Idea of beauty, on the other hand, asserts the independent value of the aesthetic states and activities of the finite spirit and thereby posits an infinite manifold of real world-purposes. This is the true significance of Kant's antinomy between morality and happiness. This contradiction is not merely subjective but objective as well, insofar as one stops at those two Ideas as real powers of the world and of spirit and does not seek a higher reconciliation. That such a reconciliation must be sought follows from the very essence of the Idea of reason, which cannot permit the independence of such powers. They must find their place within the idea of God. It lies in the concept of the primal subject that it cannot posit itself as teleological principle without thereby positing the possibility that the finite, individual existence, too, becomes a purpose in and for itself. Both logical and aesthetic reality thus have their ground in the Godhead. This consideration leads into the ethical-religious domain, the highest and concluding sphere of experience. The philosophy of religion, or speculative theology, forms the summit and end point of the philosophical system,
[197] where the unity of Idea and reality is completed, as the highest concept of speculation meets ethical-religious experience, which encloses within itself all other experience. Everything here turns, then, on the more precise conception of the essence of religious experience and of the philosophy of religion[*)].

The concept of religion falls, according to Weisse, under the general concept of experience. Experience is on the one hand more than a mere receptivity or a purely subjective state in the soul, but on the other hand less than knowledge proper, or science. Long before Kant, at the end of the last century, for the first time gave a precise determination of the essence of experience, it had often been declared from the side of religious consciousness that religion is essentially experience (παθεῖν τὰ θεῖα. Dion. Areopag.). It is the mystics who have had the clearest insight into the experiential character of religion. The same lies in the old Church teachers' determination of the relation between πίστις and γνῶσις. And yet, even after the concept of experience had long been established in other domains, it was a long time before a similar conviction could break through with regard to religion. The scholastic-orthodox tendency in the Church regarded the content of religious experience as something communicated to the human race from outside as finished doctrines, and only by this communication, in its view, are the subjective movement and sensation in individuals then called forth. On

[*)] "Philosophische Dogmatik oder Philosophie des Christenthums". 1855—1862. 3 vols.

the other hand, the mystics believed that in what they experienced in the heart they immediately had a knowledge of something objective. Only through Kant's investigations, which in the end extended also to the philosophy of religion, which he really founded, did it become possible to see this domain, too, more clearly. The purely objective doctrinal content he sets aside as merely statutory; but on the other hand the religious does not *[198]* for him, as in the so-called religion of reason, coincide with metaphysical knowledge; he held fast to a new starting point for the philosophy of religion in the ethical-religious consciousness, which for him is essentially conditioned by the law given in man's inner being, the practical a priori. He overthrew dogmatism not only in the philosophical but also in the religious domain. The latter was the more difficult task, since the religious content, because of its character of inwardness, is harder to distinguish from the content of pure reason.

What is given ethically-religiously stands in the same relation to knowledge as everything else given in experience; it, too, is bound to the laws which give the transformation of what is subjectively lived through into an objective content of knowledge its scientific form and significance. The laws of all experience stand in organic connection, so that the laws of spiritual experience have as their presupposition the laws of physical experience and without this presupposition can have no significance. An experience that does not rest on fixed, unchangeable laws cannot be distinguished from a delusion. And although religious experience, as *religious*, has its own peculiar laws, this lawfulness nevertheless rests on the psychological laws in general, and these in turn on the physical. Without these presuppositions religious experience would not be *experience*. The notion of miracle is unethical and irreligious precisely because the ethical-religious concepts rest on the psychological and physical foundation. Consistently carried through, supranaturalism has also constantly, instead of leading to living religious experience, favored blind faith in authority, which is precisely the most complete opposite of all real and living experience. If the immediate religious standpoint is nevertheless the fertile soil of the notion of miracle, this stems from the need to find, by poetizing imagination, an expression for the *[199]* inexpressible in the facts of religious experience; the miraculous then arises because the inner connection of natural ("ausserreligiöse") experience does not stand as fact before consciousness. For religious experience includes all other experience within itself as an ideal totality; conversely, natural experience at its summit passes over into the religious. Thereby all content of experience is gathered in the center of the inwardness of spirit, where it is grasped by philosophical knowledge through the Absolute's form of reason, and no longer relates in an external way to this knowledge, but really becomes one with

it.

The question now becomes that of the psychological organ of religious experience. Schleiermacher, as is well known, defined religion as piety and placed the essence of piety in feeling. But he then restricted the concept of feeling to such a degree that it is cut off from every content that goes beyond the purely individual and subjective. And whereas one usually regards the opposition between weal and woe, pleasure and displeasure, as the peculiar characteristic of the life of feeling, according to Schleiermacher this opposition cannot in and for itself be ascribed to religious feeling; only when the lower, sensuous sensation enters into relation with it, either inhibiting or promoting it, does that opposition find application in its case as well, to that extent. The imperfection in these determinations Weisse derives from the fact that Schleiermacher did not compare religious feeling with aesthetic feeling, whose kindred counterpart it is. He would thereby have seen that the opposition between pleasure and displeasure can also have a spiritual significance and need not stem from sensuous nature. Purely theoretical experience has from first to last an objective character; subjective sensation has value here only
[200] insofar as it passes over into observation and sensation, for which reason feeling as such yields no material for knowledge here. In the aesthetic and religious domains, by contrast, the oppositions of the life of feeling play an essential role, and on their more precise determination the difference between the aesthetic and the religious in turn depends. In the aesthetic domain the feeling of pleasure and displeasure is the ruling power and contains the principle of the natural and spiritual forces at work there. Feeling is here, as aesthetic feeling, in close connection with imagination, the creative power of imagination. In the religious domain, by contrast, the feeling of pleasure and displeasure is not the purpose, but appears partly as starting point, partly as point of passage for an activity and a movement which do not in turn end in a feeling, but issue in inner or outer action or in an abiding form for the essence of the spiritual personality. Religious experience thus belongs within the domain of practical or moral experience, which forms an opposition to the aesthetic on the one side and to the theoretical on the other. The difference between the aesthetic and the religious comes out especially strikingly in the fact that the oppositions of feeling in the one domain can take on the reverse of the significance they have in the other. In the aesthetic domain the feeling of pleasure is thus always of positive value, the feeling of displeasure of negative value; but religiously seen, the feeling of pleasure can take on a negative, hindering significance and, conversely, the feeling of displeasure can act as a furtherance.

Feeling, then, does not have absolute significance in religious respects, as Schleier-

macher thought. It is not the innermost of the life of spirit, but the revelation of an inner hidden behind it and entirely different from its changeable alternation. Only this inner, the ethical substance, is the proper element of religious experience; feeling is only the mark by which inquiring thought recognizes the material of moral empiria. This leads to the question what, in the last instance, is the objective moment in religious *[201]* experience. Schleiermacher could assume such an objective moment only inconsistently. But if religious experience belongs within the domain of general moral experience, it must also be placed under the concept that governs ethics, the concept of the good. On this concept both religious and philosophical consciousness have constantly built the idea of God. Philosophical ethics understands by a good a community of life of rational, personal spirits, which are mutually bound by organic laws into the unity of a living common body. The inner, moral experience is then the observation of a moral community's vital functions through the states of feeling in the subject who belongs to the community and acts and suffers along with it in its functions. A purely subjective religious feeling would make such a community impossible. Like the ethical goods, the highest good, too, the content and object of religious experience, must consist in such a community of life. But whereas the ethical communities can also become the object of an outer (sensuous or historical) experience, inner experience in the religious domain is the only possible assurance of the corresponding objectivity. But at this summit the religious and the speculative, the religious representation of the Kingdom of God and the philosophical concept of the highest good, are then united.

The subjective moment of religious experience is feeling, its objective moment the Idea of the good. The laws which hold with regard to the relation between these two moments must be the same as those which hold for spiritual life as a whole. Since the life of spirit is not confined to single individuals each by itself, but these, in order to utter and express, develop and enrich their own peculiar spiritual life, join together and form communities, the Ideas that move the life of spirit step out of personal inwardness *[202]* onto the stage of history. It is therefore, in the case of religious experience as well, the historical mode of consideration built on criticism that furnishes the organ for grasping the relation between the subjective and the objective moment. Yet one must not confuse with such a historical consideration, with the historical school, which is the peculiar product of modern culture and science, the theological use of the concept "historical conception", where a presentiment of the historical character of the positive religions does, to be sure, lie at the bottom, but where one does not take it in earnest, but on the contrary believes one honors the historical by detaching it from all the laws of experience

that hold in other domains.

Nothing can become religious experience by way of outer communication unless it already was that in those from whom the communication originally proceeded. Now when religious experience is shaped through communication and interaction in a community, it finds its expression in a definite, positive form. The positive forms thus arise historically and must be explained historically. The positive arises at a certain point in historical development and has its whole subsistence and activity within it. The historical religions are different attempts to grasp the highest good, to tie a bond that can organically bind the human spirit to the Godhead and the supersensible. But besides the properly religious moment, other moments also play their part. In the first place, the political-social drive exerts its effect and merges immediately with religious experience, so that the limits of the former also become those of the latter. Thereby the historical religions become national religions. Next, the creative power of imagination with its luxuriant products often pushes the properly religious almost entirely into the background. Thereby the historical religions become mythologies, which does not, however,
[203] exclude their being testimonies to and sources of religious experience. But the political and aesthetic covering must be cast off for religious experience to appear in its purity.

Every religion rests on the presupposition of a community of life between the divine and the human spirit. Therefore every religion lays claim to being divine revelation and must be recognized as such insofar as it really possesses religious import. The concept of revelation in this generality becomes one with religious experience, but since the latter does not appear pure in the national religions, aesthetic, speculative, and national elements are also introduced under the name of revelation. Revelation acquires a narrower, more definite meaning when its concept is separated from the elements that are not immediately religious. In Christianity the concept of revelation appears already in its founder and first followers as the expression of a liberation, an opposition to an earlier bound and darkened state. This comes from the fact that the properly religious content of experience dawns in its full clarity without foreign forms. The historical Christ first grasped clearly, and expressed in teaching, life, and death, the true idea of the highest good, the Kingdom of God or Kingdom of Heaven, into which man must let himself be born in a spiritual way. Salvation, entry into this Kingdom, depends only on the conditions that lie in the very essence of the highest good, and is not hindered by limits such as those which in the national religions and the mythologies were raised partly by national egoism, partly by poetizing imagination. To that extent the form religious experience has acquired through the historical Christ can be designated as the

redemption effected by him. To this fundamental idea of Christianity the philosophy of religion attaches itself, in that, after having sifted the content of religious experience by historical criticism, it becomes specifically a philosophy of Christianity. The philosophy of religion is connected with ethics by its fundamental concept of the highest good. But *[204]* only at the point in historical development where this fundamental concept comes clearly before religious consciousness can a true and inward unity of the philosophical concept and religious experience be tied. The character of the philosophy of religion depends on its relation to philosophical ethics on the one side and to religious experience on the other[*)]. A philosophy of religion therefore first becomes possible through Christianity. But also only possible; for on the one hand it presupposes a consciousness of the essence of philosophical knowledge and of experience which only the philosophical and natural-scientific development of modern times could produce, and on the other hand the great fundamental idea of Christianity could not permeate, in pure and unaltered form, the world and the consciousness of the peoples.

The historical Christ, to be sure, who declared that he would give no other sign than the sign of the prophet Jonah (i.e. the miracle of personality and truth itself), was in his own person raised above all mythological and supranaturalist elements. But in his surroundings he could not and dared not ward off the drive to poetic religious formation of legend. The mighty spiritual upheaval, the birth pangs of the new faith, awakened this drive anew, and it now wove through his life and personality a web of significant images of miracle whose character is essentially mythological. Already for the consciousness of the first believers such elements of the universal substance of salvation as lie in every genuine religion were bound to be mixed with the historical concept of the person and life of Christ. The notion of salvation thereby took on an exclusive form, which conflicts with the universal in the essence of salvation, according to which salvation is tied to religious experience as a whole and not merely to the specifically *[205]* Christian. Already the first disciples transferred the idea of the Logos, that great result of pre-Christian speculation, the idea of God's eternal thought or word, one in essence with himself, to the historical Christ, and by this application, which struck like a flash of lightning into the disciples' souls, the ecclesiastical community was founded, built on the ecclesiastical doctrinal concept thereby established[*)]. What, according to the

[*)] Weisse's essay "Ueber Eintheilung und Gliederung des Systemes der Philosophie" in the 27th volume of "Zeitschr. für Phil. und phil. Kritik." p. 88 ff.

[*)] This is one of the points where Weisse in his historical criticism departs from the Tübingen school. According to that school, the idea of Christ as Logos, as the Son of God become man, is the fruit of a long course of development which was completed only toward the end of the 2nd century after Christ, to which time the composition of the Gospel of John, which contains this result, is therefore assigned.

fundamental idea of Christianity, must happen to everyone who is to attain salvation, that he be "born of God", the Church beheld in the dogma of the incarnation as an outer historical fact, accomplished in the person of its founder. There was no longer any difference between the ideal and the historical Christ. In no other way could that fundamental idea be preserved and brought into the consciousness of the race. The need to stake out its domain positively, notably against the bold speculations of the Gnostics, led to a definite confession of faith and a fixed collection of sacred scriptures. At the same time the Church teachers made use, in their dogmatic investigations, of the Greek philosophy, which had no clear consciousness of the relation between speculation and
[206] experience, but was in its essence dogmatism. All this led to a Church authority stiffened in dogmatic forms of doctrine, within whose narrow bounds only the untiring labor of thought of the scholastics and the enthusiastic inwardness of the mystics pointed back to the original sources. Not even Luther's profound spirit, fresh as nature itself, could escape the power of dogmatism and supranaturalism; he too, but still more those who have called themselves after him, were caught in the bonds of faith in the letter[*)]. The splitting into several smaller church communities that followed was bound to bring with it a greater weight on the statutory, the fixed dogmatic determinations. Theology now became only a thetic presentation of these, which moreover lacked the grandeur of medieval scholasticism. The essence of religious experience became more and more unknown, the less theologians cared to keep up with the great advances in the domain of natural-scientific experience. Schleiermacher was the first to assert energetically the significance of religious experience, and at the same time historical criticism has provided the instrument by which the content of that experience can be scientifically sifted and made ready for the philosophy of religion. With the development of the latter the dogmatic forms and limits will fall, and the free knowledge of religious truth will take the place of ecclesiastical theology. As regards the Church's doctrines of faith, too, the word of the Gospel will then prove true, that the seed-corn must die to be able to bear fruit.

Historical criticism leads Weisse to a sharp distinction between the ideal and the historical Christ. — He finds in Christ's teaching three main concepts, expressed in

Weisse, on the other hand, starts from the view that the undisputed Pauline epistles, too, presuppose the idea of God's becoming man, so that this idea must have developed among the apostles themselves, as they sought to make clear to themselves the content and significance of what they had lived through. As regards the Gospel of John, Weisse regards only the didactic part (the prologue and the discourses) as the work of the apostle John, while the insertion of this part into the form of a narrative presentation is only "a not very successful attempt, testifying to a thoroughgoing unfamiliarity with the true connection of the matter, by a foreign, unknown hand."

[*)]Cf. Weisse's essay in the history of dogma: "Die Christologie Luthers.". (1852).

pregnant forms: the Kingdom of Heaven, — the heavenly Father, — the Son of Man.

The fundamental thought is, as already touched upon, that man's salvation consists in *[207]* living community with God and all the spirits striving toward the same highest end. This great thought cannot have arisen from the mere transformation of a half-superstitious notion fixed in popular belief, whereas one can well imagine that in the hearts of those who were not yet able to bear it, it could become the source of a series of fantastic notions of that Kingdom's past and future. It is the task of true apologetics to show that Christ was so superior to his surroundings and to a long series of following generations that these, in order to hold fast to his fundamental thought, had to clothe it in mythical forms, which soon stiffened into dogmatic forms; every other kind of apologetics itself stems from these errors and works to perpetuate them.

No conditions for entry into this Kingdom are set other than those that lie in the nature of the case. Christ has summed up these conditions in the pregnant demand to let oneself be born anew, to let oneself be born of God, to become a child of God. Herein the deep significance of the designation of God as the heavenly Father is understood.

In equally close connection with the idea of rebirth stands the expression Son of Man. It designates the sum total of the human beings reborn out of natural humanity. It is thus an ideal collective concept. But it also became a designation of the historical Christ as the personal representative of this ideal concept. That this concept goes beyond this individual application is seen, among other things, from the passages where Christ distinguishes himself from "the Son of Man" by letting the latter appear as a third person (especially in the intimations of the Passion and the Judgment of the world). Only in the visions in which the disciples believed they saw their crucified master as risen did the ideal and the historical Son of Man melt together in such a way that the master's person now became the bearer of all ideal and religious import, and faith in him as a historical *[208]* person was thereby posited as a necessary condition of salvation. The knowledge was soon lost that the mystery of the becoming-man in all who are reborn is essentially the same as in the One in whom the Church beholds the fullness of the Godhead in bodily indwelling; only the mystics sought their way back to the religious fundamental idea.

With this there followed also the change that the consciousness of salvation was built exclusively on the consciousness of sin. With the exclusive conception of the concept of salvation came the one-sided conception of it. In Christ himself the negative moment, the opposition to "this world", was wholly subordinate and enclosed in the great positive view of the powers of the new life. Already the disciples beheld this negative as a positive fundamental corruption. The philosophy of religion must here, too, lead back to the true

fundamental thought. It does not see the working of divine grace merely as an abolition of sin, but as a progressive life-process by which the divine ideal is realized in humanity in the large as in the particular, a becoming-man of the divine, the begetting and birth of a "Son-humanity". The true content of the doctrine of ecclesiastical dogmatics concerning the union of the two natures in Christ is precisely this life-process, whose result is human nature united with the Godhead. This Son-humanity, coming to be in the human race, is the ideal Christ, from whom salvation proceeds.

In the historical Christ this ideal Christ personified himself by an act which has found its mythical expression in the stories of his conception and baptism, and which is best compared with the way in which among the ancient peoples the mythological notions of the gods and the peculiar national character came into being by one and the same
[209] act. Such an act is, further, faith as well, by which the individual human being in his whole personality appropriates the highest good. Faith is in the religious domain what self-consciousness is in the logical and psychological domain. The object of faith is the highest good itself, in whose subjective appropriation salvation consists, and it is in itself independent of all historical and dogmatic presuppositions. Or should the faith of an Antigone, she who knows herself born "not to hate with, but to love with", who knows that "the time is longer in which she must seek to please the powers of the beyond than that in which she must please powers here on earth", — should this faith be of less worth than the faith of Rahab the harlot[*)]? Should the speculative certainty of a Socrates and a Plato, grounded on the Idea of the good and the consciousness of its eternity, be of less worth than the faith of a Barak and Gideon, a Jephthah and Samson[**)], which is mixed with such dark elements of wild and cruel superstition?

What the Church has mixed up with the universal, saving faith are the special determinations that have validity within a narrower community of faith. The Christian Church traces its consciousness of salvation back to the historical Christ, who uttered the idea of the highest good with a purity and clarity like no other. Faith in this Christ therefore becomes here, by the nature of the case, a condition of personal participation in the outer church community. Yet only this faith as such, as a pointer to the historical point of attachment for the consciousness of salvation; a more precise dogmatic determination would violate the universality of faith. The path the Church struck out on when it sought to give such more precise determinations has led to a plurality of separate churches,
[210] each with its dogmatic confession. The true evangelical Church will, in contrast to them, be the community that expresses the ideal content of Christianity free from all

[*)] Hebr. XI, 31.
[**)] Hebr. XI, 32.

dogmatic restriction. Until it develops, the state, as the bearer of the general humane and ethical religion of reason, is a necessary integrating power over against the dogmatic narrowness of the particular churches, in which that humane element has been pushed back and obscured. As such the state also represents the principle of tolerance, which cannot have its home in any of these churches. The state thereby becomes a means to the development of the true Church and to its self-liberation from the hampering limits.

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Weisse's doctrine, of which we have now given a general survey, though in such a way that we dwelt chiefly on its starting point and end point, seeks in its various parts to give a progressive proof of the reality of the Godhead. Metaphysics points out the universal foundation, which in an inner way unlocks and specifies itself in concrete forms, whose stages of development the real-philosophical sciences follow, until the whole world-view reaches its highest point in the philosophy of religion, the most inward unity of speculation and experience. As in our survey, so too in our assessment it is the starting point and the end point that we shall chiefly dwell on; it is they that give Weisse's doctrine its distinctive character.

Metaphysical knowledge is directed, according to this doctrine, not at something real, but at the universal fundamental conditions of all reality, the pure possibility of existence. Liberation from the dominion of conceptual dogmatism is thereby made possible, while at the same time the significance of speculative conceptual development is retained. It thereby becomes possible, further, to ascribe to experience a significance of principle for the world-view without lapsing into an immediate empiricism. And yet Weisse himself, as we have seen, has not avoided the defect that must have lain close at hand for him, namely that of giving that sum total of categories, "the possibility of existence", a closed *[211]* being for itself in opposition to the concrete idea of God and the real world, like the dark fate that in Greek mythology formed the background of divine and human life. In part this rests, no doubt, on an imperfection in the presentation, which is connected with Weisse's whole theosophical tendency, which often leads him to let concepts crystallize for the imagination; and that fate is also, as shown above, taken up in the further development into the concrete forms. But on this point Weisse is nevertheless still strongly influenced by Hegel. This shows itself notably in his developing metaphysics purely a priori and placing it at the head of the whole system. Even if metaphysical knowledge is in its principle independent of experience, it nevertheless presupposes experience in its actual development, insofar as the human spirit only through the critical working-through of the content of experience is able to become conscious of the universal and necessary

truths. In this way the knowledge of reality itself acquires metaphysical significance. Weisse has himself made a beginning toward this insofar as, in opposition to Kant and Hegel, he has asserted the metaphysical significance of space and time; on this point he is a forerunner of Trendelenburg's acute logical investigations.

In the philosophy of religion Weisse has the merit of having led beyond the one-sided emphasis of the speculative conception on the intellectual, without on that account dissolving the religious into pathological illusions, like Feuerbach, or leading us out into fantastic transcendence, like Schelling. He ties the essence of religion closely to the psychological (feeling) and the ethical (the highest good), and can thereby at once assert the specifically religious in its distinctive character and preserve its rational, humane
[212] character. The difficult point lies here in the very relation between the subjective (psychological) and the objective (ethical) moment. Weisse shows us only by way of analysis that these two moments, personal experience and the objective ideal, are contained in the religious, but the inner relation between them, the bond that ties the psychologically individual to the highest, all-embracing purpose, is not demonstrated. He has here left behind a task whose solution can be won only through deep-going psychological, ethical, and religious-historical investigations, but for which he has himself in many ways provided preparatory work.

In his treatment of problems in the philosophy of religion Weisse constantly seeks points of attachment within earlier Church doctrine. This endeavor for organic development has — however much that is instructive and interesting it also brings to light, owing to Weisse's uncommon learning — led him to overrate the significance of the ecclesiastical symbols after their dogmatic validity has been overthrown. That ecclesiastical theology has played out its role, and that only the philosophy of religion can take the vacant place, he harbors no doubt. But just as in his conception of Christianity as a whole he lays the weight on the humane and immanent side of its essence, on its ideal content, not on the form of transcendence under which that content appears, a form he puts down to the account of ecclesiastical mythology and dogmatics, so he thinks that the philosophy of religion will become the doctrine of faith in a church of the future, where the idea of Christianity has come into its own against the distortions of the particular churches. He proceeds from the assumption that the consciousness of the historical Christ was in itself raised above the mythological and supranaturalist standpoint, and wants, like neo-rationalism, to lead back to the religion of Christ in the sense of the religion that Christ himself had. But this is in any case something that only historical investigations
[213] can establish, and it becomes, when it is set up as fact ahead of such an investigation,

just as much a mere dogma as the ecclesiastical doctrines. And as regards the possibility of an ecclesiastical community built on such an ideal Christianity, the central dogma that has constituted and hitherto held the Church together arose precisely through the fusion of "the ideal" and "the historical Christ", and the possibility of an ecclesiastical community in which, together with this dogma, all other dogmas are to be excluded from the confession may surely be doubted as much as that of the Platonic state. Nevertheless it is perhaps along this path that the human spirit will gradually work its way out of the dominion of faith in authority and of dogmatic intolerance, and Weisse's works will in this respect, too, keep their significance. —

Before we leave Weisse, we must still add to the general survey of his doctrine a closer presentation of his idea of God[*)], with which, in turn, the main points of his philosophy of nature[**)] stand in inner connection.

The foundation of his idea of God is formed, as we have seen, by the absolute Idea, the sum total of the eternal conditions and possibilities of reality. This Idea is absolutely inherent in God, present from the beginning to his consciousness; indeed it is the necessary condition of this consciousness. It is not the Idea itself, in its rest, absolutely indifferent to all change and alteration in time, and in its unconditioned equality with itself, that is God; but the thought which has this Idea as its sole content and itself springs from its womb, this thought is the foundation of the divine self-consciousness, as unchangeably resting as it is restlessly and ceaselessly moved. In general, self-consciousness and infinity are regarded as incompatible. But the relation *[214]* is, on the contrary, this, that it is infinity that first makes self-consciousness possible. Consciousness apprehends both itself and things only by virtue of the infinite possibility of existence, which to that extent is constantly its proper and immediate object (cf. above p. 188—192). In the finite I this consciousness is, to be sure, conditioned by a sensuous life of representation; but it exists only from the moment when the infinite Idea of reason becomes an object for it, even if at first only in general and indeterminate outlines, which only by a thinking expressly directed to them are developed to determinateness, to the express knowledge of the limits of the possible, which makes up the content of mathematics and metaphysics. In the Godhead, on the other hand, it is the infinite thought-content of the Idea itself, in its absolute inwardness, that forms consciousness, and not, as in the finite I, thoughts that mirror an external and foreign content. But the divine self-consciousness cannot be infinite unless infinite time and infinite space are inherent in it. Every divine act of consciousness is at the same time an act of filling space

[*)] "Das philosophische Problem der Gegenwart". — "Philosophische Dogmatik." Erster Band.
[**)] "Philosophische Dogmatik. Zweiter Band."

and time; the life of divine thought is an eternal begetting and bearing, by which the universal in the essence of the primal unity is specified into the infinite. The new content is present in the universal Idea in a way corresponding to that in which, according to the laws of logical thinking, the particular and the single are present in the universal concept, which encloses a manifold of possibilities, which, by being realized, appear partly side by side, partly one after another.

The principle according to which the specification of the universal content takes place is matter in God. The scholastics already called matter principium individuationis formarum. This principle can theosophically be called God's heart, his creative imagination, the expansive or centrifugal principle in his essence. The intuition of such
[215] a centrifugal principle lay at the root of the pantheistic stirrings of paganism, which were more or less held down by the moral and intellectual powers, but here and there nevertheless broke through in the wild offspring of unbridled imagination, notably in the notion of a blindly begetting and destroying world-power. In its inward unity with the primal subject, with the absolute Idea, this principle appears in the Christian doctrine of the eternal Logos. That God as Father begets from eternity a Son one with him in essence means, then, that God leads not merely an infinite life of thought in pure reason, indifferent to every limit and determination of time, but also a producing life of nature, such as Giordano Bruno, among others, has depicted with such great enthusiasm. In this inner, infinite producing the primal subject works as teleological principle, ordering and gathering all.

But if we held the idea of God fast at this stage, we would not get beyond a spontaneous life of nature, guided by a metaphysical principle, and would not reach free reality. To thought and nature in God the will must be added as a third, concluding element. The will is essentially a limiting power, and one that forms by limiting, not an immediately producing one. It therefore lies in its concept that matter and content must be given, or rather constantly be given anew, by the living thoughts that spring from the same source as the will itself. The divine nature is, so to speak, the body of the will; the eternal forms of nature come into being as the expression of the divine will. The supranaturalist conception errs in regarding the divine will as natureless; it thereby cancels the very concept of will and can only by the salto mortale of absolute thoughtlessness bring about a transition from the concept of God to the concept of the world. But one errs likewise when, with Plato, Leibnitz, and Hegel, one immediately ascribes to God's pure absolute essence the predicate of the good. This predicate can
[216] then acquire no real content different from the purely metaphysical attributes. The good

consists essentially in the will to communicate something real, the possession of which is thus presupposed in the willing subject. The ethical has the aesthetic, the good the beautiful, the will the rich heart and creative imagination, as its real presupposition. The ethical concepts lie, to be sure, as possibilities in the ideal presuppositions of the divine understanding, which as such are also the presuppositions of the will; but also only as possibilities, which are first realized not merely through but in the will. By the direction given in the will to the real, producing forces there is first called forth the content which the ethical concepts express, namely partly the will itself, which only now is a real will, partly the divine determinations of nature, which are now absorbed into and shaped by the will. This good, i.e. communicating, will is what appears in the doctrine of the Church as the Holy Spirit. What Church doctrine presents mythologically as a trinity of persons are thus necessary moments in the idea of God, which can be separated from one another only conceptually, in order to be seen in their clarity and distinctiveness.

God's essence does not stand closed and finished in itself. Since the infinity of time is the element in which God's life eternally unfolds, there must also take place an eternal progress and development of his essence. All divine elements are in an infinite process of elevation. By this alone does an existence relatively independent over against God also become possible. The divine will is communicating; it posits itself as basis and possibility in order that the content of the eternal nature may pass over into reality. It thereby becomes world-matter, which is the intermediate determination between nature in God and nature outside God. Through the concept of nature the consciousness of the world is tied to the consciousness of God. When we designate the content of the world as nature, we regard it as that which moves in a constant process, in which it alternately begets and is begotten, produces and is produced. This process has its principle in the eternal nature *[217]* or matter in God, from which it springs through world-matter, the divine will posited as basis and substance, as intermediate determination. The change which is thereby effected in the eternal content of nature has its expression in the force of resistance, in the law of inertia, which is therefore the characteristic mark of world-matter[*)].

The outer, material existence which thus develops is not forsaken by Idea or spirit. Inwardness does not, to be sure, rule here immediately, as in the inner life of the Godhead. The teleological now has at every point the mechanical as its necessary foundation and

[*)] When Weisse combats the modern atomic theory and theory of monads (which we shall come to know more closely in the next chapter), this rests partly on a misunderstanding similar to the one we have already pointed out in I. H. *Fichte* (p. 170 f.), partly on factual mistakes (as when he assumes that the law of inertia ceases along with gravity). In his general conception he really does not stand so far from the modern theory of monads, since he, like it, sees the principle of matter in the spontaneous, individualizing force.

must work its way forward out of it. But there is nevertheless an indwelling stream of ideality in the material. Between these forces, the spiritual-teleological principle and the mechanical-material one, a struggle for existence is waged, from which the successive subjugation of matter results. As long as the forming force still has to do immediately with the masses, no life of consciousness can arise. The end does not immediately coincide with the beginning. Development does not even proceed in a straight line. For in the material forces there stirs a spontaneous independence in which the possibility of evil lies; this spontaneity can, namely, miss its end, turn aside from the way. It is an inhumane and barbaric view when Christian orthodoxy derives physical evil from moral evil, from sin, and in turn conceives sin as man's conscious guilt. On the contrary,
[218] just as the contrary opposition always presupposes the contradictory[*)], so moral evil presupposes physical evil. The blessedness of the divine nature cannot be transferred immediately to finite nature. Such a transfer must after all constantly presuppose, and be modified by, the material foundation as intermediate determination. The feeling of pleasure thereby constantly turns over into wretchedness, and animal life is a constant alternation of pleasure and displeasure. In the feeling of displeasure and pain is expressed the struggle by which the living being, at the beginning of its existence as well as at every moment of its existence, must assert its selfhood against dead matter. Herein lies the metaphysical necessity of physical evil.

The animal's soul is not a separate thing added to matter from outside, but is the unlocked kernel of the material substance itself. The animal's mental life springs from the spirit of nature which from the first dwells in world-matter and manifests itself in every single act of the cosmogonic process. Through the circuit of organic processes this spirit is held fast in the individuals of the animal kingdom in a lasting succession of inner vital functions and vital states. From the lowest stages of organization to the highest there extends a common basic stock, whose offshoots are the animal species that have died out at various times or still exist. The assumption of such a basic stock, to which Lamarque's and Geoffroy St. Hilaire's investigations seem to lead, is as little in conflict with the rightly conceived concept of creation as, e.g., the natural connection in the propagation of the human race.

Already in animals there occurs a sporadic thinking. But rational beings proper arise only when consciousness can raise itself above the sporadic and spontaneous and take possession of itself by a free act. Self-consciousness is acquired; it is not originally given.
[219] Only through language is such a firmness won in consciousness that the sporadic can be

[*)] Cf. S. *Heegaard's* formal logic p. 13 f.

pushed back and self-consciousness develop. Only through language, therefore, does reason become the specific character of man. Self-conscious reason is, however, still only the formal expression of man's essence. The highest end, the appropriation of the real "image of God", is reached, as has been shown in the foregoing, only by a free rebirth, whereby the individual enters into what modern philosophy calls the sphere of absolute spirit, and what Christianity calls the Kingdom of God. With this we have come back once again to the philosophy of religion, which we presented earlier. —

Against this whole doctrine it has been objected[*)] that it makes to pantheism and materialism the questionable concession that spirit cannot be the original, but must be the result of the development of the non-spiritual. Yet this objection can be raised against Weisse only from a standpoint that regards the divine spirit as closed and isolated in itself. It is precisely Weisse's merit, and it is the point by which he especially distinguishes himself from the other representatives of speculative theism, that he has led the concept of the divine spirit beyond that dualistic presupposition. It has thereby become possible for him to enter into the grand views that are pressing forward in the natural science of our time, and to show how the ideal and the ethical-religious, rightly and universally conceived, are not violated but precisely come into their own through them. Without, as it seems, knowing Darwin himself, he has, by using Darwin's forerunners, arrived at the problems that Darwinism must necessarily set in motion. And however much may be objected, on the whole and in particulars, to his treatment of these problems, it nevertheless undoubtedly points in a right direction.

CHAPTER FIVE.

The investigators with whom we have been occupied in the preceding chapter had *[220]* all developed under the overwhelming impression of speculative idealism, and despite all their resistance had to go on retaining its stamp. In this way the continuity in the historical development of thought was no doubt maintained; but on the other hand the pure and full development of the new elements that are pressing forward was thereby hindered, and these still gain only a subordinate influence on the view as a whole. One will be able to give oneself up with greater energy to these new, formerly suppressed elements when historical continuity plays no immediate role, but the investigator from the outset stands freer and more critical toward the thought of the preceding age.

Speculative idealism was a view of the whole. In the Idea of the Absolute it saw the essence and content of existence, and through the development of this Idea by way of

[*)] *Pfleiderer*: Das Wesen der Religion. 1869. p. 236.

the pure, dialectical movement of thought it believed it reached the whole fullness of existence. The particular received justification only insofar as it could find its place at one point or another of this dialectical development. In opposition to this, weight is now laid on particular investigations; through the analysis of the particular one seeks to approach the heights from which the great, comprehensive syntheses become possible, whereas one regards it as illusion when thought would spin a knowledge of reality out of itself. Hence the necessity of an intimate relation between philosophy and exact empirical science is stressed. "The life of science," says Trendelenburg already in the preface to the first edition of his "Logische Untersuchungen" (1840), "consists, like all
[221] life, in struggle, struggle as much with opinions that set themselves against it as with facts that will not bend to thought… The struggle with facts is on the whole the most difficult; for they stand, when they are rightly apprehended, unbending, and thought must comply with them in order to be able to subject them to itself." In this last sentence the peculiar opposition to speculation lies expressed. Speculation took the victory of thought to be an immediate one, and did not see that the way to this victory often goes through apparent submission and resignation. With the stress on facts the ideal does not lose its worth and its reality. On the contrary, one holds fast precisely to the conviction that in the ideal all worth is contained, and that over against it everything factual, all mere being, stands in a serving relation. "The true and living substance of every thing consists in reality only in the idea which it expresses; the real is in general nothing other than the ideal." (Lotze. Streitschriften 1857. p. 45). The exact, punctual apprehension of reality leads of itself to an ideal view, which has this advantage over speculative idealism, that it does not, like the latter, have real existence outside itself and against itself, but is won precisely by penetrating it. The mechanically acting atom itself becomes from this standpoint an ideal moment, taken up into the inner coherence of the whole. Therefore we designate this whole school as *the Idealism of Reality*.

The merit of this school, seen from the other side, consists in this, that the ideal, which in speculation fluttered loose, as it were, to all the winds, is made punctual and determinate by being brought into true and intimate connection with reality. But precisely in this connection, by the nature of the case, the greatest difficulty must lie. In the last resort every philosophy must rest on a highest principle, from which all reality springs according to an inner law of development. This last and highest task here retreats
[222] into the shadow before analysis and induction, and on account of the surfeit that the bold deductions of the preceding age had left behind. Yet the importance of the task is expressly acknowledged. "The dialectical development of the Idea which every creature

and every phenomenon is destined to express in the rational whole of the world counts for me too as the only true statement of their concept, and from it alone do I expect an exhaustive insight into all subordinate forms of existence and into the ground of their conformity to law. But the more vividly I am penetrated by this conviction, the less inclined I am to take the good will for the deed and to admire the cheerfulness with which I saw many a one constantly hasten with good courage to this insoluble task. Do not believe, therefore, that this ideal of science should be unknown to me and to many who in this respect express themselves as I do; it moves our heart too, but too deeply for us to want to help ourselves past the seriousness of the problems with such meager answers as those we for the most part see given." (Lotze. Streitschriften p. 98). In contrast to the dialectical facility with which speculation mediated all the oppositions of existence, we here often meet with problems that are declared insoluble. But the Absolute is held fast as a scientific and practical ideal, with an enthusiasm that is quieter, but not less deep, than in the heroes of speculation.

1. *Adolf Trendelenburg* (b. 1802, d. 1872). — We begin with a thinker who still points definitely to historical continuity, if not specifically to continuity with the immediately preceding period. Trendelenburg even lays a special weight on the history of philosophy, just as he himself is one of the most gifted cultivators of this science[*]. It is a German prejudice, he says (preface to the second edition of "Logische Untersuchungen" 1862), *[223]* that every philosopher must begin on his own account, have his own wholly peculiar principle, a mirror ground according to a special formula in order to catch the world in it. Philosophy will not attain its old power until it gains a firm standing by growing in the same way as the other sciences and developing continuously, without beginning anew in every head, but in such a way that it takes up the problems historically and carries them further. The principle of philosophical knowledge has been found and does not first need to be sought: it lies in the organic world-view founded by Plato and Aristotle, which after them has been further developed and is gradually to be completed through deeper investigations of the fundamental concepts and in interaction with the real sciences. — It is the ancient, especially the Aristotelian, conception that Trendelenburg means to carry through, with the transformations that the changed presuppositions and the whole intervening history of knowledge make necessary. Not without reason has it been objected that he, who is so unrelenting a critic of Hegel, passes lightly over obvious errors in Aristotle. But this attachment to the ancient, and the close connection between thought and intuition in him that is akin to it, give his expositions their noble plastic

[*]"Historische Beiträge zur Philosophie". 3 vols. 1856—1867.

form; it becomes easy for him to let thought move in the world of reality without losing its original force. He is, in Søren Kierkegaard's expression about him[*], "a man who thinks soundly and is happily educated by the Greeks". Yet one can perhaps also derive from this a certain lack of thoroughgoing movement of thought, a resting in intuition without a corresponding conceptual foundation, especially in the treatment of the last,
[224] concluding problems. While most philosophical systems proceed from the whole in order to reach a knowledge of the parts contained in it, Trendelenburg means to strike out on the opposite way. Knowledge strives to interpret the miracle of divine creation by creating it anew in thought; but when one begins on this task in the particular, it leads further of itself. With the same power by which things have proceeded from the eternal ground, they point back again to the ground. When, then, the investigation of the particular leads to fixed points, a foundation is thereby reached from which a more perfect understanding of the whole can be sought.

When knowledge has reached its completion, the universe being completely reproduced by the knowing spirit, the opposition between philosophy and the special sciences is sublated, all sciences becoming members of the same organism. But this is an ideal. In reality each science represents the knowledge of a special, limited sphere, and philosophy seeks the Idea of the whole in the parts, the universal in the separate. For the individual sciences point beyond themselves. Each of them concerns only one special being, and the question then becomes one about being as a whole and about the ground of the special forms of being. Seen from this side, the special sciences point to metaphysics, which concerns itself with what is as such, the universal ground of the separate objects. Every science, further, has its peculiar method, its special procedure, by which it embraces its object and sees through to its ground. But at the basis of all methods lies the same thought, and the question arises how the different methods spring from the essence of thought. Seen from this side, the sciences point back to logic. The fundamental science, the general theory of science, becomes at once logic and metaphysics (when it
[225] is designated as logic, this name is thus taken in an extended sense). In this fundamental science the unity of thinking and being in necessity is demonstrated. Without thought there would be only a dead actual, nothing necessary. But without being there would equally be no necessity. Thought, in order to reach necessity, must at every point let itself be determined and bound by the nature of the thing, make itself one with the thing and demonstrate the law out of it. In necessity, which makes science science, being is in a peculiar way taken up into thought, thought into being.

[*] "Uvidenskabelig Efterskrift". p. 79.

Therefore such standpoints are to be rejected in which thought is either entirely separated from being or made absolutely identical with it. The first is the case in formal logic and in Herbart, the second in Hegel. — Formal logic distinguishes between thought and its object and means to investigate the forms of thought apart from its content. But the essence of thought first appears in interaction with objects, just as the sense organs can be apprehended according to their essence only by being seen in function. And formal logic, which itself defines truth as the agreement of thought with the object, excludes itself from truth by isolating thought from the object. — Herbart's metaphysics is a supplementary counterpart to formal logic. He regards the content as given by an absolute position, and thought has only the task, relying on the principles of formal logic, of removing the contradictions with which the given is immediately burdened. But it turns out that what Herbart calls the contradiction in the concepts of experience arises precisely only through his sharp distinction between thinking and being, and that by this distinction he thus sins both against thought and against the object of experience.

Hegel held fast to the absolute unity of thinking and being, and believed that in his dialectical method he had a self-movement of pure thought which was at the same time the thing's own self-production; thought unfolding itself was to unfold the inmost *[226]* essence of things. But on closer investigation it turns out that pure thought is an illusion. a) Hegel presupposes motion from the outset and all the way through. This is seen already in the first categories of the Logic: "being" and "nothing" are both in themselves motionless and cannot through their unity produce moving becoming. "Becoming" could not *become* out of being and non-being if the representation of becoming did not go before. The "presuppositionless" dialectic thus has at least one presupposition, motion. b) In motion space and time are contained, and the concept therefore always has intuition as its foundation. Without intuition the dialectical process would be impossible. According to Hegel it is logical negation that is to be the driving power in this process. But logical negation cannot itself produce anything new; it can only cancel what precedes. Only with the help of intuition, which posits a real opposition, can the movement be carried further, but then of course the immanence of the development of the concept is broken off at every transition. c) If pure thinking were one with the thing's own essence, the dialectical method would have to be a genetic method, one with a demonstration of the thing's own origin. But this is not so; the dialectical thought develops, according to Hegel, a priori, without relying on experience, which alone can lead to insight into the coming-to-be of things. We come here to the dilemma: either dialectical knowledge is independent and a priori, but then it has experience outside itself and becomes no knowledge of the thing,

or else it presupposes empirical science, but then it is not independent and a priori.

By this critique the result is reached that the fundamental problem of the essence of science and of necessity becomes insoluble both when one absolutely separates and when
[227] one absolutely identifies thinking and being. We must therefore hold fast that thinking and being in their difference must stand in an inner connection, and the question then becomes one about the possibility of this connection. To this extent one begins with an opposition, a dualism. But the human spirit is finite and limited and lives on the influences it receives. If the human spirit were merely free, merely independent, so that it received nothing but itself formed everything, it would no doubt be its own master; but this solitary dominion would be like that of the bird on the desolate fields of the snow region, without connection with the living world. Nor can one begin with the Absolute in order to derive from it the knowledge of the finite and relative. The unconditioned no doubt contains the last ground of everything finite; but for finite beings the finite and conditioned lies nearest, and from there they must raise themselves to the knowledge of the infinite. As little as man can jump over his own shadow, so little can he leap over finite thinking.

We must therefore seek the elementary intermediate determination which in finite knowledge unites thinking and being. It must be an activity; for a resting property would not be able to unite, but would remain closed in itself. This activity must be the most general and most original, and it must be simple, not capable of being resolved into elements. Such an activity is *motion.* That motion lies at the basis of being is easily shown. Everything that seems to rest is, regarded more deeply, nevertheless placed in motion. Astronomy has sought in vain for a fixed point in the universe. Likewise thought is in itself motion, a motion that apprehends being, a constructive motion, which manifests itself both in intuition and in the activity of the understanding (separating and connecting, inferring etc.). Motion cannot be explained from anything earlier, but
[228] must be presupposed to infinity. Nor is it composite. Space and time, which some (Zeno, Kant and Herbart) have separated from motion, are its elements, which show it from two sides: time is the inner measure of motion, space its outer phenomenon. — Since motion is thus the most general, most original and absolutely simple activity, no definition of it can be given, for a definition would of course have to proceed from a more general and original concept.

The human spirit thus possesses an original activity, which is the counterpart of outer motion and which conditions all apprehension. Motion is prior to experience, since it first makes experience possible. On this rests the possibility of an a priori knowledge, and of

the free, spontaneous life of the spirit, which develops with inner necessity and springs from the spirit itself. Without such independence the spirit would not be able to behave receptively either. Our sensuous intuition always presupposes a geometrical intuition, according to which we order things perspectivally and at distances. The impressions serve as motives for a construction by which they are transformed into images of external objects.

But this free, constructive motion is not absolute. A substrate is always presupposed, a bearer behind the activity. This substrate is matter. It cannot be derived from motion, as the dynamic conception would have it. The forces of motion are borne by an unknown thing which is no longer motion. There remains here, then, a gap in the development of concepts, where something given in experience thrusts itself in. Motion no doubt penetrates here too and dissolves what is fixed, but representation cannot do without the substrate, and always posits it again. Thus we come into a circle: motion conditions everything that is, but in order that there can be motion there must be something that moves. On the other hand, the atomistic view cannot be carried through either, but points back to the dynamic: the atoms cannot be thought of as absolutely inert and at *[229]* rest, for then their mutual influence would become impossible. The atoms must therefore be thought of as points of force, their proper essence consists in motion, and motion is consequently what is original. In atomic theory too, then, matter can be thought only by means of motion. — We must content ourselves with the general result that insofar as the essence of matter opens itself to the spirit, this happens only through motion.

Through constructive motion mathematics becomes possible as a pure, a priori science. From motion in and for itself the mathematical categories spring (figure and number). Through motion, further, construction and calculation penetrate into the material elements, whereby applied mathematics arises. As the spirit in this way immerses itself in reality, we can derive the real categories from motion, which is common to thought and being; outer being is blind and deaf and does not perceive its own acting and suffering, but thought, as self-consciousness, can regard itself in motion, and through the observation of the different forms and products of motion the categories arise.

In pure mathematical intuition a figure or a number is produced. On the presupposition of the material substrate this causal relation stands out more clearly. Causality, the efficient cause, is the first real category. And just as figure and number arise through ideal, constructive producing, so material shape and magnitude arise through real motion. Just as in language substantives are formed from verbs, so there springs from motion a thing, a closed substance. Yet motion does not die away in its product: substance is

itself causality, and acts in a peculiar way through its qualities. In the living connection between the acting properties the concept of interaction manifests itself, and with it in
[230] turn the concept of force is closely connected: everything that contributes to the result in interaction must be designated as force. — All these categories serve in the domain of the efficient cause as a firm foundation for our thoughts, and can be compared to the skeleton of the body. The categories of representation and the principles of things are not two different worlds, but are one in their origin. As long as motion, as pure construction, is kept within the mathematical domain, one can determine action and reaction in advance, and knowledge is a priori. But as soon as matter is taken up as a presupposition, experience must decide how things act and motions meet one another.

But when we now, equipped with the categories won by considering motion in and for itself and matter (the mathematical-physical categories), which have their typical expression in the efficient cause (causa efficiens), step out into the world of experience, it turns out that these categories do not suffice to explain everything we meet here. Nature offers facts such as the sprouting seed, the eye that opens to the light, the organs of locomotion of animals corresponding to their element, where a plurality of moments are so connected that the one points to the other, so that the explanation of the single parts can be sought only in the whole connection. With the efficient cause, conversely, the parts explain the whole as their effect; here, on the other hand, the whole (the effect) becomes purpose and as such cause, the end guides the beginning, the future the present. This is possible only through the effect's being present beforehand as thought, and through this thought's being one with the efficient cause. Through the efficient cause the purpose (the thought) attains its reality; in the purpose (the thought) the efficient cause has its truth.

On the presupposition of the reality of purpose in nature a new relation between
[231] thinking and being appears. Hitherto we have seen being act on thought and thereby become the cause of knowledge (causa cognoscendi). In purpose, on the other hand, thought acts on being (as causa finalis), since it requires an efficient cause to realize its content. The necessary presupposition here, then, is that thought itself is one with the essence of what is; only thereby can it have power over the real. For this too the possibility lies in motion. Just as we know outer motion only through our spirit's own motion, so too we know the purposes realized in nature only because our own spirit is able to set itself purposes. Motion was the first a priori, purpose is the second. But purpose presupposes motion and material being, and is therefore only a relative a priori. What compels us to give up the blind sole dominion of the efficient cause is its own

impotence. In the face of phenomena such as organic life another way must be taken. In particular cases mistakes are no doubt possible here, but on the whole it stands firm that light cannot be explained by darkness. The concept of purpose makes an explanation possible where the efficient cause does not suffice. But purpose we can grasp only from the ideal side, as the thought of the whole which determines the parts, consistently positing the means to its fulfillment. On the other hand we cannot observe the point where thought grips force and guides it toward the goal. Just as the ancients represented Helios standing on his chariot and steering the horses of the sun with his hand, but gave the hand no reins, these tools of human force, so the thought of purpose steers the acting forces with invisible reins.

The inner purpose is the properly individualizing principle in the world. When force and purpose coincide in the same subject, the self arises, and only the self is an individual in the proper sense. In the mere machine there is no such unity. In the plant, the animal and man this unity shows itself at different stages. The soul is a self-realizing thought *[232]* of purpose. The mental activities are reflexive; they proceed from the self and have the self as their aim. In the feeling of pleasure and displeasure the individual life appears as furthered or hindered; the acting of the being is no longer foreign to the being itself. In the animal the thought of purpose is still hidden from itself; blind drive directs itself toward the underlying purpose, and pleasure or displeasure follows from its satisfaction or disappointment. But man becomes conscious of the purpose and, in knowledge of the universal, raises himself above immediate drive and sensation. In the human, the organic passes over into the ethical. The ethical Idea is the inner purpose which thought makes into a task for action and life. Purpose, which in nature is purely objective, becomes personal in man, and on this rests the possibility that the dominion of reason can grow in the world. The ethical world has its history; it acts organically and develops itself as an organism.

The concept of purpose thus leads us into two new spheres, the organic and the ethical. But the categories won earlier (the mathematical and physical) are not therefore given up. They continue to lie at the basis, but are penetrated by purpose and gathered under a new center, whereby they gain a closer determination. Thus the efficient cause now becomes means, substance becomes machine or, with a deeper unity of matter and form, organism. Interaction is no longer a play of blind forces, but an inner relation between the whole and the parts. Matter is no longer the dead substance lying behind everything, but is required with necessity by thought, which needs it as its handmaid so as not itself to become solitary and without life. Without matter, which separates

[233] and bears, there would be no hold for thought, no individual life. At its highest point the concept of purpose leads us to the Ideas of the true, the beautiful and the good. The efficient cause gives us only the actual; truth reveals itself where the real whole corresponds to its purpose. In beauty the inner purpose appears at the same time in a harmonious form for intuition. In the ethical, purpose is taken up into knowledge and disposition.

It is, then, the same fundamental concepts that are freely constructed in the mathematical, filled out in the physical, deepened in the organic and raised in the ethical. Thus we saw, e.g., the concept of the whole first in abstract form as figure or number, next as material and concrete substance in nature, as organism in the living, and finally as personality and moral organism in the ethical. Purpose at last takes up all other categories into itself as a higher providence; for its sake they all are. From the highest standpoint one would be able, starting from the last purpose and going backward, to arrive at all the categories. But we, who do not stand at the standpoint of the Absolute, must start from motion (the efficient cause) and through it work our way forward to the knowledge of what is in itself first and original, purpose.

The fundamental concepts developed so far all concern the inner nature of the thing. But in the course of thought's labor on the work of knowledge, new fundamental concepts arise which have their root in thinking knowledge and concern the thing's relation to it. These are the so-called modal categories, possibility, actuality and necessity. To sense intuition things stand as something immediately actual, as phenomenon. The comprehending understanding now turns to the phenomenon and asks about its ground. The ground is no more an absolute unity than the cause is, but a sum of conditions that belong together. Now if only one or some of these conditions are present, the concept of
[234] possibility arises, thought supplying what is lacking. From possibility thought strives further to find the whole ground, the whole system of conditions. Herewith the transition from possibility to necessity takes place. The inner, fully developed possibility passes, in the direction of being, over into actuality, and presents itself to thought as binding necessity. In its immediate form necessity is no doubt only the unavoidable, but through the acknowledgment of thought this negative becomes a positive grounding. Thought is no doubt not a link in the connection of events, but the concept of their necessity first arises when they are measured by thought. Until then they are only occurrences; now they become necessity. The acknowledgment the spirit renders here is not weakness, as though it would rather have something else but had to submit; it is rather its essence and its strength, since it impresses on blind existence the higher stamp of necessity.

The question now becomes in what peculiar forms thought solves the task whose possibility has thus been demonstrated. The forms and connections of thought must correspond to the forms of being, since the possibility of knowledge rests on motion, which is an activity common to thinking and being. In the parallelism of the forms the original unity mirrors itself. — Just as substance emerges as the result of activity and is in turn active in its properties, so the concept is the result of an original judging and develops its essence through continued judging. The concept is substance apprehended as universal. As apprehension of substance the concept has its determinate content, as universal its determinate extension. Content and extension are related to each other as the law to the phenomena. — To these moments of the concept the main kinds of judgment attach themselves: the categorical (and hypothetical) judgment is essentially a judgment of content and aims at a generalization of the subject; the disjunctive judgment is a judgment of extension and aims at a specification of the subject. — The essence of *[235]* the syllogism, too, is conditioned by the two moments of the concept. It is the movement of thought either from the law (the content of the concept) to the phenomenon (the extension of the concept) — the categorical syllogism; or conversely — the disjunctive syllogism. — With the help of the syllogism knowledge advances synthetically and deductively. But the analytical investigation of experience is the constant presupposition, and not even in mathematics can knowledge always advance by the way of deduction; it needs apagogic proofs and auxiliary lines. In place of the genetic proof, which demonstrates necessity in the thing's own coming-to-be, there steps the indirect proof, which delimits it by demonstrating the impossibility of the opposite. Only in connection with a disjunctive judgment that sets out all the cases that are possible at all can the indirect proof lead to a positive result. In particular the highest principles cannot be proved directly or genetically; in that case they would of course not be principles, but would have a foreign origin. They can be established only by a ground of knowledge: the necessity of principles consists in the impossibility of the opposite. But in this negative expression a positive principle lies hidden, and the more comprehensive the point of view, the more compelling force it has. For the unconditioned principle, for God, the indirect proof must be drawn not from anything particular but from the whole of existence.

But it is only finite knowledge whose possibility and whose forms we have now investigated. When, having run through the forms of finitude, we seek the Absolute, the earlier means no longer suffice. One might think that, just as the mathematical-physical categories underwent a transformation in the organic and ethical domain, so the categories of finitude could by a similar metamorphosis be developed so as to hold

for the Absolute. But such an infinitizing of the categories is impossible, and it is an
[236] illusion when one believes one can reach by this way a constructive knowledge of the essence of God. The content becomes a wholly different one when what is peculiar to finitude is to be negated. Logically regarded, every intermediate determination, every analogy between the conditioned and the unconditioned, is lacking. Thought can no more apprehend the pure and clear light in its sphere than the eye can in its own; its work is to behold the subdued rays, broken in the play of colors — and when it does so, it does not, after all, deny whence they come. Of God it holds: nesciendo scitur. Only theosophical imagination sets itself above these critical scruples.

But although one cannot construct the unconditioned, every view that does not, like Kant's, regard the categories as purely subjective forms must nevertheless find in the finite essential pointers as to how the notion of the infinite must be formed. What is true in the finite by its necessity cannot be untrue in the infinite. The necessary in conditioned knowledge is the fixed point to which the supposition of the unconditioned can attach itself. The necessity which the finite spirit has seen into may perhaps, seen from the point of view of the infinite, enter into a larger connection and itself be enlarged, but it nevertheless remains in itself what it is. The divine spirit is like a poet of whom we know only a single work. Our world is no doubt only a fragment, but still a whole by itself, like a single drama in a trilogy. The way in which the Absolute is apprehended rests on the whole world-view. Here in particular the organic world-view stands over against
[237] the merely physical or mechanical[*)]. The latter sees the world from the standpoint of the efficient cause: motion and matter are the first and the last, and purpose is only semblance. The organic world-view, on the other hand, sees the world from the standpoint of purpose, and thought as the last ground of everything. After what has gone before, the decision cannot be doubtful; for it has turned out that the efficient cause was insufficient to explain the facts of experience, and that it was absorbed as an element in the comprehensive purpose. The organic world-view reaches its completion in the Idea. The concept becomes Idea when it is seen as determined by the higher purpose, or shows itself in the light of the unconditioned. The Idea is contained in the essence of God, for without God there is nothing divine. —

Trendelenburg's "Logische Untersuchungen", whose fundamental thoughts we have now tried to set forth, is indisputably the most important logical-metaphysical work since Hegel's Logic. But what an opposition there is between these two works! Hegel goes by the way of pure thought, renounces intuition and experience, and believes that

[*)] Cf. the treatise "Ueber den letzten Unterschied philosophischer Systeme" in "Historische Beiträge zur Philosophie". 2ter Band.

in this way, through the rhythmic self-movement of concepts, he reaches the highest truth and reality. In Trendelenburg it is precisely the first work of thought to put on intuition as its garment, so as thus to undertake the toilsome journey through reality. Hegel's pure concepts are in his opinion only weakened and diluted intuitions. Human thinking lives on intuition and dies the death of starvation when it is to nourish itself on its own entrails. Philosophy therefore presupposes the empirical sciences, and its peculiar problems arise when the knowing spirit seeks to become conscious of its activity within these, and therefore raises the question: how is science possible? on what is necessity grounded?

Trendelenburg's logical investigations mark the first sober self-reflection after specu- *[238]*
lation's intoxication of enthusiasm, in which the wings of thought became so light that it believed it could soar up into the pure ether. Kant had already laid the ground for the doctrine of pure thought by his sharp distinction between space and time as forms of intuition and the pure concepts of the understanding. Hegel then developed in his Logic the essence of the Idea in the form of pure thought, and only in the philosophy of nature came upon space, time and motion. Speculative idealism thereby really became, as Weisse showed, a complete dualism. Weisse and I. H. Fichte sought to remedy this one-sidedness, but they were themselves still too strongly influenced by speculative dialectic to break through its bounds completely. Metaphysical knowledge was not yet put in close connection with an analytical critique of the given. At this point lies Trendelenburg's merit.

In opposition to speculation he declares that he will occupy himself only with the finite. He does not deny the Absolute, but regards only an indirect grounding of it as possible: philosophy leads to the knowledge of the Idea; the Idea is divine; without God there is nothing divine. Through this indirect and indeterminate apprehension of the Absolute there is in Trendelenburg an attachment to the religious tradition, "the handing down from generation to generation to which the concept of God owes its proper life". Only in the face of finitude, in which his thought moves with Greek joy of life and harmony, does he feel a need for a determinate and closed apprehension; the Absolute is for him the inaccessible, though all-bearing, infinity. Yet in his own exposition two points of view here come into opposition to each other. On the one hand he maintains that the difference between the finite and the infinite is too great for the categories that hold for the finite to be able to undergo such a change that they could become the expression of the infinite's essence. But just as definitely he maintains on the other hand *[239]*
that the essence of necessity must be the same whether it is seen in the world of finitude

or enters into the infinite connection of the Absolute. Now if the concept of necessity forms the firm kernel of human knowledge, then all other categories have meaning only insofar as they stand in inner connection with it and are different forms of it. And if the concept of necessity cannot lose its meaning by being transferred from the finite to the infinite, then the separate forms under which it appears must also have in themselves more than merely finite meaning. Thus Trendelenburg himself in principle corrects the opposition he has set up between the finite and the infinite.

Not only in the face of the Absolute, but also in the face of the world of fact, there is in Trendelenburg a halt in the development of concepts. He begins with mathematical construction, but in order to get beyond this sphere he must take up the concept of matter empirically. Now after the physical categories have been developed, a new appeal to experience becomes necessary in order to ground the concept of purpose. Trendelenburg is here evidently influenced by Kant's critical separation between the a priori and the a posteriori, thinking and the thing in itself. He himself admits that matter, insofar as we can apprehend and know it, is determined by and expresses itself in motion. With what reason, then, does he allow representation ever anew to posit a dead substrate behind the content of the living concept? Intuition and concept, which according to his own doctrine are to be in harmony, are here in unreconciled discord. The same thing happens with the concept of purpose. It appears in opposition to the preceding categories, an opposition which neither philosophy nor recent empirical science can allow. A real
[240] carrying-through of the development of concepts would here have satisfied both, the concept of purpose being brought in an inward way into connection with the earlier categories by virtue of Trendelenburg's own fundamental thought, that it is the Idea of the whole which conditions the single parts. The chapter on purpose is, on the side of its exposition, one of the most beautiful in Trendelenburg's "logische Untersuchungen", but here he has in several respects not risen above the popular conception. —

There still remains to consider Trendelenburg's practical philosophy, which he has developed above all in his "Naturrecht auf dem Grunde der Ethik" (1860). At its basis lies the organic world-view won in the "logische Untersuchungen", in which thought is seen as the last cause, from whose center force is determined. The whole grounded in an original thought completes itself in itself and in its parts. To this principle the ethical leads back with necessity. The views that find the starting point of the moral in pleasure, self-love or self-preservation proceed from isolated individuals and can reach only a mechanical connection between them. The particular itself first comes into its right by being attached to the ideal, by being seen as that which is to develop according

to a purpose. Herewith we are pointed to another starting point, namely purpose, the universal. Yet this would be an empty ideal if it did not take root in the particular through inner articulation. Both starting points come into their right when we determine the ethical principle as the Idea of man. What is peculiarly human rests, as the "logische Untersuchungen" already showed, on this, that thought, the inner purpose, which in the lower organic beings is hidden from itself or only sensed blindly, comes in man to self-consciousness. As man knows and wills the creative thought of his own essence, the ethical becomes the organic set free. But the single man by himself would not be able to raise himself to this point; only in society does the essence of man manifest itself in its *[241]* full extent, and only there does the self-liberation of individuals also become possible. Society in turn develops through history, whose inner moving force is the Idea of man. In this great historical connection, in which the single man thus stands, it is a matter on his side of strengthening and consolidation, of widening the scope of his powers. To this is added, from the side of the whole, the need for articulation. Both directions must coincide in order that the ethical be present; the realization of the Idea and the self-preservation of the individual go hand in hand in the ethical.

In personal devotion to ideal reason, with the surrender of egoistic drive, the inmost element of the ethical shows itself: the disposition by which the will becomes the good will. Through the inwardness of the disposition the ethical has its ground in the religious. When the Idea of man is posited as what moves in the individual and in history, the concept of the Idea, the creative thought, points back to God. The human does not stand in opposition to the divine. Positive religion grasps the divine Idea in certain historical facts, but philosophy has a more universal character and maintains the universally human, of which the Christian can only be a peculiarly determined direction that cannot deny the universal foundation. The element of religion is disposition; its essence lies at the point where the notion of the divine meets with human affect. It has its point of attachment in man's fearing and hoping, insofar as these are determined by the notion of a superhuman being. While in true faith it is divine thoughts that call forth the affect, in superstition — and man is by nature superstitious — contingent drive rules through the associations of ideas. In the religion of spirit man is freed from superstition. Christianity is the center of world history insofar as in it the idea of the unity of the divine and *[242]* the human comes forth for consciousness. It presupposes the organic world-view (ἐν ἀρχῇ ἦν ὁ λόγος), and the Idea of man has found its concrete expression in the notion of the body of Christ and its members, growing through the generations. But religion emphasizes only the disposition, inwardness. Here too philosophy is more universal; it

directs its attention also to the carrying-through of the good in the world. Here, then, what matters is not only the good disposition, but also the truth of the action, namely that it corresponds to the ideal purpose of man, and the harmony and beauty of its execution. The Idea of the good in the wider sense contains these three elements: the good in the disposition, the true in the concept, the beautiful in the presentation.

The highest good is the realized Idea as moral organism, from which the single goods, duties and virtues spring. In this lies also the source of right. A sharp opposition has wrongly been set up between the moral and the juridical. From the same spirit from which duty arises, right too springs, which with the power of the whole preserves the outer conditions for the realization of the ethical. Right is not merely to defend and preserve; as in organic life, so here too preservation is a further development, the possibility of which must therefore lie in the essence of right. Duty is the morally necessary, right the morally possible; duty is therefore of narrower, right of wider extent. But it does not follow from this that right, the more comprehensive possibility, should not itself be morally conditioned and carry a moral purpose within it. This purpose is the preservation of the conditions for the life and development of the ethical Idea in society. From this the coercion bound up with right is explained; it is grounded on the power of society as a whole. But right does not reach its goal when the individuals' way
[243] of thinking and acting does not come to meet it, and there does not rule in them the same moral spirit that right is to preserve against all resistance and hindrance. Right cuts away excrescences, but cannot itself heal an inner disease. Thus Roman law remained standing, but the Roman people decayed.

The individual has no right outside society, and within society duty comes into being together with right. The modern doctrine of innate rights is therefore one-sided, especially when it is formulated more definitely in such a way that the individual makes a claim on society for a livelihood. The ancients, full of piety, regarded as a benefaction what the moderns set up as a legal claim. The ancients did not set themselves in isolation over against the state. In recent times, on the other hand, one speaks of an opposition between state and church, state and science etc., as if the state were a special factor and not precisely the power that embraces all the elements of human life. The state is the realization of the universal man, of the Idea of man in the individual form of a people. Every people labors to realize the Idea of the state in proportion to its spiritual and material powers. While human activity in the individual is only a small fragment, in the state it appears as a many-sided whole. What the guiding reason is in man, the government is in the state; to man's single pieces of knowledge there corresponds in the

state the ramified system of the sciences, to his single skills the arts and crafts etc. —

Trendelenburg's ethical view, by its doctrine of the individual's being absorbed in the state, recalls the ancient conception. Yet with him this conception is not only carried back to a deeper and more many-sided grounding, but in two essential points in particular he sets himself in opposition to it. — In the ancient state the humane life fell to the share of only a few, at the expense of the greater mass, who had to work for the necessities of *[244]* those few. Trendelenburg has not only acknowledged this evil, but he finds it again at all times. What the slaves were in antiquity, the serfs were in the Middle Ages and the factory workers are in recent times. Their conditions stand in glaring contrast to the growing culture, which constantly provides greater possibility for human satisfaction. Yet the development of culture itself produces its own canker. It makes necessities more manifold, widens and increases need and desire, increases the population and with it the number of those who desire. Those who desire desire more and become more numerous. It is easier to refute the communist and socialist theories than to heal the evils that give them their power. For this power comes from the passions that are in motion, not from the element of truth they contain. Laws and right can do but little here; by directly opposing the evil they strike only the effect, not the cause. The task always remains of conquering spiritually and morally the physical force that breaks forth through overpopulation, through human labor-power's falling in value (the fate of our time), and that threatens to dissolve society in a struggle of all against all. — The ancient sense for harmony and for the plastically formed whole has thus not blinded Trendelenburg's eye to the disharmonies of existence, or led him over into an obstinate optimism.

The ancient state let the individual be so absorbed in the state that it retained no personal inwardness, no inner infinity; the state ruled everything and everyone immediately as the adequate form of the Idea. Trendelenburg, on the other hand, lays weight, as we have seen, on the disposition, on the inner relation of the will to the Idea, and finds in this an attachment of the ethical to the religious. "Man thinks in the divine a concept that has its worth in itself. Where therefore, as in the ethical religions, he enters into an essential relation to the divine, he thereby acquires an inner worth himself. In *[245]* religion he ceases to have a mere market price… In the general stream of world history and under the general fate of the peoples, Christianity labors to let the soul find its ground in itself and not to let it go without its laying hold of itself through God. Thus man, who otherwise loses himself in the large, remains man in himself, and only through man in the particular is the state, man in the large, man."

But Trendelenburg turns back again to an ancient line of thought in apprehending the religious objectively and as a direct object of the state's care; at least it lies nearer, in his case, to derive this from the after-effects of antiquity than from those of the Middle Ages. The state, he says, cannot do without the church and its spiritual help, the possibility of the most penetrating effect on the disposition, so as to raise individuals above egoism and the craving for enjoyment. It is, as already mentioned, in his opinion wrong to set the state in opposition to the church; the state needs the church, or rather the worldly side of the state needs the spiritual. From this it does not follow that it is to attach itself to a particular religion or confession and have a state church; it is to let the different schools unfold freely and represents over against them the Idea of humane ethics and of tolerance. But Trendelenburg maintains that the state must see to it that children are brought up in a particular religion, even if the parents renounce all recognized churches. "The supposition that it should be possible for those who want it to live in the state without religion [i.e. according to the context: without positive religion or confession] may as little be thought, as the old lawgivers would think of the possibility of parricide." As Socrates was accused of not accepting the gods the state accepted, so, then, one
[246] would now be able to imagine an accusation of not belonging to any of the religions the state recognizes. Trendelenburg has not brought out definitely enough the opposition between the positive and the rational-humane element in religion. His grounding of the importance of the religious for the state really rests on the latter element; only in the conclusion is the former inserted. And yet it must have lain near at hand for him to bring forward the great problem he has here pushed aside, since he himself has brought out the concept of the Idea as the principle both for the knowledge of the divine and for the knowledge of the human. A sharper apprehension of the essence of the Idea, relying on the absolute validity of the thought of necessity, which Trendelenburg himself acknowledges, would also have led him to a sharper apprehension of the problem of the philosophy of religion, which is of no less importance than the social problem to which Trendelenburg points with such noble humanity, and which surely has many points of contact with it.

2. *Gustav Theodor Fechner* (b. 1801) was for a time Professor of Physics in Leipzig, but besides works in this science he also published various poetic and humorous writings. The free course of thought and imagination was not crippled in him by any one-sidedness of specialism. Soon he sought also to develop philosophically his world-view, as it had developed for him in interaction with his exact studies. From earlier philosophy he has, by his own declaration, received important impulses. It was a work that had sprung from

Schelling's views, namely Oken's philosophy of nature, which by its titanic boldness first led him out beyond the ordinary conception of nature. "The best fruit" he has "plucked from a branch of Hegel's philosophy that is admittedly bent far to the side," inasmuch as he owes to Weisse his conception of Christianity in the philosophy of religion. Finally, Herbart's mathematical psychology has been to him a model, though chiefly through its *[247]* shortcomings: "I have burnt a piece of coal from Herbart's ashes on my hearth"[*)]. Yet he sets his philosophizing in decided opposition to the earlier philosophy. Its fundamental error consists, for Fechner, in the endeavor to find what lies behind the phenomenon, in the presupposition that all that we see, hear, feel, indeed even what we think, is to be a subjective semblance, which must be removed in order that one may reach what is really real. Neither empirical science nor philosophy can go behind the sensuous, the phenomenon and what one must represent to oneself in connection with it. In this bright world thought is to remain, and not suppose that it will win precious treasures by sinking into the underworld, where it will find only shadows. How, then, can the ideal interest be satisfied, the longing that is not content with what is merely given? Never, says Fechner, will one be able to confine the human spirit and the human heart so in the phenomenon that it finds itself content in this captivity and does not strive to reach something deeper, something supersensible. But this need is to be satisfied not by going back to a being behind the phenomenon, but by following the whole connection of phenomena into the smallest particulars and the finest nuances, as well as into the total, concluding unity. Experience does not, indeed, reach the infinite, nor even far into the world of finitude; but the thread that leads us within the domain of experience we can follow out beyond it. The points of view that hold within experience need only to be extended, raised, potentiated, in order that with their help one may be able to reach the higher spheres. The natural scientist, who step by step relies on experience and mathematics, has to do only with the outer side of nature, i.e. with nature as the object of outer observation. *[248]* But by induction, analogy and rational combination a further-reaching consideration of nature can so extend and make infinite what is immediately given that it leads out beyond itself. This is the only theoretical way by which one can reach a knowledge of what lies out beyond what is given in experience. It is a passage through the visible world in order to find the invisible. To want to go the opposite way, as speculative philosophy does, is to want to begin the building of a tower from the top instead of first providing a solid foundation.

The first thing one must therefore make sure of is the method and results of empirical

[*)] Ueber die physikalische und die philosophische Atomenlehre. 2te Aufl. p. XIV.

science, in order to build further on this foundation. What matters here, then, is partly the limiting concepts with which exact empirical science concludes, so that metaphysics may then in its own way work further in the same track, and partly such points of view as make possible an exact conception of the relations of opposition that play an essential role in metaphysical respects. In both respects Fechner has produced exceedingly meritorious works. In his work "Ueber die physikalische und die philosophische Atomenlehre" (1855. Second edition 1864) he has given precision to the concept of matter as it presents itself from the standpoint of natural science, and has then sought to show how this concept can enter into a philosophical view. In his "Elemente der Psychophysik" (2 vols. 1860) he has given an exact doctrine of the relation between soul and body, which is indeed independent of further-reaching metaphysical presuppositions, but nevertheless points of necessity to such. In his other writings[*)] he seeks to carry out the great proof by
[249] analogy and induction on which, by his conviction, a philosophical world-view can alone be built, and he shrinks from no consequences, even if they seem mystical or fantastic. Often the prose style (especially in Zendavesta) passes over into dithyrambic poetry. — It was not Fechner's exact investigations that led him to his philosophical world-view; on the contrary, his philosophical inquiry led him to set the problem by which the foundation was laid for "Psychophysics"[*)]. —

Speculation, says Fechner in his atomic theory, descends into nature like the bear into a beehive. It praises the coherent honey, but does not heed that the individual little beings have brought it together and have a right to it; it takes the honey with one grab and overturns the whole beehive. Natural science, by contrast, is like the beekeeper, who knows that the structure in all its unity is the work of countless individuals, carried out under the rule of a quiet and hidden law, and who therefore tends them, follows their flight and makes their whole life and doings the object of his attentive observation. As irreconcilable strife reigns between the beekeeper and the bear, so also between natural science and speculation. Speculation wants to fathom the essence of nature by an a priori-dialectical way and therefore ends in a dynamic view, which derives matter from the interaction of universal forces, whereby every firm foundation is abolished. In opposition to this, natural science maintains the exact discreteness of matter. By a series of facts from various regions of physics and chemistry (the undulatory theory, the theory of heat, etc.) Fechner seeks to establish that natural science cannot conceive matter as a continuum, but must regard it as a system of discrete parts which for it are indissoluble.
[250] Everything thus individualizes itself down to the most particular, but is precisely thereby

[*)] Namely: Zendavesta (3 vols. 1851). Ueber die Seelenfrage (1861). Die drei Motive des Glaubens (1863).
[*)] Elemente der Psychophysik, II. p. 553.

joined into the firmest whole. As the heavenly bodies move in cosmic space, so the atoms in infinitely small space, and here as there a universal law reigns. Modern natural science is therefore atomistic in the sense that it holds fast to the discreteness of matter. But it does not, like the old atomism, undertake to fathom the absolutely ultimate. If by atom one understands the absolutely indivisible, then the name atomism does not fit modern natural science, which maintains only that discreteness must go further than the eye and the microscope reach, but by no means denies a divisibility in indefinitum. Modern atomic theory is therefore relative. The physicist does not assert that the space between the atoms is empty, and that there cannot be found between them a fine matter which has no influence on the atomic motions he can control, just as the ether fills cosmic space between the heavenly bodies. Between the atoms of this matter there could then in turn be thought an even finer ether, etc. We move on the whole here in the domain of the relative. It is only of importance to hold fast to such points where exact analysis can find its point of attachment. But this is impossible for the speculative-dynamic view, which explains matter as the result of a continuously acting, space-filling force. This concept is an absurdity for physics. For physics, force is incommensurable with matter and cannot produce it or dialectically become one with it. All forces are concepts of relation and therefore presuppose something that stands in these relations. What one ascribes to a body as its determinate force is the share with which it works toward the fulfillment of the law. The matter that is presupposed is the atoms, which are not measured (like force, space and time), but counted. The motion of the atoms fills time and space. The mass of the atom is not extension; it is, physically speaking, one with the constant ratio in which, for this atom, the force always stands to the increase of velocity. The concept of *[251]* mass is therefore not materialistic. On the contrary, the fundamental conception toward which physics in the last instance points is absolutely idealistic. The extension of matter is = o, and the material atom is a single being, a punctual intensity, a center of force.

Although Fechner grants the relative and skeptical character of modern atomic theory, he nevertheless himself goes out beyond its limits and carries atomism through absolutely. And he does this expressly for philosophical or metaphysical reasons. The task of metaphysics consists for him in finding and exploring the limiting concepts of experience in their general relation and connection, and its method in generalizing and carrying through what exact empirical science has found and established, to such a conclusion as thinking demands, the very conditions of being something ultimate and highest forming the form for the concepts thereby found. Metaphysics is therefore not a priori, but answers to its name, inasmuch as it comes after physics. Metaphysical

knowledge cannot directly extend exact knowledge; physically speaking, it always remains a hypothesis, but it is nevertheless the conceptual conclusion of physics, which one reaches when one carries the way that exact knowledge goes with certainty to its end in the Idea. Not physically, then, but metaphysically does Fechner arrive at the absolute atomism that conceives the material atoms as centers of force. But he arrives at it by holding fast immediately to the exact limiting concepts to which physics leads. He refuses to go behind the phenomenon to find the essence of matter. The material is the tangible, the general foundation for the phenomena of nature; behind it nothing can be known, but in connection with it and beyond it there is room for abstractions and higher points of view. The concept of substance is one with the concept of the whole
[252] phenomenal connection, in whose lawfulness the objective in matter consists. It is from this starting point, then, that physics arrives at the concept of the discreteness of matter, and no other concept of matter can metaphysics take as its basis either. But when one carries this concept through, all burden and weight vanish; every impenetrable barrier that stands against spirit is transformed into force.

Behind the phenomenon nothing can be known. But the phenomenal itself contains an important difference, by which it divides into two great groups. The bodily is that which appears only for another; the mental rests on an inner appearing for itself. We thus get an opposition between inner and outer phenomena. In the thing itself, however, there is no opposition, but it arises through the two different standpoints that can be taken. What on the inner standpoint appears as mind appears on the outer standpoint as body, just as the same circle seen from within shows itself concave, seen from without convex. Whoever therefore knows only the outer standpoint will regard everything as bodily and deny mind; so the materialists, who look about only in the periphery of the circle, and since they find no center here, deny that there is any. Conversely, the idealists want to determine the periphery from the center; but about the same center there can, after all, be described manifold circles. Yet the opposition between these standpoints does not remain standing: experience shows us a determinate and lawful relation between the mental and the bodily, and in psychophysics we seek an exact doctrine of this relation. In order to be able to establish such a doctrine, a measure is needed for the mental and the bodily motions. The difficulty here is to find a standard for the mental, since it cannot be measured immediately, although there can be no doubt that it is subject to quantitative
[253] determinations, since there is, after all, a greater or lesser strength of sensations and drives, higher and lower degrees of attention, of clarity of consciousness, etc. The only way in which these mental motions can be measured is to see them in relation to the bodily

motions to which they are of necessity bound. If we now keep to sensation, the most elementary mental determination, then it has as its necessary condition partly the outer impression, partly the organic functions by which the impression is converted into inner sensation. But these organic functions (the psychophysical in the narrower sense) are unknown to us in their inner essence, and yet it is they that are the middle term between the physical and the psychical. Inner psychophysics, which investigates the relation between the mental and the organic (between the psychical and the psychophysical), must therefore be built on outer psychophysics, which immediately investigates the relation between sensation and impression (between the psychical and the physical). From the latter we shall then be able to infer back to the former.

No sensation stands suddenly at its full height, but each runs through a whole scale from the point where it is still imperceptible, and that often in so short a time that it seems to be present suddenly in its whole strength. This successive growth makes it possible to measure it. For when one observes the increments of sensation with the successive increases in the strength or extent of the impression, one will have given the elements on whose relation the measure rests. It does not, indeed, seem easy to make sure of the equality of the increments of sensation. But one can, after all, judge the equality of two tones or tone intervals, and besides, Fechner gives three methods by which at least an exact approximation can be reached. The first is "the method of just noticeable differences," which by experiment determines the size of difference (in weight, etc.) that *[254]* is necessary for the difference to be capable of being sensed at all; the two others rest on the calculus of probability and seek by its help, through repeated experiments, to eliminate the errors that must necessarily creep in where, as here, subjective sensation plays so important a role.

The simplest relation would be that the increment in sensation was directly proportional to the increase of the impression. But this is not the case. The physiologist E. H. Weber's experiments have instead established that the next simplest relation obtains, namely that *relatively* equal increments in impression correspond to equal increments in sensation — provided, of course, that the receptivity is the same and the conditions on the whole normal. This is the content of what Fechner calls Weber's law, which is only the exact expression of what is known to everyone from daily experience. One hears one's neighbor's voice clearly when it is quiet, but amid loud noise one cannot hear what one says oneself, i.e. cannot notice the increase of impression produced by one's own words, because this is vanishing in relation to the impression already present beforehand. When a room is brightly lit, one does not notice that one more light is added, etc.

Every impression, or difference between impressions, must already have reached a certain finite magnitude before it can be noticed. The zero point of sensation therefore lies above the zero point of the impression. The zero point of sensation, where it just begins or vanishes, Fechner calls the threshold. As long as the impression is not strong enough to raise the sensation above this point, it is unconscious, and the deeper it lies below the threshold, the higher is the degree of unconsciousness. An increment in itself
[255] imperceptible can here turn the scale and, by joining itself to the impression already at hand, raise the sensation above the threshold, i.e. let it become conscious.

A mathematical expression of Weber's law is had in formulas that were already set up by Dan. Bernouilli at the beginning of the last century to express the relation between relative and absolute value (ex conditione personæ — ex re ipsa). The first of these formulas, which Fechner calls the psychophysical fundamental formula, is: $d\gamma = k\, d\beta/\beta$, where γ denotes the sensation, β the impression and k a constant dependent on the units chosen for β and γ. This formula thus states that the increment of sensation ($d\gamma$) depends on the relation between the increment of impression ($d\beta$) and the impression present beforehand (β). To this there is then joined, since the relation between the increments of sensation and of impression is the same as that between the increments of the logarithm and of the number, the so-called formula of measurement, whose simplest form is: $\gamma = \log \beta$. This formula states that sensation rises in logarithmic relation to the impression. And if it leads to negative values, these indicate the depth of unconsciousness. The positive values indicate the strength of consciousness.

Weber's law, however, does not prove to be valid in all cases. If the formula of measurement had unlimited validity, sensation would have to grow to infinity with the increase of the impression. But because of the constitution of our organism, in particular of the sense organs, the law ceases to hold for very strong impressions. On the other hand it seems that it must have unrestricted validity in the domain of inner psychophysics, since here, because of the immediate relation between the psychical and the psychophysical, there are no such grounds for its limitation as in the relation between sensation (the psychical) and the impression (the physical). But more than
[256] the general conviction of the validity of Weber's law in inner psychophysics cannot be reached. For we still know too little of the relation between the psychical and the psychophysical for us to obtain here a secure point of attachment for the analysis. While in outer psychophysics we can always determine the value of the β of the formula of measurement, which denotes the magnitude of the impression (weight, etc.), in inner psychophysics, where β denotes the organic (psychophysical) motion that conditions

conscious life, it is impossible to determine the value of this magnitude; and since γ is, after all, the unknown magnitude that is to be found, the calculation becomes impossible[*]. On the other hand, inner psychophysics can, when the general lawful foundation stands firm, lead us to general theoretical results concerning mental life and its relation to the bodily.

As regards, first, the general conception of the essence of the soul, Fechner declares himself decidedly against the monadological conception, which is represented in particular by Lotze, and which sees in the soul a punctual unity. In opposition to this Fechner designates his own conception as the synechological one, and sees the soul as the comprehending principle for the bodily plurality of parts and the succession of bodily functions. Only in its inner appearance for itself is the mind a unity; in outer appearance it unfolds itself in a plurality, just as what inwardly is a single sensation appears outwardly as a composite and successive nerve process. On the synechological *[257]* conception, then, the motions in the mental and in the bodily are simultaneous, parallel expressions of the same fact.

The fact of the threshold is of importance also for inner psychophysics, by furnishing a firm foundation for the concept of the unconscious. So in the relation between sleep and waking. Sleep is not a mental nothing. The life-motion of the soul does not take place only in the waking state. This is only the life of the soul above the threshold, while sleep is mental life below the threshold of consciousness; if we denote the threshold by 0, then the positive values denote the height of waking consciousness and the negative values the depth of unconsciousness in sleep. We have here a scale that shows a continuous transition in the subject between the waking and the sleeping state. And just as in outer psychophysics the impression could have a positive value at the point where sensation is 0 (the threshold), so the limiting point between sleep and waking occurs not at a zero value but at a certain positive value of the underlying bodily activity.

This relation can now find a further application. Between the different organisms, the continuity of consciousness by which a plurality of phenomena is bound together in the same mental unity shows itself interrupted. And yet all organisms are united by universal nature into a single system. The psychophysical activity does not, then, extend further *between* the organisms in the same way as in them. But a cessation of psychophysical

[*] Fechner had conceived the idea of his psychophysics with Herbart's mathematical psychology before his eyes, but in such a way that he wanted to avoid the one-sidedness in the starting point that hindered its being carried through. For he saw Herbart's defect in this, that Herbart did not secure for himself a reliable measure in the material foundation of mental phenomena. Therefore he starts from sensation, whereas Herbart started from representation. But this secure foundation forsakes him precisely when he passes from outer psychophysics to inner, and the latter is therefore subject to the same shortcoming as Herbart's mathematical psychology.

activity means nothing other than the greatest possible depth below the threshold. What is below the threshold separates, as unconsciousness, the conscious beings, while at the same time it forms the foundation for them and maintains the physical connection between them. The synechological conception must here, then, finally lead us to the
[258] assumption of a universal ensoulment of nature at different stages, since everything, as Thales said, is full of gods, — to "the view of a God omnipresent in nature, in whom all spirits live, move and have their being, as he in them, with intermediate stages between him and us in the souls of the heavenly bodies, so that the created spirits are borne just as closely knit together in them as these themselves in the divine spirit, and as the created spirits in turn bear their senses, and these in turn their particular sensations, within them."

Here, then, we stand at the limiting point where Fechner, from the limited sphere of exact knowledge, with the boldest flight of thought, fearing no paradoxes, sets out on the paths of his poetic-speculative world-view. There is, as already mentioned, no merely accidental or external connection between his exact and his speculative view. Not only does he himself emphasize repeatedly that it was his speculative ideas about the relation between the mental and the bodily that first led him to the thought of the possibility of a psychophysics; not only, conversely, do the psychophysical investigations lead him back to his speculative fundamental view; — but the method and the guiding principles are the same: he seeks to remain on the way of induction and analogy even after the domain has been left where an exact experience is possible.

In general, says Fechner, one regards only men and animals as ensouled, nothing else, at least on our earth. The reason why one thus restricts the sphere of mental life and lets life be a parasite in the realm of death is chiefly that one believes one must raise God so high above the world that it dare not regard itself as his body. Thus one has come to the unhappy, peaceless faith in a natureless God and a spiritless nature. One believes that exact experience forbids extending ensoulment further. But the whole
[259] question of the soul is from the very outset a matter of faith. An exact proof rests on experience and mathematics; but only of one's own soul does one have direct experience, and mathematics lacks every foundation for proving the reality of another soul. Even in the soul of my father, of my brother, I must believe, inasmuch as I infer it by way of analogy and induction. We begin in reality, like Cartesius, with a cogito ergo sum, and an unconscious inference about the other souls of men and animals becomes a dogmatic presupposition, which one can only blindly take for a proven fact. But if this is how matters stand, what can then prevent us from extending the same procedure that we

unconsciously apply to men and animals further — in particular to the world of plants and to the heavenly globes, provided that valid reasons for it appear?

It is objected that plants cannot have any soul, since they have no nerves; but do polyps, then, have nerves? — that the plant is not an individual closed in itself; but the individual is only something relative, since no living being stands absolutely isolated over against the world around it. What prevents there corresponding, to what of the plant we can apprehend with our senses, an inner unity that senses itself? There is indeed so characteristic a difference between the plant and the animal that there must also be a peculiar difference in the inner essence; but on the other hand the plant shows so great an analogy with the animal organism, and there is so continuous a transition from the animal to the plant world, that there is no reason to fix an opposition between them as between the ensouled and the soulless. There must be found in the plant a peculiar mental life, even if it perhaps stands as far below that of the animal as this stands below that of man. — What holds of plants holds also of the heavenly bodies. Why should the earth not be ensouled? One must only not begin by setting a sharp limit between the organic and the inorganic. The inorganic is something lower only *[260]* insofar as it is, as in physics and chemistry, thought of as torn loose from its living and natural connection with the organic; the two belong together in their persistence as in their origin. Men and animals have grown together with the earth still more inwardly than rocks and stones. Our bodies are parts and organs of the earth, our souls parts of the earth's soul. However unlike us the earth is, the unlikeness means nothing other than greater height and fullness, not the lack of what a soul needs for the expression of its essence. By a spiritual bond all earthly souls are united into one, as a multitude of smaller circles within the greater, more comprehensive one. One has often spoken of the human spirit, of the Idea in the history of humanity. What is understood here by the soul of the earth is really nothing else, only that the human is not isolated from the great connection to which it belongs, and in particular that we do not conceive the Idea as conscious in the particular, but unconscious in the whole. The lower spirits can find their common unity only in a higher conscious spirit, whose particular intuitive images and motives they are.

As the lower spirits are parts of the higher, so these finally of the highest. The proof of the latter's existence is therefore of the same nature as the proof of the former's. What the historical forms of faith of humanity point to, what practical need demands, that follows also from the only theoretical proof that is possible here. In investigating existence in its whole extent we find a highest, general world-law, the principle of all

particular laws, namely this: whenever and wherever the same circumstances return, the same consequences return too; but under other circumstances other consequences occur. This law shows that one being pervades all places and times, everything spiritual and bodily. In it the highest law is one with the highest freedom. It now remains to know
[261] what the essence of the Godhead is like, to know it as spirit, as infinite consciousness. Here it holds, as with finite spirits, that only one's own consciousness is certain of itself. With regard to the divine spirit, too, we have no other means of knowledge than analogy and induction. From the consideration of our spirit we rise to the thought of the absolute spirit; from the consideration of our body as the reflection and bearer of our spirit we rise to the intuition of the whole world as the reflection and bearer of the infinite spirit. We must indeed, as we have seen, think of a chain of higher spirits as intermediate links; but the absolute spirit is nevertheless immediately present even in the very lowest, just as a small circle is immediately in a greater one, even if within the latter it is enclosed by a third circle that lies between them both in size. As we think, feel and intuit, the infinite spirit thinks, feels and intuits immediately by and in us. Here there is no externality, but absolute inwardness. In general, to be sure, one maintains the opposition between the infinite and the finite spirit as between finite spirits. One sets the infinite over against, above, beyond, outside the finite, indeed perhaps even puts up an enormous partition wall, so that they shall not come too near each other. But they do not lie outside each other at all. The finite is the content of the infinite. Therefore the infinite is not incomprehensible either; it can be grasped in its content; only it cannot be encompassed. Therefore one need not fear a confusion of the divine and the human; are you God because you are in God? is the smallest moment the same as the whole? — Not only the finite spirits are in God, but also the material world. The world is not something lower than God, but something lower in God. An outer world exists only for finite, not for infinite consciousness. God sees, with some of his creatures as with
[262] parts and organs of his body, other parts and organs set over against them, and with his higher consciousness reaches out beyond them, as our spirit does beyond all particular sense observations. The forces of nature that seem to us unconscious are in themselves elements in a will that reaches out beyond our consciousness and works through the whole world. Therefore not every single working of a force of nature need signify a single act of will. The will is directed at the goal of all the workings of force, and these unconsciously render their contribution to the total end. Thus the spinner thinks only of her yarn, while her foot mechanically-unconsciously treads the wheel.

As the concept of the world thus in the last instance coincides with the concept

of God, the view becomes pantheism in the full meaning of the word. The widest conception of the concept of God is the best founded, and the narrower conception only an abstraction. Yet ordinary pantheism (the Hegelian) is wrong in regarding only single beings as conscious; all consciousness must on the contrary finally gather itself in a highest conscious being[*)].

Since the life of the world is the life of God, this cannot be closed in itself, but develops and unfolds itself with and through the development of the world. God's reason is not completely developed and conscious prior to his working; like the artist of genius, he first beholds his work when it is completed ("And God saw everything that he had made, and, behold, it was very good"). The divine primal reason did indeed rule from eternity, *[263]* but it raises itself ever higher above the material foundation by ever more incorporating this into its realm of spirit. God is not imperfect because he develops in this way, for his perfection does not consist in a finished conclusion, but in an unlimited progress. Nor does this inward relation to the world violate God's holiness. For the sin of the finite will cannot be ascribed to God, any more than a single thought or impulse that arises in our spirit can make it evil. Just as a man is called good or evil according to the whole direction, the higher, comprehensive will, the ruling points of view in his spirit, so we must measure God by the total and eternal in his essence. God's eternal will leads out beyond evil, so that this is finally dissolved in the victorious, all-reconciling harmony. If it is asked why and how evil exists at all, then, no answer can be given other than that evil exists with metaphysical necessity, not independently of God's essence, to be sure, but independently of his will, which precisely works constantly at its reconciliation and sublation. God feels evil with and in the sufferer; but this does not hinder his blessedness, since in his absolute consciousness he is raised above everything particular.

This doctrine is nothing other than a real and serious carrying through of Christianity's sayings that God is spirit and must be worshipped in spirit and truth, — that in him we are, live and move, — sayings that in general stand as mere words. No one has presented God and the highest commandment as purely and holily as Christ. The eternal in Christianity, that by which it went beyond everything earlier, its Idea, is "that the highest is posited as what unites all, that the most comprehensive is posited as what is to be united, and that the best is posited as the highest. The Idea of the union of all from

[*)] In the same way Fechner distinguishes his view from Ørsted's in "Aanden i Naturen" (which had recently appeared when Fechner wrote his "Zendavesta"). He will not, like Ørsted, call the laws of nature thoughts of nature, since the laws are the object and content of thought, not themselves thoughts; to make laws and thoughts one can, in his opinion, easily lead one to forget to ask after the real thoughts and the infinite, all-embracing consciousness from which they proceed. Therefore — he says further — a conscious spirit of nature does not break through in Ørsted except in the mere *name* of God.

the point of view from which alone a unity of all is possible was first brought by Christ,
[264] with consciousness, to the consciousness of the earthly world, and by teaching and life he made a living beginning of the spreading and realization of this Idea." — On the other hand, the doctrine presented is certainly not Christian if one counts as something essential to Christianity "the belief in the bite of the apple in Paradise with its mystical consequences, in the irrevocable damnation of those not elect, in miracles against the laws of nature, in God's remoteness from his world, and in all the unedifying things with which theologians in general furnish Christianity, indeed out of which they build it up." The Idea of Christianity must rather be grasped in such a way that it coincides with the very idea of religion as the most universal, humane point of union. It is Christianity because Christ first brought this Idea to consciousness. But by his ideal ethical commandments he indirectly founded spiritualism and dualism, although he himself does not loose God from the world. It is this spiritualism that has in turn led to setting the infinite outside the finite. When this one-sidedness of the present world-view is sublated, the primal ground from which both heathenism and Christianity have developed will come forth in all its splendor, heathenism being explained by Christianity and Christianity rejuvenated by heathenism. It is a renewal of the old religion of nature, but such that the religion of spirit, far from being thereby violated in its true and eternal essence, is precisely enriched and developed, indeed only now comes into its full right.

Fechner declares of his doctrine that it is materialistic insofar as it sees everything as bodily, but just as much idealistic, because it sees everything as spirit; it is dualistic, inasmuch as it sees spirit and bodiliness as parallel series, but just as much a doctrine of identity, inasmuch as, with Spinoza, it sees both these series as forms of one and the same fundamental being. Yet it differs from Spinozism by maintaining an interaction between
[265] the two parallel series, whereby not only a real relation of causality and with it an exact functional relation becomes possible, but also, what Spinoza denies, a teleological connection, inasmuch as the ultimate ground of the inseparability of both series is sought in the unity of the divine consciousness. But about the fundamental being that lies behind those two series no question can be asked if one does not want to go behind the phenomenon, out into the transcendent. —

By Fechner's own statement, a study of modern philosophy did indeed reach deep into the course of his development, but it also led him, as we have seen, into a peculiar opposition to it. Starting from empirical science and animated by a childlike joy in all that is good and beautiful in the world, he could only be satisfied by a world-view that did extend and heighten the life of phenomena (into which he immersed himself so

sympathetically that he could even feel the pulse of mental life where all others denied it) but did not explain it by pointing back to a dark background from which it was to spring. This immediate devotion to the phenomenal is what gives his view its attractive freshness; but it is also what, philosophically speaking, is the essential charge against it. The deeper grounding comes to be lacking. He shuns it, regarding it as a darkness that obscures the clear light. And yet a real grounding itself brings with it a higher, ideal clarity, by which thought feels itself purified and set free, even if for immediate intuition nothing seems to have been gained. Here Steno's words hold: pulchra sunt qvæ videntur, pulchriora qvæ sciuntur. This ideal grounding philosophy seeks partly in metaphysics, partly in the theory of knowledge; such a clarification of the fundamental concepts and the fundamental laws of spirit is necessary in order that what is gained through experience and occupation with phenomena may acquire philosophical significance. Fechner demands that immediate intuition be fully satisfied also in the domain of the *[266]* development of concepts, which is a flat contradiction, since abstraction here precisely goes out beyond what is immediately intuitable. Philosophical thinking is, as Plato already taught, a dying away from outer life in order to win the Idea; but this dying away is what Fechner fears. Immediate devotion to the phenomenal leads him, since he skips those philosophical preliminary investigations, to a fantastic religion of nature, which in many of its features is of high poetic beauty and is developed with amiable naivety, and which is at the same time grounded in its own way with a logical acuteness that makes it harder to refute than it seems at first glance. Opponents of the hypothesis of the plant soul would thus do well to read Fechner's argument in the work "Ueber die Seelenfrage." But on the one hand Fechner thereby comes to lay too great weight on something that in the last instance is not decisive, and on the other he is also led into a kind of scholasticism, inasmuch as with an apparatus of the understanding made up of inferences by analogy and induction he wants to prove something that in the end nevertheless rests on a sympathetic satisfaction of the imagination.

The more Fechner seeks to lead everything back to consciousness as the ultimate point of support, from which all experience also proceeds, the nearer, it seems, must it also lie to him to sink himself into the essence of consciousness and to seek its fundamental laws and its significance in theoretical and practical respects. The lack of such an analysis shows itself in the opposition that in Fechner always remains between spirit and the phenomena. He conceives spirit (synechologically) as that which comprehends and binds together the phenomena; as their highest unity, spirit is the ultimate ground of everything. But the phenomena stand unexplained by the essence of spirit; they bob up in

[267] it as scattered points whose origin is not investigated. Therefore Fechner comes to waver between an immediate identity and an equally immediate dualism: everything is one substance — but this can be seen from two entirely different standpoints. In particular, atomic theory, by which Fechner has earned so much and so generally recognized merit for the philosophy of nature, stands in an entirely accidental relation to his other views. The atoms are to be only the fixed points for intuition in the domain of exact experience. But this is as yet no metaphysical explanation; these fixed points, as long as they stand unresolved, become dark points, which stand out all the more strongly in the sea of light in which Fechner revels. His antipathy to the monadological view and his whole pantheistic tendency have prevented him from himself making his atomic theory philosophically fruitful. In Lotze and Hartmann we shall find attempts in this direction.

Fechner wants to avoid the "transcendent" philosophy's search for the dark "thing in and for itself" behind the phenomenon. And yet this "Ding an sich" haunts his own view, especially in the hint of a fundamental being to which the double (psychical and physical) series of phenomena points back. On his way of considering things, spirit, the highest unity and connection, would indeed have to be also that which is in and for itself. But because of the lack of metaphysical clarification, there emerges ever anew for his thought, which is immediately governed by intuition, the possibility that there could, after all, lie something behind consciousness and phenomena. Hence his constantly repeated polemic against modern philosophy, a polemic which thus at bottom applies to his own view, not yet penetrated by thought.

Yet Fechner himself indicates the point where the properly philosophical foundation that we miss in him would have to have its place. He states (Atomenlehre. 2te Ausg. p.
[268] 149) that when one, by way of analogy and induction, goes out beyond experience to find the conclusion that thought seeks, the very conditions for winning something ultimate and highest determine the form of the concepts found, while experience must lead to determining their content. What he here calls "the condition for finding something ultimate and highest" are the determinations of essence without which the Absolute would not be absolute (cf. Weisse). Without a prior investigation of these determinations of essence it is impossible to apply analogy and induction in the domain of philosophy; for otherwise one would, as is implied in Fechner's own words, be unable to know whether it really was the Absolute, the ultimate and highest, that one arrived at. —

Fechner's positive and direct merit lies in his thorough and acute analysis of the limiting concepts between empirical science and philosophy (in particular in his atomic theory and psychophysics). But indirectly, too, his spirited and enthusiastic writings

have their great significance, by maintaining the value of the intuitive in opposition to abstract speculation and by opposing spiritualism and materialism. —

3. *Eduard von Hartmann* (b. 1842). — For Fechner everything was soul and consciousness; an eternal clarity and harmony shone for him through the whole of existence. In the author of "Philosophie des Unbewussten," a new work that has aroused an unusual amount of attention (the first edition appeared in 1869, the fourth in 1872), we seem, then, to have a complete antipode to Fechner. For Hartmann makes, as already the title of his work indicates, the Unconscious the principle of his world-view. And yet the two have not a few important points of contact. Not only do both lay experience and induction at the basis of speculation and find in the fundamental psychological determinations the key to the understanding of the essence of existence; but precisely by both conceiving their apparently quite opposite principles (consciousness — the Unconscious) in an extreme *[269]* and abstract way, they meet in the end at the same nodal point.

Fechner came upon the Unconscious in his psychophysical investigations, showing that when the impression did not exceed a certain limit, the sensation did not come to consciousness. But such an unconscious sensation is not what Hartmann means when he philosophizes about the Unconscious. An unconscious sensation in Fechner's sense is in his opinion no real sensation, is something purely negative. On the other hand, the Unconscious is for him something positive, a real representation, that is to say: an ideal content, and a real will, that is to say: a striving to convert this ideal content into reality. — The motive for setting up the Unconscious (the unity of unconscious representation and unconscious will) as principle Hartmann has found in earlier philosophy. This was essentially a working through of consciousness and its content. This vineyard is now so thoroughly worked that the time has come to dig down into the underground world to find the treasures it conceals. Many riddles that previously remained unsolved will then perhaps be seen in a clearer light. Already the earlier philosophers have on many points prepared the development of the concept of the Unconscious. First and foremost Leibnitz, who expressly distinguished between unconscious and conscious representation (perception and apperception), maintained that the soul could well think without being conscious of it, and showed the significance of unconscious representations for knowledge and action. Kant showed more closely how the human spirit applies the forms of thought (the categories) long before it becomes conscious that it is on them that all experience and knowledge rest. Fichte lets the universe proceed from the unconscious producing of the subject, which precedes every conscious reflection, and Schelling makes this producing an activity of the Absolute, "the eternally Unconscious, the eternal sun

[270] in the realm of spirits, which hides itself in its own undarkened light." Hegel's logical Idea, whose life pulses in everything, is the unconscious thought that appears only in the finite subject under the form of consciousness. It has its counterpart in Schopenhauer's unconscious will, which for him is the only metaphysical principle, while representation and thought are only vanishing phenomena of the brain. — But not only philosophers, natural scientists too have been led by their investigations to emphasize the concept of the Unconscious. Thus the physiologist Carus declares that the key to knowledge of the essence of conscious mental life lies in the region of the Unconscious. And the famous Helmholtz has found, as an essential factor in sense observation, an unconscious logical inference, which in its essence is akin to the conscious inference, insofar as the latter too takes place in an immediate and spontaneous way.

Now when this principle, which thus seems to be pressing forward, is to be developed and justified, this can only be done by a union of the inductive-empirical and the deductive-speculative method. The former would in and of itself give a good foundation, but does not reach the ultimate principles; the latter starts from the principles, but does not reach factual reality. Therefore one must start from experience and show how, by being interpreted rightly, it meets speculation. Hartmann therefore makes his motto: speculative results according to the inductive-scientific method.

First it must be emphasized that the Unconscious is the unity of representation and will. Hegel and Herbart maintain only representation (thought, the Idea) and regard will only as the mutual tension of representations or of the moments of the Idea. On the other hand Schopenhauer maintains will as the only real and regards representation as illusion. But without representation there is no will; for every willing must will something, have a
[271] content, and this content can only be given as representation. Conversely, representation needs will in order to be real. Will is the very transition from possibility to reality, in itself an empty form that finds its filling in representation, which for its part is entirely indifferent, a mundus intelligibilis, which only through will is carried over into real existence. This real existence is what empirical science establishes.

In general one takes will in a narrower sense, of conscious self-determination. But whether self-determination becomes conscious or not is a circumstance that does not concern the essence of will as such, but depends only on whether it passes through the brain or not. From the lower nerve centers too (spinal cord and ganglia) real manifestations of will can proceed, which are unconscious insofar as they are not apprehended by the central organ (the brain) on which the consciousness of the whole individual rests. The activities of the lower nerve centers are more than mere reflex actions. Experience

establishes the presence of a real affect and of a sustained consistency, which show us out beyond the purely mechanical sphere. Thus, e.g., the two halves of an Australian species of ant fight each other with fury; and the headless frog shows clear traces of calculation and fear. Comparative anatomy, moreover, leads us to regard the brain as a collection of ganglia that are connected by nerve fibers, and thus in its essential constitution is of a kind with the spinal cord and the ganglionic system. Indeed, even in entirely nerveless animals like the polyps there appear clear traces of affect and will. If, then, in the higher animals we have both lower and higher nerve centers, there is nothing to prevent something from being conscious in a lower center without being so in the higher one, which conditions the consciousness of the whole individual, and it thus proves necessary to extend the concept of will out beyond the domain of conscious life.

But by this we have so far reached only the relatively unconscious. That there is *[272]* an absolutely unconscious will is seen, on the other hand, when one investigates how voluntary movement takes place. For the conscious will to lead to real movement, an impulse must occur at a certain point in the brain; but which point this is, consciousness itself does not know. The only possible connection is this, that the conscious will, e.g. to move the finger, calls forth an unconscious will to move the nerve ending in the brain that brings about the movements of the finger; and this unconscious will then in turn presupposes an unconscious representation of the location of that nerve ending. Since this representation and this will, which form the necessary intermediate links between the conscious will and the organic movement, do not come to consciousness in the brain, where the process takes place, they cannot come to consciousness in other centers either, and are thus absolutely unconscious.

In instinct, too, an unconscious will manifests itself. Instinct cannot be a consequence of bodily organization; for it can be different with the same organization, and conversely. Just as little does it rest on a brain mechanism or mental mechanism implanted once for all; for then the means could not vary while the purpose remains the same. Nor can instinctive actions proceed from conscious deliberation; not only do they occur in the lowest animals, but they are performed with immediate certainty and presuppose knowledge of the future and in general of things the animal cannot know, a kind of clairvoyance. Thus, e.g., the male larvae of certain insects, at pupation, form for themselves a cavity that is twice as large as they themselves, so that there may be room for the long antennae of the developed insect. Instinct can only be conceived as a determinate willing of a means to an end unconsciously willed. Only on this conception do we understand how

instinct can be so inwardly one with the whole essence of the individual. This is seen
[273] especially in the drive to self-preservation and to the propagation of the species. When one tears the larva's web apart, it repairs it again and keeps on doing so until it dies of exhaustion. A bird which was constantly robbed of an egg went on mating and laying a new egg until it was finally (at the 29th) found dead in the nest. Such an absolute self-sacrifice is intelligible only when a universal power drives the individual to summon all its intellectual and physical forces in order to serve it. But of this purpose itself the individual does not become conscious as long as it is governed by instinct; otherwise its egoism would set itself up against the rule of the universal.

Reflex movements are the instinctive actions of the subordinate nerve centers. Likewise the natural healing power and organic new formation can also be led back to an unconscious activity. There can only be a difference of degree between the cause of the bird's repairing its destroyed nest, or the spider its torn web, and the cause of the snail's house and the bird's plumage being renewed again after an injury. We have in all these phenomena only means to an end that is unconsciously represented and willed, and the difference between them rests only on this, that the different kinds of outer impulses call forth different kinds of reactions.

Instinct proves its power in the human spirit, too. So in the fear of death, in shame, in sympathy, in the sexual drive, etc. A feeling in itself conscious can be grounded in an unconscious will and be accompanied by unconscious representations; on this rests what is unclear and inexpressible in the essence of feelings. Indeed, the very representations that call forth the feeling of pleasure or displeasure can be unconscious to us, inasmuch as they come to consciousness only in lower nerve centers, where they awaken a feeling that is conducted to the brain without the effecting cause reaching it. This shows itself
[274] clearly in hypochondria and similar states. In general, in our acting we know only the conscious motive, but not the way in which the will reacts against the motive and thereby passes over into real willing. Hence it comes that we can learn to know our own character only through practical experience, and are often surprised by the insights we thereby gain into our own essence. The workshop of the will lies in hiding, and only indirectly does our gaze reach down there. When one supposes that one is immediately conscious of the will, one confuses it either with its motive or its consequence (the action) or with the feelings that accompany it. Through this absolutely unconscious character of the will proper it becomes intelligible how thinkers like Spinoza, Hegel and Herbart have been able to dissolve its essence into thought and representation, while on the other hand the most dilettantish of the modern philosophers, Schopenhauer, like

ordinary common sense, believed himself to be immediately conscious of the will.

In sense observation an unconscious psychical process takes place, which leads to the intuition of the object as an outer one; without such a process we would not get out beyond subjective sensation, since this in itself contains no ground for going out beyond the sphere of the subject. It is this process that, when the subject becomes philosophically conscious of itself, proves to rest on a relation of causality between it and the object. The Unconscious likewise works in the association of ideas, inasmuch as, in reaction against the conscious interest, it lets precisely that representation emerge which is needed, but which consciousness by express searching would perhaps precisely prevent itself from finding. Everything truly a priori is posited by the Unconscious and is an object for consciousness only as a result; for in reflecting on the content it finds, consciousness knows a posteriori the unconsciously active a priori. All mysticism consists in the filling *[275]* of consciousness with a content through this content's emerging involuntarily out of the Unconscious.

We further meet the working of the Unconscious wherever a plurality works together toward a common goal, in one and the same direction, and where both conscious agreement and immediate mechanism are impossible. So in the formation of language, which is thinkable only on the presupposition of a mass instinct of the kind we meet in a swarm of bees, an ant state or a termite state. So in history, where individuals through their conscious, finite purposes unconsciously work in the service of the whole great purpose of the world. I unconsciously will something quite other than what my consciousness believes it exclusively wills. What is fate or providence other than the rule of the Unconscious, of historical instinct, in the actions of men, as long as their conscious understanding is not mature enough to make the purposes of history its own?

The result, then, is that it is the Unconscious that forms and sustains the organism, guides its movements in a purposive way and forms the intermediate link between it and the conscious will. In instinct it gives every being what it needs for self-preservation and for which conscious thinking is not sufficient. Thus it gives man instinct for the understanding of sensuous sensation, for the formation of language and state, etc. It sustains the species by the drive to propagation and maternal love, ennobles them by sexual and qualitative selection, and through historical development leads the human race forward toward the highest perfection.

But so far we have occupied ourselves only with organic and spiritual phenomena. Here we cannot remain standing. Modern natural science teaches us (cf. Fechner) to conceive matter as a system of atomic forces. No single atom can have mass, any more

[276] than one can speak of the numerical magnitude of a unit. If, then, we keep to atomic force as the ultimate element to which the analysis of the real leads us, it is clear that in the striving of atomic force there can be found determinate connection and consistency only if the content and goal of this striving are given beforehand in an ideal way as a logical necessity, from which the outer factual necessity in the working of atomic force under the different circumstances springs. What, then, is the striving of atomic force other than a will whose content is the unconscious representation of what is striven for? The concept of force thus passes of necessity over into the concept of will. Force in its usual meaning (of the elementary forces) first becomes intelligible through will. Thus matter is dissolved into representation and will, and the radical opposition between spirit and matter is sublated. The difference between them rests only on a higher or lower form of the revelation of the same being, the eternally Unconscious. Matter, organic formation or instinct, and consciousness are three different forms of activity of the Unconscious, which makes up the world's innermost essence.

The problem then presents itself how the origin of consciousness from the Unconscious is possible. In the Unconscious, representation and will are one; nothing is willed without being represented, nothing represented without being willed. Consciousness, on the other hand, contains the possibility of the emancipation of thought from will. Unconscious mental activity is the original one; only in and through normal brain function does it become consciousness. The material influence on the unconscious spirit determines the content of representation; but this relation can in itself also be thought of as unconscious. The form of consciousness arises through the will's opposition to the representation produced by the organic function. Without opposition, no consciousness. But consciousness does not necessarily belong to the essence of representation; it is only a special form of it.

[277] The rise of consciousness is the culmination of the activity of the Unconscious. But this activity is everywhere the same; the Unconscious reacts against the material conditions and effects, and these different reactions denote the different stages in the development of the forms of existence. The Unconscious seizes life wherever it can seize it. Thus in generation it acts on the organic germ and thereby develops mental life as by a kind of process of crystallization. In analogy with this the primal generation, the origin of organic life, must also be thought: when all conditions were present, the first organic cell was the necessary and lawful reaction of the Unconscious. This factor Darwin overlooks in his brilliant theory, which keeps solely to the conditions, but must always presuppose the inner producing force. This is acknowledged by men like Wallace

and Nägeli. In particular, Darwin confuses varying with transition into a higher order. If qualitative selection really had the enormous significance Darwin attributes to it, all higher species would have to have greater vital force than the lower; but this is far from the case. Moreover, the struggle for life explains the physiological, but not the morphological changes. Qualitative selection thus indicates one of the mechanical means the Unconscious uses, but not the sufficient explanation of all the forms toward which it works its way.

Everything existing is individual. We have already found in the atom the absolute single being. The living organism is a world of individuals. For within the organic individual we meet, as relative individuals, first the cells, then the various organic systems and the subordinate nerve centers. Out beyond these rises, then, the general consciousness of the individual. The higher individual always has the lower as its presupposition. The concept of individuality is therefore relative. This has already been seen by minds like Spinoza, Leibnitz and Goethe, and it is confirmed in full measure by *[278]* modern natural science. — Finally everything is absorbed in the absolute, all-embracing individual, the Unconscious. Knowledge of this all-unity of the Unconscious one gains only by freeing oneself from the practical instinct that holds fast to the I and comes to a point in pure self-consciousness, and by rising to the conviction that consciousness does not belong to the essence, but only to the phenomenon: "Was an mir *Wesen* ist, bin ich nicht." The philosophy of the Unconscious indicates the true reconciliation of monism and individualism by referring the former to the metaphysical, the latter to the physical-real domain. Plurality has only phenomenal, not metaphysical significance. Space and time are indeed not, as Schopenhauer thought, mere forms of the subjective intuition of the brain; they are just as much forms of outer reality. But they hold only for the activity of the Unconscious, not for its essence in and for itself. The activity, not the essence, is in space and time.

Since the unconscious functions are sufficient for the explanation of the phenomena, it is a pure hypothesis that the Absolute should become conscious of them, while we do not. Of the Absolute's representing we can form no representation. Against that hypothesis stands the fact that consciousness, as far as we know it, arises only in and through brain and ganglia. Moreover, the Absolute's thinking is timeless, raised above all succession; it thinks everything in one and at once, is absolutely immersed in intuition, and therefore cannot turn reflectively against itself. Yet the really decisive reason against theism lies in the reality of evil, which on the presupposition of theism becomes entirely inexplicable. Pessimism is decidedly right in this, that this world cannot be a work of a

conscious thought, but can only have sprung from a blind will.

Yet this is not to say that the Unconscious is in itself blind. On the contrary, its
[279] wisdom surpasses all possible consciousness (in this respect it is rather to be called superconscious than unconscious), and it is this wisdom that determines the content of creation and of the world-process. The philosophy of the Unconscious is therefore in principle in agreement with speculative theism, which ascribes to God a consciousness absolutely exalted above the limits of finite, individual consciousness; the Absolute is absolute individuality with will and representation. But it nevertheless prefers, for the reasons given, to designate the Absolute by the negative expression: the Unconscious. This would indeed have more right to the name "God" than Spinoza's substance; but God is an expression of specifically religious origin and should therefore be avoided as much as possible in philosophy. The negative expression has its drawbacks, to be sure, but it has a purifying effect, and when the anthropomorphic notions have once lost their power, it will surely already have been replaced by a positive one.

That which wills and represents is one substance. It is not a blind man carrying a lame one, but a sound and whole man, who admittedly cannot see with his legs or walk with his eyes. This substance is absolute spirit. But its original absolute rest has been sublated in a groundless way by the will, blind in itself, which has taken the initiative to leave potential being. Because of its necessary unity with representation (the Idea), it tears this along with it and carries it over into being. Only so, in a blind, accidental way, can the existence of the world be comprehended. For although Schopenhauer is not right in his absolute pessimism and could only in a sophistical way prove that this world is the worst possible, it is nevertheless certain that its existence is worse than its non-being. Even if a perfect contentment were possible, life would only be worth as much as non-being; but there is no real contentment. What one extols as goods are only
[280] privative goods, that is to say, one misses them when one does not possess them, but their possession procures no positive pleasure. Therefore humanity discovered also, at the close of the ancient world, that it was an illusion to expect happiness here in the world. Even for the most favorably placed, pain outweighs enjoyment. But from the first stage of illusion one passed over to the second, renouncing, with Christianity, all happiness in this world in order to find it again in superabundant measure in a future, supernatural life. The power of this illusion was broken by a new return to earthly life and a new confidence in its validity. But, taught by experience, one no longer expects an immediate enjoyment of happiness; one hopes for a positive state of bliss for humanity some time in the future and strains all one's forces to pave the way for it. This is the

third and last stage of illusion, in which humanity will perhaps still remain for long ages. That this stage too is under the power of illusion is seen from the fact that the greatest possible progress can, after all, procure only increased means and conditions, without a positive happiness thereby becoming more possible than it has always been. Indeed, the pessimistic consideration will precisely gain in force through this growing disproportion. But this is also the intention of the Unconscious with the whole historical process, and already with the rise of consciousness. The reality of the world dawned through the initiative of the blind will, which representation, because of its unity with it, was compelled to follow. If it now succeeds in emancipating representation from will, which is in itself alogical, but through the consequence of that initiative has become antilogical, then redemption will be possible. Consciousness already arises through a victory over the blind will, which comes into opposition with itself. And when the illusions fall, one after another, there comes finally the point where man makes the end of the Unconscious the end of his consciousness and devotes himself without regard to *[281]* its service for the sake of the redemption of the world. When this burning out of egoism, which goes hand in hand with the carrying through of pessimism, has penetrated so far that the greater part of all spiritual beings in the universe give themselves up to it, then actual willing is flung back again into the nothing from which it came, and the world-process ceases. The Unconscious is then what it has always been; it can learn nothing and remember nothing, and is, after the conclusion of the world-process, what it was before its beginning. —

It will be of interest to add to this outline of the fundamental thoughts of "the philosophy of the Unconscious" a brief indication of Hartmann's relation to the earlier thinker to whom he stands nearest in his whole world-view, namely Schopenhauer. He corrects the latter in his main thought by maintaining the necessary connection between will and representation. Schopenhauer regarded the essence of things as will, but considered representation only an accidental semblance. But when he takes so decisive a determination away from the concept of will, as we alone know it, he loses the right to extend it out beyond the psychological sphere. Such a warrant Hartmann, on the other hand, can establish, since he shows how the concept of representation too can be extended to hold for the essence of things. Thereby he also corrects Schopenhauer's conception of thought as a mere phenomenon of the brain; thought has not only psychological but also metaphysical significance. This in turn brings with it another conception of historical development. Schopenhauer regarded it as something accidental and meaningless, like the figures in the clouds or the frost flowers on the windowpane. Redemption from the

wretchedness of existence, which for him too is the ultimate purpose, every individual is to carry out by asceticism and the abolition of the will to life. Against this Hartmann
[282] objects that this individual liberation accomplishes no more than what would happen through the individual's natural death; only when the species as such is led, through historical development, to the abolition of the will to life is a real redemption attained, such as, according to Christianity too, the whole creation longs for and expects from those who have the firstfruits of the Spirit. — The pessimistic fundamental thought itself Hartmann has thus retained, and his developments in this direction bear the stamp of having been carried out at second hand

In other parts of his doctrine Hartmann agrees with Fechner and Lotze. So in his atomic theory and monadology. Lotze is recalled in particular by his doctrine of the atoms as monads and of their indwelling in the Absolute. With Fechner he has not only, as already indicated, a point of contact, insofar as the absolute consciousness that in Fechner is one and all is, in relation to finite consciousness, one with absolute unconsciousness. But he also has him as a predecessor in leading the concept of force back to that of will and yet setting himself in opposition to Schopenhauer (Fechner Atomenlehre, 2te Ausg. p. 132 — 135; cf. above p. 262). All the more remarkable, then, is it that he himself does not mention at all the relation of his view to these thinkers, whose writings (Fechner's atomic theory and the 1st part of Lotze's Mikrokosmus) were available 13 years before Hartmann's book appeared.

What is attractive in Hartmann's work rests especially on the clear and ingenious use of the material of natural science. Only imperfectly have we in our presentation been able to indicate the wealth of special analyses on which he grounds his metaphysical principles. His philosophical talent evidently lies in the domain of the philosophy of nature, whereas in psychological subtlety he cannot measure himself with Schopenhauer, and in metaphysics ends in a fabulous doctrine of potencies that recalls Schelling's. The very principle he wants to assert, and after which he has named his work, evidently has
[283] its great warrant, which he himself has indicated by showing how it emerges at once in philosophy and in natural science. But partly through the overvaluation to which a new principle is always exposed, partly through after-effects from Schopenhauer, there are in his application of this principle decisive shortcomings, which criticism must point out.

Hartmann himself seems to forget his critique of Schopenhauer. At the really decisive point in his world-view, the problem of evil, in whose treatment he, as we have seen, essentially follows Schopenhauer, he also retains the latter's opposition between will and representation. Like Schopenhauer, he finds the principle of the world's development in a

blind and groundless will to life, which by taking the initiative has dragged representation along into the movement. Here, then, the presupposition lies at the basis that the will isolated from representation is self-subsistent and can move without impulse from representation. But this conflicts both with Hartmann's own doctrine and with the psychological observation that every drive is determined by a representation, however dim or unconscious this may be. On closer inspection even that "groundless" will also presupposes a representation as its motive; for it wills itself, is, in Hartmann's expression, "velle volens," and thus has its own essence as its unconscious content. If this germ of thought is developed, the absurdity will vanish that blind chance should be the principle of reality, and the darkness will be dispelled into which the obstinate pessimism lets the origin of everything go back. We do not, then, conclude with Schopenhauer and Hartmann that, because of the reality and overwhelming power of evil and of pain, thought cannot be the ultimate principle of everything; but we conclude that, since thought is necessarily the original, the ultimate presupposition, evil can only be a metaphysical necessity (cf. Weisse and Fechner), on the foundation of which the *[284]* development of life goes forward toward its goal.

We have seen that Hartmann does not conceive the Unconscious purely negatively, but declares himself in agreement in principle with speculative theism, which maintains the consciousness of the Godhead, provided only that one conceives this consciousness as entirely raised above the limits of the finite I. But this declaration (which, incidentally, is first found in the work's third edition) does not seem to agree with the fact that the Unconscious nevertheless stands in a purely negative relation to the life of nature and of history. This life has significance only insofar as through it the Unconscious frees itself from itself. When the development is completed, it has gained nothing. It thereby also comes into a negative relation to consciousness and stands lower than it, instead of being the "superconscious" that reaches out beyond consciousness and personality and takes them up into itself according to the inner kernel of their essence. For at the culmination of its development conscious life possesses a wealth and a fullness that stand in glaring opposition to the pure nothing that the Unconscious in the last instance is and wills. Hartmann has in his conception of the Absolute as the Unconscious not shown dialectical caution enough[*)]. There remains always a sharp opposition between essence

[*)] Cf., by contrast, an author with whose doctrine Hartmann's has much in common, K. G. *Carus*: Psyche. (Pforzheim 1837). p. 402: "The highest divine consciousness, the consciousness of God's spirit in and for itself, is to be thought by us only as something so immeasurable, infinite and all-embracing that for so entirely conditioned a consciousness, bound to finitude, as the human, it will always in the end coincide completely with the very mystery of the Unconscious; but conversely, precisely for that reason, what we have called the divinity of the Unconscious lies only in the immeasurability and incomprehensibility of

[285] and activity, essence and consciousness. Activity is to belong only to the phenomenon; but since the forms of the phenomenon do not concern the essence at all, the latter remains entirely untouched by its own activity. Thus consciousness, which is conceived as mere form, does not concern the real kernel either: "was an mir Wesen ist, bin ich nicht." — We end here in a dualism that through Schopenhauer points us back to Kant and his distinction between the phenomenon and the thing in and for itself.

It is therefore no wonder that Hartmann's attempt to explain the origin of consciousness fails. Through the figurative expressions, which here are certainly unavoidable ("the will's opposition to the organically produced representation"), what was precisely to be proved shines through as a presupposition. For what is one to think by the organically produced representation that calls forth the will's opposition, other than the first sensation that crosses the threshold of consciousness? Before it has crossed this threshold, it has, after all, no reason to awaken the will's counter-striving; and when it has crossed it, this counter-striving can indeed develop and potentiate it, but is unnecessary for producing it.

Conscious life has, according to Hartmann, only the significance of successively emancipating representation from the rule of will. Humanity is finally to end in the millennial kingdom of pessimism, which forms the transition to complete Nirvana. But if one seeks the ultimate cause of Hartmann's pessimism, it lies, as with Schopenhauer, in the separation between individual happiness and the ideal task. If happiness is absolutely to be found outside the task that is set the individual and the species, then the pessimistic consideration is surely right. But it separates what cannot and should not be separated. The warrant of the individual and of the species rests only on their peculiar purpose
[286] and task, through whose fulfillment their own essence is developed, and only in this very development can happiness and satisfaction be sought. What is worked out and developed along this way cannot, then, be meaningless and negative either; it must, however one may more precisely think of the matter, preserve its reality, because it preserves and develops the very essential in reality. The eudaemonological and the ethical stand in an inner connection, and the significance of pessimism lies in indirectly establishing the necessity of this unity. —

4. *Rudolph Hermann Lotze* (b. 1817). — Like Fechner, Lotze too passed from investigations in natural science to philosophical ones. But with him, too, these two directions of study do not stand in an external and accidental relation to each other; in him they join together still more inwardly than in Fechner. It was a lively interest in art and poetry

the highest divine consciousness." The content of this last sentence Hartmann has not allowed to come into its own; therefore his "Unconscious" is in reality not the Absolute either.

that first led him to philosophy. He felt himself drawn to the great circle of thought to which Fichte, Schelling and Hegel had opened the entrance, but he appropriated it more as a characteristic tendency in general culture than as a finished edifice of doctrine. A more definite influence on his views was exercised by Weisse, under whom he studied in Leipzig, and whom he still remembers in his latest writings with gratitude and piety. In his "Streitschriften" (1857), where he gives this information about the course of his development, he declares that he owes Weisse not merely many influences in general, but in particular such instruction concerning a narrower circle of thoughts that he has since had no reason to give it up. This "circle of thoughts" evidently concerns the general metaphysical and ethical fundamental view, the germs of which we can find in Weisse's doctrine, but in such a way that Lotze's clear and independent mind and his penetrating insight in natural science and the history of culture have developed and transformed these germs in a distinctive way. In particular, the study of medicine, which he had *[287]* first chosen as his life's work, early drew his attention to the necessary real connection without which even the highest and most glorious Idea is only an empty fancy. In these two extremes, the ideal and the system of factual conditions, his thought took its stand, in order to seek out from them the unity which speculation had believed it could seize all at once by a bold grasp. At the age of 22 he was able to appear as a lecturer in both the medical and the philosophical faculty (later he became professor of philosophy in Göttingen). His writings go in both directions. In the 1840s he published on the one side a Metaphysik and a Logik, on the other side a Pathologie and a Physiologie, besides some aesthetic treatises. His medical writings attracted great attention, in particular through his endeavor to seek, by an exact mechanical route, an explanation of the phenomena which had hitherto been derived in an obscure and mystical way from a so-called vital force. He tries to show that the organic functions differ from the inorganic only by the distinctive arrangement of the elementary forces, but not by a difference in principle in the essence of the acting forces. His penetrating acuteness let him see what was unprovable in much that had hitherto stood as settled, and many therefore regarded him as a skeptic. In philosophical respects these works acquired significance in particular because Lotze through them further developed his conviction of the necessity of assuming a multiplicity of elements in mechanical interaction as the real foundation of reality. The way in which he expressed this conviction led many to take him for a Herbartian; but in the polemical work just cited he derives it expressly from his studies in natural science. On the other hand he refers to Leibnitz as the philosophical model that stood nearest to *[288]* him with regard to the further way of regarding the nature of the real foundation. — Of

his general philosophical views he declares in the same place that they can most nearly be compared with the fundamental conviction of the elder Fichte, that only the Idea of the good and its content is the sufficient ground of all being and becoming, that the world of valuable purposes (die Welt der Werthe) contains the key to the world of forms. Only one must not, like Fichte, restrict what is valuable to what is strictly moral; the tranquil blessedness of the beautiful, the holiness of the restful and passionless mood, and the inner consistency of the true, with all the peace and harmony it calls forth, also belong to the ideal world. Nor must one suppose that one can demand or point out the various parts of nature piecemeal as the foundation of corresponding ideal moments; the Idea does not live thus from hand to mouth, but nature is like a great household that follows its own distinctive laws, independent of the particular purposes, and only as a totality shows itself bound to the Idea.

Since Lotze's physiological writings maintained the mechanical conception of nature, the materialists (who of course did not read his philosophical writings) claimed him for themselves. His "Medicinische Psychologie oder Physiologie der Seele" (1852) put an end to this. Here too, it is true, he does not go back to the ultimate presuppositions, but he nevertheless shows that the concept of matter is not a presupposition at which thought can stop, and that mechanism, however necessary its concept is for natural science, still acquires its significance only by being the form and foundation of an inner fullness of life. Finally Lotze's chief work "Mikrokosmus. Ideen zur Naturgeschichte und Geschichte der Menschheit. Versuch einer Anthropologie" (3 vols. 1856—1864) gives a
[289] survey of his whole world-view. When in a philosophical psychology he wished to set forth his doctrine of human life, it became clear to him that the deepest forces of our nature can be observed distinctly only where they appear in the great context of human development. Therefore the philosophy of history became the necessary completion of psychology; the consideration of individual life and of the cultural history of the human race unite in anthropology. Supported on this rich foundation, he then seeks at the end of the work to answer the decisive problems of the connection of things, of God and the world. — In his latest writing too, Geschichte der Aesthetik in Deutschland" (1868), there are many contributions to his world-view.

As an author Lotze occupies an eminent place. A clear and precise grasp of the facts is united in him with a poetic sympathy for the real and with an energetic conviction of the validity of the ideal. The exact, the poetic and the philosophical elements fuse in a distinctive way in his exposition. And in this his exposition is a faithful image of his view. The ideal is for him not the Idea developing itself in abstract forms, as in speculation, nor

the external mechanical connection, as in materialism; but those forms as well as this connection are only the outer shells of life's eternal kernel. And yet they have decisive significance. One cannot grasp the kernel immediately; the attempts to do so lead only to grasping the shells in place of the kernel.

"Truth," says Lotze at the end of his Metaphysik, "is not the first thing, but is conditioned by the fact that the realm of the good produces it as its necessary presupposition." Speculation overlooked this. For science easily takes its own domain, thinking knowledge, for the whole of spiritual life, or at any rate for its summit. But thought always presupposes a real content. The essence of thought is in itself a critique of the given. By the critical, comparative activity by which knowledge of the law arises, the human spirit *[290]* distinguishes itself from the lower forms of soul, but not by being absolutely absorbed in pure thought. The original spiritual facts, such as the sensation of colors and tones, the intuition of space, the feeling of pleasure and displeasure, and all aesthetic and ethical valuation of what is known, are not merely preliminary or failed attempts to think, but make up the matter which thought cannot itself produce, but only compare and work up. In both ancient and modern philosophy Lotze misses the recognition of this. The Greeks founded logic, a magnificent work that may well be placed beside modern natural science. But Greek thought was inclined to confuse the logical and the metaphysical, truths that hold and things that are. From mythology, moreover, thinking inherited the belief in symmetrical and rhythmical forms in the course of the world, and this belief was stronger than the conviction that there must after all be definite and necessary laws for the working together of the particular elements within the whole course of the world. Therefore the Greeks confused ideal interpretation and causal explanation, and the latter did not come into its own. Even in modern philosophy antiquity's overvaluation of the Logos is at work. Realism teaches us only what is, idealism only what ought to be; neither in the real nor in the ideal is that brought forward by which they are more than all reason. In the last instance the essence of every thing consists in the Idea it is to realize, and the true statement of a thing's concept can therefore be won only by a dialectical development of this Idea in its grounding by the highest Ideas. But one cannot go back to the first principles at every detail; they are too weighty to be applied immediately.

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There are, then, two main objections that Lotze raises against earlier philosophy. It has not laid due weight on the mechanical connection by which alone the realization of the Idea is possible, and it has not conceived the Idea in its whole fullness, as the absolute purpose, the highest good. The highest tendency of knowledge is teleological

and includes within itself a tendency to genetic explanation and a tendency to ideal interpretation, which often wrongly come forward in conflict with each other. — From Lotze's own youthful metaphysical work we shall here bring forward only one main thought, to which he constantly returns in his later investigations. — After having investigated the forms of being (ground, cause, purpose) he passes on to the doctrine of the phenomenon. The concept of the phenomenon demands not merely a being that underlies it, but also a being to which it appears. Not merely what goes on *between* beings, but also what goes on *within* them, is a true and real occurrence. That the reality of things consists in their revealing themselves in the phenomenon means, then, that they are for one another. Reality is not merely the external object; our apprehension of it also belongs to the real, just as sound first becomes real when the vibrations of the air, by acting on the auditory nerves, are transformed into sensations. The spiritual is not a superfluous addition, which at most would have the task of mirroring a reality fully finished in itself. The spiritual world is on the contrary the most essential constituent of the universe; the way in which reality is apprehended by the spirit is the most essential part of all that happens, without which the world would not be finished or complete. — So too Lotze says later in his history of aesthetics: "There is no beauty outside the feeling of the spirit that enjoys and admires it; but the connection of things is so ordered
[292] that it can awaken in the spirit forms of movement through which that enjoyment falls to its share. — That reality on the whole is disposed so as to make such a coincidence possible, — that the connection of the real world fits the receptivity of the spirit, — that the connections of things occur and can occur in forms whose impressions awaken the functions of the soul to harmonious activity, — this, that the world and the spirit are thus for each other, is the great fact that we enjoy in the feeling of beauty." — This harmony between the forms of existence has its ultimate ground in the highest purpose, and therefore metaphysics too has its beginning not in itself but in ethics. —

Having described Lotze's general conception of the essence and significance of philosophical knowledge, we shall now with him immerse ourselves in "Mikrokosmus"; yet in such a way that besides the work of this name we also use the more extensive investigations in "Medicinische Psychologie". Through the problems of the philosophy of nature, of psychology and of history he will then at last lead us to the concluding metaphysical and ethical-religious view.

The original conception of nature saw all its phenomena animated by divine beings, from which all life and all activity sprang. But even after this childlike way of regarding things had been replaced by the scientific search for the causes of things, its traces were

preserved in the notion of plastically acting drives as the ground of life in nature. It was in particular the organic phenomena to which this idealistic conception attached itself. One did not properly account to oneself for what use such an unconsciously acting drive was to be. For it would contain the explanation of the purposiveness in the organic only if it acted in accordance with a reason that weighed the circumstances; but this is precisely excluded by its being conceived as unconscious[*)]. Science cannot seek the explanation of *[293]* organic life anywhere else than in such law-governed activity as we meet throughout nature. The vivifying power in which speculative philosophy of nature believed is then here dissolved into a multitude of elementary forces. The mechanical conception of nature now becomes dominant. Its fundamental thought is that the capacity to produce a definite effect is never contained, full and finished, in a single atom or in the nature of a single body, but that, just as the necessity of an activity in general follows only from the mutual relation between several elements, so too each element's mode of action and the magnitude of its influence depend on the nature of the other elements. The living is distinguished from the lifeless not by a higher, peculiar force by which it would be withdrawn from the general law of mechanical connection. But the inner arrangement of the living has such a form that the natural forces of the elements, under the influence of the external conditions, must develop a coherent series of effects according to the same general laws by which elsewhere, too, one state everywhere tends to follow upon another. Thus the body is no longer a garment which the soul weaves for itself, but a mechanical system of external conditions for the life of the soul, — the piece of the surrounding world that stands nearest to the soul.

This mechanical conception often gains such power over thought that thought cannot free itself from it in domains where its validity is no longer absolute. In regarding nature we grow accustomed to such a degree to the mediate effects, which we explain by *[294]* the composition of particular contributions, grow accustomed to tracing significant differences back to insignificant changes in the magnitude and mode of connection of homogeneous elements, that in the end we lose the understanding of everything immediate and involuntarily presuppose an intricate machinery for the origin and existence of everything. All our knowledge then seems to be a cognitio circa rem, a knowledge of the conditions under which a phenomenon comes before us and is altered in its interaction with other phenomena. And yet at certain points we also possess a cognitio rei, a knowledge of the object's own essential nature. Such a knowledge is

[*)] This remark would not, as it might perhaps seem, strike Hartmann, since his use of "the Unconscious", at least in principle, has precisely the mechanical connection as its presupposition. On the other hand it does strike such theories as the younger Fichte's.

possible where we can not merely observe an object in its external relations, but have it with such immediate intuitiveness that we can, both in feeling and in representation, make ourselves one with it, put ourselves into its state and sense how such an existence feels in accordance with its distinctive essence. Such a positive and immediate intuition we possess only of what is living and active; only this do we understand and penetrate. Matter as such is a dark kernel for us.

The fact that we can become conscious of ourselves presupposes such a unity in our being that it becomes necessary to assume a distinctive mental principle, which enters into interaction with the bodily mechanism. Otherwise one would end in the obscure and self-contradictory assumption of an activity without any acting principle. But the soul is not active without the influence and cooperation of bodily functions. In this interaction between soul and body there lies no greater riddle than in any other causal relation whatever. Only one is often inclined to conceive the principle of causality one-sidedly, dwelling solely on the dependence of the effect on the cause. The proposition can also be stated in the form that every cause has its effect, which means that every element of
[295] reality intervenes in its own distinctive way in the whole connection, in accordance with the laws holding in it. Our knowledge of nature determines nothing about the inner bond between the acting elements. With such a cognitio circa rem the standpoint is properly occasionalistic: we seek only occasions and conditions. This standpoint we must also hold fast when we wish to set forth the first fundamental features of psychology and to investigate the relation between soul and body. Only when these fundamental features have been won shall we be able to change our standpoint and overcome the opposition that has shown itself to us between external mechanism and inner life, between cognitio circa rem and cognitio rei.

We first characterize the essence of the soul more closely, in order then to see it in its relation to the body. — The unity of the spirit manifests itself in this, that it not merely collects and comprehends its various states into an inner whole, but also, by a critical and comparative activity, strives to interpret the particular and assign it its definite place within this whole, which thereby becomes an ideal world. In this world the spirit then finds a reflection of its own unity. Even in purely sensuous apprehension this peculiarity shows itself. What we apprehend by the senses we take up not merely as an indifferent content, nor merely as that which causes pleasure or pain, but we ascribe to it a worth of its own, by which it fills its place in the significant connection of phenomena. Sense perception itself already rises above purely mechanical necessity and seeks to subordinate its activity to an order of life that is not immediately given in nature.

The unity that thus runs through mental life is not explained in the views that either, like materialism, derive the mental as a product of the bodily, or at any rate regard the unity of consciousness as the result of the interaction of bodily and mental forces. Insofar *[296]* as one here appeals to the analogy of the parallelogram of forces, it in fact points in the opposite direction. For the diagonal motion arises only when two forces act on one and the same point; it is then this point that moves along the diagonal. Here, therefore, a unity is expressly presupposed from which the new force can proceed. — But, it will be asked, where do we find this unity in the soul? we know it, after all, only as knowing, feeling, willing, etc. Lotze answers to this that the being of every thing consists in its distinctive content; outside or behind this content it has no being. If one were to demand information about what makes this content something that is, that would be to ask how being comes to be. Just as it is the essence of water to be liquid under some circumstances, vaporous or solid under others, so too it is the essence of the soul under certain conditions to appear as representing, under others as feeling, under others again as willing, and its distinctive unity does not suffer thereby.

Modern psychology has often believed that it must maintain the unity of the soul by tracing its various functions back to a single one. Thus Hegel regarded all spiritual phenomena as different, lower and higher forms of conceptual knowledge. Herbart saw the activity of the soul as representing; feeling and will were for him only results of special relations of opposition between representations. Lotze grants that representations are for the most part the points of attachment for the feelings, and that the drives in turn develop out of these. But it does not follow from this, he adds, that the representations are also the whole and full cause of the feelings and drives they call forth. In the representation itself there lies no ground for the distinctive function that appears in the feeling of pleasure and displeasure. The capacity to produce this must be sought in *[297]* the soul itself and comes into activity when the soul, through the course of the life of representation, is roused to express itself in this way. In the same way the utterance of the will is not produced by the feeling, but released on occasion of it by the soul itself. The three fundamental faculties are thus graded dispositions which mutually rouse one another to activity. Whereas in a merely mechanical unity the result of the interaction between two elements is completely determined by the general laws of the course of nature and the given circumstances, in spiritual life the nature of the soul enters in as an acting factor that helps to condition the result of the movement.

If the soul is such an original principle, then it follows of itself that, however thoroughly it is conditioned by the bodily organism, it nevertheless cannot be immediately

receptive to influences from it, but must constantly transform these in a distinctive way. The bodily influences do not bring the soul finished sensations or representations, but only signals, which it is to translate into its own language, just as conversely the inner states of the soul are not as such transferred into the bodily organs, but become the occasion for these to come into function. The will knows nothing of the means by which the arm is set in motion, and as regards sensation, modern science has clearly demonstrated the dissimilarity between it and the external influence. This holds also with regard to our apprehension of things as each occupying its own place in space. How does this intuition of space arise? One thing is the external extension of objects, another our inner image of this extension. This inner image is not itself extended. We reproduce in an ideal way the spatial relation in our intuition; the extensive is converted into an intensive. The impressions received spread out in the soul into a world of space, not
[298] because there is a real spatial relation within consciousness, but because in the mental movements called forth by the impressions relations are preserved that correspond to the relations between the external objects. Every influence acquires, on account of the point in the nervous system where it takes place, a distinctive coloring, a characteristic secondary determination, which can be called its local sign, because it is this that leads the soul to refer the object from which the impression derives to a certain place in space. The local signs cannot be of a passive nature, but must be thought of as a kind of reflex movement; at the same time they must, in order that a clear, geometrical representation of space may become possible, make up a system. But the local signs do not produce the intuition of space itself; they serve only to specify it. They lead the soul, which in accordance with its own nature strives to unfold its intensive content in space, to apply its representation of space in accordance with the nature and mutual relations of the objects. Originally unconscious and mechanical, spatial localization can be developed to higher degrees by practice. — This doctrine of Lotze's concerning the local signs, which springs in a natural way from his fundamental psychological view, has won much recognition, among natural scientists too (e.g. Helmholtz).

Two questions still remain; the one concerns the seat of the soul, the other the organs of mental life. — As regards the first, Lotze starts from the proposition that every thing is where it acts. The seat of the soul must be sought in the brain, which is the part of the body with which it stands in immediate connection. Many, it is true, speak of the omnipresence of the soul; but they cannot then explain of what use the nervous system is. A conscious sensation first comes about when the impression is conducted from the sense organ to the brain. An immaterial substance which lacks all extension cannot, it is

true, fill any space; but nothing prevents its having a definite place in space, from which it acts as from a center of force, and to which all influences stemming from external *[299]* nature must propagate themselves in order to exist for it at all. — The notion of an organ of the soul Lotze considers thoughtless. The ground of the distinctive quality of representation, feeling and drive must be sought in the soul's own nature, and no bodily activity is able to impart it, although such activity is the necessary condition for the actual occurrence of those spiritual movements. The bodily organs work in the service of the higher activities of the spirit by delivering and preparing the material on which the soul is to exercise its powers; but in this too consists their whole significance. The significance of reflex movements for the intuition of space and for movement compels us to assume central organs for spatial intuition and for the regulation of movements, whereas it is meaningless to assume central organs for the activity of the understanding, for moral and aesthetic feeling, etc., since these activities consist in an ideal relation between given elements, a relation which cannot itself be explained mechanically. The soul's dependence on the bodily does not, however, become any less thereby. The inwardness and height its activity is to reach are conditioned by the sense organs and the central organs supplying it with impressions from without accurately and with sufficient intensity. The richer and nobler the means, the nobler the activity. The highest spiritual activity is like the flower of the plant; but no one will demand that the flower should have its own special root, different from the one that bears the whole plant.

If the methodical occasionalism with whose help this conception of the relation between soul and body has been won were to be a real theory, it would lead to a dualism between two worlds connected only by external, mechanical interaction, the mental and the bodily, each with its own distinctive laws. The task now is to get beyond this dualism by abolishing the methodological presuppositions that lay at the basis of what preceded. *[300]*

All mechanical connection presupposes a plurality of elements between which it takes place. Therefore the ultimate presupposition of modern physics is an infinite multitude of atoms which cannot be dissolved by the forces known to us. But metaphysical thinking cannot stop at this presupposition. It cannot, like physics, whose only task is to investigate the mechanism itself, stop at the concept of matter as a dark kernel that moves in a bright net of relations. The notion of a being that does not exist for itself is self-contradictory. Such a being would then exist only for the consciousness that apprehends it, and the one part of the world would thus be the blind and lifeless means for the other's end. Only to living beings does a real being belong; all other forms of existence must be explained from spiritual life. We must put a cognitio rei into each of

the elements which the cognitio circa rem compels us to assume. Each of the atoms[*)] which physics leads us to regard as in fact indissoluble must be thought of as consisting of essentially different primal constituents, between which there obtains such an elective
[301] affinity that it is not outbid by any other. With these primal constituents one can entirely disregard all spatial extension and regard them as supersensible beings which, from definite points in space, by their forces govern a certain measure of extension without in the proper sense filling it. Their mutual position is conditioned by their interaction, and a spatial figure would thereby be described just as surely and definitely as if they continuously filled its interior. To these particular points we must think of the attractive and repulsive forces as attached. In these centers, from which the forces are to spring, one must think of an inner life which in the last instance conditions the peculiarity of the force. We, who do not stand at the center of the world, cannot, it is true, know how the mechanical interaction of the forces is conditioned by the inner essence of the monads; but we are led with necessity to dissolve the concept of matter and see it as materiality, i.e. as the form of the revelation of a supersensible real. The life of matter is thus a double one, an outer and an inner. Extension divisible to infinity is only a semblance. Extension cannot be the predicate of a single being, but designates a relation between many beings which are not themselves extended. The indivisible singleness of each of these beings makes it possible to assume in them a gathering together of the external impressions in sensation and enjoyment. Only thereby does each single being become a participant in the purpose of the whole life of the world, which consists in the realization of goods that can be felt and enjoyed by the soul. We need not, with Leibnitz, ascribe to every monad a representation of its place in the world or a striving to develop its powers; but we nevertheless grant him that every single being is a mirror of the universe, inasmuch as it, as a distinctive center, takes up in its inner sensation what the whole connection of the world effects at this definite place. No part of what is is now without life and
[302] soul; only a part of what happens, namely the movements that put the state of the one being in connection with that of the other, winds like an external mechanism through the fullness of what is animated and brings it occasions and incitements to the changing unfolding of its inner life.

The dualism between soul and body has now vanished, not by making the soul, in

[*)] When Fechner's "Atomenlehre" appeared, Lotze could declare (Göttinger gelehrte Anzeiger 1855 p. 1093 ff.) that he had long held such a view as the one Fechner developed in the work named. What he misses in modern as well as in ancient atomic theory is a sufficient ground for the absolute fixity with which the atoms are nevertheless to keep their inner constitution under every conceivable interaction. This question he does not believe he can solve without assuming qualitatively different atoms, an assumption which the atomism of antiquity denied on account of its antinominalistic tendency, and which Fechner has rejected only out of an unwarranted love of simplicity.

materialist fashion, into a matter, but conversely by making matter into a substance akin to the mental. The soul is only the monad favored by its position, primus inter pares. The development of spiritual existence in a monadic element depends on the influence of favorable conditions, which present themselves in the form of bodily organization. Only the element that is placed at the most favorable point of such an organization receives all impressions so ordered, and can so act back on the body's receptive parts, that it can develop into a soul proper. The soul now stands in interaction not with matter as matter, but acts as a supersensible real first of all on the other supersensible reals, which in themselves are homogeneous with the soul but for us present the semblance of material existence, and in the same way the bodily acts back on the soul. There is thus an interaction between members of like kind. But the soul does not fuse with the atoms that lie at the basis of the bodily organization. The living being is a community of many single beings, which are governed by a common law grounded in their inner nature.

It was not specifically psychological but metaphysical motives that led us to this spiritualistic and monadological conception. But is not everything thereby dissolved into an infinity of single beings that stand in connection with one another only in an outward way? Instead of the dualism between soul and body there now seems to have come an unreconciled opposition between an infinite multitude of elements. In other words, the connection between the single beings still remains unexplained. We began with a dark *[303]* point in a bright net of relations; now we seem to have arrived at a multitude of bright points in a dark net. — Neither the single beings nor the mechanical connection is the Absolute. All single beings are only inner parts, particular determinations of content, of an infinite being. Just as the inner unity of our soul is mirrored in various forms of spiritual activity, which cannot be reduced to one another, but spring each by itself and yet in necessary connection with one another from the nature of the soul, so the infinite substance is related to the single beings. Only that is which has its place in the rational connection of the eternal Idea. Mechanical interaction is the form by which the infinite secures to every element its distinctive activity in relation to the others. Without the Absolute, mechanism would be inexplicable; only through it can the gulf be overcome that would eternally separate the particular independent elements from one another. Just as in the soul the mutual relations of the representations can call forth distinctive states of feeling only by acting back on the nature of the soul itself, so in the infinite substance every influence of a single element is at the same time an influence of the whole infinite, and only thereby is a corresponding effect in another element possible.

Thus the Idea of mechanism is demonstrated in the Absolute. What for speculative

idealism coincided with pure finitude and externality, and therefore in the last instance stood as a negative, a not-being, is seen here as the necessary condition for the development of the infinite. Whereas idealism set the Idea in opposition to mechanism, Lotze maintains that whether or not an Idea governs the thing, all being or becoming is possible only by virtue of mechanical causes. Whether the Idea's command is carried out can
[304] be known only through insight into the real connection of nature. The two tendencies in knowledge, causal explanation and ideal interpretation, can therefore subsist side by side. But causal or mechanical explanation, as we have seen, when subjected to a metaphysical critique, leads back to a multiplicity of spiritual elements as the centers of the forces. The identity of the ideal and the real which speculation maintained thus holds pointwise for the particular elements of the world. Each of these is ideal, because its essence consists in the distinctive significance it has as a special determination of content in the infinite; it is real, for reality is the form of existence by which something presents itself as an independent starting point for effects which it exerts or suffers. Spirit is then no longer, as for speculation, a hovering being of light, but is dissolved into an innumerable multitude of sharply bounded, radiant points. No single element proceeds from the absolute ground without there proceeding from it at the same time a definite multitude of others, which together with that one fill out reality so as to be the complete revelation of the Absolute. In the spiritual interior of the single beings the Absolute has the open place where, without the necessity of the mechanical course of the world being sublated, it can exercise its influence and call forth such manifestations of life by which a general progress becomes possible through the whole natural and historical development. This development is, since the single beings are the Absolute's determinations of content, one with the self-development of the Absolute through a series of world-ages. But this is a thought which human knowledge cannot carry through. Only because speculation regarded the earthly forms of existence as the absolute ones could it believe it had measured out the course of the infinite's life. This presupposition,
[305] that the creative primal ground reveals itself only on the narrow path of earthly nature, was bound to lead to such dialectical idylls as the speculative constructions.

Yet this is still not the most essential objection that must be raised against the speculative view of nature and history. It is not enough to find for each creature and each phenomenon an Idea whose realization they serve. The question cannot be dismissed of how much of this Idea's significant content is present in the being itself as a motive for its activity or an object of its enjoyment. Otherwise we learn only what a phenomenon is or means for us, but not what it is in itself. Thus in the consideration of history it

is not enough to enumerate the sequence of the Ideas which each by itself express the character and general tendency of an age; what matters is to know how each age itself and the individual in it felt, how much of the Idea which we regard at a distance really lived in men's hearts. The thoughts, feelings and actions of individuals have for the speculative conception worth and significance only insofar as they happen to agree with the particular moments of development of the universal Idea. The course of history becomes the great slaughter-bench on which all individual happiness, all individual life, is sacrificed so that the universal Idea of humanity can advance in its development. And yet it is a self-contradiction that there should be purposes whose content and realization did not become conscious to anyone. What is to be a good must have its existence in the living feeling of a spiritual being; everything that is only fact, thing, property, relation or event is only a means, not itself a good.

The speculative conception seeks, by classification, to demonstrate a graded series in nature from the less perfect to the more perfect. But there is no rational reason why the imperfect should go on subsisting beside the perfect. One could, on the other hand, conceive that the subordinate stage attains a distinctive completion which it would not reach *[306]* if it passed over as a member into higher organisms. Then the simultaneous subsistence of the less perfect and the more perfect would bring about a greater qualitative richness in existence. Many physical processes which we cannot sense perhaps meet receptive organs in lower animals. So in particular many chemical, electrical and meteorological processes. One must assume that everything that happens is also, at one point or another, sensed or made inward by a psychical substance.

The mental life in the particular material atoms is only the work of the moment. The elements of the course of nature become spiritual events in feeling, but no coherent whole is formed from them, and they are not preserved in any memory. This lawless activity of the psychical movements becomes in the plant a definite, unchangeable dream, a musical development without freedom and mobility. Only in the animals is organic fixity so combined with moving manifoldness that a mental life in the narrower sense can arise. The difference between man and animal does not consist in special forms or elements that are added in man. One cannot set up the human spirit as a being of its own in opposition to the animal soul; it would be just as impossible to fix a boundary between these two beings as to show how they could become one in man. What is distinctive of man, on the other hand, is that mental activity rises to such an intensity that, as comparing and combining, it can enter into a free relation to the impressions immediately received. The animal does indeed also sense a fixed connection between the

phenomena, but it does not apprehend the necessity of this connection; it suffers under the law, but does not become conscious of the law. This difference is not shaken by the
[307] possibility that one may perhaps be able to establish man's descent from extinct animal species; for this fact will decide nothing with regard to the estimation of the worth of the forms of existence now actually subsisting.

Knowledge of necessity is the characteristic mark of what is distinctively human. The presentiment of a necessary truth and connection which lies at the basis of all human thinking and acting can indeed lead astray through hasty conclusion, but in itself it is right, although it does not directly point out the means to reach the end it sets. The attempts to set forth coherently the sum of the necessary truths usually fail, because it is elements of different origin and validity that are to be united. Some truths hold abstractly, for all reality (the principles of identity and causality), others rest only on our experience (the notion of the indestructibility of matter), others again are grounded in the aesthetic and ethical ideals of our heart (the demand for a highest unity in existence).

The life of feeling plays a great role in the development of the higher Ideas of reason, where the question of worth and significance takes the place of the question of acting causes. That is why it is so difficult to convert these Ideas into general understanding. Science must be content when it succeeds in showing that the clear and irrefutable principles of the understanding are nothing other than the forms for the ideal reason's own end: the connection of reality into the unity of a living totality. — Further, only the intervention of feeling can explain the essence of self-consciousness. For when one generally contents oneself with determining self-consciousness as the unity of the thinking and the thought, this is a purely formal determination which does not explain the inwardness and the infinite worth that lie in this inner relation to oneself. Self-consciousness is to be apprehended only as the interpretation of a self-feeling
[308] whose original life is not immediately heightened by the development of our knowledge. The concept of worth is inseparably bound to the concept of feeling, which, far more distinctively than knowledge, designates the true nature of the spirit. Feeling is not, as is often supposed, unreceptive to qualitative differences which depend on the worth of that which calls forth the feeling. Of lesser worth is that which corresponds only to a momentary and accidental state or an individual peculiarity; of greater worth, what harmonizes with the general and normal fundamental features of the organization by whose help the spirit reaches its purpose; the highest would be what satisfies the constant mood of an ideal heart, in which every straying from the end of development is impossible. But beyond this one cannot go: the thought of an infinite worth which

does not establish its reality by calling forth pleasure contains a self-contradiction. The moral rigorism which, in its zeal to combat egoism, would exclude the feeling of pleasure from the motives of action was therefore unable to give anything but purely formal maxims; the obligating dignity of the moral law it was unable to explain. The ethical here points to the religious; moral obligations follow from the religious world-view: only where man sees himself as a fellow-worker in a supersensible world-order does he acquire positive purposes which benefit himself and lift him above his finite and sensuous being. The essence of the religious consists in the conscious recognition of the unconditional validity of the moral and the holy as against all that is or seems to be fact. In the positive religions the specifically religious does not appear pure; it is obscured by cosmological speculations, through whose fusion with that kernel religious faith can become an inhuman and fanatical power. In Christianity too this obscuring has entered. The fundamental thought of original Christianity, which must not be confused with the faith in historical facts that the Church demands, aimed precisely at raising *[309]* man above every given state and rooting out the worship of blind, factual being. But the Church's demand for faith in a sacred history stands in opposition to this, especially when this faith, through uncertain interpretation of uncertain writings, is shaped into a cosmological system which perhaps even (in the doctrine of the Trinity) seeks a support in the triad of fundamental concepts in which thinking knowledge ends, a triad which, as will appear, is not a proof of the strength of thought, but precisely of its weakness.

In history we meet the development of the human spirit and the realization of its content. The investigation of the essence of the spirit has established the untenability of the materialistic as well as of the speculative-idealistic view. If one wished to return to the conception that sees history as the education of the human race, this conception, which otherwise seems to come nearest the truth, would necessarily demand a closer determination. For how can one speak of education when the results of development benefit generations that have not helped to produce them? The human race is, after all, not a fixed unity but a succession of generations. The goods that are attained, moreover, hardly become objects of consciousness and enjoyment before they pass over into being an indifferent, habitual foundation for further-reaching wishing and striving. Moreover, in the course of development the content of culture becomes so manifold, splits into so many branches, that no individual can survey, let alone appropriate, the whole. Finally, on closer consideration it appears that the goods of culture benefit only a small number; beneath these favored ones we find throughout the whole of historical development a proletariat, over whose heads culture goes its way without essentially intervening in its

conditions. The countless advances in particulars have as yet by no means gathered into
[310] a general advance in the happiness of life; on the contrary, life seems more and more to become a struggle for existence.

But we cannot on that account give up the thought of a real progress and a real purpose in historical development. Only thereby do we find the explanation of all enthusiastic self-sacrifice in the service of the Idea. If it stands firm that no fact and no form has worth in itself, but that only that is a good which is livingly appropriated by a spiritual being, then we must also understand by the humanity whose essence is developed through history not a sum of individuals to whom a certain character of kind applies, but a living and real community in which the human spirits, otherwise separated by the differences of time, are joined together so as to be for one another in such a way that each occupies his distinctive position, and all things benefit all. Only on this presupposition does the notion of the education of the human race, like the speculative conception of history as the development of the Idea, acquire its significance; for only then does it become of any worth that the Idea is developed. Not for the sake of individuals must this demand be made, but for the sake of the connection of the world, which would become meaningless without its fulfillment. Only insight into what ought to be can open to us insight into what is. In this idealism is right, that only such and so much exists as has its necessary place in the highest Idea. —

In conclusion we gather, as Lotze himself does in the last section of "Mikrokosmus", the motives given in what precedes into a concluding world-view. — Lotze, like Herbart, starts from the given and infers back from it. But already with the first inference he parts from Herbart. The latter determines being as absolute position, i.e. absolute, simple quality. But this is a fallacy. Being means, on the contrary, that a content is posited in
[311] certain definite relations. The distinctive nature of every thing can be conceived only as a definite member of the really possible content of the world. The interaction between these particular members is explicable only if they are parts of an infinite substance that embraces everything. For us things come forward each in its place in an infinite space; but according to the doctrine of local signs, the intuition of space is only the form under which the soul converts the impressions into its own language. Yet space is not a merely subjective and accidental form. To the order in space for our intuition corresponds the way in which things are ordered in the intellectual connection of the infinite, and this depends on the significance and worth of the Idea each thing expresses. The case is similar with time. This too has no immediate objective significance. But what appears to us as an occurrence in time is only the revelation of the inner relation of conditioning

between the particular elements of the infinite. The point in time and the duration of the particular depend on its intellectual significance, i.e. on the significance of the Idea it expresses.

But when we thus trace everything existing back to the Idea it expresses, and see its essence expressed in it, we seem thereby to become entangled in several difficulties. The thing cannot be mere Idea; if it is to have reality, it must be an actual Idea, but the Idea can act only by being thought. We ascribe unity to the thing; but we know unity only from our own I; only because we become conscious of ourselves are we one. We ascribe to the thing a distinctive acting and suffering according to the relations in which it is placed; but only that can in truth act and suffer which can feel weal and woe.

These difficulties in the conception of the essence of things have occasioned various attempts at solution. — One has left the real in things standing as an obscure, uncomprehended kernel, and regarded our notion of things in general as a subjective form of knowledge to which reality need not correspond. But one is nevertheless always *[312]* compelled to ascribe to things in themselves a being and an interaction with us; and one then moves in a circle, at once applying and denying the application of our conceptual forms to the essence of things. — There then remains only either to deny the reality of things altogether or to seek to develop the concept of the thing in such a way that the difficulties vanish. The first of these ways out now leads with necessity to the second. For idealism's proposition that only the spiritual is real must, if reality is not to become a pure semblance, be reversed so that it comes to read: everything real is spirit. This proposition has shown itself in what precedes to contain the ultimate explanation of what experience presented to us. It does not volatilize the concept of things, as idealism does; the thing acquires selfhood, being-for-itself, the most general expression of the spiritual nature, which in self-conscious I's reaches its highest stage, without therefore being absent where existence is not apprehended with clear consciousness but in the form of a more obscure feeling. The difference between this conception, spiritualistic realism, and idealism does not consist, as one might perhaps suppose, in the former's ascribing to things a being outside God, whereas the latter conceives them as wholly immanent in the Absolute. For it rests on an unclear line of thought to suppose that what is outside God should be more real than what is in God. Indeed, what meaning can be attached at all to the expression "to be outside God?" The difference consists rather in this, that idealism denies the selfhood of things, whereas spiritualistic realism, which starts from the fact that in the spirit, in the self, we have at least *one* real whose nature we know, believes it must ascribe this spiritual nature to all reals in different degrees.

The earlier investigations led to the assumption of an infinite substance, of which all
[313] things are determinations of content. But yet this infinite, the idea of God of pantheism, cannot be the concluding concept. We would then end with J. G. Fichte in the notion of an infinite world-order. But order cannot be thought without something that orders. And the whole conception of the essence of the real that follows from what precedes, that everything real must be for itself, have a spiritual center, must surely find its application here too. The objections to applying the concept of personality to God lose their weight, since we have shown that the essence of self-consciousness does not rest merely on the opposition between an I and a not-I, but is only the reflected expression of the self's original essence. On closer consideration the matter rather stands thus, that the concept of personality can be applied only imperfectly to *finite* beings, whose inner originality is not absolute; it is an ideal which can be thought of as completely realized only in the absolute being.

The highest real, the Absolute, must be absolute unity. But here the insufficiency of human thought shows itself. It is unable to gather the various threads of knowledge into a complete unity. The earlier investigations have at every point shown us a triad of forces which cannot be traced back to unity: 1) the general and abstract (metaphysical and mathematical-mechanical) laws; — 2) the real beings themselves, in which the forces are concentrated and from which they act according to those laws; — 3) the purposes, the comprehensive plan according to which the life of the world develops. What prevents thought from letting law and force fuse with purpose into one being is, in the last instance, the great unsolved problem that lies in the reality of physical and moral evil. Only this much must thought hold fast: that the ground of law and force must lie in
[314] purpose itself; the highest real unfolds itself in one movement which for us splits into three forces. —

It will be of interest to compare Lotze's doctrine with those of other, earlier and contemporary philosophers with whom it has points of contact. Among older philosophers, Leibnitz, Kant and Herbart in particular come into consideration here, among later ones Comte, Mill and Fechner[*)].

Leibnitz's doctrine of monads has at the very first glance great similarity to Lotze's view. But apart from the difference, already mentioned earlier, in the conception of the monad's inner essence, which Lotze himself has brought out, the decisive disagreement consists in this, that Lotze identifies the monad with the atom, so that a real interaction becomes possible, only one cannot conceive matter as a continuum. Leibnitz, on the

[*)] We have heard above (p. 288) in what relation Lotze places his view to the elder Fichte's. His relation to the Schelling-Hegelian speculation has been brought out at several points in the exposition.

other hand, does not immediately ascribe any physical significance to his monads; a real interaction between them is impossible, and the apparent interaction is explained by a pre-established harmony between the self-unfolding of the monads. Whereas Leibnitz is therefore an idealist, Lotze is a realist. — Thereby he acquires a point of contact with Herbart. But not only does the latter expressly distinguish his reals from the atoms of physics; he also regards them as absolutely simple in the sense that no inner development, only self-preservation against external influence, becomes possible. Lotze's real is not unchangeable, any more than Leibnitz's monad; Lotze is a realist, but a spiritualistic realist. In psychology he differs from Herbart in maintaining the originality of feeling and will, whereas Herbart derives them from definite relations between the representations. And whereas Herbart finally sets the theoretical and the practical over against each *[315]* other as independent and wholly separate, Lotze finds the starting point of metaphysics in the ethical-religious, and in what ought to be the ultimate explanation of what is. — As regards Kant, it must suffice here to refer to the doctrine of space and time, of the thing in and for itself, of the good. Indeed, even as regards atomic theory Lotze, as already touched on, has found a point of attachment, namely in an earlier treatise of Kant's, in which Kant set up an atomistic theory which he later abandoned in order, in his "Metaphysische Anfangsgründe der Naturwissenschaft", to found the dynamic conception which became dominant in speculative philosophy of nature. Lotze's whole critical-skeptical, antidogmatic cast of mind recalls Kant's Critiques.

With modern positivism in France and England Lotze agrees (as in part Fechner does too) in a double respect. Like positivism he starts from the phenomenon, and he lays the weight on an exact apprehension of the phenomenal connection. In this part of his doctrine he is wholly a positivist. But he goes further and seeks to solve the problem of the essence and ground of phenomena. This problem Comte and Mill regard as insoluble; but since neither of them is able to hold fast to this skepticism, they answer it nonetheless, partly in a materialistic, partly in an idealistic direction. — From Fechner Lotze differs, as already remarked earlier, in conceiving the atoms as monads with an inner life, an analogue of conscious spiritual life. So far Fechner does not extend his hypothesis of animation, which is why with him the atoms stand as the ultimate presupposition of the analysis of experience, but without connection with the rest of his view. In the conception of mental life itself they are in a way antipodes, inasmuch as Fechner sees the essence of consciousness in its gathering together the particular sensations and representations (the synechological conception), whereas Lotze lays the weight on the concentration in *[316]* a center which consciousness presupposes (the monadological conception). The relation

between them can be compared with that between Spinoza and Leibnitz.

If finally we consider Lotze's doctrine in relation to post-Hegelian philosophy as a whole, we find taken up in him as essential elements what in the other schools appears isolated and sole-ruling. The necessity of a causal explanation by the mechanical interaction of elementary forces he stresses as strongly as materialism, and in a more scientific way. No less than the negative criticism he opposes all philosophical and religious dogmatism and does not close his eyes to the psychological conditionedness of knowledge. And finally, like speculative theism, he contests the deification of the abstract universal and maintains the metaphysical and philosophical-religious significance of the individual and the personal. Not without reason, then, do we end our exposition with this spirited thinker.

Lotze's eye for the distinctiveness of things and forces, his sense for the full content of life and his zeal to let it come into its own over against a dead formalism and mechanism make the treatment of the concrete problems, where thought still moves within individual reality, the strong side of his philosophy. His honesty and sharp critical vision, moreover, have the effect that he would rather openly declare a problem insoluble than reassure himself with an apparent answer to it (cf. above p. 222). That is why he only opens to his reader the view to the speculative heights, but does not lead him up there. The scattered threads of thought, in his conviction, human knowledge cannot gather into one. The highest ethical Idea stands for him as that which must also be the highest real. But here he misses the definite attachment for law and acting force. Yet he has in part
[317] himself called forth this lack by his conception of the essence of thought as essentially formally reflecting; thereby thought does not come to find itself again in its content. Lotze maintains that the ethical Ideas must be given to thought from feeling and only thereafter can be developed into knowledge. But if one does not start from a standing opposition between thought and its content, then in the development of knowledge it is just as much the content that is determined by thought as the reverse. Likewise it is one-sided when Lotze declares that what ought to be opens to us insight into what is; the reverse standpoint too is of the greatest importance, namely that knowledge of what really is instructs us about the essence of purpose. No one has practiced this principle more than Lotze himself, who has strikingly established how wrongly one conceives the Idea when one overlooks the real conditions of its validity and reality. Metaphysics, then, does not merely, as Lotze says, get its principle in ethics, but ethics must conversely have its grounding in metaphysics; or, more definitely expressed, the proposition that metaphysics has its beginning in ethics can mean nothing other than that whoever is

to develop the essential determinations of all that is must then also demonstrate the universal foundation of the ethical. This thus makes a demand on metaphysics, but does not immediately settle how this demand is satisfied.

When Lotze declares that the Absolute, which in itself is eternally one movement, splits for us into three forces, it seems to follow of itself that one cannot derive any one of these forces from any of the others (e.g. law and force from purpose). They must on the contrary be traced back as far as possible to their common source, and our knowledge strives for this by seeing them in their mutual connections. If they really spring from one principle, then an inner interaction between them must also be possible and be capable of being comprehended by us at least approximately. Ethical-religious, metaphysical and *[318]* physical knowledge (knowledge of purpose, of law and of force) thus do not stand in opposition to one another, but gather from different starting points into one center.

Although, according to Lotze, what is is to be explained by what ought to be, his own doctrine has not arisen in this way, but is essentially a hypothesis that has sprung from the endeavor to explain the given connection. Rightly has the deeper philosophical grounding been missed here[*)]. No more than ethics does the philosophy of nature receive its metaphysical foundation. This is also why Lotze does not overcome the difficulty that meets all monadological systems, namely to show how the independent single beings can be united with the Absolute. The monads appear now as completely independent, now they are wholly absorbed in the Idea, by whose grace alone they exist. The latter alternative must accord best with Lotze's doctrine insofar as it maintains, after all, that what is must be subordinated to what ought to be. That is why Lotze will not enter into the question of individual immortality either. But if this alternative is seized, what then becomes of the atomic theory? — When, further, the Absolute is to be a personal self, the question must arise whether it must not then be a monad, like finite beings, and how this could be united with the essence of the Absolute.

But Lotze has not promised us any answer to these questions. And it must be emphasized that he, who essentially renewed Leibnitz's view, has corrected it at decisive points, partly by conceiving the monad as atom, whereby he has secured for himself the *[319]* exact and real points of attachment, partly by maintaining from the very first that the monads are only determinations of content in the infinite substance.

CHAPTER SIX.

It now remains to sum up in brief strokes the essence and significance of post-Hegelian philosophy. The exposition we have now concluded has in many ways shown us the

[*)] *Weisse* in "Zeitschr. für Philos. und philos. Kritik." vol. 47 p. 279 f.

opposition to the thought of the preceding period, while at the same time it became clear how the decisive problems here, as always, pass over from the one generation to the next. When we look back on the phenomena we have come to know, the relation, on closer consideration, stands thus: speculative philosophy in its first magnificent development led to the view of a lofty scientific ideal, which only successively, through faithful and persevering working up of the given reality, can receive its firm and unshakable foundation. This work post-Hegelian philosophy has begun, and from this spring both its polemic against speculation and its sympathy with it.

Speculative philosophy was essentially dogmatic and idealistic. It was dogmatic in that it rested on the presupposition of the unity of thought and reality, and all its endeavors aimed only at developing everything contained in this original unity. Of course this presupposition was not arbitrary; it was in turn the result of the critical
[320] philosophy's penetrating investigations of the essence of knowledge. But this result was nevertheless raised above every finite and subjective grounding; one believed one had reached, once for all, the point from which an a priori and synthetic development of the philosophical world-view was possible. Yet it is clear that what one can reach by this route can only be what one already has in the presupposition from which one starts. Now since the presupposition was indeed the unity of thought and reality, but reality was here conceived only as pure abstract being, that is to say as being thought, the world-view too had to become an absolute idealism, which left real existence standing as an unsolved problem.

That is why reality, existence, is also the watchword with which the field is taken against speculation from all sides. We have found it in all the four groups of philosophical phenomena that we have brought forward. One thus comes to the recognition that the presupposition of speculation must be subjected to a new testing. To this extent post-Hegelian philosophy resumes Kant's labors and acquires a critical character in opposition to the dogmatism of speculation. Yet it does not thereby give up speculation's essential yield. It does not fall back into criticism's sharp opposition between thought and existence, but holds fast to the unity as the ultimate presupposition, only this cannot be made good immediately. Therefore it maintains that in the face of concrete reality with its differences special methods are necessary. Philosophy cannot immediately speculate its way into the essence of reality, but needs empirical science as an intermediate link. What it can appropriate by this route it must then itself give the special grounding by which a scientific world-view becomes possible. The Idea loses nothing of its luster because its activity proceeds according to definite laws and under fixed conditions. This

is the realistic character of post-Hegelian philosophy.

But it is not enough to determine the essence of this philosophy in relation to the *[321]* preceding one. To gain a fuller insight into what it has to say, we must state precisely the essential results to which it has led. It follows of itself that no scientific result is concluded in the sense that it could now stand fixed henceforth as dogma. What is meant here by results can only be the general direction in which philosophical thinking points in its striving to win a concluding world-view.

The philosophical phenomena with which we have been occupied divide at once, as we already indicated at the beginning (above p. 16), into two larger groups. The one of these has an essentially negative character. The critical consciousness dissolved speculation by surrendering to the power of formal consistency, which in the end led it beyond all truth and reality. In the end here not only all philosophy but also all science as a whole had to show itself an illusion. Even Feuerbach, that Protean figure, who only through the ideal richness of his own spirit gained the strength to fight against the Idea, and who constantly pointed forward to a positive view which he nevertheless never reached, even he ends by saying: "meine Philosophie ist keine Philosophie". But merely formal consistency is untrue. It seizes a single moment of existence in its isolation and then rejects with sophistical dialectic every attempt to sublate this isolation. The first step to truth is to see that all reality is connection, plurality in unity. — To the negative group modern materialism must also be assigned. It believes, to be sure, that it has a positive principle, namely matter, stuff; but partly the essential thing about materialism is its polemic against the reality of every spiritual principle, partly it has proved impossible to determine the essence of matter in a positive way, which is why the materialists themselves in fact give up this principle in order to seek a grounding by way of the *[322]* postulate — and thereby they then come to appeal to ideal motives! —

But although the critical and materialistic school is essentially negative, it nevertheless has for all that a great philosophical and cultural-historical significance. It is a preparatory school where the dogmatic and idealistic illusions are subjected to an ordeal by fire. Only faith in authority can reject these schools out of hand. For philosophy they are a necessary process of purification through which strength is won for renewed striving toward a positive world-view. Moreover, negative criticism and materialism serve to break the dominion of supernaturalism and dualism in the general consciousness. It must stand fixed once for all that only that has reality which can establish itself as true before testing criticism, and which does not defy the conditions of factual reality.

If we now turn to the positive philosophical phenomena which we have treated in

the 4th and 5th chapters, we shall sum up their essential significance by considering them from three main points of view, namely first with regard to the relation between speculation and experience, next with regard to the relation between spirit and matter, and finally with regard to the relation between philosophy and religion.

The first relation has already been discussed in general terms, in that we have shown the realistic character of post-Hegelian philosophy. What we are to draw attention to here is that experience acquires not merely negative significance, as an authority which speculation must not overlook, but that a positive unity and fusion of the two is striven for. Our period begins with the belief that, beyond the domain which the logical movement of thought can measure out, one glimpses a full reality, the appropriation of which is to form a supplement to purely immanent speculation. Such was the school
[323] which for a time was called the doctrine of freedom or positive philosophy, and which we have treated under the name of speculative theism. Already within this school we found an endeavor to overcome the opposition between the two spheres and set them in an inner relation to each other. The views we have brought together under the name of the Idealism of Reality carry this further by establishing that experience itself points back to speculative presuppositions. Here is the point where the insufficiency of French and English realism shows itself. Like materialism, it does not carry through its own presuppositions, and therefore ends without principle or skeptically. "The Idealism of Reality, on the other hand, shows us how precisely a full recognition of the rights of experience and an exact apprehension of its results lead, philosophically considered, beyond mere empiricism.

Speculative philosophy saw all reality in the Idea. But it could not derive factual, concrete reality from the essence of the Idea. The Idealism of Reality now goes the reverse way and seeks to show that all reality is in the last instance of an ideal nature. And it does this without thereby giving up its exact foothold in the real world. In a more modest form it nevertheless points toward a view which in boldness and grandeur does not yield to the speculative systems. Here, then, the way is paved for the union which philosophy, and in it the human spirit, constantly seeks, the union between the ideal and reality. This union is to be demonstrated in the very kernel of reality, just as speculation demonstrated it in the Idea. That matter in the last instance is spirit, philosophy has often declared; but only now has it succeeded in beginning such a carrying through of this proposition that the material and the real are not volatilized but preserved in their essential significance. Only now is materialism taken up as an element in the
[324] philosophical world-view, and precisely thereby will this world-view be able to carry

through the idealism which it cannot give up without giving up itself.

From this it follows in turn that philosophy, less than ever, can feel any need to bow to a faith in authority that denies the possibility that human thought can by its own route reach knowledge of the divine. Philosophy bows to every fact in the spiritual and bodily domain, but only because every fact, in its essence and its ground, attests the same rational principle from which scientific inquiry itself springs. We have seen how close a connection there is between historical and philosophical criticism in our time; both have developed hand in hand. Philosophy has thereby gained a reliable foundation for its conception of the religious. It can now place itself in a free relation to the historical religions, equally unbiased by antipathy and by sympathy. And the specifically religious itself is not an element foreign to philosophy. For philosophical thought is no longer formal and abstract; it nourishes itself on the very substance of reality and is conscious of its inward relation to the psychological essence of man. Therefore it can contain all real stirrings of life and give them their firm and conscious form. Philosophy is itself religious, in that it leads man to knowledge of the essence of existence and of his relation to its ideal powers.

The idea of God of speculative philosophy was pure spirit, which in eternal self-unfolding develops everything that is. It was essentially abstract pantheism. From various points of view we have seen post-Hegelian philosophy strive toward a more concrete, more living idea of God. When reality becomes more than a semblance, a merely negative form of the Absolute, then the Absolute cannot be the pure, abstract Idea either. And when everything real is a single thing, an individual, then this must also hold for the highest real. Therefore speculative theism seeks to show the divine *[325]* spirit as the absolute personality: as absolute, God is one with the Idea and stands in an immanent relation to the world; but within this immanence an opposition makes itself felt, in that the divine thought gathers itself in an inner center from which the life of the world proceeds, and which is the highest model for finite personalities. From the pantheistic side this line of thought is met halfway by maintaining the essential significance of difference and opposition. Whether one now wishes to call such a view "immanent theism" or "transcendent pantheism", this much is clear: that here, in general strokes, a rational concept of God has been drawn which is at once the starting point and the end point of all philosophical and scientific inquiry and of all truly human striving as a whole.